STUDY GUIDE

MACHINE LEARNING MASTERY: THEORY, ALGORITHMS AND HONEST EVALUATION

How learning algorithms really work, how to evaluate them without fooling yourself, and how to debug them when they fail.

Taught the IIT Professor Way — Real Numbers. Real Problems. Real Understanding.

CHAPTER 1 What Learning Means	**CHAPTER 2** Linear Regression From Scratch	**CHAPTER 3** Regularization and Model Complexity	**CHAPTER 4** Logistic Regression and Classification
CHAPTER 5 Support Vector Machines, k-Nearest Neighbours and Naive Bayes	**CHAPTER 6** Decision Trees (CART from Scratch) and Random Forests	**CHAPTER 7** Gradient Boosting (Derived), XGBoost, LightGBM, CatBoost and Tuning	**CHAPTER 8** Validation Design and Leakage
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A Note From Your Professor

Dear learner,

You may already be good at checking claims against evidence. That skill is rarer than you think, because machine learning is mostly about measuring honestly. Most failed ML projects do not fail because the algorithm was weak. They fail because someone measured the model on data it had already seen, or on data that did not look like the future, and believed the number.

This document is the engine room. You will build the main algorithms yourself in NumPy, line by line, and compare them with scikit-learn until the numbers match. You will derive the important results (the normal equation, the gradient of logistic loss, the bias-variance split, boosting, PCA) with real numbers instead of taking them on trust. And you will learn evaluation design, leakage and error analysis, which is where professionals earn their pay.

I will be honest with you. Some chapters are dense. Some code will not run the first time. That is normal. When it happens, do not skip ahead. Apply the one rule that matters most: **never move on until the current topic feels obvious.** If a worked problem is not obvious yet, redo it with different numbers. One hour a day, done this way, beats five hours of rushing.

Where the math is basic (matrices, derivatives, probability, loss functions, optimizers), I will point you to your Math PDF instead of repeating it. Everything else is taught here from the beginning.

Be patient with yourself. You are building the habit that makes good ML engineers: build, measure, doubt, and measure again.

What Every Topic Contains

1. **INTUITION:** the problem the idea solves, in everyday words, often with an analogy from everyday life (shops, deliveries, exam marks, hospital appointments).
2. **Formal definition:** the precise statement, in plain language.
3. **Worked problems or worked examples:** real numbers, every step shown, with a Check and a plain-language meaning; for code, the exact output from a real run.
4. **The picture:** a diagram, table or mental model, explained piece by piece.
5. **Connection to the real job:** where it appears in analytics, data and ML work.
6. **Applications:** concrete examples by domain.
7. **COMMON MISTAKE:** what beginners get wrong, and how to catch it.
8. **Check yourself:** three short questions with answers.

Every chapter also opens with a motivating paragraph and ends with a recap (with a formula and command cheat-sheet), a graded practice set (easy to hard, with interview-style questions), and a prompt pack of five prompts to paste into an AI assistant for extra practice.

Contents

1. **What Learning Means:** empirical risk, loss functions, generalization, overfitting, bias-

variance, MLE and MAP, curse of dimensionality.

2. **Linear Regression From Scratch:** normal equation, gradient descent, assumptions, inference versus prediction, polynomial and spline features.
3. **Regularization and Model Complexity:** ridge, lasso, elastic net, choosing the penalty by cross-validation, why scaling matters.
4. **Logistic Regression and Classification:** sigmoid, odds, the gradient of log loss, decision boundaries, class weights, softmax, GLMs, perceptron and XOR.
5. **SVMs and Kernels, k-NN, Naive Bayes:** margins, the kernel trick, distance-based learning, generative versus discriminative models.
6. **Decision Trees and Random Forests:** CART from scratch, pruning, bagging, out-of-bag error, importance pitfalls, stacking.
7. **Gradient Boosting:** boosting as gradient descent in function space, XGBoost, LightGBM, CatBoost, tuning order.
8. **Validation Design and Leakage:** k-fold, group and time-series splits, nested CV, the leakage taxonomy, adversarial validation.
9. **Metrics, Thresholds, Calibration and Uncertainty:** classification, regression and ranking metrics, cost-based thresholds, reliability, conformal prediction.
10. **Error Analysis, Debugging and Comparing Models:** learning curves, slices, sanity tests, paired comparisons and significance.
11. **Hyperparameter Tuning, Optimization and AutoML:** grid, random, Bayesian search, successive halving, neural nets on tabular data.
12. **Hard Data Situations:** imbalance, small and noisy data, missing data, high-cardinality categoricals, distribution shift.
13. **Unsupervised Learning:** k-means, hierarchical clustering, DBSCAN, GMM and EM, PCA, t-SNE and UMAP, association rules.
14. **Anomaly Detection, Semi-Supervised, Self-Supervised, Active, Transfer and Online Learning.**
15. **Reinforcement Learning and Bandits:** Thompson sampling simulation, MDPs, Q-learning, policy gradients.
16. **Explainability, Fairness, Robustness, ML Engineering Hygiene and the Interview Bank:** SHAP, PDP, fairness metrics, the from-scratch implementations list.

An appendix, `99_cheatsheet.md`, collects the key formulas and commands and ends with an honest closing note. The diagrams used in the chapters are saved in the `images/` folder.

How To Study This Document

Use the learning loop on every chapter:

1. **Build first.** Run the code with scikit-learn and see something work. Do not read the theory yet.
2. **Ask.** Write down why it works. What is the model assuming? What would break it?
3. **Just-in-time theory.** Read the derivation and the worked problems now, when you have a reason to care.
4. **Rebuild.** Close the document and rewrite the algorithm in NumPy. Compare with scikit-learn. Write three lines about what surprised you.
5. **Teach.** Explain the idea aloud, as if to a colleague, in simple English. If you cannot, you do not own it yet.

Suggested pace: **one chapter per week** at about one hour a day: day 1 read and run the code, day 2 and 3 redo the worked problems on paper, day 4 rebuild from scratch, day 5 practice set, day 6 prompt pack with an AI professor, day 7 rest or review. Chapters 1 to 5 are the foundation: do not rush them. Chapters 6 to 12 are the heart of applied ML work. Chapters 13 to 16 widen your range.

How to use the prompt packs: paste one prompt into any AI assistant, fill in the `[PASTE HERE]` parts with your own work, and ask it to wait for your answer before continuing. Use "quiz me" prompts after you have tried the practice set, and "mock interview" prompts the week before an interview.

Prerequisites

- Python basics: functions, lists, loops, NumPy arrays (see the Python document in this series).
- Your Math PDF: Pillar 1 (vectors and matrices), Pillar 2 (calculus), the probability pillar, and Pillar 5 (loss functions, regularization, optimizers). We reuse these and do not re-teach them.
- Basic statistics: mean, variance, percentiles. You meet these in everyday reports such as average delivery time or exam percentiles.
- No prior ML knowledge is needed.

Tools you need

All free:

- Python 3.10 or newer, with `numpy`, `pandas`, `scipy`, `matplotlib`, `scikit-learn` (all code in Chapters 1 to 5 was run with NumPy 2.x and scikit-learn 1.9).
- Optional, for later chapters: `xgboost`, `lightgbm`, `catboost`, `optuna`, `shap`, `imbalanced-learn`, `statsmodels`. Code that needs a library not installed in the authoring environment is marked "not run here".
- Jupyter Notebook or VS Code with the Python extension.
- A virtual environment: `python3 -m venv .venv`, then `source .venv/bin/activate` and `pip install numpy pandas scipy matplotlib scikit-learn`.
- Kaggle (free account) for practice datasets and notebooks.
- Any AI assistant for the prompt packs.

CHAPTER 1

WHAT LEARNING MEANS

Empirical risk, loss, generalization, bias-variance, and the probabilistic view that unifies the field.

Imagine your manager hands you a spreadsheet of last year's orders and says "predict next month". You build a model, it scores 99 percent on the spreadsheet, and next month it is wrong half the time. What went wrong? This chapter answers that question. You will learn what a model really is, what "training" really does, why a great training score can be worthless, and how to measure the gap honestly. By the end you will be able to look at two numbers (a training score and a validation score) and say, with a reason, whether to add data, simplify the model, or change the features. Every later chapter is a tool for managing this one gap.

All code in this chapter uses NumPy only. Every output shown was produced by running the code with the fixed seeds shown. Basics of calculus, probability and loss functions are in the learner's Math PDF (Pillar 5 for optimization and loss functions; the probability pillar for MLE and Bayes). Here we use those basics to build the ML mindset.

1.1 The Four Kinds of Learning and Empirical Risk Minimization

INTUITION

Think of baking bread. You choose the knobs (oven temperature, baking time, amount of yeast) and judge one number (how far the loaf is from the one you wanted). A model is the same: a function with knobs, and a number that tells you how bad it is. "Training" means turning the knobs until the bad number gets small. The big difference: in ML the number you really care about is measured on data you have not seen yet.

The four families

Family	What the data looks like	What we learn	Example
Supervised	inputs `x` with correct answers `y`	a function `x` → `y`	predict loan default

Unsupervised	inputs `x` only	structure in `x`	group customers
Self-supervised	inputs only, but we invent labels from the data itself	useful representations	predict the next word, hide a patch of an image
Reinforcement	an agent acts and receives rewards	a policy (how to act)	choose which ad to show

Supervised learning has two sub-types. **Regression** predicts a number (delivery time). **Classification** predicts a category (fraud or not fraud).

Empirical risk minimization (ERM)

Three choices define almost every supervised method:

1. **A model family** (also called hypothesis class): the set of functions we allow. Example: all straight lines $\hat{y} = w \cdot x + b$.
2. **A loss function** $\ell(y, \hat{y})$: a number that says how bad one prediction is.
3. **An optimizer**: a procedure that searches the family for the best knobs.

The **true risk** is the average loss over all data the world could ever produce. We cannot compute it. The **empirical risk** is the average loss over the n examples we have:

$$R_{emp}(\theta) = (1/n) \cdot \Sigma_i \, \ell(y_i , f(x_i; \theta))$$

ERM says: pick θ that makes R_{emp} smallest. The hope is that a small empirical risk means a small true risk. That hope is not always true. That gap is the subject of the whole book.

Parameters are the knobs the optimizer learns (the slope and intercept). **Hyperparameters** are knobs you set before training (the degree of a polynomial, the tree depth, the learning rate). **Capacity** (or complexity) is how rich the model family is: degree-9 polynomials have more capacity than straight lines.

Real-world mapping

Idea	Example value	Where it appears in the job
Model family	straight line $\hat{y} = w \cdot x +$	choosing "logistic regression" vs "gradient

	`b`	boosting"
Loss	squared error	the `objective` or `loss` argument of a library
Optimizer	gradient descent	what `fit()` runs
Hyperparameter	tree depth 6	what you search over in tuning
Empirical risk	training MSE 0.167	the training score printed in a log

Worked problems

Problem 1.1.1 Three data points: `(x,y) = (1,2), (2,3), (3,5)`. Model: `ŷ = 1.5·x` (no intercept). Loss: squared error. Compute the empirical risk.

Step 1	Predictions: `1.5, 3.0, 4.5`.
Step 2	Errors: `2−1.5 = 0.5`, `3−3 = 0`, `5−4.5 = 0.5`.
Step 3	Squared errors: `0.25, 0, 0.25`. Sum = 0.5.
Step 4	Average over `n = 3`: `0.5 / 3 = 0.1667`.
Answer	The empirical risk (mean squared error) is about 0.167.
Check	`np.mean((np.array([2,3,5]) − 1.5*np.array([1,2,3]))**2)` gives 0.1667.
Why it matters	This single number is what the optimizer tries to push down. It means "on average, the squared miss is 0.17".

Problem 1.1.2 Same data. Try slope `w = 1.6`. Is it better or worse than `w = 1.5`? What is the best slope for a line through the origin?

Step 1	For `w = 1.6`: predictions `1.6, 3.2, 4.8`; errors `0.4, −0.2, 0.2`; squares `0.16, 0.04, 0.04`; sum 0.24; mean 0.08. Better than 0.167.
Step 2	General risk: `R(w) = (1/3)·[(2−w)² + (3−2w)² + (5−3w)²]`. Derivative zero: `−2(2−w) − 4(3−2w) − 6(5−3w) = 0`, which gives `−4 + 2w − 12 + 8w − 30 + 18w = 0`, so `28w = 46`, `w = 1.643`.
Step 3	Check with the formula `w = Σxy / Σx² = (2+6+15)/(1+4+9) = 23/14 = 1.643`. They match.
Answer	`w = 1.6` is better; the best slope is `23/14 ≈ 1.643`.
Check	At `w = 1.643`: predictions 1.643, 3.286, 4.929; errors 0.357, −0.286, 0.071; squares 0.1276, 0.0816, 0.0051; mean 0.0714, which is below 0.08.
Why it matters	You just did ERM by hand: you wrote the risk as a function of the knob and found where its slope is zero. The optimizer in every library does the same thing, only with millions of knobs.

Connection to the real job

Every sklearn call `model.fit(X, y)` is ERM. When someone asks "what loss did you train with?" they are asking choice number 2. When a boosted-tree model says "learning rate = 0.05", that is a hyperparameter you tune (Chapter 11).

Applications

- Credit scoring: model family is logistic regression, loss is log loss.
- Demand forecasting: model family is boosted trees, loss is squared or Poisson error.
- Spam filtering: model family is naive Bayes or a neural net.
- Ad ranking: loss is log loss on click or no click.

COMMON MISTAKE

Calling the learned numbers "hyperparameters". If the optimizer finds it, it is a parameter. If you choose it (and must try several values), it is a hyperparameter.

Check yourself

1. What are the three choices that define ERM? Answer: model family, loss function, optimizer.

2. Why do we say "empirical" risk? Answer: because it is the average over the data we actually have, not over all possible data.
3. Is the number of trees in a random forest a parameter or a hyperparameter? Answer: a hyperparameter.

1.2 Splits, the i.i.d. Assumption, and Generalization

INTUITION

A student who memorizes last year's exam gets 100 percent on last year's exam and fails this year's. Training error measures memory. We want to measure understanding, so we test on questions the model never saw.

Three roles for data

Set	Role	Rule
Training	the optimizer fits parameters here	the model may see it unlimited times
Validation	choose hyperparameters, compare models	many looks are allowed, but it slowly gets "used up"
Test	one final honest score	touch it once, at the very end

The i.i.d. assumption

i.i.d. means *independent and identically distributed*. Every example is drawn independently from the same distribution. Random splits only give honest scores if this is true. It breaks in three common ways:

- **Time:** tomorrow's data differs from yesterday's (prices, trends). A random split lets the model "see the future".
- **Groups:** many rows come from the same user, patient or device. Rows of one user are not independent. If user A is in both train and test, the model recognizes A, not the pattern.
- **Drift:** the world changes after deployment (a new product, a new law, a pandemic).

Chapter 8 shows the fixes: group k-fold, time-series splits, adversarial validation.

Generalization gap, overfitting and underfitting

```
generalization gap = test error − training error
```

- **Underfitting:** error is high on both sets. The model is too simple (a straight line through a sine wave).
- **Overfitting:** training error is tiny, test error is much larger. The model learned the noise.

We make this visible. We draw 20 noisy points from `y = sin(2πx) + noise` (noise standard deviation 0.3, so the best possible mean squared error is `0.3² = 0.09`). We fit polynomials of different degrees and test on 2,000 fresh points.

```
import numpy as np
rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
f = lambda x: np.sin(2*np.pi*x)
n = 20
x  = rng.uniform(0, 1, n);    y  = f(x)  + rng.normal(0, 0.3, n)
xt = rng.uniform(0, 1, 2000); yt = f(xt) + rng.normal(0, 0.3, 2000)
print("deg train_mse test_mse")
for d in [0, 1, 3, 5, 9, 12]:
    c = np.polyfit(x, y, d)
    print(d, round(np.mean((np.polyval(c, x) - y)**2), 3),
             round(np.mean((np.polyval(c, xt) - yt)**2), 3))
```

Output:

```
deg train_mse test_mse
0 0.628 0.625
1 0.332 0.317
3 0.036 0.13
5 0.024 0.122
9 0.02 0.144
12 0.016 0.321
```

Before you read the output, predict: will the training error keep falling as the degree grows? Will the test error?

Training error falls forever as the degree grows. Test error falls, then rises. The lowest test error is near degree 3 to 5, close to the noise floor 0.09 (with only 20 points we cannot reach it exactly).

Three polynomial fits to the same 20 points. Grey dots are the data, green is the true curve, orange is the fitted model. Left: a straight line misses the curve (bias). Middle: degree 3 follows the curve. Right: degree 12 chases individual dots and swings at the edges (variance).

How to read the picture: the grey dots are the 20 noisy training points. The green curve is the truth we normally never see. The orange curve is what the model learned. The left model is too stiff to bend. The right model bends so much that it follows the noise of each dot.

```
error
 |\                                  test
 | \                              . '
 |  \          .  .  .  .  . ' '
 |   '.___.-'''
 |       \  train
 |        '-.______________________
 +-------------------------------> model complexity
  underfit      sweet spot      overfit
```

Learning curves as diagnosis

Think of a student preparing for an exam. With 10 practice questions she memorizes them (training error low) but fails the real exam (test error high). With 1,000 practice questions memorizing is impossible, so she has to learn the idea, and the two scores come together. A **learning curve** plots training and validation error against the number of training rows. Same degree-3 model, growing data:

```
print("n train test (deg3)")
for n_tr in [10, 20, 50, 200, 1000]:
    xs = rng.uniform(0, 1, n_tr); ys = f(xs) + rng.normal(0, 0.3, n_tr)
    c = np.polyfit(xs, ys, 3)
    print(n_tr, round(np.mean((np.polyval(c, xs) - ys)**2), 3),
                round(np.mean((np.polyval(c, xt) - yt)**2), 3))
```

```
n train test (deg3)
10 0.046 0.213
20 0.058 0.117
50 0.107 0.118
200 0.089 0.095
1000 0.097 0.094
```

Learning curve for the degree-3 model, averaged over 30 repeats. The blue training error rises and the orange test error falls as rows are added; both settle near the dashed noise floor of 0.09.

The horizontal axis is the number of training rows on a log scale. The vertical axis is error. The two lines start far apart (a big gap means variance) and squeeze together near the dashed line (the noise floor, the best any model can do).

Reading the table above: with 10 rows there is a big gap (high variance; more data helps). By 200 rows the two curves meet near 0.09, which is the noise floor. More data will not help now; only a better model or better features can (and here there is nothing left to gain).

Picture	Diagnosis	What to try
both curves high and close	high bias (underfit)	richer model, more features, less regularization
big gap, validation still falling	high variance	more data, simpler model, regularization
big gap, validation flat	variance + wrong features	better features, stronger regularization
curves meet at a low value	done	stop tuning; ship or change the problem

Problem 1.2.1 A model has training accuracy 99 percent and validation accuracy 71 percent. A teammate says "the model is great". Respond.

Step 1	Gap = 99 − 71 = 28 points. That is large.
Step 2	High training score only proves capacity to memorize.
Step 3	Check whether validation was split fairly (groups, time) and then try regularization or more data.
Answer	The model overfits. The honest score is 71 percent, not 99.
Check	If you predicted the majority class for everyone, what would you score? If that baseline is 70 percent, your model barely beats a rule.
Why it matters	In plain words: the model knows the training rows by heart, but on new rows it is wrong about 3 in 10 times.

Problem 1.2.2 Learning curve: train error 0.30, validation error 0.32, and both stay flat when data goes from 1,000 to 100,000 rows. Is more data a good investment?

Step 1	The gap is tiny (0.02), so variance is low.
Step 2	Both errors are high and flat, so the model is too simple or the features lack signal (high bias).
Answer	No. Improve features or use a richer model.
Check	Compare with the earlier table: at 200 and 1,000 rows the degree-3 curves had already met at the noise floor, which is the same situation.
Why it matters	Buying or labelling 100 times more data is expensive. A learning curve tells you in an afternoon whether that money would be wasted.

Connection to the real job

The first question a senior reviewer asks on any model: "How did you split?" Most failures in production come from a split that did not mimic the real use.

Applications

- Fraud: split by time, because fraud tactics change.
- Medical: split by patient, because one patient has many scans.
- Recommendation: split by user or by time, depending on the use.

COMMON MISTAKE

Tuning on the test set "just a little". Each look leaks information. After ten looks, the test set is just another validation set and its score is optimistic.

Check yourself

1. Training MSE 0.02, test MSE 0.32. Over- or underfit? Answer: overfit.
2. Why can a random split fail on user-level data? Answer: the same user appears in train and test, so the model can memorize users.
3. Both curves are high and flat. More data? Answer: no, the model is too simple (high bias).

1.3 Bias-Variance Decomposition

INTUITION

Imagine five students each get a different sample of delivery records from the same shop and each draws a trend line. If all five lines are in the same wrong place, that is **bias** (systematic error). If the five lines point in five different directions, that is **variance** (sensitivity to the sample). Simple models have high bias, low variance. Flexible models have low bias, high variance.

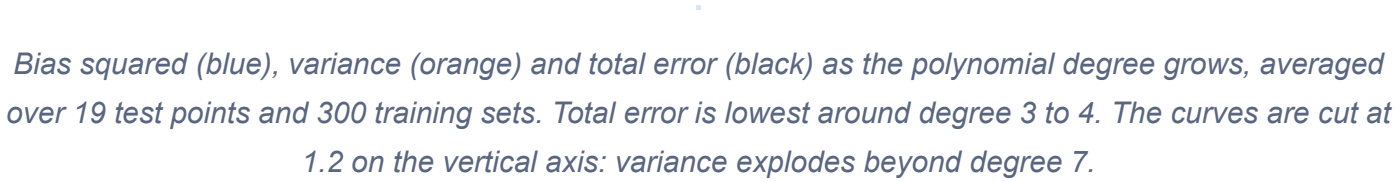
The decomposition for squared error

Let the truth be $y = f(x) + \varepsilon$, where noise ε has mean 0 and variance σ^2. Train the model on a random training set D. The prediction at a point x_0 is $\hat{f}(x_0)$, which is random because D is random. Then:

$$E[(y - \hat{f}(x_0))^2] = \underbrace{(E[\hat{f}(x_0)] - f(x_0))^2}_{\text{bias}^2} + \underbrace{\text{Var}(\hat{f}(x_0))}_{\text{variance}} + \underbrace{\sigma^2}_{\text{irreducible noise}}$$

Derivation in plain steps. Let $m = E[\hat{f}(x_0)]$ (the average prediction over many training sets). Write $y - \hat{f} = (y - f) + (f - m) + (m - \hat{f})$. Square it and take the expectation. The cross terms vanish for two reasons: the noise $\varepsilon = y - f$ is independent of $\hat{f}$ and has mean zero, and $E[m - \hat{f}] = 0$ by definition of m. What remains: $E[\varepsilon^2] = \sigma^2$, $(f - m)^2 = \text{bias}^2$, and $E[(m - \hat{f})^2] = \text{variance}$. Done.

We measure it. We repeat 500 times: draw a new 20-point training set, fit, predict at $x_0 = 0.25$ (true value $\sin(\pi/2) = 1$).



Bias squared (blue), variance (orange) and total error (black) as the polynomial degree grows, averaged over 19 test points and 300 training sets. Total error is lowest around degree 3 to 4. The curves are cut at 1.2 on the vertical axis: variance explodes beyond degree 7.

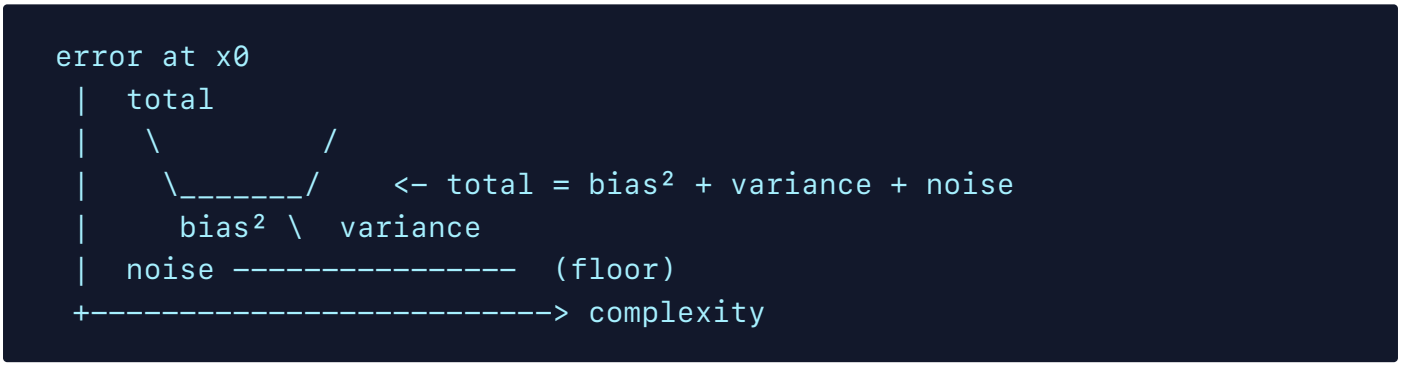
The horizontal axis is model complexity. As it grows, the blue line (bias²) falls because the model can bend. The orange line (variance) rises because the model reacts to noise. The black line is their sum plus noise: the U-shape you are looking for.

Now the numbers at a single point. Before you run it, predict which degree has the largest variance.

```
x0 = 0.25
print("deg bias2 var noise bias2+var+noise")
for d in [1, 3, 9]:
    preds = []
    for r in range(500):
        xs = rng.uniform(0, 1, n); ys = f(xs) + rng.normal(0, 0.3, n)
        preds.append(np.polyval(np.polyfit(xs, ys, d), x0))
    preds = np.array(preds)
    bias2 = (preds.mean() - f(x0))**2; var = preds.var()
    print(d, round(bias2, 4), round(var, 4), 0.09, round(bias2 + var +
0.09, 4))
```

```
deg bias2 var noise bias2+var+noise
1 0.2526 0.0328 0.09 0.3754
3 0.0 0.018 0.09 0.108
9 0.001 1.3629 0.09 1.4539
```

Read the table: a line (degree 1) is wrong on average (bias² 0.25) but stable (variance 0.03). Degree 9 is right on average (bias² 0.001) but wildly unstable (variance 1.36). Degree 3 balances both and gives the smallest total, 0.108.



Problem 1.3.1 At a point, true value 10. Five models trained on five samples predict `12, 12.5, 11.5, 12, 12`. Compute bias² and variance (use population variance).

Step 1	Mean prediction `m = (12+12.5+11.5+12+12)/5 = 60/5 = 12`.
Step 2	Bias `= 12 − 10 = 2`, so bias² = 4.
Step 3	Deviations from 12: `0, 0.5, −0.5, 0, 0`. Squares: `0, 0.25, 0.25, 0, 0`. Mean = 0.5/5 = 0.1.
Answer	bias² = 4, variance = 0.1. The model is stable but systematically wrong: a high-bias model.
Check	`np.mean([12,12.5,11.5,12,12]) − 10` is 2.0 and `np.var([12,12.5,11.5,12,12])` is 0.1. Also, total error at the point is about `4 + 0.1 + σ²`.
Why it matters	The five predictions agree with each other, so adding more data will not fix them. The model family itself is wrong (too simple).

Problem 1.3.2 Expected squared error is 9. Noise σ = 2. Variance = 3. What is bias²?

Step 1	`9 = bias² + 3 + σ²`, with `σ² = 4`.
Step 2	`bias² = 9 − 3 − 4 = 2`.
Answer	bias² = 2, so bias = 1.41. No model can beat 4 (the noise floor) on this problem.
Check	`2 + 3 + 4 = 9`, which is the stated total.
Why it matters	The noise floor tells you when to stop tuning. If your error is 9 and the floor is 4, there is still room; at 4.1 you are done.

How the rest of the book connects

- Regularization raises bias a little and cuts variance a lot (Chapter 3).
- Bagging and random forests cut variance by averaging (Chapter 6).
- Boosting cuts bias by adding corrections (Chapter 7).
- Adding data cuts variance but not bias.

KEY INSIGHT

The decomposition is exact only for squared error, but the idea (error = systematic part + sample-sensitivity part + noise) holds for every loss and is the best mental model for choosing what to do next.

Applications

- Choosing tree depth, polynomial degree, k in k-NN.
- Deciding whether to buy more data or build more features.
- Explaining ensembles to a manager.

COMMON MISTAKE

Believing a more complex model is always more accurate. Above the sweet spot, variance grows faster than bias shrinks.

Check yourself

1. Which term does more data reduce? Answer: variance (bias stays, if the model family is too simple).
2. The noise term σ^2 can be reduced by a better model? Answer: no, it is irreducible for these features (new features can reduce it).
3. Predictions are scattered but centred on the truth. High bias or high variance? Answer: high variance.

1.4 The Probabilistic View: MLE, MAP, Generative and Discriminative

INTUITION

Many "different" methods are one idea wearing different clothes. Ask: "Which parameters make the data I saw most likely?" That is maximum likelihood. Add "and I believed small parameters were more likely before I saw anything" and you get regularization.

Definitions

- **Likelihood** $L(\theta) = P(\text{data} \mid \theta)$: how probable the data is, if the parameters were θ .
- **MLE** (maximum likelihood estimation): choose θ that maximizes $L(\theta)$. In practice we maximize $\log L$ (sums are easier than products) or minimize $-\log L$.
- **MAP** (maximum a posteriori): choose θ that maximizes $P(\theta \mid \text{data}) \propto P(\text{data} \mid \theta) \cdot P(\theta)$. The extra factor $P(\theta)$ is the **prior**.
- **Bayesian posterior**: keep the whole distribution $P(\theta \mid \text{data})$, not just its peak. This gives uncertainty directly (Chapters 5 and 9).

The big dictionary

Loss you minimize	Same as MLE under	Prior (extra penalty)
Squared error	Gaussian noise $y = f(x) + \varepsilon$, $\varepsilon \sim N(0,\sigma^2)$	Gaussian prior on weights gives **L2 (ridge)**
Cross-entropy / log loss	Bernoulli (binary) or categorical (multi-class) labels	Laplace prior gives **L1 (lasso)**
Absolute error	Laplace noise	
Poisson deviance	Poisson counts	

Why squared error is Gaussian MLE. For one point, the Gaussian density is $P(y|x,\theta) \propto \exp(-(y - f)^2 / 2\sigma^2)$. Taking $-\log$ gives $(y - f)^2 / 2\sigma^2 + \text{constant}$. Summing over points gives the sum of squared errors up to a constant. So minimizing squared error equals maximizing Gaussian likelihood.

Why L2 is a Gaussian prior. With prior $w \sim N(0, \tau^2)$, $-\log P(w) = w^2/2\tau^2 + \text{const}$.

The MAP objective becomes $\Sigma \text{ squared errors}/2\sigma^2 + w^2/2\tau^2$. Multiply by $2\sigma^2$: $\Sigma \text{ errors}^2 + (\sigma^2/\tau^2)\cdot w^2$. So $\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$. A tight prior (small τ) means a large λ. For a Laplace prior $P(w) \propto \exp(-|w|/b)$ the penalty is $|w|/b$, which is L1.

Worked problems

Problem 1.4.1 A coin shows 7 heads in 10 tosses. Find the MLE of $p = P(\text{heads})$, then the MAP with a Beta(2,2) prior and with a Beta(10,10) prior. (For a Beta(a,b) prior the MAP is $(\text{heads} + a - 1)/(n + a + b - 2)$.)

Step 1	Likelihood $p^7(1-p)^3$. Log: $7 \ln p + 3 \ln(1-p)$. Derivative $7/p - 3/(1-p) = 0$ gives $p = 7/10 = 0.7$.
Step 2	Beta(2,2): $(7+1)/(10+2) = 8/12 = 0.667$.
Step 3	Beta(10,10): $(7+9)/(10+18) = 16/28 = 0.571$.
Answer	MLE 0.70; MAP 0.667 (weak prior) and 0.571 (strong prior). The stronger the belief in a fair coin, the more the estimate is pulled to 0.5. The code below prints the same numbers:

```
heads, n_ = 7, 10
print("MLE", heads/n_)
for a, b in [(2, 2), (10, 10)]:
    print("MAP", a, b, (heads + a - 1) / (n_ + a + b - 2))
```

```
MLE 0.7
MAP 2 2 0.6666666666666666
MAP 10 10 0.5714285714285714
```

Problem 1.4.2 Data $2, 3, 4$ from $N(\mu, 1)$. Find the MLE of μ and the MAP with prior $\mu \sim N(0, 1)$.

Step 1	MLE of a Gaussian mean is the sample mean: 3.0.
Step 2	MAP: minimize $\Sigma(x_i - \mu)^2/2 + \mu^2/2$. Derivative: $-\Sigma(x_i - \mu) + \mu = 0$, so $\Sigma x_i = (n+1)\mu$, $\mu = 9/4 = 2.25$.
Answer	MLE 3.0, MAP 2.25. The prior shrinks the estimate toward 0, exactly like ridge regression shrinks weights.
Check	Put $\mu = 2.25$ into the objective: $((2-2.25)^2 + (3-2.25)^2 + (4-2.25)^2 + 2.25^2)/2 = (0.0625+0.5625+3.0625+5.0625)/2 = 4.375$. At $\mu = 3$ it is $(1+0+1+9)/2 = 5.5$. So 2.25 is lower, as it should be.
Why it matters	"Shrink toward zero" is the plain-language meaning of regularization: you trust the data a bit less and your prior belief a bit more.

Generative vs discriminative

- **Discriminative** models learn $P(y \mid x)$ directly (logistic regression, SVM, trees, neural nets). They draw the boundary.
- **Generative** models learn $P(x \mid y)$ and $P(y)$, then use Bayes' rule to get $P(y \mid x)$ (naive Bayes, Gaussian mixtures, LDA). They model how the data was produced, so they can also generate samples, handle missing inputs, and work with very little data. Discriminative models usually win with more data because they spend all capacity on the boundary.

The EM algorithm (intuition)

Some models have hidden variables (which cluster did each point come from?). If we knew the hidden labels, fitting is easy. If we knew the parameters, guessing the labels is easy. **Expectation-Maximization** alternates: **E-step** guess soft labels using current parameters; **M-step** refit parameters using those soft labels. Each loop never lowers the likelihood. Chapter 13 builds a Gaussian mixture with EM from scratch.

Information theory in four lines

Quantity	Formula	Meaning
Entropy	$H(p) = -\Sigma\ p \log p$	average surprise; uncertainty of p

Cross-entropy	`H(p,q) = −Σ p log q`	average surprise if truth is `p` but we believe `q`
KL divergence	`KL(p‖q) = H(p,q) − H(p)`	extra surprise from believing `q`
Mutual information	`I(X;Y) = KL(P(x,y) ‖ P(x)P(y))`	how much knowing `X` tells about `Y`

For `p = (0.5, 0.5)` and `q = (0.9, 0.1)` (log base 2):

```
p = np.array([.5, .5]); q = np.array([.9, .1])
H = lambda p: -(p*np.log2(p)).sum()
print("H(p)", H(p), "CE", -(p*np.log2(q)).sum(), "KL",
(p*np.log2(p/q)).sum())
```

```
H(p) 1.0 CE 1.736965594166206 KL 0.7369655941662061
```

Believing `q` costs 0.74 extra bits per event. Because `H(p)` is fixed by the data, minimizing cross-entropy equals minimizing KL equals maximum likelihood. That is why classifiers train on log loss.

Connection to the real job

When a colleague says "L2 is just a Gaussian prior", they are showing they understand why ridge works. In interviews this unification is a strong signal. Bayesian thinking also drives A/B testing, bandits and uncertainty (Chapters 9 and 15).

Applications

- Ridge and lasso: priors on weights.
- Naive Bayes spam filters and Gaussian mixture segmentation: generative.
- Variational autoencoders and language models: cross-entropy and KL everywhere.

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating the prior as cheating. Every model has a prior, even when you do not write it. L2 regularization is a prior you chose. Writing it down only makes it visible.

Check yourself

1. Which noise model gives squared error? Answer: Gaussian.
2. Which prior gives L1? Answer: Laplace.
3. In the coin example, what happens to MAP as `n` grows large? Answer: data dominates the prior and MAP approaches the MLE.

1.5 Loss Functions: What Each One Rewards

INTUITION

The loss is the grading rubric. A teacher who penalizes big mistakes heavily creates a student who plays safe; a teacher who counts every mistake equally creates a different student. Choose the rubric that matches the cost in your business.

See the Math PDF, Pillar 5, for the formulas and their derivatives. This section shows what each loss rewards, with numbers.

Regression losses

Loss	Formula	Rewards	Weak point
MSE	$(y-\hat{y})^2$	predicting the **mean**; punishes large errors	outliers dominate
MAE	$\|y-\hat{y}\|$	predicting the **median**; robust	gradient has constant size, slower near optimum
Huber (δ)	quadratic if $\|r\|\le\delta$, else linear	blend: smooth near zero, robust far away	needs δ
Quantile (pinball, q)	$\max(q\cdot r, (q-1)\cdot r)$ with $r = y-\hat{y}$	predicting the q-th **percentile**	
Log-cosh	$\log(\cosh r)$	like Huber, smooth everywhere	
Poisson deviance	$2(y\cdot\ln(y/\mu) - (y-\mu))$	counts, $\mu>0$	needs non-negative target

Gamma / Tweedie deviance	skewed positive amounts (claims, sales)

Problem 1.5.1 Delivery times in minutes: `10, 12, 11, 13, 100` (one outlier). Find the constant `c` that minimizes MSE and the one that minimizes MAE.

Step 1	MSE is minimized at the mean: `(10+12+11+13+100)/5 = 29.2`.
Step 2	MAE is minimized at the median: sorted `10,11,12,13,100`, median `12`.
Step 3	Check by code: MSE at `c=12` is 1550.0, at `c=30` is 1254.8 (lower). MAE at `c=12` is 18.4, at `c=30` is 28.8 (higher).
Answer	MSE picks about 29 (dragged by the outlier); MAE picks 12 (the typical delivery time). This is exactly why reports on delivery times, house prices and incomes often quote the median, not the average.
Check	The code below prints these exact values.
Why it matters	One 100-minute delivery in five moved the "best" constant from 12 to 29. A loss function is a statement about what you care about.

```
y = np.array([10, 12, 11, 13, 100.])
print("mean", y.mean(), "median", np.median(y))
for c in [11, 12, 30]:
    print(c, "MSE", np.mean((y-c)**2), "MAE", np.mean(abs(y-c)))
```

```
mean 29.2 median 12.0
11 MSE 1585.4 MAE 18.6
12 MSE 1550.0 MAE 18.4
30 MSE 1254.8 MAE 28.8
```

Problem 1.5.2 You forecast weekly demand for a shop's stock. Running out of stock (under-stocking) is 9 times worse than having too much (over-stocking). Which quantile loss, and what does it cost for `y=100`?

Step 1	Cost ratio 9:1 means `q = 9/(9+1) = 0.9` (under-prediction cost weight `q`, over-prediction weight `1−q`).
Step 2	Predict 80 (under by 20): `0.9 × 20 = 18`. Predict 120 (over by 20): `0.1 × 20 = 2`.
Answer	Use the 0.9 quantile (pinball) loss. Under-predicting by 20 costs 18; over-predicting by 20 costs 2. The model learns to predict high, as the business wants.
Check	Ratio of costs `18 / 2 = 9`, which equals the stated 9-to-1 business cost.
Why it matters	A forecast that is right on average is useless for stock planning. You want a forecast that is high enough 90 percent of the time.

Classification losses

For label `y=1` and predicted probability `p`:

Loss	Formula	Behaviour
Log loss / cross-entropy	`−ln p`	`p=0.9` gives 0.105; `p=0.6` gives 0.511; `p=0.01` gives 4.605. Confident and wrong is punished hard
Hinge (SVM)	`max(0, 1 − margin)`	margin 2 gives 0; 0.5 gives 0.5; −1 gives 2. Zero loss once safely correct
Focal	`(1−p)^γ · (−ln p)`	with γ=2: easy case `p=0.9` loss falls from 0.105 to 0.001; hard case `p=0.3` from 1.204 to 0.590. Down-weights easy examples
Label smoothing	targets `1−ε`, not 1	for ε=0.1 and 3 classes the target is (0.933, 0.033, 0.033); stops over-confidence
Ranking (pairwise)	penalize wrong order of a pair	used in search and recommendation (Chapter 14)

All values above were computed by code in `c1b.py` (log, hinge, focal and Poisson). Poisson deviance for `y=3`, `μ=2` is `2(3·ln1.5 − 1) = 0.433`.

Loss versus metric

You train on a smooth, differentiable **loss** because optimizers need gradients. You report a **metric** the business understands (accuracy, F1, AUC, MAPE). They can disagree. Example: log loss rewards honest probabilities, while accuracy only cares which side of 0.5. A model can improve log loss while accuracy stays the same, or the reverse. Always evaluate on the business metric, and choose the loss that is the best differentiable stand-in for it.

Connection to the real job

Choosing the loss is a business conversation: "Is a miss worse than a false alarm?" Quantile loss for stock planning and Tweedie loss for insurance claims are everyday examples.

Applications

- Forecasting with Poisson loss for ticket counts.
- Pinball loss for 90th-percentile delivery-time prediction.
- Focal loss for rare-defect detection.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using MSE on heavy-tailed data (revenue, delivery times) and being surprised that a few outliers rule the model. Try MAE, Huber, or model `log(y)`.

Check yourself

1. MSE is minimized by which statistic? Answer: the mean.
2. Which quantile for "missing is 4 times worse than over-estimating"? Answer: `q = 4/5 = 0.8`.
3. Why differentiable losses for training but business metrics for reporting? Answer: optimizers need gradients; stakeholders need meaning.

1.6 No Free Lunch, Inductive Bias, and the Curse of Dimensionality

INTUITION

Every model is a set of assumptions in disguise. A linear model assumes "the effect is a straight line". A tree assumes "the world splits into boxes". A k-NN assumes "close points behave alike". If your world matches the assumption, learning is easy.

No free lunch

The *No Free Lunch* theorem says: averaged over all possible problems, no algorithm beats any other. So there is no "best algorithm". Real problems are not random; they have structure (smooth, sparse, tabular). The task is to match assumptions to the structure, and the way to find out is to run **baselines and experiments**.

Inductive bias

Model	Assumes	Fails when
Linear / logistic	effect adds up in straight lines	strong interactions, curves
Decision tree	box-shaped regions, axis-aligned splits	smooth diagonal boundaries, extrapolation
k-NN	nearby points have the same label	many irrelevant features
Naive Bayes	features independent given the class	strongly correlated features (still often fine for ranking)
Neural net	smooth, compositional structure	very small tabular data

Curse of dimensionality

As the number of features `d` grows, space gets huge and data gets sparse; distances lose meaning. Experiment: 500 random points in the unit cube, one random query point, ratio `nearest distance / farthest distance`.

```
for dim in [2, 10, 100, 1000]:
    X = rng.uniform(size=(500, dim)); q = rng.uniform(size=dim)
    ds = np.linalg.norm(X - q, axis=1); print(dim,
round(ds.min()/ds.max(), 3))
```

```
2 0.011
10 0.25
100 0.703
1000 0.907
```

In 2 dimensions the nearest point is about 100 times closer than the farthest. In 1,000 dimensions it is only 10 percent closer: all points look equally far. "Nearest neighbour" then means little. The remedy: fewer, better features; regularization; dimensionality reduction (Chapter 13).

Problem 1.6.1 You need 10 samples per unit along each axis to cover space. How many points for 1, 2, 5 and 10 features?

Step 1	Points needed `= 10^d`.
Step 2	`d=1` : 10. `d=2` : 100. `d=5` : 100,000. `d=10` : 10,000,000,000.
Answer	Data needs grow exponentially. Ten features at this density need ten billion rows, so real models rely on assumptions (inductive bias), not coverage.
Check	`10**10 = 10,000,000,000`.
Why it matters	This is why "just add more columns" quietly makes learning harder: the same number of rows now covers a vanishing fraction of the space.

Problem 1.6.2 A survey dataset has 200 rows (patients) and 400 columns (measurements per patient). Which kind of model is safer first, and why?

Step 1	$p = 400 > n = 200$: a flexible model can memorize.
Step 2	A regularized linear model has strong bias and low variance.
Answer	Start with ridge or lasso logistic/linear regression, and compare to a trivial baseline using repeated cross-validation.
Check	With 400 columns and 200 rows, ordinary least squares has no unique solution at all (the matrix X^TX is singular), which is another sign you need regularization.
Why it matters	When you have more columns than rows, the model needs a strong assumption to pick one answer out of infinitely many.

Connection to the real job

"Why did adding 50 features make my model worse?" is the curse of dimensionality plus variance. "Which model should I use?" is answered with inductive bias plus experiments, never with a favourite algorithm.

Applications

- Choosing models for tabular, text, and image problems.
- Feature selection in genomics ($p \gg n$).
- Nearest-neighbour search in embeddings (needs approximate search because of this effect).

COMMON MISTAKE

Adding every column "because more information cannot hurt". With limited data, noise columns hurt.

Check yourself

1. What does No Free Lunch imply for practice? Answer: always run baselines; no algorithm wins everywhere.
2. In very high dimensions, what happens to nearest vs farthest distances? Answer: they become almost equal.
3. What is inductive bias? Answer: the assumptions a model makes that let it generalize.

Chapter recap

- Learning means turning knobs to reduce a loss, but what matters is the loss on new data.
- ERM = model family + loss + optimizer; empirical risk is the average loss on your sample.
- Parameters are learned; hyperparameters are chosen by you; capacity is the richness of the family.
- Train fits, validation chooses, test judges once. Random splits need i.i.d.; time, groups and drift break it.
- Overfitting: tiny training error, large test error. Learning curves tell you whether to add data or change the model.
- Error = bias² + variance + noise for squared error. Complex models trade bias for variance.
- Squared error is Gaussian MLE; cross-entropy is Bernoulli MLE; L2 is a Gaussian prior; L1 is a Laplace prior.
- Generative models learn how data is produced; discriminative models learn the boundary. EM alternates soft labels and refitting.
- MSE rewards the mean, MAE the median, pinball loss a chosen percentile. Pick the loss to match business cost.
- No model is best everywhere, and high dimensions make distances meaningless.

Formula / idea	Meaning
$R_{emp} = (1/n)\ \Sigma\ \ell(y_i, f(x_i))$	empirical risk, the training average loss
$\text{gap} = \text{test error} - \text{train error}$	generalization gap
$\text{error} = \text{bias}^2 + \text{variance} + \sigma^2$	squared-error decomposition
$\text{MSE} \Leftrightarrow \text{Gaussian MLE}$, $\text{log loss} \Leftrightarrow \text{Bernoulli MLE}$	losses as likelihoods
$\text{L2} \Leftrightarrow \text{Gaussian prior}$, $\text{L1} \Leftrightarrow \text{Laplace prior}$, $\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$	regularization as MAP
$\text{MSE} \to \text{mean}$, $\text{MAE} \to \text{median}$, $\text{pinball}(q) \to q\text{-th percentile}$	what each loss rewards
$KL(p\|q) = H(p,q) - H(p)$	extra cost of believing q

Practice set

1. (easy) Data `(1,1), (2,2), (3,4)`, model $\hat{y} = 1.2x$. Compute MSE. **Answer:** predictions 1.2, 2.4, 3.6; errors −0.2, −0.4, 0.4; squares 0.04, 0.16, 0.16; mean 0.36/3 = 0.12.
2. (easy) Best slope through the origin for the data of problem 1? **Answer:** $\Sigma xy/\Sigma x^2 = (1+4+12)/(1+4+9) = 17/14 = 1.214$.
3. (easy) Training accuracy 88, validation 86, test 85. Overfit? **Answer:** No, the gap is small. Check whether the score itself is high enough for the use.
4. (medium) Median and mean of `2, 4, 6, 8, 100`. Which minimizes MAE? **Answer:** median 6, mean 24. The median minimizes MAE.
5. (medium) What is the output? `-np.log(0.5)` for a true-1 example. **Answer:** `0.6931...`, the cost of a coin-flip guess.
6. (medium) Find the bug: a student normalizes (subtracts the mean) using all rows, then splits into train and test. **Answer:** the test rows influenced the mean, which is mild leakage. Fit the scaler on train only (Chapter 8).
7. (medium) MAP for 3 heads in 3 tosses with Beta(2,2) prior. **Answer:** `(3+1)/(3+2) = 0.8` versus MLE 1.0. The prior avoids the extreme "always heads".
8. (medium) Expected squared error 5.0, noise variance 1.0, bias² 2.5. Variance? **Answer:** 5.0 − 2.5 − 1.0 = 1.5.
9. (hard, scenario) Your regression model of ticket resolution time has a few 30-day tickets and your MSE model predicts too high for normal tickets. What do you try? **Answer:** MAE or Huber loss, or predict `log(time)`, then report MAE and percentile errors.
10. (interview) Explain bias-variance to a manager in 30 seconds. **Answer:** "Bias is when the model is too simple and misses the pattern. Variance is when the model is so flexible it follows noise and changes with every new sample. We pick the complexity where the total error on new data is lowest, and validation data tells us where that is."
11. (interview) Why is L2 regularization a Gaussian prior? **Answer:** MAP adds `-log P(w)`. For a Gaussian prior this is $w^2/2\tau^2$, an L2 penalty with $\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$. A tighter belief means a bigger λ.
12. (interview) Your model has 99 percent training AUC and 0.70 validation AUC. List three things to check. **Answer:** split design (groups/time/duplicates), leakage in training features, and model capacity versus data size (regularize, simplify, add data).

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: empirical risk minimization, loss functions and the
train/validation/test roles in machine learning. Explain step by step with
small numeric examples, then ask me three questions one at a time and wait
for my answers. Correct my mistakes kindly and connect ideas to everyday
examples such as shop orders or exam marks where natural.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and learning machine learning, English is my second
language. Topic: the bias–variance decomposition of squared error. Give me
8 graded exercises with real numbers (easy to hard), including one where I
compute bias squared and variance from five predictions. Do not give
solutions until I answer. Then check my answers and explain any error.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: MLE and MAP,
and why squared error equals Gaussian maximum likelihood and L2 equals a
Gaussian prior. Teach it step by step with a coin example and a Gaussian-
mean example, then quiz me one question at a time. Keep sentences short
and define every term the first time.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: learning
curves and diagnosing overfitting versus underfitting. Here is my
situation: [PASTE MY TRAIN/VALIDATION SCORES AND DATA SIZE HERE]. Review
my numbers, tell me which problem I probably have, list what to try in
order, and explain why each step helps in simple words.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
```

moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: chapter 1 of ML fundamentals (ERM, generalization, bias–variance, MLE/MAP, loss choice, curse of dimensionality). Run a mock interview with me: ask one question at a time, wait for my spoken-style answer, then give a score out of 10, a better model answer, and the next question, getting harder each time.

CHAPTER 2

LINEAR REGRESSION FROM SCRATCH

The normal equation, gradient descent, the assumptions behind it, and how to read coefficients honestly.

Suppose you have delivery records and you want to say "each extra 10 km adds about 6 minutes to the delivery time". Or you have patient data and you want to predict disease progression. The oldest and most useful tool for both jobs is linear regression: draw the best flat surface through your data. Many production systems still use it, and every neural network is built from stacked pieces that look like it. In this chapter you will derive the formula that finds the best line, solve it by hand on three points, rebuild it in NumPy two different ways, check your code against scikit-learn, and learn the six ways a straight-line model can quietly lie to you. You will also learn when you are *predicting* and when you are *explaining*, because the same model is read very differently in each case.

You can skip the matrix-calculus details if they feel heavy. The worked problems show every step with small numbers. For the derivative rules, see the learner's Math PDF (Pillar 2, calculus; Pillar 1, matrices).

2.1 The Model and the Normal Equation

INTUITION

You have a cloud of dots and a stiff ruler. You lay the ruler on the dots and slide and tilt it until the total squared distance from the dots to the ruler is as small as possible. "Squared" because a big miss should hurt much more than a small miss, and because squares are smooth, so calculus works. The *normal equation* is the formula that tells you exactly where the ruler ends up, with no sliding needed.

Words you need

Word	Plain meaning
Feature	one input column (for example, distance in km)

Target	the number we want to predict (delivery time in minutes)
Weight (coefficient)	how much the prediction changes when one feature goes up by 1, others fixed
Intercept	the prediction when every feature is 0
Residual	actual value minus predicted value: $r_i = y_i - \hat{y}_i$
Design matrix X	the table of features, one row per example, with a column of 1s added for the intercept

Formal definition

The model: $\hat{y} = w_0 + w_1 x_1 + w_2 x_2 + \ldots + w_p x_p$. In matrix form, with X of shape $n \times (p+1)$ (first column all ones) and w a vector of $p+1$ numbers:

$$\hat{y} = X w$$
$$\text{loss}(w) = \Sigma (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2 = (y - Xw)^T (y - Xw)$$

Derivation of the normal equation. Expand the loss:

$$\text{loss} = y^T y - 2 w^T X^T y + w^T X^T X w$$

Take the derivative with respect to w (using $d(w^T a)/dw = a$ and $d(w^T A w)/dw = 2Aw$ for symmetric A):

$$d\,\text{loss} / dw = -2 X^T y + 2 X^T X w$$

Set it to zero: $X^T X w = X^T y$. These are called the **normal equations** ("normal" means perpendicular, you will see why below). If $X^T X$ can be inverted:

$$w = (X^T X)^{-1} X^T y$$

The loss is a bowl (it is convex), so the one point where the slope is zero is the unique bottom of the bowl.

Running example (tiny)

Three points: $(x, y) = (1, 2), (2, 3), (3, 5)$. We will reuse this example throughout the chapter.

Problem 2.1.1 Find the best-fit line $\hat{y} = w_0 + w_1 x$ for these three points using the normal equation.

Formula	$w = (X^T X)^{-1} X^T y$, with $X = [[1,1],[1,2],[1,3]]$ and $y = [2,3,5]$.
Plug in	$X^T X$ multiplies the 2×3 matrix $[[1,1,1],[1,2,3]]$ by the 3×2 matrix X. Entry by entry: top-left $1+1+1 = 3$; top-right $1\cdot1+1\cdot2+1\cdot3 = 6$; bottom-right $1+4+9 = 14$. So $X^T X = [[3,6],[6,14]]$. Next $X^T y$: top $2+3+5 = 10$; bottom $1\cdot2+2\cdot3+3\cdot5 = 23$. So $X^T y = [10, 23]$.
Compute	The determinant of $X^T X$ is $3\cdot14 - 6\cdot6 = 42 - 36 = 6$. The inverse of a 2×2 matrix $[[a,b],[c,d]]$ is $(1/\det)[[d,-b],[-c,a]]$, so $(X^T X)^{-1} = (1/6)[[14,-6],[-6,3]]$. Then $w = (1/6)[14\cdot10 - 6\cdot23, -6\cdot10 + 3\cdot23] = (1/6)[140 - 138, -60 + 69] = (1/6)[2, 9] = [0.3333, 1.5]$.
Answer	The best line is $\hat{y} = 0.333 + 1.5x$. Each extra unit of x adds 1.5 to the prediction.
Check	Run in NumPy (below). Also by the shortcut for one feature, slope $= \Sigma(x-\bar{x})(y-\bar{y}) / \Sigma(x-\bar{x})^2 = 3/2 = 1.5$ and intercept $\bar{y} - \text{slope}\cdot\bar{x} = 3.333 - 1.5\cdot2 = 0.333$.
Why it matters	You have solved a "machine learning problem" with plain arithmetic. For millions of rows, the library does exactly these steps.

```
import numpy as np
x = np.array([1, 2, 3.]); y = np.array([2, 3, 5.])
X = np.c_[np.ones(3), x]
print("XtX\n", X.T @ X, "\nXty", X.T @ y)
beta = np.linalg.solve(X.T @ X, X.T @ y); print("beta", beta)
res = y - X @ beta; print("resid", res, "X^T resid", X.T @ res)
```

Before you run it, predict: what will $X^T \cdot \text{residuals}$ be? Output:

```
XtX
 [[ 3.  6.]
 [ 6. 14.]]
Xty [10. 23.]
beta [0.3333 1.5   ]
resid [ 0.1667 -0.3333  0.1667] X^T resid [0. 0.]
```

Line by line: `np.c_[np.ones(3), x]` glues a column of ones next to `x`, which gives the intercept its own column. `np.linalg.solve(A, b)` solves `A w = b`; it is more accurate than computing the inverse yourself, so prefer it. The last line prints zeros: this is the key to the geometry.

The picture: projection

Three points (blue), the best-fit line (orange) and the vertical residuals (grey dashed lines).

The grey dashed lines are the residuals: `+0.167`, `−0.333`, `+0.167`. The line cuts through the middle, with two points above and one below. The sum of the residuals is zero, and the residuals are also perpendicular to the `x` column ($\Sigma\ r_i x_i = 0.167 - 0.667 + 0.5 = 0$).

Here is the deeper picture. Treat `y = [2,3,5]` as one arrow in 3-dimensional space (one axis per data point). The columns of `X`, namely `[1,1,1]` and `[1,2,3]`, span a flat sheet (a plane) inside that space. Every possible set of predictions `Xw` lies on this sheet. Least squares finds the point on the sheet closest to `y`. The closest point is the **projection** of `y` onto the sheet, and the leftover arrow (the residual) is perpendicular to the sheet. That is why $X^T r = 0$: "perpendicular to every column". The word "normal" in "normal equation" just means perpendicular.

```
        y  (the data arrow)
       /|
      / | residual r  (perpendicular to the sheet)
     /  |
 ---o---+----------- sheet = all predictions Xw
   ŷ = X w  (the projection)
```

The matrix $H = X(X^TX)^{-1}X^T$ is called the **hat matrix** because $\hat{y} = H\ y$ ("puts the hat on y"). Its diagonal entries are the **leverage** of each point: how strongly each point pulls the line toward itself. For our three points the leverages are `[0.833, 0.333, 0.833]`. The outer points have

more pull, which is intuitive (they are the ends of a seesaw). Leverages always add up to the number of parameters, here `0.833 + 0.333 + 0.833 = 2`.

A realistic dataset

Scikit-learn ships a small medical dataset (`load_diabetes`): 442 patients, 10 columns (age, sex, bmi, blood pressure, six blood-serum measurements `s1` to `s6`), and a target that measures disease progression one year later. We split 75 percent train and 25 percent test with `random_state=0` . We will predict on the test part only for honesty (Chapter 1).

Connection to the real job

- `LinearRegression().fit(X, y)` solves a version of the normal equations (internally with a numerically safer method called SVD or QR decomposition, which gives the same answer).
- Cost estimation, demand forecasting, and A/B-test "regression adjustment" (CUPED) all use this.
- Baselines: always fit a linear model first. If a complex model cannot beat it clearly, the complexity is not paying for itself.

Applications

- **Data Analytics:** trend lines in dashboards, price elasticity.
- **Data Science:** sales and demand baselines, feature effect estimates.
- **Machine Learning:** the baseline every other regressor is compared with.
- **Operations and Logistics:** parcels packed per hour vs staff on shift; delivery time vs distance.

COMMON MISTAKE

Forgetting the column of ones. Without it, the line is forced through the origin, which is almost never what you want. Scikit-learn adds the intercept for you; in NumPy you must do it yourself.

Check yourself

1. What does $X^T r = 0$ say in words? Answer: the residuals are perpendicular to every feature column; the fit has used up all the straight-line signal.

2. For the three points, what is the sum of the residuals? Answer: $0.167 - 0.333 + 0.167 = 0$.
3. Why can the formula fail? Answer: when X^TX has no inverse, for example when one column is a copy or a combination of other columns, or when there are more columns than rows.

2.2 Gradient Descent Version

INTUITION

You are blindfolded on a hillside (a bowl-shaped valley) and want the bottom. You feel the slope under your feet and take a step downhill. Repeat. The step size is the **learning rate**. Too small: you take all day. Too big: you leap over the valley and end up higher on the other side. The normal equation is like having a map that says exactly where the bottom is. Gradient descent is walking there. Why walk if you have a map? The matrix X^TX costs a lot to build and solve when you have millions of rows or hundreds of thousands of columns, and walking works for models (like logistic regression and neural nets) that have no map at all.

How it works

The gradient of the mean squared error $L(w) = (1/n)(y - Xw)^T(y - Xw)$ is $\nabla L = (2/n) X^T(Xw - y)$. We repeat:

$$w \leftarrow w - lr \cdot (2/n) \cdot X^T (X w - y)$$

For the one-point, one-weight case this is the rule you know from the Math PDF (Pillar 2): subtract the learning rate times the derivative.

Problem 2.2.1 Do two gradient-descent steps by hand on our three points, with weights starting at $w = [0, 0]$ and $lr = 0.1$.

Formula	`w ← w − lr · (2/n) · Xᵀ(Xw − y)`, with `n = 3`.
Plug in (step 1)	`Xw = [0,0,0]`, so `Xw − y = [−2, −3, −5]`. Then `Xᵀ(Xw − y)`: first entry `−2−3−5 = −10`; second entry `1·(−2) + 2·(−3) + 3·(−5) = −2 −6 −15 = −23`. So gradient `= (2/3)·[−10, −23] = [−6.667, −15.333]`.
Compute	`w = [0,0] − 0.1·[−6.667, −15.333] = [0.6667, 1.5333]`.
Plug in (step 2)	`Xw = [0.6667+1.5333, 0.6667+3.0667, 0.6667+4.6] = [2.2, 3.7333, 5.2667]`. `Xw − y = [0.2, 0.7333, 0.2667]`. `Xᵀ(...)`: first `0.2+0.7333+0.2667 = 1.2`; second `0.2 + 1.4667 + 0.8 = 2.4667`. Gradient `= (2/3)·[1.2, 2.4667] = [0.8, 1.6444]`.
Compute	`w = [0.6667, 1.5333] − 0.1·[0.8, 1.6444] = [0.5867, 1.3689]`.
Answer	After two steps `w = [0.587, 1.369]`. The target is `[0.333, 1.5]`: the intercept moved past 0.333 on step 1 and the slope is still catching up.
Check	The loss falls. At `w = [0,0]` the MSE is `(4+9+25)/3 = 12.67`. After step 1, `Xw − y = [0.2, 0.7333, 0.2667]`, squares `0.04, 0.5378, 0.0711`, mean `0.2163`. So the loss went from 12.67 to 0.2163 in one step (NumPy confirms this and gives `w = [0.5867, 1.3689]` after step 2).
Why it matters	Even from the worst start, the loss collapsed in one step. Later steps are much slower. Gradient descent is fast in the beginning and slow near the end.

A from-scratch class with both methods

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.datasets import load_diabetes
from sklearn.linear_model import LinearRegression
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split

class MyLinearRegression:
    """OLS two ways: normal equation or gradient descent."""
    def __init__(self, method="normal", lr=0.1, steps=20000):
        self.method, self.lr, self.steps = method, lr, steps
    def fit(self, X, y):
        A = np.c_[np.ones(len(X)), X]                    # add the
intercept column of ones
        if self.method == "normal":
            self.w = np.linalg.solve(A.T @ A, A.T @ y)     # solve (XtX) w
= Xty
        else:
            self.w = np.zeros(A.shape[1]); n = len(y)
            for _ in range(self.steps):
                grad = 2 / n * A.T @ (A @ self.w - y)      # gradient of
the mean squared error
                self.w -= self.lr * grad
        return self
    def predict(self, X):
        return np.c_[np.ones(len(X)), X] @ self.w

d = load_diabetes()
Xtr, Xte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(d.data, d.target, test_size=0.25,
random_state=0)
mu, sd = Xtr.mean(0), Xtr.std(0)
Ztr, Zte = (Xtr - mu) / sd, (Xte - mu) / sd              # scale with
TRAIN statistics only
rmse = lambda a, p: np.sqrt(np.mean((a - p) ** 2))
ne = MyLinearRegression("normal").fit(Ztr, ytr)
gd = MyLinearRegression("gd").fit(Ztr, ytr)
sk = LinearRegression().fit(Ztr, ytr)
print("intercepts :", round(ne.w[0], 4), round(gd.w[0], 4),
round(sk.intercept_, 4))
print("max |coef diff| NE vs sklearn:", np.abs(ne.w[1:] - sk.coef_).max())
print("max |coef diff| GD vs NE     :", np.abs(gd.w - ne.w).max())
print("test RMSE  NE/GD/sklearn:", [round(rmse(yte, m.predict(Zte)), 3)
for m in (ne, gd, sk)])
print("baseline (predict train mean) RMSE:", round(rmse(yte,
np.full(len(yte), ytr.mean())), 3))
print("test R2:", round(1 - np.sum((yte - ne.predict(Zte))**2) /
np.sum((yte - yte.mean())**2), 4))
```

Predict first: will the three methods give the same predictions? Real output:

```
intercepts : 151.9215 151.9215 151.9215
max |coef diff| NE vs sklearn: 1.545430450278218e-12
max |coef diff| GD vs NE     : 5.933031843596837e-13
test RMSE  NE/GD/sklearn: [np.float64(56.393), np.float64(56.393),
np.float64(56.393)]
baseline (predict train mean) RMSE: 70.464
test R2: 0.3594
```

Explain: all three methods agree to 12 decimal places, because they solve the same convex problem. The intercept 151.92 is the mean of the training target (because we centred the features). The test RMSE of 56.4 beats the baseline (always guess the average) of 70.5, so the features carry real signal. **R^2** (the "coefficient of determination") is `1 − (model's squared error) / (squared error of guessing the mean)`, so 0.359 means the model removes about 36 percent of the error compared with the guess-the-mean baseline. Disease progression is hard to predict from these ten columns, and that is honest information, not a bug.

Why scaling matters: the picture

Training MSE (log scale) against step count for three learning rates on the standardized diabetes data. lr=0.01 (green) creeps down; lr=0.1 (blue) reaches the normal-equation level quickly; lr=0.4 (orange) is not drawn after it leaves the chart because it explodes.

The dashed line is the best possible training error (the normal equation). The lr=0.4 line shoots up out of the chart: that step was too big, so each step overshoots the valley by more than the last.

For a bowl-shaped loss there is a speed limit. Let `λ_max` be the largest eigenvalue of `(2/n)XᵀX`. Gradient descent converges only if `lr < 2/λ_max`. For the standardized diabetes data `λ_max = 8.28`, so the limit is `2/8.28 = 0.2415`. This is why 0.1 works and 0.4 explodes (the loss reached 3.9×10^{10} by step 10). Real values from the run:

lr	MSE at step 1	step 10	step 50	step 100	step 300
0.01	28040	19510	6051	3233	2791.5
0.1	18531	3085	2790	2788	2783.9

0.4	14584	3.9×10^{10}	5×10^{39}	1×10^{76}	6×10^{221}

Now the unscaled problem. Make x_1 with standard deviation 1 and x_2 with standard deviation 1000 (like "age" and "salary in rupees"):

```
rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
x1 = rng.normal(0, 1, 200); x2 = rng.normal(0, 1000, 200)
yy = 3 * x1 + 0.002 * x2 + rng.normal(0, .5, 200)
Xs = np.c_[np.ones(200), x1, x2]
lam = np.linalg.eigvalsh(2/200 * Xs.T @ Xs); print("eig", lam, "max safe
lr", 2 / lam[-1])
```

```
eig [      1.8375       1.9878 2118086.5722] max safe lr
9.442484675705359e-07
```

The speed limit is about 9.4×10^{-7}. At $\texttt{lr} = 1.5\times10^{-6}$ we got `nan` (overflow), at 1×10^{-6} the weights reached 10^{90}, and at 1×10^{-7} it was safe but after 2000 steps the MSE was still 8.7 (true noise level is 0.25) with `w = [0, 0.0011, 0.0018]` while the right answer is `[0.005, 3.03, 0.002]`. The big column forces a tiny learning rate, and then the small column barely moves. The **condition number** (ratio of largest to smallest eigenvalue, roughly "how stretched the bowl is") tells you this: unscaled 1074, after standardizing 1.07. For the diabetes training data (with the intercept column): 217 on the raw columns, 21 after standardizing.

KEY INSIGHT

Scaling does not change the answer of OLS, but it changes how easy gradient descent finds it. For regularized models, scaling changes the answer too (Chapter 3).

Connection to the real job

Every deep-learning training loop is this loop with more weights. If a neural network's loss is `nan`, the first things to check are the learning rate and the input scale: the same story you just saw.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** linear/logistic regression on huge data via SGD.
- **Deep Learning:** every network trained by (variants of) this loop.

- **Data Engineering:** online/streaming regression where data never fits in memory.
- **MLOps:** a loss that becomes `nan` is a standard training-job alert.

COMMON MISTAKE

Choosing a learning rate by guessing and concluding "gradient descent does not work". Standardize the features first, start with 0.1 or smaller, and plot the loss every few steps.

Check yourself

1. Which is cheaper for 10 million rows and 50 columns, forming X^TX or running mini-batch gradient descent? Answer: both are possible (X^TX is 50×50), but for 500,000 columns only gradient descent is practical.
2. What happens when `lr` is above $2/\lambda_{max}$? Answer: the loss grows each step and the weights overflow to `nan`.
3. Does scaling features change the OLS predictions? Answer: no, only the numeric size of the coefficients and the speed of gradient descent.

2.3 Assumptions and What Breaks Them

INTUITION

Linear regression is like a bridge calculator: it always produces a number, even if the bridge is in a swamp. The calculator assumes certain ground conditions. If the ground is different, the number is still printed but it means less than you think. You need to know the five conditions and how to see a failure.

The assumptions

Assumption	Plain meaning	How it fails	How to detect
Linearity	the effect is a straight line	curves, thresholds, interactions	residual vs prediction plot shows a pattern
Constant variance (homoscedasticity)	the scatter is the same everywhere	scatter grows with the level	residual spread by range

Independent errors	mistakes do not follow each other	time series, grouped rows	Durbin-Watson, plots over time
No exact collinearity	features are not copies of each other	duplicate or derived columns	VIF, condition number
No wild outliers or high-leverage points	no single row rules the line	typos, rare events	leverage, Cook's distance, plots

For *prediction* you need these only loosely: a model with curved residuals still predicts, just badly. For *explaining* (confidence intervals, p-values) the assumptions matter more, as 2.4 shows.

Heteroscedasticity: the scatter changes

Think of delivery time against distance: short trips give steady times, long trips give wildly variable times. We simulate `y = 2x + noise` where the noise standard deviation is `0.3·x^1.5`:

```
x = rng.uniform(1, 10, 300); y = 2*x + rng.normal(0, 0.3*x**1.5)
A = np.c_[np.ones(300), x]; b = np.linalg.lstsq(A, y, rcond=None)[0]; r =
y - A@b
print("coef", b)
for lo, hi in [(1, 4), (4, 7), (7, 10)]:
    m = (x >= lo) & (x < hi); print("x in", lo, hi, "resid std",
r[m].std().round(2))
```

```
coef [-0.7546  2.1163]
x in 1 4 resid std 1.26
x in 4 7 resid std 3.6
x in 7 10 resid std 8.2
```

The line (slope 2.12 vs true 2) is fine, but the residual spread grows 6.5 times from left to right. Predictions for large `x` are far less reliable, and the single "average error" hides it. The fixes: model `log(y)`, use weighted least squares, or use quantile regression to give intervals that widen (Chapter 9).

Correlated errors: Durbin-Watson

When rows come in time order, the error today often resembles the error yesterday. The **Durbin-**

Watson statistic is $\Sigma(r_t - r_{t-1})^2 / \Sigma r_t^2$. A value near 2 means no autocorrelation; near 0 means strongly positive autocorrelation. Simulated errors $e_t = 0.8\, e_{t-1} + \text{noise}$, trend $0.05t$:

```
DW autocorr 0.5204886597338122 DW iid 2.131133120944078
```

0.52 is far below 2: the errors follow each other, so the effective sample size is smaller than the row count, and standard errors are too small. Fix: use time-series models or time-aware validation (Chapter 8).

Multicollinearity and VIF

If two features move together, the model cannot tell which one deserves the credit. It splits the credit unpredictably, so coefficients become unstable (but predictions can stay fine). The **variance inflation factor** for feature j is $VIF_j = 1/(1 - R^2_j)$, where R^2_j is how well the *other* features predict feature j. A rule of thumb: above 5 to 10 is worrying.

Problem 2.3.1 Feature `s1` (total serum cholesterol) is predicted from the other 9 diabetes columns with $R^2 = 0.983$. Find its VIF.

Formula	$VIF = 1/(1 - R^2)$
Plug in	$1/(1 - 0.983)$
Compute	$1/0.017 = 58.8$
Answer	About 59, which matches the computed 59.2 (the exact R^2 is 0.98311).
Check	$1 - 1/59.2 = 0.9831$.
Why it matters	In plain words: 98 percent of `s1` can be rebuilt from the other columns, so its coefficient is almost arbitrary. The standard error of its coefficient is about $\sqrt{59} = 7.7$ times larger than if it were independent.

Real VIFs for the whole dataset (computed by code):

```
age 1.2   sex 1.3   bmi 1.5   bp 1.5   s1 59.2   s2 39.2   s3 15.4   s4
8.9   s5 10.1   s6 1.5
```

`s1` and `s2` (cholesterol measures) are nearly the same information; `s3` (HDL) is tied to both.

Remedy: drop one, combine, or use ridge regression (Chapter 3).

Outliers and leverage

Two different dangers. A **high-leverage point** has an unusual `x` (far from the other x values). An **outlier** has an unusual `y` given its `x`. A point with both can drag the line. Ten clean points follow `y ≈ 2x + 1`:

```
clean                                [intercept 0.8237, slope 1.9997]
add a point at x=30, y=10            [intercept 10.1261, slope 0.198]
leverage 0.88
add a point at x=5.5, y=40           [intercept 3.3854, slope 1.9997]   (y-
outlier in the middle)
```

One point at `x=30` (far right, true line would give 61) crushed the slope from 2.0 to 0.2. The leverage of that point is 0.88 where the average is `2/11 = 0.18`. The big y-outlier in the middle (`y=40` where about 12 was expected) only shifted the intercept and left the slope alone. High-leverage points are the dangerous ones, because the line must pass close to them.

Connection to the real job

When a delivery-time regression says "each extra kilometre adds 2 minutes" but the error bars are huge for long trips, you have heteroscedasticity. When a coefficient flips sign after you add one column, suspect collinearity. When a single bulk order ten times larger than usual distorts the fit, suspect leverage.

Applications

- **Data Science:** checking a baseline before building something complex.
- **Analytics:** explaining why a "driver analysis" gave odd signs.
- **MLOps:** residual-by-segment monitoring.
- **Finance/Insurance:** heteroscedastic claims models (use `log` or Gamma models, Chapter 4).

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading a coefficient as "the effect of this feature" when collinear columns are present. The model can swap credit between correlated features. Always check VIF before interpreting.

Check yourself

1. A residual plot is a funnel (narrow on left, wide on right). Name the problem. Answer: heteroscedasticity.
2. Which is more dangerous for the slope, an outlier in the middle of x or at the far end? Answer: the far end (high leverage).
3. VIF of 40 for a feature. What does it mean? Answer: the other features explain 97.5 percent of it (`1 − 1/40`), so its coefficient is unstable.

2.4 Inference vs Prediction: Reading Coefficients Honestly

INTUITION

There are two different jobs. *Prediction*: "what will this patient's number be next year?" You only care if the guess is close on new patients. *Inference* (explaining): "does BMI really drive progression, and by how much?" You care about each coefficient and how sure you are. A model that is perfect for the first job can be misleading for the second.

Formal definitions

If the assumptions hold and noise has variance σ^2 , the estimated variance of the coefficients is $\hat{\sigma}^2 (X^T X)^{-1}$, where $\hat{\sigma}^2 = \Sigma r^2/(n - p - 1)$ (the denominator uses the **degrees of freedom**: rows minus parameters, because the fit used up $p+1$ pieces of information). The **standard error** (SE) of coefficient j is the square root of the j -th diagonal entry. The **t-statistic** is $\hat{w}_j/SE_j$. The **p-value** answers: "if the true coefficient were 0, how often would a t-value this large appear by chance?" A **95% confidence interval** is $\hat{w}_j \pm t* \cdot SE_j$, where $t*$ (about 1.97 for 330 degrees of freedom) is read from a t-table.

For the diabetes data (raw columns, 331 training rows), computed from scratch with NumPy and SciPy (`statsmodels` was not installed here; it gives identical numbers):

Feature	Coefficient	SE	t	p-value
const	153.07	2.96	51.8	0.0000
age	−43.3	68.5	−0.63	0.528
sex	−208.7	69.6	−3.00	0.003

bmi	593.4	75.9	7.82	0.0000
bp	302.9	78.0	3.88	0.0001
s1	−560.2	456.0	−1.23	0.220
s2	261.4	366.7	0.71	0.477
s3	−8.9	241.5	−0.04	0.971
s4	135.9	186.8	0.73	0.467
s5	703.2	189.1	3.72	0.0002
s6	28.3	73.4	0.39	0.700

(The dataset columns come pre-scaled: each column has mean 0 and its squares sum to 1, so a change of one "unit" is huge compared with the real spread of the data. That is why the coefficients look large. Only their relative size and the t-values matter here.)

Problem 2.4.1 Build the 95% confidence interval for the `bmi` coefficient and interpret it.

Formula	`ŵ ± t* · SE`, with `t* = t.ppf(0.975, 320)` (331 rows − 11 parameters = 320 degrees of freedom).
Plug in	`593.4 ± 1.967 × 75.9`
Compute	`1.967 × 75.9 = 149.3`. The interval is `593.4 − 149.3 = 444.1` to `593.4 + 149.3 = 742.7`.
Answer	The 95% CI for the BMI coefficient is about [444, 743]. Zero is far outside it.
Check	The code gave `[444.06, 742.75]`. Also `t = 593.4/75.9 = 7.82`, large, consistent with p near 0.
Why it matters	In plain words: even allowing for sampling noise, a higher BMI is linked with a higher progression score. It does not prove BMI *causes* it (confounders, Chapter 16 and the causal inference topic in the Data Science skill map).

Problem 2.4.2 Look at `s1` (SE 456, coefficient −560). Is "s1 lowers progression" a safe conclusion?

Formula	$t = \hat{w}/SE$
Plug in	$-560.2/456.0$
Compute	-1.23, p = 0.22.
Answer	No. The CI is $-560 \pm 1.967 \times 456 = [-1457, 337]$, which includes 0 and both signs.
Check	SE is large because VIF = 59.2: SE would be about $456/\sqrt{59.2} = 59$ if $s1$ had no collinear partners.
Why it matters	Collinearity makes the model uncertain about *which* serum column matters, even though the group of them together does help prediction.

Standardized coefficients

To compare the importance of features measured in different units, rescale: $\text{standardized coefficient} = \hat{w}_j \cdot \text{std}(x_j) / \text{std}(y)$. It reads "if feature j goes up by one standard deviation, the target moves by this many standard deviations". For diabetes the top ones are $s5$ 0.436, bmi 0.365, $s1$ −0.335, bp 0.181. Again $s1$ is large because it competes with $s2$ (both are unstable).

Prediction mode

For prediction, ignore p-values. Judge the model on test data. Collinearity is mostly harmless there, as long as test rows look like training rows. In 2.2 we found test RMSE 56.4 vs baseline 70.5.

Connection to the real job

Interview and stakeholder questions like "which factor matters most?" need inference care: CIs, collinearity checks, and the words "associated with" rather than "causes". Prediction questions like "how accurate is it on new data?" need a test set.

Applications

- **Data Analytics:** driver analysis, pricing studies.
- **Data Science:** A/B-test covariate adjustment.
- **Healthcare/Finance:** interpretable scoring with CIs for auditors.

- **ML:** quick feature-signal check before a complex model.

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating a small p-value as "important". With a large dataset, tiny effects have tiny p-values. Look at the size of the effect and its CI, not only the p-value.

Check yourself

1. Which number measures sampling uncertainty of a coefficient? Answer: the standard error.
2. A CI that contains 0 means what? Answer: the data cannot rule out "no effect" at that confidence level.
3. Prediction or inference: "will this customer churn?" Answer: prediction.

2.5 Curves, Interactions and Interpretable Non-Linearity

INTUITION

"Linear" in *linear regression* means linear in the **weights**, not in the raw inputs. If you feed the model x and x^2 as two columns, it can draw a curve and it is still solved by the same normal equation. You change the *ingredients*, not the recipe.

Methods

- **Polynomial features:** add x^2, x^3, … . Easy but wild at high degree (Chapter 1: degree 12 overfit).
- **Interactions:** add products such as $x_1 \cdot x_2$, for cases where the effect of one feature depends on another.
- **Splines:** cut the x-axis at points called **knots** and fit a smooth low-degree curve in each piece, joined smoothly. They are more stable than high-degree polynomials.
- **GAMs** (generalized additive models): $\hat{y} = f_1(x_1) + f_2(x_2) + \dots$, each f_j a smooth curve learned from the data. They keep the "add up effects" readability but allow curves. Libraries: `pygam` , and EBM (explainable boosting machine) in `interpret` . Not run here; see the skill map's library list.

Worked example: curve (60 noisy points from $\sin(2\pi x)$)

```
from sklearn.preprocessing import PolynomialFeatures, SplineTransformer
from sklearn.linear_model import LinearRegression
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
xs = np.sort(rng.uniform(0, 1, 60)); ys = np.sin(2*np.pi*xs) +
rng.normal(0, .3, 60)
xt = np.linspace(0, 1, 500)[:, None]; yt_ = np.sin(2*np.pi*xt[:, 0])
for name, m in [("linear", LinearRegression()),
                ("poly3", make_pipeline(PolynomialFeatures(3),
LinearRegression())),
                ("poly15", make_pipeline(PolynomialFeatures(15),
LinearRegression())),
                ("spline(6 knots,deg3)",
make_pipeline(SplineTransformer(n_knots=6, degree=3),
LinearRegression()))]:
    m.fit(xs[:, None], ys); print(name, "test MSE vs truth",
np.mean((m.predict(xt) - yt_)**2).round(4))
```

```
linear test MSE vs truth 0.1998
poly3 test MSE vs truth 0.0111
poly15 test MSE vs truth 0.0487
spline(6 knots,deg3) test MSE vs truth 0.0097
```

Explain: the straight line is badly biased (0.20). Degree 3 fixes that (0.011). Degree 15 overshoots (0.049, more variance). The spline is the best (0.0097) because it bends where needed without wild swings. The error is measured against the noise-free truth, so 0 would be perfect.

Worked example: interaction

Let `y = x_a · x_b + noise` (the effect of `x_a` flips sign depending on `x_b`). A plain linear model sees nothing:

```
no interaction  R2 = 0.037
with x_a*x_b    R2 = 0.960   coefficients [-0.0123 -0.0054  0.009  0.9892]
```

Adding one product column lifts R² from 0.04 to 0.96, and the coefficient on the product is 0.989 (true value 1). A tree-based model would find this automatically, but a linear model needs you to hand it the interaction.

Problem 2.5.1 A model for delivery time has `ŷ = 20 + 0.5·km + 8·is_rush + 0.3·(km × is_rush)`. Predict the delivery time (minutes) for a 100 km trip outside and during rush hour.

Formula	Plug into the model; `is_rush` is 0 or 1.
Plug in (outside rush hour)	`20 + 0.5·100 + 8·0 + 0.3·(100·0) = 20 + 50 = 70`.
Plug in (rush hour)	`20 + 50 + 8 + 0.3·100 = 20 + 50 + 8 + 30 = 108`.
Answer	70 minutes outside rush hour and 108 minutes in rush hour.
Check	The per-km slope is 0.5 outside rush hour and `0.5 + 0.3 = 0.8` in rush hour: from 100 to 101 km the rush-hour prediction rises by 0.8 minutes.
Why it matters	The interaction says "rush hour makes each extra kilometre cost more time". Without the product term, one slope would have to serve both situations.

Connection to the real job

Feature engineering (Data Science skill map) is where linear models become powerful: logs, ratios, bins, interactions, and splines. A regularized linear model with good features often competes with boosted trees on small tabular data.

Applications

- **Insurance and credit:** GAMs / EBMs for regulator-friendly non-linear scoring.
- **Marketing mix:** log and saturation transforms.
- **Operations and Logistics:** delivery time versus orders in the queue (a spline captures the "knee" where a queue starts to build up).
- **Forecasting:** seasonal features inside a linear model.

COMMON MISTAKE

Making polynomial features of degree 10 on unscaled data. The columns explode in size, the matrix becomes nearly singular, and the fit swings. Scale first, use low degree, or use splines with regularization.

Check yourself

1. Why is $y = a + b \cdot x + c \cdot x^2$ still "linear regression"? Answer: it is linear in the weights a, b, c.
2. What does an interaction term let the model do? Answer: let the effect of one feature depend on another feature.
3. Why splines over degree-15 polynomials? Answer: they are local and stable; polynomials swing wildly at the edges.

Chapter recap

- Linear regression finds weights that minimize the sum of squared residuals. The solution is $w = (X^T X)^{-1} X^T y$.
- The picture: $\hat{y}$ is the projection of y onto the space spanned by the feature columns; the residual is perpendicular to every column ($X^T r = 0$).
- Leverage (the diagonal of the hat matrix) tells how much each row pulls on the fit.
- Gradient descent reaches the same answer by walking downhill. It works for models with no closed form, but needs a sensible learning rate (below $2/\lambda_{max}$) and scaled features.
- The assumptions are linearity, constant variance, independent errors, no collinearity, and no wild leverage points. Each has a simple symptom you can look for.
- VIF above about 10 means coefficients are unstable. Predictions can still be fine.
- For inference, use SE, CI and the word "associated". For prediction, use a test set and a baseline.
- Linear in the weights lets you add polynomial, spline and interaction columns and still use the same solver.
- Always compare to a trivial baseline (predict the mean). Here the model's RMSE was 56.4 vs 70.5.

Formula / command	Meaning
$w = (X^T X)^{-1} X^T y$, `np.linalg.solve(X.T@X, X.T@y)`	normal equation
$w \leftarrow w - lr \cdot (2/n) \cdot X^T (Xw - y)$	gradient descent step
$lr < 2/\lambda_{max}$	stability limit
$H = X(X^T X)^{-1} X^T$, $\hat{y} = Hy$	hat matrix, leverage = `diag(H)`

$VIF = 1/(1 - R^2_j)$	collinearity measure
$SE = \sqrt{diag(\hat{\sigma}^2(X^TX)^{-1})}$, $CI = \hat{w} \pm t_* \cdot SE$	uncertainty of coefficients
$R^2 = 1 - SSE/SST$	share of error removed vs the mean baseline
`LinearRegression()`, `PolynomialFeatures`, `SplineTransformer`	scikit-learn tools

Practice set

1. (easy) Points $(0,1), (1,3), (2,5)$. Find the line. **Answer:** exactly on $y = 1 + 2x$; residuals are all 0. Check: slope $= (5-1)/2 = 2$.
2. (easy) With $\hat{y} = 10 + 4x$, what is the residual for $x=3,\ y=25$? **Answer:** $\hat{y} = 22$, residual $25 - 22 = +3$.
3. (easy) What is the output? `np.c_[np.ones(2), [5, 7]]`. **Answer:** `[[1., 5.], [1., 7.]]`.
4. (medium) For $x = [1,2,3,4]$, $y = [2,4,5,9]$, compute slope and intercept. **Answer:** $\bar{x} = 2.5$, $\bar{y} = 5$. $Sxy = (-1.5)(-3) + (-0.5)(-1) + (0.5)(0) + (1.5)(4) = 4.5 + 0.5 + 0 + 6 = 11$. $Sxx = 2.25 + 0.25 + 0.25 + 2.25 = 5$. Slope 2.2, intercept $5 - 2.2 \times 2.5 = -0.5$.
5. (medium) Do one gradient-descent step on those four points from $w = [0,0]$, $lr = 0.05$. **Answer:** $Xw - y = [-2,-4,-5,-9]$; $X^T(...)$: $[-20, -(2 + 8 + 15 + 36)] = [-20, -61]$; gradient $(2/4)\cdot[-20, -61] = [-10, -30.5]$; $w = [0.5, 1.525]$.
6. (medium) Find the bug: `w = np.linalg.inv(X.T @ X) @ X.T @ y` returns huge unstable numbers when two columns are duplicates. **Answer:** X^TX is singular. Drop the duplicate, use `lstsq` /ridge, and check VIF or the condition number.
7. (medium) A model has train RMSE 12 and test RMSE 12.5; the baseline (mean) test RMSE is 13. Is it good? **Answer:** There is no overfit, but the gain over the baseline is tiny (4 percent). The features carry little signal.
8. (medium) Gradient descent prints `nan` after 5 steps. List two causes. **Answer:** learning rate too large (above $2/\lambda_max$); unscaled features with huge values. Fix with scaling and a smaller lr.
9. (hard, scenario) Your team's regression says each extra courier on shift adds 3 minutes to

the average delivery time, but the standard error is 4 minutes. Report it. **Answer:** The estimate is 3 minutes with 95% CI about `3 ± 7.8 = [−4.8, 10.8]`. The data cannot tell whether more couriers slow things down, speed things up, or do nothing; collect more data.

10. (hard) Compute the leverage sum for 3 points with 2 parameters. **Answer:** equals 2 (the number of parameters); our values were `0.833 + 0.333 + 0.833`.
11. (interview) "What is the difference between R^2 and RMSE, and when would you prefer each?" **Answer:** RMSE is in the units of the target (minutes, rupees), so it says how far off you are. R^2 is unit-free and says how much better you are than guessing the mean, so it compares models on the same data but not across different datasets. Report both plus a baseline.
12. (interview) "A coefficient changed sign when you added a feature. Why?" **Answer:** the new feature is correlated with the old one (collinearity) or is an omitted confounder; the coefficient measures the effect holding the others fixed, so the meaning changes with the set of features.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language, so use short sentences. Topic: deriving the normal equation for linear regression and the geometric view of least squares as projection. Walk me through it step by step with a 3-point example, then ask me to solve a similar 4-point example and check my answer. Define every symbol the first time you use it.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and learning ML, English is my second language. Topic: gradient descent for linear regression, learning rate limits and why feature scaling matters. Explain with an analogy first, then give me 8 graded exercises with real numbers (two by hand, the rest in NumPy) without solutions. After I answer each, show the correct steps and explain my mistakes.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: assumptions of linear regression (linearity, constant variance, independent errors, collinearity, leverage) and how to detect each one. Quiz me one question at a time using small residual tables and VIF numbers. Wait for my answer before giving the next question and tell me why each answer is right or wrong.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: inference versus prediction in linear regression: standard errors, confidence intervals, p-values and collinearity. Here is my regression output: [PASTE COEFFICIENT TABLE HERE]. Review it, tell me what I can and cannot conclude, which numbers worry you, and how to explain it to a non-technical manager in five sentences.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: linear regression from scratch in NumPy compared with scikit-learn, plus polynomial, spline and interaction features. Run a mock interview: ask me one question at a time, wait for my answer, grade it out of 10, give a model answer, then ask a harder follow-up. Include at least two coding questions.

CHAPTER 3

REGULARIZATION AND MODEL COMPLEXITY

Ridge, lasso and elastic net: how a small penalty turns an unstable model into a stable one.

In Chapter 2 you met a model whose two cholesterol coefficients had standard errors so large that their signs meant nothing. Real tables have dozens or hundreds of columns, many of them near-copies of each other, and often fewer rows than columns. A plain least-squares fit on such data memorizes noise. Regularization is the cheap, powerful fix: add a small penalty on the size of the weights, and the model becomes calmer. You will derive ridge regression, solve lasso by the soft-threshold rule, watch coefficients shrink and vanish on real data, choose the penalty strength with cross-validation, and learn why feature scaling changes the answer. By the end you will know when to reach for ridge, lasso or elastic net, and what each one assumes.

Reminder: norms ($\|w\|_2$, $\|w\|_1$) and the prior view of regularization are covered in the Math PDF (Pillar 5) and in Chapter 1 of this book ($\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$). Here we put them to work.

3.1 Ridge Regression (L2): Shrinking Everything a Little

INTUITION

A manager gives a team a budget of "points" to spread over the features. Giving a big weight to one feature is expensive. A model that can only afford small weights cannot make wild swings to chase noise. It is like driving with a speed limiter: you still get there, you just cannot swerve. Ridge puts the cost on the *squared* size of each weight, so it dislikes one huge weight more than several moderate ones, and it prefers to share credit among correlated features.

Words you need

Word	Plain meaning
Penalty / regularizer	an extra cost added to the loss that grows with the size of the weights
λ (lambda) or	how strong the penalty is. 0 means no penalty. Bigger means smaller

`alpha`	weights
L2 norm squared	$\Sigma\ w_j^2$, the sum of squared weights
Shrinkage	pulling coefficients toward zero
Intercept	never penalized (it only sets the average level)

Formal definition

$$\text{ridge loss}(w) = \Sigma\ (y_i - x_i \cdot w)^2 \ + \ \lambda\ \Sigma\ w_j^2$$

Derivation: the loss is $(y - Xw)^T(y - Xw) + \lambda\ w^Tw$. The gradient is $-2X^T(y - Xw) + 2\lambda w$. Setting it to zero gives $X^TXw + \lambda w = X^Ty$, so

$$w_{ridge} = (X^TX + \lambda\ I)^{-1}\ X^T\ y$$

Compare with Chapter 2: the only change is adding λ to the diagonal of X^TX. This has a lovely side effect. If X^TX was singular (duplicate columns) or nearly singular, adding λ on the diagonal makes it invertible and well-behaved. This is the reason for the name "ridge": you add a ridge along the diagonal.

Why not just drop correlated columns? You can, but then you must decide which one to drop. Ridge keeps all of them and shares the credit.

Problem 3.1.1 Use the centred three-point data from Chapter 2: $x = [-1, 0, 1]$ (the original $1,2,3$ minus the mean 2) and $y - \bar{y} = [-4/3, -1/3, 5/3]$. Find the OLS slope and the ridge slope for $\lambda = 1$ and $\lambda = 2$. (With one feature and centred data, $w = Sxy/(Sxx + \lambda)$.)

Formula	$w = \Sigma xy \;/\; (\Sigma x^2 + \lambda)$
Plug in	$\Sigma xy = (-1)(-4/3) + 0 + (1)(5/3) = 4/3 + 5/3 = 3$. $\Sigma x^2 = 1 + 0 + 1 = 2$.
Compute	OLS ($\lambda = 0$): $3/2 = 1.5$. Ridge $\lambda = 1$: $3/(2+1) = 1.0$. Ridge $\lambda = 2$: $3/(2+2) = 0.75$.
Answer	The slope shrinks from 1.5 to 1.0 to 0.75 as λ rises. It never reaches exactly 0.
Check	Run `Sxy/(Sxx+lam)` in NumPy: it prints `1.5, 1.0, 0.75`. As $\lambda \to \infty$ the slope goes to 0, as expected.
Why it matters	Ridge turns a "confident" slope into a "cautious" slope. When data is noisy, caution predicts better on new rows.

Problem 3.1.2 Interpret ridge as MAP (see Chapter 1). Noise has standard deviation $\sigma = 2$, and you believe each weight is roughly $N(0, \tau^2)$ with $\tau = 1$. What λ does that belief imply?

Formula	$\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$
Plug in	$\lambda = 2^2/1^2$
Compute	$4/1 = 4$
Answer	$\lambda = 4$. A tighter belief ($\tau = 0.5$) would give $\lambda = 16$.
Check	σ^2/τ^2 has no units mismatch: both are variances of the same quantity.
Why it matters	λ is not magic. It is the ratio "how noisy is the data" over "how big do I expect the weights to be".

Ridge on real data

Diabetes data again (Chapter 2): 331 training rows, features standardized with training statistics. Our own ridge (`np.linalg.solve(Z.T@Z + lam*np.eye(p), Z.T@(y - y.mean()))`, intercept $\bar{y}$) matches scikit-learn's `Ridge(alpha=10)` to 4×10^{-14}.

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.datasets import load_diabetes
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
d = load_diabetes()
Xtr, Xte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(d.data, d.target, test_size=.25,
random_state=0)
sc = StandardScaler().fit(Xtr); Ztr, Zte = sc.transform(Xtr),
sc.transform(Xte); ym = ytr.mean()
def ridge(Z, y, lam):
    p = Z.shape[1]; return np.linalg.solve(Z.T @ Z + lam * np.eye(p), Z.T
@ (y - y.mean()))
rm = lambda a, p: np.sqrt(np.mean((a - p) ** 2))
print("lam | test RMSE | norm | s1 s2 coef")
for lam in [0, 1, 10, 100, 1000]:
    w = ridge(Ztr, ytr, lam); print(lam, round(rm(yte, Zte @ w + ym), 3),
round(np.linalg.norm(w), 1), w[4:6].round(1))
```

Predict first: as λ grows from 0 to 1000, will the test error fall forever? Output:

```
lam | test RMSE | norm | s1 s2 coef
0 56.393 56.8 [-26.5  12.4]
1 56.457 51.8 [-20.4   7.6]
10 56.453 44.0 [-7.4 -2.5]
100 55.521 35.6 [-1.5 -4.6]
1000 59.129 15.9 [1.2 0.1]
```

Explain: the weight vector norm falls steadily (56.8 to 15.9). The collinear pair `s1`, `s2` (coefficients −26.5 and +12.4 with opposite signs, a classic collinearity pattern) settles to small values as λ grows. Test error improves a little at $\lambda = 100$ (55.5), then rises (59.1 at 1000) because the model is now too stiff: bias has taken over. This is the bias-variance curve of Chapter 1, with λ as the complexity knob (large λ means a simple model). The gain on this dataset is small because the problem has only 10 columns and 331 rows; ridge pays off much more with more columns (3.4).

Coefficient paths for ridge (left) and lasso (right) on the diabetes data. The horizontal axis is the penalty strength on a log scale, the vertical axis is each coefficient. Ridge curves bend smoothly toward zero. Lasso curves hit exactly zero one by one.

How to read it: each coloured line is one feature's coefficient. Move from left (no penalty) to right

(strong penalty). On the left panel all lines glide to zero together and none touches zero until the very end. On the right panel lines snap to zero and stay there.

Connection to the real job

- `Ridge` is a good default for linear models with many correlated features (marketing mix, sensor data, text TF-IDF).
- It makes the linear model's predictions stable when features are noisy or nearly duplicated.
- Many deep-learning libraries call the same idea **weight decay**.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** ridge baselines for high-dimensional tabular data; weight decay in neural nets.
- **Data Science:** marketing-mix models where channels are correlated.
- **Finance:** covariance and return models (the "shrinkage estimator" idea).
- **Genomics and text:** many more columns than rows.

COMMON MISTAKE

Penalizing the intercept, or choosing λ on the training error. Training error always prefers $\lambda = 0$. Choose λ with validation or cross-validation (3.3).

Check yourself

1. What does ridge add to X^TX? Answer: λ times the identity matrix (λ on the diagonal).
2. Does ridge ever set a coefficient to exactly zero? Answer: not in practice; it only shrinks.
3. When $\lambda \to \infty$, what do the non-intercept weights become and what does the model predict? Answer: all weights go to 0; it predicts the training mean.

3.2 Lasso (L1) and Elastic Net: Sparsity

INTUITION

Ridge says "keep everybody on the team, but give them smaller roles". Lasso says "you have a limited number of seats; some of you are out". The L1 penalty charges a *flat price per unit of weight* ($|w|$), so a feature that does not earn at least that price is cut to exactly zero. That is automatic feature selection. The name stands for *Least Absolute Shrinkage and Selection Operator*. **Elastic net** is a blend of both penalties: it keeps the zeroing of lasso but shares credit among correlated features like ridge.

Formal definition

$$\text{lasso loss}(w) = (1/2n)\ \Sigma\ (y_i - x_i \cdot w)^2 \ +\ \alpha\ \Sigma\ |w_j|$$
$$\text{elastic net} \ = (1/2n)\ \Sigma\ (...)^2 + \alpha\ [\ \rho\ \Sigma|w_j| + (1-\rho)/2\ \Sigma\ w_j^2\ ]$$

Here ρ is the `l1_ratio` in scikit-learn (1 means pure lasso, 0 means pure ridge). Scikit-learn divides the squared error by $2n$; that is why its `alpha` has a different scale from the ridge `alpha` above.

There is no closed formula for many features, because $|w|$ has a sharp corner at 0. Instead we use **coordinate descent**: update one weight at a time, holding the others fixed, and cycle through them. Each one-weight update has a neat closed form, the **soft-threshold** rule.

Deriving the soft threshold. For one feature, ignoring the others (standardized so that $(1/n)\Sigma x^2 = 1$), let $\rho = (1/n)\ \Sigma\ x\ r$ be the correlation-like number "how much the feature explains the current leftover r ". The loss for the weight is $\tfrac{1}{2}(w - \rho)^2 + \alpha|w|$ plus a constant. For $w > 0$ the slope is $(w - \rho) + \alpha$; setting to zero gives $w = \rho - \alpha$, which is valid only if $\rho > \alpha$. For $w < 0$ we get $w = \rho + \alpha$, valid if $\rho < -\alpha$. If $|\rho| \le \alpha$ neither works, so the minimum sits at the corner $w = 0$. In one line:

$$w = \text{sign}(\rho) \cdot \max(|\rho| - \alpha,\ 0)$$

In words: shrink toward zero by α ; if you would cross zero, stop at zero.

Problem 3.2.1 Same three centred points ($Sxy = 3$, $Sxx = 2$). Use the form $\tfrac{1}{2}\Sigma(y - wx)^2 + \lambda|w|$ (no $1/n$). Find the lasso slope for $\lambda = 1$ and $\lambda = 3$.

Formula	`w = sign(Sxy) · max(|Sxy| − λ, 0) / Sxx`
Plug in	`λ = 1`: `max(3 − 1, 0)/2 = 2/2`. `λ = 3`: `max(3 − 3, 0)/2 = 0/2`.
Compute	`λ = 1` gives `w = 1.0`. `λ = 3` gives `w = 0`.
Answer	At `λ = 1` the slope is 1.0 (the same as ridge `λ = 1` by coincidence); at `λ = 3` the feature is dropped completely.
Check	At `w = 1`: loss `= ½[(−4/3 + 1)² + (−1/3)² + (5/3 − 1)²] + 1·1 = ½[0.1111 + 0.1111 + 0.4444] + 1 = 1.3333`. At `w = 1.1`: `½[(−1.3333+1.1)² + (−0.3333)² + (1.6667−1.1)²] + 1.1 = ½[0.0544+0.1111+0.3211] + 1.1 = 1.3433`. At `w = 0.9`: the residuals are `−0.4333, −0.3333, 0.7667`, squares `0.1878, 0.1111, 0.5878`, sum 0.8867, half is 0.4433, plus 0.9 gives 1.3433. So 1.0 beats both neighbours.
Why it matters	Ridge slope shrinks smoothly; lasso slope sits at an exact zero once the evidence is weaker than the penalty. That is the mechanism of feature selection.

The geometry: why L1 gives zeros

Two panels. Left: the L2 budget is a circle; blue ellipses are error contours around the unconstrained best weights; the touching point has both weights non-zero. Right: the L1 budget is a diamond; the contours first touch at a corner where one weight is exactly zero.

Read it this way. Each axis is one weight. The black dot is the best weights without any penalty (smallest error). The blue ellipses are weight pairs with equal error, getting worse outward. The penalty says "stay inside the orange shape". You want the blue ellipse that just touches the orange shape. A circle has no corners, so the touching point is generic: both weights are non-zero. A diamond has sharp corners on the axes, and an ellipse coming from a distance usually reaches a corner first. At a corner one weight is zero.

Lasso on the diabetes data

We implemented coordinate descent with the soft threshold in NumPy and compared it with `sklearn.linear_model.Lasso`:

```
soft = lambda z, t: np.sign(z) * max(abs(z) - t, 0)
def lasso_cd(Z, y, a, it=500):
    n, p = Z.shape; w = np.zeros(p); yc = y - y.mean()
    for _ in range(it):
        for j in range(p):
            r = yc - Z @ w + Z[:, j] * w[j]          # leftover without
feature j
            rho = Z[:, j] @ r / n
            w[j] = soft(rho, a) / (Z[:, j] @ Z[:, j] / n)
    return w
```

Results (alpha is the scikit-learn alpha; `maxdiff` is the largest difference of a coefficient from `Lasso(alpha=a, tol=1e-10)`):

alpha	non-zero features (of 10)	max diff vs sklearn	test RMSE
0.1	10	0.0009	56.54
1	8	0.0000	56.56
5	5	0.0000	57.03
10	4	0.0000	57.60

At `alpha = 5` the surviving coefficients (in the units of the standardized features) are `bmi 28.0`, `s5 22.4`, `bp 8.4`, `s3 −7.3`, `sex −1.4`; the other five are exactly 0. Five features give a test RMSE of 57.0 against 56.4 for all ten, so the five-feature model loses almost nothing and is much easier to explain. `s1` and `s2` (the collinear pair) were dropped first.

Collinear twins: ridge, lasso, elastic net behave differently

We make two nearly identical columns (`x` and `x + tiny noise`) with true effect 3 on `x`:

```
OLS         [1.371 1.629]    (unstable split, sum 3.0)
ridge       [1.494 1.499]    (shares evenly)
lasso       [2.909 0.001]    (picks one twin)
elastic net [1.443 1.444]    (shares, with a little shrinkage)
```

Interpretation: OLS splits the 3 in a random way. Ridge splits it evenly. Lasso picks one twin (and which twin it picks can change with a different sample, which is unstable). Elastic net, with `l1_ratio = 0.5`, shares. Elastic net is usually the safest sparse choice when you have

groups of correlated features.

Method	Penalty	Zeros?	Correlated features	Good for
Ridge	Σw^2	no	shares credit	many small effects; collinearity
Lasso	`Σ	w	`	yes	
Elastic net	mix	yes	shares credit	few groups of related effects

Connection to the real job

Lasso as a screening tool: "out of 300 candidate features, 12 survive" is a sentence in many reports. Remember the survivors are those the *model* used, not proven causes.

Applications

- **Data Science:** automatic selection among hundreds of engineered features.
- **Genomics:** thousands of genes, hundreds of patients.
- **Text classification:** sparse L1 logistic regression keeps a short list of words.
- **MLOps:** a sparse model is cheaper to serve and easier to monitor.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading lasso's choice as "these are the only important features". Between two correlated features, lasso keeps one almost arbitrarily. Re-run on a bootstrap sample to see how stable the selection is.

Check yourself

1. In `w = sign(ρ)·max(|ρ| − α, 0)` what happens if `|ρ| = 0.3` and `α = 0.5`? Answer: `w = 0`; the feature is removed.
2. Which penalty gives exact zeros? Answer: L1 (lasso, and elastic net when `l1_ratio > 0`).
3. Two near-duplicate features, you want both kept and shrunk similarly. Which? Answer: ridge or elastic net.

3.3 Choosing the Strength by Cross-Validation, and Why

Scaling Matters

INTUITION

The penalty strength λ is a hyperparameter: the training data cannot tell you its value (it always wants $\lambda = 0$). So you hide a piece of data, try many values of λ, and pick the one that predicts the hidden piece best. To make this fair and less noisy, you do it five or ten times with a different hidden piece each time. That is **k-fold cross-validation**. The second part: the penalty counts weight *sizes*, and the size of a weight depends on the units of its feature. So we must put all features on the same scale first.

How k-fold cross-validation works

1. Shuffle rows and split into k equal folds (here $k = 5$).
2. For each fold: train on the other 4, test on the held-out fold, record the error.
3. Average the k errors. That is the CV score for this λ.
4. Repeat for each candidate λ and choose the best (or the largest λ within one standard error of the best, the "one-standard-error rule", which prefers the simpler model).

Chapter 8 covers the design issues (groups, time) in depth.

```
from sklearn.linear_model import Ridge, RidgeCV
from sklearn.model_selection import KFold, cross_val_score
alphas = np.logspace(-2, 3, 11)
for a in alphas:
    s = -cross_val_score(Ridge(alpha=a), Ztr, ytr, cv=KFold(5,
shuffle=True, random_state=0),
                         scoring="neg_root_mean_squared_error").mean()
    print(round(a, 3), round(s, 2))
```

```
0.01 54.09
0.032 54.09
0.1 54.09
0.316 54.09
1.0 54.08
3.162 54.07
10.0 54.03
31.623 54.03
100.0 54.8
316.228 58.14
1000.0 64.69
```

The CV curve is flat from 0.01 to about 30 and rises sharply after 100. `RidgeCV` picks `alpha = 31.6` ; its test RMSE is 56.11 (plain OLS: 56.39). The honest summary: on this dataset regularization helps by about 0.3 RMSE units, which is small compared with the noise of the estimate. When the CV curve is flat, pick the stronger penalty (simpler model) or just say it does not matter. `LassoCV` picked `alpha = 1.14` and kept 8 features with test RMSE 56.54; `ElasticNetCV` chose `l1_ratio = 0.9` , `alpha = 0.416` , 10 features, test RMSE 56.35.

PROFESSOR'S NOTE

Look at what those numbers say as a whole. Linear regression, ridge, lasso, and elastic net all land between 56.1 and 56.5 on the test set. The differences are inside the noise of a 111-row test set. A good practitioner reports that, instead of declaring a winner. Chapter 10 shows how to test whether such differences are real.

Scaling changes the answer for regularized models

OLS gives the same predictions whatever the units. Ridge and lasso do not, because they charge for the numeric size of the weights. Experiment: $y = 2 \cdot x_1 + 0.02 \cdot x_2 + \text{noise}$, with x_1 of standard deviation 1 and x_2 of standard deviation 100 (so both features matter equally: $2 \times 1 = 2$, $0.02 \times 100 = 2$).

```
unscaled: ridge(alpha=10000) [0.061 0.021]   OLS [2.042 0.021]
scaled:   ridge(alpha=10000) [0.063 0.061]   OLS (scaled) [2.078 2.003]
```

Unscaled: the small-unit feature x_1 needs a large weight (2.04) so it is crushed by the penalty (to 0.061), while x_2 needs only a tiny weight (0.021) so the penalty barely touches it (0.021). The penalty was unfair, purely due to units. After standardizing, both features are treated alike

(0.063 and 0.061). Rule: **always standardize before ridge, lasso or elastic net**, and fit the scaler inside the cross-validation (Chapter 8) so that scale statistics come from training folds only.

Problem 3.3.1 A 5-fold CV for $\lambda = 1$ gives fold errors (RMSE) $52, 55, 53, 58, 52$. For $\lambda = 100$ the errors are $54, 55, 54, 57, 54$. Which λ do you choose?

Formula	CV score = mean of fold errors; also look at the spread.
Plug in	$\lambda = 1$: $(52+55+53+58+52)/5$. $\lambda = 100$: $(54+55+54+57+54)/5$.
Compute	$270/5 = 54.0$ and $274/5 = 54.8$.
Answer	$\lambda = 1$ has the lower mean (54.0 vs 54.8). The sample standard deviation of the $\lambda = 1$ fold errors is about 2.55, so a "one standard error" band is about $2.55/\sqrt{5} = 1.14$. The difference (0.8) is smaller than that band, so the two are statistically tied and $\lambda = 100$ (the simpler model) is a defensible choice under the one-standard-error rule.
Check	Mean of squares of deviations for $\lambda = 1$: deviations $-2, 1, -1, 4, -2$ squares $4, 1, 1, 16, 4 = 26$; divided by 4 gives 6.5; square root 2.55 ✓.
Why it matters	A tiny gap in the mean is not a reason to prefer a model. Fold-to-fold noise decides.

Connection to the real job

Pipelines (`make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), RidgeCV())`) are the standard way to keep scaling inside CV. In production the same fitted scaler must be saved and reused at serving time (Chapter 16).

Applications

- **ML:** tuning `alpha` for linear models, `C` for SVMs and logistic regression.
- **Data Science:** feature-selection screening with LassoCV.
- **MLOps:** saving the whole pipeline object, not only the model.

COMMON MISTAKE

Standardizing on the full dataset before splitting. The scaler then "saw" the validation rows. It is mild here but it is the first step on the road to leakage (Chapter 8).

Check yourself

1. Why can't we pick λ using training error? Answer: it always picks $\lambda = 0$ (the most flexible fit).
2. Why standardize before ridge? Answer: the penalty depends on weight size, which depends on feature units.
3. What does the one-standard-error rule choose? Answer: the simplest model whose CV error is within one standard error of the best.

3.4 When Regularization Really Pays: p > n, Collinearity, and the Toolkit

INTUITION

If you have 30 patients and 100 measurements, there are infinitely many weight vectors that fit the training data perfectly. The data cannot choose between them. Regularization is the tie-breaker: "among all the perfect fits, prefer the simplest (smallest or sparsest)". That is exactly the situation where it shines. It is also a way of saying "I have an opinion about what a reasonable solution looks like", which we called the prior in Chapter 1.

Experiment: 30 rows, 100 columns, 3 real signals

True weights are `[3, −2, 1.5, 0, …, 0]`. The other 97 columns are pure noise. Test on 1,000 fresh rows.

```
OLS (minimum-norm solution)  test RMSE 3.443
Ridge alpha=10               test RMSE 3.451
Lasso alpha=0.2              test RMSE 0.688   (10 non-zero coefficients;
includes columns 0, 1, 2)
```

The noise standard deviation is 0.5, so 0.5 is the best achievable. Ridge does not help here: it shrinks all 100 weights, but 97 of them are noise and ridge keeps a little of each, so the model's

error stays at 3.45. Lasso knows (by its assumption) that "few features matter", and that assumption is true here, so it wins by a large margin (0.69). This is inductive bias (Chapter 1) in action: pick the regularizer whose assumption matches the world. If instead the truth has many small effects, ridge wins.

The regularization toolkit (preview of later chapters)

Tool	What it limits	Where you see it
L2 / weight decay	size of weights	ridge, SVM `C`, neural nets
L1	number of non-zero weights	lasso, sparse logistic regression
Early stopping	how long we train	boosting, neural nets (Chapters 7, 11)
Simpler model / smaller depth	capacity	trees (`max_depth`)
More data	variance	always helps if the model is flexible
Dropout, augmentation	co-adaptation, overfit to exact inputs	neural nets (Deep Learning skill map)
Ensembling (bagging)	variance	random forests (Chapter 6)

Model complexity in one table

Model	Complexity knob	Direction that adds complexity
Linear	number of features, `1/λ`	more features, smaller `λ`
Polynomial	degree	higher degree
k-NN	`k`	smaller `k`
Tree	depth, min samples per leaf	deeper, smaller leaves
Boosting	trees, learning rate, depth	more trees, bigger rate, deeper

SVM (RBF)	`C`, `gamma`	larger `C`, larger `gamma`

Problem 3.4.1 A regression has 500 rows and 800 columns. You run OLS with `np.linalg.lstsq`. Training RMSE is 0.000. Explain, and name two fixes.

Formula	A linear model with `p` parameters can fit any `n ≤ p` points exactly (when columns are independent).
Plug in	`p = 800 + 1 = 801 > n = 500`.
Compute	There is more freedom than data, so the residuals can all be made zero.
Answer	The training RMSE of 0 is memorization, not skill. Fixes: ridge or lasso with `λ` chosen by CV; or reduce columns first (Chapter 13).
Check	Shuffle the target and refit: you will still get training RMSE 0 (this is a quick sanity test, Chapter 10). If a fit is "perfect" even on random labels, it says nothing.
Why it matters	A perfect training fit is a warning sign, never a result.

Problem 3.4.2 Lasso (`alpha = 5`) removed `s1` and `s2`, yet a colleague says "serum cholesterol does not matter for diabetes". Respond.

Formula	Lasso keeps one of a correlated group and drops the others.
Plug in	`s1` and `s2` have VIFs 59 and 39 (Chapter 2).
Compute	The pair carries one shared signal. Lasso zeroed both, but `s3` and `s5` (other blood-serum columns) survived.
Answer	The conclusion is too strong. The model found that, given the other columns, `s1` and `s2` add little extra. That is a statement about this model and this data, not about biology.
Check	Refit with `s1` only (drop `s2` and others) and compare; or use elastic net, which shares credit.
Why it matters	Feature selection is model-dependent. Avoid causal language.

Connection to the real job

When a recruiter-style question asks "what do you do when you have more features than rows?", the answer has three parts: regularize (L1 if you believe in sparsity, L2 otherwise), reduce dimension, and validate with repeated CV because variance is high.

Applications

- **Genomics / biostatistics:** $p \gg n$ is the norm.
- **NLP bag-of-words:** 100,000 columns, sparse L1/L2 logistic regression is a strong baseline.
- **Sensor data / telecom:** thousands of correlated counters.
- **Quant finance:** shrinkage for stable portfolio weights.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using ridge and expecting it to select features. It will not. If you need a short list, use lasso, elastic net, or a tree-based importance with caution (Chapter 6).

Check yourself

1. When $p > n$, can OLS achieve zero training error? Answer: yes, usually, and that tells you nothing about test error.
2. Which regularizer fits "I believe only a few features matter"? Answer: L1 (lasso).
3. Which fits "many small effects"? Answer: L2 (ridge).

Chapter recap

- Regularization adds a penalty on weight size to the loss. It lowers variance at the price of a little bias.
- Ridge: $w = (X^TX + \lambda I)^{-1}X^Ty$. It shrinks all weights smoothly, fixes singular or collinear problems, and shares credit among correlated features.
- Lasso: L1 penalty. Each coordinate update is the soft threshold, so weak features go to exactly zero.
- Elastic net blends both. It is the usual safe choice with groups of correlated features.
- Geometry: L2's budget is a round ball (no corners, no zeros). L1's budget is a diamond with corners on the axes (zeros).
- λ is a hyperparameter. Choose it by cross-validation, never by training error. If the CV

curve is flat, prefer the simpler model.

- Standardize features first (inside the CV pipeline). Penalties depend on units.
- Match the regularizer to the world: few true signals favour lasso, many small effects favour ridge.
- On the diabetes data all linear variants gave RMSE between 56.1 and 56.5, which is the same within noise.

Formula / command	Meaning
$w = (X^TX + \lambda I)^{-1}X^Ty$	ridge solution
$w = \text{sign}(\rho)\cdot\max(\|\rho\| - \alpha, 0)$	soft threshold (lasso update)
$\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$	ridge as Gaussian prior
`Ridge(alpha)`, `Lasso(alpha)`, `ElasticNet(alpha, l1_ratio)`	scikit-learn
`RidgeCV`, `LassoCV`, `ElasticNetCV`	built-in CV for the penalty
`make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), Ridge())`	scaling inside the model

Practice set

1. (easy) With `Sxy = 6`, `Sxx = 4`, find OLS and ridge (`λ = 2`) slopes. **Answer:** OLS `6/4 = 1.5`; ridge `6/(4+2) = 1.0`.
2. (easy) What is the soft threshold of `ρ = −0.8` with `α = 0.3`? **Answer:** `sign(−0.8) · max(0.8 − 0.3, 0) = −0.5`.
3. (easy) What does `alpha=0` mean in `Ridge`? **Answer:** no penalty, the same as OLS.
4. (medium) With `Sxy = 3`, `Sxx = 2`, at what `λ` does the lasso slope become exactly 0? **Answer:** when `λ ≥ |Sxy| = 3`.
5. (medium) What is the output? `Ridge(alpha=1e9).fit(X, y).coef_` on standardized data. **Answer:** values extremely close to 0 (the model predicts almost the mean).
6. (medium) Find the bug: `scaler.fit(X_all)` then `train_test_split`, then `RidgeCV`. **Answer:** the scaler saw the test rows. Split first, fit the scaler on train (or put it in a pipeline).
7. (medium) You see a coefficient table where `bmi` has weight 28 and `age` 0.0 from

`LassoCV`. A manager asks "does age matter?" **Answer:** not given the other features in this model; it may still correlate with them. Do not claim age has no effect on the outcome.

8. (medium) $\lambda = 4$, $\sigma = 2$. What prior standard deviation τ? **Answer:** $\tau^2 = \sigma^2/\lambda = 4/4 = 1$, so $\tau = 1$.
9. (hard, scenario) Telecom: 5,000 counters, 800 labelled outages. You need a model the on-call team can read. **Answer:** standardize, use L1 or elastic-net logistic regression (Chapter 4), choose α by grouped CV (group by device), report the short list with its stability across bootstrap resamples.
10. (hard) Show that adding λ to the diagonal of X^TX always makes it invertible. **Answer:** X^TX is positive semi-definite (eigenvalues ≥ 0). Adding $\lambda > 0$ makes every eigenvalue at least $\lambda > 0$, and a matrix with no zero eigenvalue is invertible.
11. (interview) "L1 vs L2?" **Answer:** Both shrink weights. L2 shrinks smoothly, never to exactly zero, and shares credit between correlated features. L1 shrinks by a constant amount and sets weak features to zero, giving feature selection but unstable choices among correlated features. Probabilistically, L2 is a Gaussian prior and L1 a Laplace prior. Elastic net blends them.
12. (interview) "Why must you standardize before lasso?" **Answer:** the penalty is on the size of the coefficient. A feature measured in small units needs a large coefficient and would be penalized more. Standardizing makes the penalty fair.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and learning ML, English is my second language, so
use simple words. Topic: ridge regression: the closed-form solution, why
adding lambda to the diagonal helps with collinearity, and shrinkage.
Teach it with a 3-point example, then give me 6 graded exercises with
numbers, wait for my answers, and check each step.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: lasso and
the soft-threshold rule, and why L1 produces exact zeros (the diamond-
versus-circle picture). Explain with an analogy, then ask me to compute
three soft-threshold values and to explain the picture in my own words.
```

Correct me kindly and explain the reasoning.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and learning ML, English is my second language. Topic: choosing the regularization strength with k-fold cross-validation and the one-standard-error rule, and why features must be standardized first. Here are my fold errors for several alpha values: [PASTE HERE]. Review them, tell me which alpha to pick and why, and warn me about any leakage mistake in my setup.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: ridge vs lasso vs elastic net for correlated features and for p greater than n. Quiz me one question at a time with small scenarios (duplicate columns, 100 columns and 30 rows, thousands of text features). After each answer tell me the better answer and the reasoning.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for data science interviews, English is my second language. Topic: regularization, bias-variance and L1 versus L2 including the Bayesian prior view. Run a mock interview: one question at a time, wait for my answer, score it out of 10, show a model answer in simple English, and then ask a harder follow-up.

CHAPTER 4

LOGISTIC REGRESSION AND CLASSIFICATION

From a score to a probability: sigmoid, log-odds, the gradient of log loss, decision boundaries, softmax and generalized linear models.

A bank wants to know "will this customer default?", a hospital wants "is this tumour malignant?", a clinic wants "will this patient miss the appointment?". These are yes-or-no questions, and a straight-line regression (Chapter 2) gives answers like 1.7 or −0.3, which are not probabilities. Logistic regression fixes that with one small trick: pass the straight-line score through an S-shaped curve so the output always lies between 0 and 1. It is still one of the most used models in industry (credit scoring, ad click prediction, medical risk), and it is the building block of every neural-network classifier. In this chapter you will derive the gradient of the loss with your own hands (the most common ML interview derivation), build the model from scratch in NumPy, match scikit-learn to six decimal places, read coefficients as odds ratios, handle imbalanced classes with weights, extend to many classes with softmax, and meet the count and money models (Poisson, Gamma, Tweedie) that live in the same family. You will also see why a single linear unit cannot learn XOR, which is why we need networks.

Prerequisites: Chapter 1 (log loss as Bernoulli maximum likelihood), Chapter 2 (the linear score and gradient descent), Chapter 3 (regularization). Derivative rules: Math PDF, Pillar 2.

4.1 Sigmoid, Probability, Odds and Log-Odds

INTUITION

Bookmakers do not say "40 percent chance"; they say "3 to 2 against". That is **odds**. Odds are a natural scale for evidence: each clue multiplies the odds. Taking the logarithm turns "multiplying" into "adding", and adding is what a linear model does. So logistic regression says: the *log-odds* of the outcome is a straight line in the features. The sigmoid is the translator that turns log-odds back into a probability.

Words you need

Word	Meaning	Formula	Example

Probability `p`	chance of the event, 0 to 1		0.8
Odds	chance for divided by chance against	`p/(1−p)`	`0.8/0.2 = 4` ("4 to 1")
Log-odds (logit)	natural log of the odds	`ln(p/(1−p))`	`ln 4 = 1.386`
Sigmoid (logistic function)	maps any number to (0, 1)	`σ(z) = 1/(1+e⁻ᶻ)`	`σ(1.386) = 0.8`
Score `z`	linear combination of features	`z = w·x + b`	

Why is it called "logistic"? The function `σ(z)` was first used to model population growth that levels off (logistic growth). Why "regression" if it classifies? Because it regresses the log-odds (a number) on the features; we then turn the number into a class by a cutoff.

The model

```
z = w₁x₁ + … + w_p x_p + b           (any real number)
p = σ(z) = 1 / (1 + e^(−z))           (probability that y = 1)
predicted class = 1 if p ≥ 0.5 else 0 (the 0.5 can be changed, see Chapter 9)
```

Facts you can verify: `σ(0) = 0.5`; `σ(−z) = 1 − σ(z)`; the curve is steepest at 0 with slope 0.25; `p = 0.5` exactly when `z = 0`.

Values computed in NumPy:

```
z      : −4     −2     0     1      2      4
sigma  : 0.018  0.1192 0.5   0.7311 0.8808 0.982

p     0.5   0.8    0.9    0.99
odds  1.0   4.0    9.0    99.0
logit 0.0   1.386  2.197  4.595
```

The sigmoid curve. Horizontal axis: the score z (log-odds). Vertical axis: the probability. The curve is flat near 0 on the far left, rises through (0, 0.5), and flattens near 1 on the right. Marked points: z = 2 gives p = 0.881, z = −2 gives p = 0.119.

How to read it: the score z on the bottom axis can be any number from minus infinity to infinity. The curve squeezes it into the 0-to-1 range. Large positive scores mean "very sure it is 1"; large negative mean "very sure it is 0"; a score near 0 means "I cannot tell".

Problem 4.1.1 A model gives the score $z = 2$ to a customer. What is the probability of default, the odds, and the log-odds?

Formula	$p = 1/(1 + e^{-z})$; odds $= p/(1-p)$; log-odds $= z$.
Plug in	$e^{-2} = 0.1353$.
Compute	$p = 1/1.1353 = 0.8808$. Odds $= 0.8808/0.1192 = 7.389$, which equals $e^{2} = 7.389$. Log-odds $= \ln 7.389 = 2$.
Answer	The probability is 0.881 (88 percent), the odds are about 7.4 to 1, and the log-odds are 2.
Check	$\sigma(-2) = 0.1192 = 1 - 0.8808$ ✓ (symmetry).
Why it matters	In plain words, for this customer "default" is about seven times as likely as "no default".

Problem 4.1.2 The coefficient of `late_payments` is $w = 0.5$ (log-odds per late payment). What happens to the odds when a customer has one more late payment, all else equal?

Formula	odds ratio $= e^{w}$.
Plug in	$e^{0.5}$
Compute	$e^{0.5} = 1.6487$
Answer	Each extra late payment multiplies the odds of default by about 1.65 (a 65 percent increase in the odds, not in the probability).
Check	If odds were 1 (p = 0.5) they become 1.649, so $p = 1.649/2.649 = 0.6225$. The probability moved from 0.5 to 0.62, not to 0.825.
Why it matters	"65 percent more likely" is a common wrong sentence. The right one is "the odds are 1.65 times larger". Probability changes depend on where you start.

Connection to the real job

Credit-scorecard teams present coefficients as odds ratios. Many "propensity" models (will click,

will churn) are logistic regression. In everyday terms: a risk score like a weather forecast's "chance of rain", where the model gives the probability that a parcel is late or an appointment is missed.

Applications

- **Data Science:** churn, propensity, conversion models and their odds-ratio reports.
- **Banking:** PD (probability of default) scorecards.
- **Healthcare:** risk scores (for example heart-disease risk).
- **Marketing:** uplift and click-through prediction.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading a logistic coefficient as a change in probability. It is a change in log-odds. The effect on probability depends on the starting point.

Check yourself

1. `p = 0.2`. What are the odds? Answer: `0.2/0.8 = 0.25` ("1 to 4").
2. What is `σ(0)`? Answer: 0.5.
3. Coefficient `−0.7`: what happens to the odds? Answer: they are multiplied by `e^−0.7 = 0.497`, roughly halved.

4.2 The Loss and Its Gradient, Derived

INTUITION

The model announces a probability; reality shows 0 or 1. If you said "90 percent" and the answer was 1, you are only a little embarrassed. If you said "1 percent" and the answer was 1, you are hugely embarrassed. **Log loss** measures embarrassment as `−ln(probability you gave to what really happened)`. Then training means turning the weights to reduce the average embarrassment.

Log loss (binary cross-entropy)

For one example with true label `y ∈ {0,1}` and predicted `p = σ(z)`:

```
loss(y, p) = −[ y·ln p + (1−y)·ln(1−p) ]
```

If $y = 1$ only the first term remains: $-\ln p$. If $y = 0$: $-\ln(1-p)$. From Chapter 1: this is exactly the negative log-likelihood of a Bernoulli (coin-flip) model, so minimizing it is maximum likelihood.

The derivation of the gradient (learn this one by heart)

We want $\partial loss/\partial w_j$. Use the chain rule: $loss \to p \to z \to w_j$.

- **Step 1** The sigmoid's derivative: $\sigma'(z) = \sigma(z)(1 - \sigma(z)) = p(1-p)$. (Proof: $\sigma = (1+e^{-z})^{-1}$, so $\sigma' = e^{-z}/(1+e^{-z})^2 = \sigma \cdot e^{-z}/(1+e^{-z}) = \sigma(1-\sigma)$.)
- **Step 2** The loss derivative with respect to p: $\partial loss/\partial p = -y/p + (1-y)/(1-p) = (p - y)/(p(1-p))$. (Combine the fractions: $-y(1-p) + (1-y)p = p - y$.)
- **Step 3** The score derivative: $\partial z/\partial w_j = x_j$.
- **Step 4** Multiply: $\partial loss/\partial w_j = (p - y)/(p(1-p)) \cdot p(1-p) \cdot x_j = (p - y)\, x_j$.

The ugly $p(1-p)$ terms cancel exactly. That is the reason log loss and sigmoid are a perfect pair:

```
∂loss/∂w_j = (p − y) · x_j        ∂loss/∂b = (p − y)
Mean over n rows, in matrix form:  ∇w = (1/n) Xᵀ (p − y)
```

Compare with Chapter 2's linear regression gradient $(2/n)X^T(\hat{y} - y)$: it is the same shape, "features times the error". With L2 regularization (Chapter 3), add $\lambda\, w$ to the gradient.

Problem 4.2.1 Three customers: feature $x = [1, 2, 3]$, labels $y = [0, 0, 1]$. Start with $w = 0$, $b = 0$. Compute the loss, the gradient, and one gradient-descent step with learning rate 1.

Formula	`p = σ(wx + b)`; `∇w = mean((p − y)x)`; `∇b = mean(p − y)`; loss `= −mean[y ln p + (1−y) ln(1−p)]`.
Plug in	With `w = b = 0`: `z = 0`, so `p = 0.5` for every row.
Compute (loss)	Each row costs `−ln 0.5 = 0.6931`, so the mean loss is 0.6931.
Compute (gradient)	`p − y = [0.5, 0.5, −0.5]`. `∇w = (0.5·1 + 0.5·2 + (−0.5)·3)/3 = (0.5 + 1 − 1.5)/3 = 0`. `∇b = (0.5 + 0.5 − 0.5)/3 = 0.1667`.
Compute (step)	`w = 0 − 1·0 = 0`; `b = 0 − 1·0.1667 = −0.1667`. New `p = σ(−0.1667) = 0.4584` for all rows. New loss `= −[2·ln(1−0.4584) + 1·ln(0.4584)]/3 = [2·0.6131 + 0.7802]/3 = 0.6688`.
Answer	The loss falls from 0.6931 to 0.6688. The first step lowered the intercept because two of the three customers are class 0 (the model should lean toward 0 before it uses the feature).
Check	A numerical derivative `(L(w+ε) − L(w−ε))/2ε` with `ε = 10⁻⁶` gave `∇w = 0.0` and `∇b = 0.16667`, matching the formula.
Why it matters	The gradient has no `p(1−p)` factor, so a confidently wrong prediction (`p` near 0 when `y = 1`) still has a large gradient (about `−x`). Learning does not stall, unlike squared error on a sigmoid.

Problem 4.2.2 One customer, `x = 3`, `y = 1`, currently `p = 0.1`. What is the gradient `∂loss/∂w`? What if `p = 0.9`?

Formula	`(p − y)·x`
Plug in	`p = 0.1`: `(0.1 − 1)·3`. `p = 0.9`: `(0.9 − 1)·3`.
Compute	`−2.7` and `−0.3`.
Answer	When the model is badly wrong (`p = 0.1`) the gradient is nine times larger than when it is almost right.
Check	Ratio `2.7/0.3 = 9 = (1 − 0.1)/(1 − 0.9)`.
Why it matters	The gradient is proportional to the error, which is exactly the behaviour we want from a learner: big errors, big corrections.

From-scratch implementation

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.datasets import load_breast_cancer
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.metrics import accuracy_score, log_loss

sig = lambda z: 1 / (1 + np.exp(-z))
class MyLogReg:
    def __init__(s, lam=0., lr=0.5, steps=5000, cw=None):
        s.lam, s.lr, s.steps, s.cw = lam, lr, steps, cw      # cw =
(weight of class 0, weight of class 1)
    def fit(s, X, y):
        n, p = X.shape; s.w = np.zeros(p); s.b = 0.
        sw = np.ones(n) if s.cw is None else np.where(y == 1, s.cw[1],
s.cw[0])
        for _ in range(s.steps):
            pr = sig(X @ s.w + s.b)
            r = sw * (pr - y) / n                             # (p - y),
averaged, optionally weighted
            s.w -= s.lr * (X.T @ r + s.lam * s.w)             # gradient
+ L2 term; the intercept is not penalized
            s.b -= s.lr * r.sum()
        return s
    def predict_proba(s, X): return sig(X @ s.w + s.b)

d = load_breast_cancer()
Xtr, Xte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(d.data, d.target, test_size=.25,
random_state=0, stratify=d.target)
sc = StandardScaler().fit(Xtr); Ztr, Zte = sc.transform(Xtr),
sc.transform(Xte)
m = MyLogReg(lam=0.01).fit(Ztr, ytr)
n = len(ytr)
sk = LogisticRegression(C=1/(n*0.01), tol=1e-10, max_iter=10000).fit(Ztr,
ytr)
print("max |w diff|", np.abs(m.w - sk.coef_[0]).max(), "b", m.b,
sk.intercept_)
pm = m.predict_proba(Zte)
print("test acc", accuracy_score(yte, pm > .5), accuracy_score(yte,
sk.predict(Zte)))
print("logloss", log_loss(yte, pm), log_loss(yte, sk.predict_proba(Zte)[:,
1]))
```

The data: 569 tumours, 30 measurements, label 1 = benign (357) or 0 = malignant (212) in

scikit-learn's coding. Predict first: will our loop and scikit-learn agree? Real output:

```
max |w diff| 4.1775893162149247e-07 b 0.5419593279873942 [0.542]
test acc 0.951048951048951 0.951048951048951
logloss 0.09862906835281743 0.09862905898568458
```

Explain: weights agree to 4×10^{-7}, test accuracy is the same (95.1 percent), and test log loss agrees to 7 decimals. One detail: scikit-learn's `C` multiplies the sum of the losses and the penalty is $\tfrac{1}{2}\|w\|^2$, so it relates to our λ (the mean-loss form) by $C = 1/(n\cdot\lambda)$. In Chapter 3 we saw that `alpha` for ridge and lasso also depends on the exact formula; always read the docs for the scale convention. Training accuracy was 99.06 percent against 95.1 percent on test, a mild gap (Chapter 1).

Regularization strength

```
lam 0     |w| 10.76  test logloss 0.1206  acc 0.951
lam 0.001 |w| 4.77   test logloss 0.0865  acc 0.958
lam 0.01  |w| 2.32   test logloss 0.0986  acc 0.951
lam 0.1   |w| 1.11   test logloss 0.1594  acc 0.958
lam 1     |w| 0.44   test logloss 0.3088  acc 0.930
```

Read it: with no penalty the weight vector is large (10.8) and test log loss is 0.121; a small penalty (0.001) cuts the weights by more than half and gives the best log loss (0.0865); too much penalty (λ = 1) over-shrinks and the loss climbs to 0.31, since the predicted probabilities become timid. Note accuracy hardly moves while log loss moves a lot: log loss sees the *confidence*, accuracy only the side of 0.5 (Chapter 1: loss versus metric). L1 (`penalty="l1"`, `solver="liblinear"`, `C=0.1`) kept 7 of 30 features with test accuracy 93.7 percent.

Odds-ratio reading on real data

After standardizing, the largest coefficient magnitudes (per one standard deviation) were `worst texture` -0.738 (odds ratio `e^-0.738 = 0.478`), `worst radius` -0.682 (0.506), `worst concave points` -0.663 (0.515). Since class 1 = benign, a texture one standard deviation higher roughly halves the odds that the tumour is benign. The radius, perimeter and concave-point columns are strongly correlated, so, as in Chapter 2, individual coefficients should not be over-read.

Connection to the real job

"Derive the gradient of logistic loss" is a classic interview request, and the result $X^T(p - y)/n$ is also the gradient at the last layer of every neural-network classifier trained with cross-entropy.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** the baseline for every binary problem; the last layer of classifiers.
- **Deep Learning:** the output layer of image and text classifiers.
- **Banking and insurance:** regulated scorecards where coefficients must be explained.
- **Ads:** online logistic regression trained with SGD on billions of rows.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using squared error on the sigmoid output. The gradient then contains $p(1-p)$ and nearly vanishes when the model is confidently wrong, so training stalls. Use log loss.

Check yourself

1. What is the gradient of log loss with respect to w_j for one row? Answer: $(p - y)\cdot x_j$.
2. Why does the $p(1-p)$ factor disappear? Answer: it appears in the derivative of the sigmoid and in the denominator of the derivative of the loss; they cancel.
3. In scikit-learn, bigger C means weaker or stronger regularization? Answer: weaker.

4.3 Decision Boundary, Thresholds and Class Weights

INTUITION

Picture a map with two neighbouring countries. The decision boundary is the border. For logistic regression the border is where the model says "50-50", which is where the score z equals 0. In two features that is a straight line, in three a flat sheet. Points far from the border are confident predictions; points near it are coin flips.

Formal definition

The boundary for a threshold t is $\{x : \sigma(w\cdot x + b) = t\}$, that is $w\cdot x + b = \ln(t/(1-t))$. For $t = 0.5$ the right side is 0. The vector w points toward the class-1 side and is perpendicular to the boundary. The distance from a point to the boundary is $|z|/\|w\|$, so the model is a distance-based confidence.

A scatter of two classes (red and blue dots) with a straight black line (p = 0.5) between them. Dashed lines mark p = 0.1 and p = 0.9. The shading changes from blue on the left to red on the right.

How to read it: the solid line is where the model's probability is 0.5. The dashed lines are where it is 0.1 and 0.9. The more the lines are spaced apart, the slower the confidence changes. The shaded colours show the probability in every position of the map.

Problem 4.3.1 A two-feature model fitted on this data gave $w = (1.543,\ 1.261)$, $b = -2.768$. Classify the points $(1,1)$, $(2,2)$, $(0,0)$ and find where the boundary crosses the axes.

Formula	$z = w_1x_1 + w_2x_2 + b$, $p = \sigma(z)$.
Plug in	$(1,1)$: $1.543 + 1.261 - 2.768$. $(2,2)$: $3.086 + 2.522 - 2.768$. $(0,0)$: -2.768.
Compute	$z = 0.036 \to p = 0.509$; $z = 2.838 \to p = 0.945$; $z = -2.768 \to p = 0.059$. The boundary $z = 0$ crosses the x_2-axis at $2.768/1.261 = 2.196$ (when $x_1 = 0$) and the x_1-axis at $2.768/1.543 = 1.795$.
Answer	Point $(1,1)$ is almost exactly on the border (51 percent class 1), $(2,2)$ is confidently class 1 (94.5 percent), $(0,0)$ is confidently class 0 (5.9 percent).
Check	The point $(1.795,\ 0)$ gives $z = 1.543\times1.795 - 2.768 = 0.001 \approx 0$ ✓.
Why it matters	The three probabilities show the difference between "positive" and "confident positive". Point $(1,1)$ would be labelled 1 but only just. Business decisions should often use the probability, not just the label.

Thresholds: the 0.5 is a default, not a law

The cutoff should come from costs (Chapter 9). If a missed fraud costs 9 times more than a false alarm, flag a transaction when $p > 1/(1+9) = 0.1$. In log-odds, a threshold of $t = 0.3$ means $z > \ln(0.3/0.7) = -0.847$. Changing the threshold slides the boundary parallel to itself.

Class weights

With imbalanced data (rare positives), plain training minimizes the *average* loss, which is dominated by the majority class. **Class weights** multiply each example's loss by a weight (a rare

example counts more). Setting `class_weight="balanced"` gives class `c` the weight `n/(k · n_c)`. Experiment: 5,000 rows, 10 features, 5.7 percent positives:

```
from sklearn.datasets import make_classification
from sklearn.metrics import precision_score, recall_score
X, yy = make_classification(5000, 10, n_informative=4, weights=[.95],
flip_y=.02, random_state=0, class_sep=1.0)
Xa, Xb, ya, yb = train_test_split(X, yy, test_size=.3, random_state=0,
stratify=yy)
for cw in [None, "balanced"]:
    c = LogisticRegression(class_weight=cw, max_iter=1000).fit(Xa, ya); pr
= c.predict(Xb)
    print("cw", cw, "acc", round(accuracy_score(yb, pr), 3), "prec",
round(precision_score(yb, pr), 3),
          "recall", round(recall_score(yb, pr), 3), "mean p",
round(c.predict_proba(Xb)[:, 1].mean(), 3))
```

```
prevalence 0.0574
cw None acc 0.944 prec 0.667 recall 0.047 mean p 0.061
cw balanced acc 0.679 prec 0.101 recall 0.581 mean p 0.411
```

Explain: without weights, accuracy is 94.4 percent but recall is 4.7 percent. The model finds almost none of the positives (a model that always says "negative" scores 94.3 percent accuracy: no better). With balanced weights recall jumps to 58 percent, accuracy falls to 67.9 percent, and precision is 10 percent: many false alarms. Also see the last column: the average predicted probability moved from 0.061 (close to the true rate 0.057) to 0.411. Weighting distorts the probabilities. Use weights to improve ranking and recall, but if you need real probabilities, recalibrate (Chapter 9) or move the threshold instead (Chapter 12).

Problem 4.3.2 In the experiment above, how many of the 1,500 test rows are positive, and how many positives does each model find?

Formula	positives `= prevalence × 1500`; found `= recall × positives`.
Plug in	`0.0574 × 1500`; `0.047 × 86`; `0.581 × 86`.
Compute	`≈ 86` positives; `≈ 4` found without weights; `≈ 50` found with balanced weights.
Answer	The plain model catches about 4 of 86 positives; the weighted model catches about 50 of 86 at the price of many false alarms.
Check	Precision 0.101 with 50 true positives means about `50/0.101 ≈ 495` flagged rows, so about 445 false alarms.
Why it matters	"94 percent accurate" hides everything. Always report precision and recall for rare events.

Connection to the real job

Fraud, churn, defect detection and incident prediction are all rare-positive problems. The choice between class weights, threshold shifting and resampling is a daily decision (Chapter 12).

Applications

- **Fraud / security:** flag at a threshold chosen by review capacity.
- **Healthcare screening:** high recall first, then confirm with a second test.
- **Operations:** alert on "p(outage in 1 hour) > 0.2".

COMMON MISTAKE

Reporting accuracy on imbalanced data and leaving the threshold at 0.5. Check the baseline (always predict the majority class) and tune the threshold on validation data.

Check yourself

1. Where is the decision boundary of a logistic model with threshold 0.5? Answer: where `w·x + b = 0`.
2. A threshold of 0.1 instead of 0.5 gives more or fewer positive predictions? Answer: more.
3. What does `class_weight="balanced"` do to predicted probabilities? Answer: it inflates them for the rare class (they are no longer calibrated).

4.4 Many Classes: Softmax

INTUITION

With three classes (setosa, versicolor, virginica flowers), the model computes three scores and then converts them into three probabilities that add to 1. The biggest score gets the biggest share, but the shares are *exponentially* bigger than the score gaps. The softmax is "sigmoid for many classes".

Formal definition

For `K` classes, the model has a weight vector `w_k` and bias `b_k` per class and computes `z_k = w_k·x + b_k`. Then

```
p_k = e^(z_k) / Σ_j e^(z_j)
loss = − ln p_(true class)          (categorical cross-entropy)
∂loss/∂z_k = p_k − y_k              (y_k = 1 for the true class, else 0)
```

The gradient has the same beautiful form as in the binary case: predicted probability minus truth. For `K = 2` softmax reduces to the sigmoid (just a different parametrization). To avoid overflow, subtract `max(z)` from all scores before exponentiating; this does not change the result.

Problem 4.4.1 Scores `z = (2.0, 1.0, 0.1)` for the true class 0. Find the softmax probabilities, the loss, and the gradient on the scores.

Formula	`p_k = e^(z_k)/Σe^(z_j)`; loss `= −ln p₀`; gradient `= p − y`.
Plug in	`e² = 7.389`, `e¹ = 2.718`, `e^0.1 = 1.105`; their sum is `11.2125`.
Compute	`p = (0.659, 0.2424, 0.0986)`. Loss `= −ln 0.659 = 0.417`. Gradient `= (0.659 − 1, 0.2424 − 0, 0.0986 − 0) = (−0.341, 0.2424, 0.0986)`.
Answer	The model gives 65.9 percent to the right class. The negative gradient on class 0 means "raise this score" and the positives on the other two mean "lower these".
Check	The probabilities add to `0.659 + 0.2424 + 0.0986 = 1.0` and the gradients add to 0 (as they always do).
Why it matters	In plain words: the update pushes up the right class and pushes down every wrong one, in proportion to how much probability it wrongly took.

Training a softmax model on the iris flowers (150 rows, 4 features, standardized, NumPy loop of 3,000 steps with `lr = 0.5`) gave accuracy 0.98 and log loss 0.049. (This is training accuracy, shown only to demonstrate that the update rule works. Use a split for honest numbers.) In scikit-learn, `LogisticRegression` handles multi-class automatically; the other family, one-vs-rest, trains `K` separate binary models.

Connection to the real job

Every neural-network classifier (image, text, tabular) ends with a softmax over classes. The language models behind chat assistants use a softmax over the whole vocabulary.

Applications

- **Deep Learning:** the output layer for classification.
- **NLP:** intent classification, language identification.
- **Computer vision:** image classes.

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating the softmax outputs as calibrated probabilities. Neural networks tend to be overconfident; calibrate with temperature scaling (Chapter 9).

Check yourself

1. What do softmax outputs always sum to? Answer: 1.
2. What is the gradient of cross-entropy with respect to the scores? Answer: `p − y` (the vector of predicted probabilities minus the one-hot truth).
3. Why subtract the maximum score before exponentiating? Answer: to prevent overflow; the probabilities do not change.

4.5 Generalized Linear Models: Counts, Money and Exposure

INTUITION

Linear regression assumes the noise is a symmetric bell curve around the prediction and the prediction can be any number. Real targets are different. Counts (number of claims) cannot be negative and are whole numbers. Money amounts (claim sizes) are positive and skewed: a few huge ones. A **generalized linear model (GLM)** keeps the straight-line score but changes two things: the *noise distribution* and the *link* between the score and the average. Logistic regression is a GLM with Bernoulli noise and the logit link.

The recipe

Part	Meaning	Logistic example	Poisson example
Linear score `z = w·x + b`	always the same	the same	the same
Link `g(μ) = z`	how the mean `μ` relates to `z`	logit	log: `μ = e^z`
Noise distribution	how data scatters around `μ`	Bernoulli	Poisson
Loss	the negative log-likelihood (the deviance)	log loss	Poisson deviance

With the log link, effects multiply: `μ = e^(w₁x₁) · e^(w₂x₂) …` . A coefficient of 0.5 means "multiply the expected count by `e^0.5 = 1.65` ". That is why GLMs fit pricing problems so well (insurers multiply base rate by factors).

Target	Family	Link	Typical use
0/1	Bernoulli (logistic)	logit	default, churn
Counts, 0,1,2,…	Poisson	log	claims, tickets, visits

Counts with extra scatter (variance greater than mean, "overdispersion")	Negative binomial	log	call-centre volumes
Positive, skewed amounts	Gamma	log	claim size, order value
Zero-heavy positive amounts	Tweedie (between Poisson and Gamma)	log	total claim cost per policy

Exposure and offsets

If one policy was observed for 0.2 years and another for 1 year, their claim counts are not comparable. Model the *rate* instead: `μ = exposure × e^(w·x + b)`, or `ln μ = ln(exposure) + w·x + b`. The term `ln(exposure)` has a fixed coefficient of 1 and is called an **offset**. In scikit-learn, `PoissonRegressor` has no offset argument; the standard trick is to fit the rate `y/exposure` with `sample_weight = exposure`, which maximizes the same likelihood.

Experiment: 20,000 policies, true model `rate = exp(−3 + 0.02·(age − 40) + 0.5·urban)`, exposure uniform between 0.2 and 1 year, counts `~ Poisson(rate × exposure)`:

```
from sklearn.linear_model import PoissonRegressor, GammaRegressor,
LinearRegression
rng = np.random.default_rng(0); n = 20000
age = rng.uniform(18, 70, n); urban = rng.integers(0, 2, n); expo =
rng.uniform(.2, 1, n)
rate = np.exp(-3 + 0.02*(age - 40) + 0.5*urban); cnt = rng.poisson(rate *
expo)
X = np.c_[age - 40, urban]
pr = PoissonRegressor(alpha=0, max_iter=1000).fit(X, cnt/expo,
sample_weight=expo)
print("Poisson coef", pr.coef_, "intercept", pr.intercept_, "true
[0.02,0.5,-3]")
print("mean count", cnt.mean(), "var", cnt.var())
print("OLS on rate", LinearRegression().fit(X, cnt/expo,
sample_weight=expo).coef_)
```

```
Poisson coef [0.0207 0.5838] intercept -3.060348936167 42 true
[0.02,0.5,-3]
mean count 0.04485 var 0.0466384775
OLS on rate [0.0015 0.0425]
```

Explain: the Poisson model recovers the age effect (0.0207 vs true 0.02) and the intercept (−3.06 vs −3). The urban effect is 0.584 against a true 0.5; with only about 900 events in the whole dataset (mean count 0.045 times 20,000) the noise in the estimate is large, and a standard error would tell you so (not computed here). The mean 0.0449 and variance 0.0466 are nearly equal, which is the Poisson signature; if the variance were much greater than the mean we would switch to negative binomial (`statsmodels` , not installed here, not run). The OLS coefficients are on the additive scale (increments of the rate), so they cannot be compared directly with the multiplicative Poisson coefficients, and OLS could predict negative rates.

For skewed positive amounts, Gamma with a log link: claim severities drawn from a Gamma distribution with mean `exp(6 + 0.3·urban)` :

```
Gamma coef [-0.0003  0.308 ] intercept 5.99530722898581   true: urban 0.3,
intercept 6
```

The estimate 0.308 for urban (true 0.3) and 5.995 for the intercept (true 6) are close. `TweedieRegressor(power=1.5, link="log")` handles a mix of zeros and positive amounts in one model (the total cost per policy); that one was not run here.

Problem 4.5.1 The fitted Poisson model has intercept `-3.06` , age coefficient `0.0207` per year (relative to age 40), and urban coefficient `0.584` . Predict the expected claim count for a 50-year-old urban driver observed for half a year.

Formula	`μ = exposure × exp(b + w_age·(age − 40) + w_urban·urban)`.
Plug in	`exposure = 0.5`; `age − 40 = 10`; `urban = 1`. Score `= −3.06 + 0.0207×10 + 0.584`.
Compute	Score `= −3.06 + 0.207 + 0.584 = −2.269`. `e^−2.269 = 0.1035`. `μ = 0.5 × 0.1035 = 0.0518`.
Answer	The expected claim count is about 0.052, roughly one claim per 19 half-years of such drivers (about 5.2 per 100 half-year policies).
Check	A urban driver multiplies the rate by `e^0.584 = 1.79` compared with rural; `0.1035/1.79 = 0.0578` would be the rural rate per year, and `0.0578 × 1.0 ≈ e^(−3.06+0.207) = 0.0576` ✓.
Why it matters	Pricing is the rate times exposure; forgetting exposure would charge the half-year driver as if observed for a year.

Connection to the real job

Insurance, telecom (tickets per customer), web analytics (events per session) and demand forecasting all use these models. Gradient-boosting libraries expose the same losses as `objective="poisson"`, `"gamma"`, `"tweedie"`.

Applications

- **Insurance:** frequency (Poisson) times severity (Gamma), or Tweedie pure premium.
- **Operations:** tickets per hour, requests per minute (Poisson rate with exposure = time).
- **Retail:** units sold per store-day.

COMMON MISTAKE

Running ordinary regression on counts or on skewed positive amounts and getting negative predictions or being dominated by a few outliers. Pick the family that matches the target.

Check yourself

1. What does a log link imply about effects? Answer: they multiply.
2. What is an offset for? Answer: to account for different exposure (observation time or size) by adding `ln(exposure)` with a fixed coefficient of 1.

3. Variance much greater than the mean in count data. Which model? Answer: negative binomial (or quasi-Poisson).

4.6 The Perceptron, the XOR Problem and the Bridge to Neural Networks

INTUITION

The perceptron is the oldest learning machine (1958): a single "neuron" that adds up weighted inputs and fires if the sum passes zero. When it makes a mistake it nudges the weights toward the right answer. It can only draw a straight border, so any problem that needs a bent border, such as XOR, defeats it. The fix, stacking layers, is the whole story of deep learning.

The algorithm

Labels are -1 or $+1$. Predict $\text{sign}(w \cdot x + b)$. For each example the model gets wrong, update $w \leftarrow w + y \cdot x$ and $b \leftarrow b + y$. If the classes can be separated by a line, the algorithm is guaranteed to find one in a finite number of updates (the perceptron convergence theorem).

Problem 4.6.1 Run one pass of the perceptron on $(x_1, x_2, y) = (1,1,+1), (-1,-1,-1)$ starting at $w = (0,0)$, $b = 0$.

Formula	Update on error $w \leftarrow w + y \cdot x$, $b \leftarrow b + y$. (A score of 0 counts as an error.)
Plug in	First point: score 0 (not > 0), so it counts as a mistake; $y = +1$, $x = (1,1)$.
Compute	$w = (0,0) + 1 \cdot (1,1) = (1,1)$, $b = 1$. Second point: score $= (1)(-1) + (1)(-1) + 1 = -1$, predicted −1, correct ($y = -1$), no update.
Answer	After one pass $w = (1,1)$, $b = 1$, and both points are classified correctly.
Check	First point: score $1 + 1 + 1 = 3 > 0$ ✓; second: $-1 < 0$ ✓.
Why it matters	The update is "add the example you got wrong", the same idea as the logistic gradient $(p - y)x$ but with a hard 0/1 prediction instead of a probability.

XOR

XOR is "true when exactly one input is true": points `(0,0)→0`, `(0,1)→1`, `(1,0)→1`, `(1,1)→0`. No straight line separates the 1s from the 0s (the two 1s are at opposite corners of a square, as are the two 0s).

```
from sklearn.linear_model import Perceptron
from sklearn.neural_network import MLPClassifier
Xx = np.array([[0,0],[0,1],[1,0],[1,1.]]); yx = np.array([0,1,1,0])
pc = Perceptron(max_iter=1000, tol=None, random_state=0).fit(Xx, yx);
print("perceptron XOR acc", pc.score(Xx, yx), pc.predict(Xx))
Xx2 = np.c_[Xx, Xx[:,0]*Xx[:,1]]; lr = LogisticRegression(C=1e4).fit(Xx2,
yx); print("logreg w/ x1*x2 acc", lr.score(Xx2, yx))
print("perceptron AND", Perceptron(max_iter=1000, tol=None,
random_state=0).fit(Xx, np.array([0,0,0,1])).score(Xx,
np.array([0,0,0,1])))
mlp = MLPClassifier((4,), activation="tanh", solver="lbfgs",
random_state=1, max_iter=2000).fit(Xx, yx); print("MLP XOR",
mlp.predict(Xx))
```

```
perceptron XOR acc 0.5 [0 0 0 0]
logreg w/ x1*x2 acc 1.0
perceptron AND 1.0
MLP XOR [0 1 1 0]
```

Explain: a single linear unit gets AND right (separable) but only 50 percent on XOR. Adding one hand-made column $x_1 \cdot x_2$ (an interaction, Chapter 2) makes it linearly separable, and logistic regression then gets 100 percent. A small network with one hidden layer of 4 tanh units learns XOR by itself: the hidden layer *learns the useful new features*. A multi-layer perceptron is "stacked non-linear regressions": each layer is a logistic-style unit whose output feeds the next. Backpropagation is the chain rule applied through the layers, as we did in 4.2. Chapter 16 (item 10 of the from-scratch list) builds a 2-layer network from scratch; the full deep-learning story is in the Deep Learning skill map.

Connection to the real job

When a reviewer asks "why not just use a neural network?", the answer comes from here: a network is a logistic regression on *learned* features. On tabular data hand-made features plus trees usually do as well (Chapter 7 and 11).

Applications

- **Deep Learning:** the unit repeated billions of times in modern networks.
- **Classic ML:** averaged perceptron for fast text classification baselines.
- **Education:** XOR is the standard first example of why depth matters.

COMMON MISTAKE

Concluding "linear models cannot handle interactions". They can, if you add the interaction columns (Chapter 2). They cannot find them on their own.

Check yourself

1. Why does a single perceptron fail on XOR? Answer: no straight line separates the classes.
2. How do you fix it with a linear model? Answer: add the product feature $x_1 \cdot x_2$ (or add a hidden layer).
3. What is a multi-layer perceptron in one phrase? Answer: stacked non-linear regressions (units whose outputs feed other units).

Chapter recap

- Logistic regression: linear score z, then $p = \sigma(z)$. The log-odds is linear in the features; each coefficient multiplies the odds by e^w.
- Loss is log loss (cross-entropy), the negative log-likelihood of a Bernoulli model.
- Gradient: $\nabla w = (1/n)\, X^T(p - y)$. The same shape as linear regression, with the sigmoid's derivative cancelled.
- Our NumPy loop matches scikit-learn to 4×10^{-7} in weights. Remember the $C = 1/(n\lambda)$ convention.
- The decision boundary is $w \cdot x + b = 0$ for threshold 0.5. The threshold should come from costs.
- Class weights raise recall for rare classes but distort probabilities. Never trust accuracy on imbalanced data.
- Softmax generalizes to K classes. The gradient is $p - y$.
- GLMs change the noise model and link: Poisson (counts), Gamma (skewed amounts), Tweedie (zero-heavy amounts); offsets handle exposure.
- A single linear unit cannot learn XOR; interaction features or hidden layers can.

Formula / command	Meaning
$\sigma(z) = 1/(1+e^{-z})$, $\sigma' = \sigma(1-\sigma)$	sigmoid and its derivative
odds $= p/(1-p)$, odds ratio $= e^{w}$	evidence scale
$\text{loss} = -[y \ln p + (1-y) \ln(1-p)]$	binary log loss
$\nabla w = X^{T}(p - y)/n$, $\nabla b = \text{mean}(p - y)$	logistic gradient
$p_k = e^{z_k}/\Sigma e^{z_j}$, $\partial L/\partial z = p - y$	softmax
$C = 1/(n\lambda)$	scikit-learn vs mean-loss penalty
`LogisticRegression(C, penalty, class_weight)`	scikit-learn
`PoissonRegressor`, `GammaRegressor`, `TweedieRegressor`	GLMs (offset via `sample_weight=exposure` on the rate)

Practice set

1. (easy) $\sigma(0)$, $\sigma(\ln 3)$? **Answer:** 0.5; $3/(1+3) = 0.75$ (since $e^{\ln 3} = 3$).
2. (easy) A coefficient of $\ln 2 = 0.693$ means? **Answer:** the odds double for each +1 in that feature.
3. (easy) What is the output? `-np.log(0.25)`, for a true-1 row. **Answer:** 1.386.
4. (medium) One row $x = (2, -1)$, $y = 0$, $p = 0.8$. Gradient on w? **Answer:** $(p - y)x = 0.8 \cdot (2, -1) = (1.6, -0.8)$; the gradient on b is 0.8.
5. (medium) Find the bug: `loss = -np.mean(y*np.log(p))`. **Answer:** missing the $(1-y) \cdot \log(1-p)$ term, so the model is rewarded for predicting $p = 1$ for everyone.
6. (medium) Scores $(0, 0, 0)$; what are the softmax probabilities and the loss for any true class? **Answer:** $(1/3, 1/3, 1/3)$; loss $\ln 3 = 1.0986$.
7. (medium) Missed fraud costs 19 times a false alarm. What probability threshold minimizes expected cost? **Answer:** flag if $p > 1/(1+19) = 0.05$.
8. (medium) The model has $p = 0.9$ but only 60 percent of such cases are actually positive. What is wrong? **Answer:** miscalibration (Chapter 9); the ranking may be fine while the

probabilities are overconfident.

9. (hard, scenario) You train logistic regression on 1,000,000 rows with 0.1 percent fraud. Accuracy is 99.9 percent. Your manager is happy. What do you tell them? **Answer:** a model that never flags fraud also has 99.9 percent accuracy. Report precision, recall and PR-AUC; choose a threshold from review capacity and cost.
10. (hard) Derive the gradient for the weighted loss where a positive example counts `c` times. **Answer:** the loss for that row is multiplied by `c`, so its gradient is `c·(p − y)·x`.
11. (interview) "Derive the gradient of logistic loss." **Answer:** with `p = σ(z)`, loss `L = −[y ln p + (1−y) ln(1−p)]`. `∂L/∂p = (p − y)/(p(1−p))`, `∂p/∂z = p(1−p)`, `∂z/∂w = x`. Multiply: `∂L/∂w = (p − y)x`.
12. (interview) "Logistic vs linear regression for a 0/1 target?" **Answer:** linear can output values outside [0,1], assumes constant-variance Gaussian noise, and has a loss that does not match a coin-flip target. Logistic outputs probabilities, uses the Bernoulli likelihood, and its log-odds are linear in the features. Linear regression can still rank decently (the "linear probability model") but is a poor choice when you need probabilities.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: logistic regression: probability, odds, log-odds, the
sigmoid, and how to read a coefficient as an odds ratio. Explain with a
bookmaker analogy, then give me 8 graded exercises with real numbers (no
solutions yet). After I answer, check each step and explain my mistakes.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and learning machine learning, English is my second
language. Topic: deriving the gradient of the log loss for logistic
regression using the chain rule, and why the sigmoid derivative cancels.
Walk me through every step with a 3-row numeric example, then ask me to
repeat the derivation for softmax cross-entropy and review my answer.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: decision boundaries, thresholds from business cost, and class weights for imbalanced classification. Here is my scenario: [PASTE MY DATA SIZE, POSITIVE RATE AND COST OF MISSES/FALSE ALARMS]. Recommend a metric, a threshold method and an imbalance strategy, explain the trade-offs in simple words, and list pitfalls (for example distorted probabilities).

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: generalized linear models: Poisson, Negative Binomial, Gamma and Tweedie with log links and exposure offsets. Explain when each applies using insurance and server-ticket examples, give me four small computation problems, and quiz me one at a time. Wait for my answer each time.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews, English is my second language. Topic: logistic regression, softmax, perceptron and the XOR problem. Run a mock interview: ask one question at a time, wait for my answer, score it out of 10, show a model answer in simple English, then ask a harder follow-up. Include one derivation and one coding question (NumPy).

CHAPTER 5

SUPPORT VECTOR MACHINES, K-NEAREST NEIGHBOURS AND NAIVE BAYES

Three classic models with three different ideas: the widest margin, "ask your neighbours", and "multiply the evidence".

Not every problem is solved by a linear boundary or by a tree. Sometimes you have only a few hundred labelled examples and a curved boundary. Sometimes you need a baseline in ten minutes, with no training at all. Sometimes you must classify a million emails with only counts of words. This chapter gives you the tool for each of those jobs. Support vector machines (SVMs) find the boundary with the widest safety margin, and kernels let that boundary bend. k-nearest neighbours (k-NN) labels a new point by looking at the points most like it. Naive Bayes multiplies simple probabilities and is astonishingly good for text. Beyond the tools themselves, each of them teaches an idea that returns later: margins and hinge loss (ranking losses and deep learning), distance and the curse of dimensionality (Chapters 1 and 13), and generative modelling (Chapter 13). You will build an SVM, a k-NN and a Naive Bayes classifier from scratch and compare each one with scikit-learn.

Prerequisites: Chapter 4 (decision boundary, loss functions), the dot product and vector length (Math PDF, Pillar 1), Bayes' rule (the probability pillar).

5.1 Support Vector Machines: The Widest Street

INTUITION

Two villages sit on opposite sides of a field and you must build a road between them. Many roads separate the villages, but the best one is the road with the widest empty strip of land on both sides, because a road that squeezes close to one village will be wrong the first time a new house is built nearby. The SVM finds the boundary that leaves the widest empty "street" (the **margin**) between the classes. Only the houses touching the street edges matter: they are the **support vectors**. You could demolish every other house and the road would not move.

Words you need

Word	Plain meaning
Margin	the empty strip around the boundary; its total width is `2/‖w‖`
Support vector	a training point exactly on the margin edge (or inside the strip, or misclassified)
Hard margin	no point is allowed inside the strip; works only if classes are separable
Soft margin	points may enter the strip or cross the boundary, at a price controlled by `C`
Hinge loss	`max(0, 1 − y·f(x))`, the price for a point that is not safely outside the margin
`C`	how expensive a margin violation is (big `C` means strict, small `C` means relaxed)

Formal definition

Labels are $y \in \{-1, +1\}$. The model computes $f(x) = w \cdot x + b$ and predicts the sign. We want every point to satisfy $y \cdot f(x) \geq 1$ ("outside the street"). Two parallel lines $w \cdot x + b = +1$ and $w \cdot x + b = -1$ bound the street. The distance between them is $2/\|w\|$ (the distance between two parallel lines $w \cdot x = c_1$ and $w \cdot x = c_2$ is $|c_1 - c_2|/\|w\|$). So *maximizing the margin means minimizing* $\|w\|$:

```
hard margin:   minimize ½‖w‖²   subject to   yᵢ (w·xᵢ + b) ≥ 1   for all i
soft margin:   minimize ½‖w‖² + C Σ max(0, 1 − yᵢ (w·xᵢ + b))
```

The second form is regularization again (Chapter 3): $\frac{1}{2}\|w\|^2$ is the L2 penalty and the hinge terms are the data loss. Dividing by $C \cdot n$ shows it equals $\text{mean hinge} + (\lambda/2)\|w\|^2$ with $\lambda = 1/(C\ n)$; this is the same C convention as logistic regression in Chapter 4.

Why the name "support vector"? In the exact solution $w = \Sigma\ \alpha_i\ y_i\ x_i$, where the multipliers α_i are zero for every point except those on or inside the margin. Only those points "support" the boundary.

A four-point problem, solved

Four points A (0,0) and B (1,0) in class −1, C (2,2) and D (3,1) in class +1. The solid line is the SVM boundary; dashed lines are the margins. B, C and D touch the margins and are circled as support vectors; A is far from the street.

Read the picture: blue points are class −1, orange points are class +1. The solid line is the boundary, the dashed lines are the edges of the street, and the circled points sit exactly on the edges. Point A is far away and is not circled: removing it changes nothing.

Problem 5.1.1 Points: `A(0,0)` and `B(1,0)` have `y = −1`; `C(2,2)` and `D(3,1)` have `y = +1`. A hard-margin SVM gave `w = (2/3, 2/3)` and `b = −5/3`. Verify the margin conditions, find the support vectors and the street width.

Formula	score `f = w·x + b`; margin condition `y·f ≥ 1`; width `= 2/‖w‖`.
Plug in	`A: 0 + 0 − 5/3 = −1.667`. `B: 2/3 − 5/3 = −1.0`. `C: 4/3 + 4/3 − 5/3 = 8/3 − 5/3 = 1.0`. `D: 2 + 2/3 − 5/3 = 1.0`.
Compute	`y·f`: A `(−1)(−1.667) = 1.667`; B `(−1)(−1) = 1`; C `1`; D `1`. All are `≥ 1`. `‖w‖ = √(4/9 + 4/9) = √(8/9) = 0.9428`, so width `= 2/0.9428 = 2.121`.
Answer	B, C and D have `y·f = 1` exactly: they are the three support vectors. A has `1.667 > 1`, so it is not. The street is 2.12 units wide.
Check	scikit-learn's `SVC(kernel="linear", C=1e6)` returned `w = (0.6669, 0.6666)`, `b = −1.667`, support-vector indices `[1, 2, 3]` (B, C, D) and width 2.1212. The same numbers.
Why it matters	Move point A anywhere on its own side of the street and the model does not change at all. That is what "the solution depends only on the support vectors" means in practice. It is also why SVMs are robust to many easy points and sensitive to the hard ones at the edge.

Problem 5.1.2 Two points only: `(0,0)` class −1 and `(2,2)` class +1. Find the maximum-margin boundary by reasoning, then check the width.

Formula	with only two points the best boundary is the perpendicular bisector of the segment; both points are support vectors.
Plug in	The midpoint is $(1,1)$; the segment direction is $(1,1)$, so the boundary is $x_1 + x_2 = 2$. Use $w = (a, a)$, $b = -2a$. Support-vector conditions: at $(2,2)$: $4a - 2a = 1$, so $a = 0.5$.
Compute	$w = (0.5, 0.5)$, $b = -1$. Width $= 2/\|w\| = 2/0.7071 = 2.828$.
Answer	$w = (0.5, 0.5)$, $b = -1$, width 2.83, equal to the distance between the two points ($\sqrt{8} = 2.83$).
Check	`SVC` returned $w = [0.5\ 0.5]$, $b = [-1.]$, margin width 2.8284.
Why it matters	With two points the street is exactly as wide as the gap between them: the best you can do. More points make the street narrower.

Soft margin and the meaning of C

Real data overlap, so a hard margin may not exist. The soft margin lets point i violate the margin by an amount $\xi_i = \max(0, 1 - y_i f(x_i))$ (the hinge loss) and charges $C \cdot \xi_i$.

Hinge value for one point	Meaning
$y \cdot f \geq 1$ → loss 0	outside the street, correct, no cost
$0 < y \cdot f < 1$ → loss between 0 and 1	correct side, but inside the street
$y \cdot f = 0$ → loss 1	exactly on the boundary
$y \cdot f < 0$ → loss above 1	on the wrong side; loss grows linearly

For instance, if a class +1 point appeared at $(1.5, 0.5)$, its score under the solution above is $(2/3)(1.5) + (2/3)(0.5) - 5/3 = 1 + 0.333 - 1.667 = -0.333$, so $y \cdot f = -0.333$ and hinge loss $= 1 - (-0.333) = 1.333$.

- **Large C:** violations are expensive, the margin shrinks, the model fits the training data tightly (low bias, high variance).
- **Small C:** violations are cheap, the margin widens, the model is smoother (more bias, less variance).

Compare with logistic loss: both are convex upper bounds of the 0/1 error. Log loss never reaches exactly 0, so every point keeps pulling; hinge loss is exactly 0 for safe points, which is why only support vectors matter.

SVM from scratch (subgradient descent)

The hinge is not smooth at the corner `y·f = 1`, but it has a *subgradient*: for points inside the margin (`y·f < 1`) the gradient of the hinge term with respect to `w` is `−y·x`; for points outside it is 0. With the mean-hinge form `λ/2 ‖w‖² + mean(hinge)`:

```
import numpy as np
def svm_sgd(X, y, lam=0.01, lr=0.1, epochs=2000):      # y must be −1 or
+1
    n, p = X.shape; w = np.zeros(p); b = 0.
    for e in range(epochs):
        active = y * (X @ w + b) < 1                    # points inside or
beyond the margin
        gw = lam * w - (y[active, None] * X[active]).sum(0) / n
        gb = -y[active].sum() / n
        w -= lr * gw; b -= lr * gb
    return w, b
```

On the breast-cancer data (569 tumours, standardized, stratified 75/25 split, `ys = 2*y − 1`):

```
scratch SVM test acc 0.958041958041958 train hinge 0.038322269873857034
|w| 1.8429720135092937
sk SVC lin test acc 0.958041958041958 nSV 40 |w| 1.885256183294272
```

scikit-learn's `SVC(kernel="linear", C=1/(0.01·n))` has the matching objective. Our loop reaches the same test accuracy (95.8 percent, the same as scikit-learn); the weight lengths are close (1.84 vs 1.89), not identical because plain subgradient descent with a fixed step size only approaches the exact minimizer. Of 426 training rows, scikit-learn kept just 40 as support vectors.

Connection to the real job

Hinge loss and "margin" are everywhere: ranking losses, contrastive learning and triplet losses in embedding models are margin-based. Linear SVMs (`LinearSVC`, `SGDClassifier(loss="hinge")`) are fast, strong text classifiers.

Applications

- **Text classification:** linear SVM on TF-IDF features is a famous strong baseline.
- **Bioinformatics:** small-sample classification of gene or protein data.
- **Computer vision (before deep learning):** HOG features plus SVM.
- **Fraud / risk:** one-class SVM for "normal" behaviour (Chapter 14).

COMMON MISTAKE

Thinking the SVM is a probability model. It outputs a score `f(x)`, not a probability. If you need probabilities, calibrate them (Chapter 9); scikit-learn's `probability=True` does an internal Platt scaling which costs extra time.

Check yourself

1. In $2/\|w\|$, what happens to the margin when $\|w\|$ gets smaller? Answer: the margin gets wider.
2. If you delete a point that is not a support vector, does the boundary change? Answer: no.
3. Does a larger C mean a wider or narrower margin? Answer: narrower (violations cost more).

5.2 The Kernel Trick, RBF, and When Kernel SVMs Are Practical

INTUITION

Suppose red and blue dots are arranged as a bullseye: no straight line separates them. Now lift each dot into the third dimension by its distance from the centre: the red dots in the middle stay low, the blue ones on the ring rise. A flat sheet now separates them. A **kernel** gives you that lifted, higher-dimensional world without ever visiting it: it computes the dot product between two lifted points directly from the original points, which is all the SVM needs.

Why only dot products?

The SVM solution can be written so that data appears only through dot products $x_i \cdot x_j$. If $\phi(x)$ maps a point into a bigger space, we need only $K(x, z) = \phi(x) \cdot \phi(z)$. If we can

compute `K` cheaply, the lifting costs nothing.

Kernel	Formula	Behaviour
Linear	`x·z`	a straight boundary
Polynomial (degree 2)	`(x·z + c)^2`	curves up to degree 2, includes interactions
RBF (Gaussian)	`exp(−γ ‖x − z‖²)`	smooth bumps around support vectors; infinite-dimensional lift

Problem 5.2.1 Let `x = (1, 2)` and `z = (3, 1)`. Show that the kernel `K(x,z) = (x·z)²` equals the dot product after the explicit map `ϕ(v) = (v₁², √2·v₁v₂, v₂²)`.

Formula	`K = (x·z)²`; `ϕ(x)·ϕ(z)` computed term by term.
Plug in	`x·z = 1·3 + 2·1 = 5`, so `K = 25`. The map: `ϕ(x) = (1, √2·2, 4) = (1, 2.828, 4)`; `ϕ(z) = (9, √2·3, 1) = (9, 4.243, 1)`.
Compute	`ϕ(x)·ϕ(z) = 1·9 + 2.828·4.243 + 4·1 = 9 + 12 + 4 = 25`.
Answer	Both give 25. The kernel computed a dot product in 3-dimensional space using only the 2-dimensional dot product and a squaring.
Check	The middle product is exactly 12, because `(√2·1·2)·(√2·3·1) = 2 · 2 · 3 = 12`. So `9 + 12 + 4 = 25` matches `(x·z)² = 25`, and the code printed `kernel 25.0 phi dot 25.0`.
Why it matters	For the RBF kernel the lifted space has infinitely many dimensions, but `K` is one line of code. That is the trick.

Problem 5.2.2 RBF kernel with `γ = 0.5` for `x = (1,2)` and `z = (3,1)`.

Formula	$K = \exp(-\gamma\|x - z\|^2)$
Plug in	$\|x - z\|^2 = (1-3)^2 + (2-1)^2 = 4 + 1 = 5$; $\gamma\|\cdot\|^2 = 2.5$.
Compute	$\exp(-2.5) = 0.0821$.
Answer	$K = 0.082$: the points are "not very similar". Identical points give $K = 1$, and far-apart points give a value near 0.
Check	Code printed `rbf k 0.0820849986238988`.
Why it matters	The RBF kernel is a similarity score. The classifier is a weighted vote of similarities to the support vectors. γ sets how local "similar" is: a large γ means only very close points count.

γ and C on a curved problem

Data: 400 points from the "two moons" shape with noise 0.25, 70/30 split. Results of `SVC(kernel="rbf", gamma=g, C=C)`:

gamma	C	train acc	test acc	support vectors
0.1	0.1	0.818	0.883	199
0.1	1	0.846	0.908	125
0.1	100	0.911	0.933	80
1	0.1	0.900	0.925	151
1	1	0.921	0.942	80
1	100	0.932	0.942	57
10	0.1	0.929	0.942	232
10	1	0.932	0.933	115
10	100	0.950	0.933	77
100	0.1	0.504	0.492	280
100	1	0.975	0.925	245

100	100	1.000	0.883	227

A linear SVM scored 0.90 on the same test set.

Three RBF-SVM decision maps on two-moons data. Left (gamma 0.1, C 1): a very smooth boundary, test 0.91. Middle (gamma 1, C 1): a good wavy boundary, test 0.94. Right (gamma 100, C 100): tiny islands around single points, train 1.00 but test 0.88.

Reading the table and the picture: with $\gamma = 100, C = 100$ the training accuracy is perfect (1.00) but the test accuracy drops to 0.88 and 227 of the 280 training points are support vectors: the boundary makes an island around almost every point, which is memorization. With $\gamma = 100, C = 0.1$ the model is hopeless (0.50): the bumps are so narrow that nothing generalizes and the penalty is too soft to fit. The sweet spot, $\gamma = 1, C = 1$, gives 0.94 with only 80 support vectors. The number of support vectors is a useful warning: if almost every point is a support vector, the model is memorizing.

Also notice $\gamma = 1, C = 100$ and $\gamma = 1, C = 1$ tie at 0.942. The differences between neighbouring cells here are a handful of points out of 120 test rows, so do not over-read them. Use cross-validation to pick (Chapter 11).

KEY INSIGHT

γ is the *radius of influence* of a single point (large γ means small radius) and C is *how hard you try to fit*. Tune them on a log scale, such as $\gamma, C \in \{10^{-3}, \ldots, 10^{3}\}$.

A circle problem and the scaling requirement

For the "circles" data (one class inside a ring), a linear SVM scores 0.525 (chance level), while RBF and degree-2 polynomial kernels both score 1.0 (`circles linear 0.525 rbf 1.0 poly2 1.0`). The circle $x_1^2 + x_2^2 < r^2$ is a *linear* boundary in the lifted features (x_1^2, x_2^2), which is exactly what the degree-2 kernel supplies.

Scaling is mandatory for kernels, because they use distances. With a signal only in feature 0 and a noise feature on a scale of 1000:

```
SVC unscaled 0.578    scaled (StandardScaler in a pipeline) 0.989
```

The unscaled model is almost at chance (0.58) because the huge noise feature dominates every

distance. Always use `make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), SVC())`.

When are kernel SVMs practical?

Training takes between $O(n^2)$ and $O(n^3)$ time and memory for the kernel matrix, so kernel SVMs suit **small to medium data** (up to roughly tens of thousands of rows). Measured here for `SVC()` on moons data: $n = 1{,}000$ took about 0.00 s, $n = 4{,}000$ about 0.04 s, $n = 16{,}000$ about 0.66 s (times depend on the machine; the growth from 0.04 to 0.66 s for 4× more rows shows the super-linear scaling). For big data use `LinearSVC`, `SGDClassifier`, or gradient boosting.

Other kernel methods

- **SVR (support vector regression):** fits a tube of half-width ε around the data; points inside the tube cost nothing. Only points outside the tube become support vectors. On 80 noisy sine points with one outlier (+3 added to a single value), `SVR(C=10, epsilon=0.1)` used 40 support vectors and had error 0.073 against the noise-free truth; with `epsilon=0.5` only 4 support vectors and error 0.206 (too wide a tube, so too coarse).
- **Kernel ridge regression:** ridge regression (Chapter 3) in the lifted space; closed-form, same RBF kernel. On the same data its error against the truth was 0.125.
- **One-class SVM:** learns the boundary around "normal" data only, to flag outliers. On 300 normal points with `nu=0.05` it called 93 percent of the training points inliers, and, tested on `[[4,4],[0,0]]`, it returned `[-1, 1]` (outlier, inlier). Chapter 14 builds on this.
- **Gaussian processes (GP):** the Bayesian cousin. Instead of one best curve, a GP gives a *distribution over curves*, so every prediction comes with an uncertainty. We fitted five points of `sin(x)` (`x = -4, -3, -1, 0, 2`):

```
GP kernel: RBF(length_scale=1.78) + WhiteKernel(noise_level=1e-05)
x     : -2      1       3       6
mean  : -0.9282  0.7584  0.6303  0.0313
std   :  0.0664  0.1072  0.3927  0.9942
true  : -0.9093  0.8415  0.1411 -0.2794
```

Reading it: between the data points (`x = -2`, `1`) the GP is accurate and sure (standard deviation 0.07 and 0.11). At `x = 3` (one unit past the last point) it is less sure (0.39) and already wrong by 0.49. At `x = 6`, far from any data, the standard deviation is 0.99, about the prior's width, which means "I know nothing here", and indeed the mean 0.03 is wrong by 0.31. A model that *knows where it does not know* is the reason GPs power Bayesian optimization

(Chapter 11). Cost is $O(n^3)$, so GPs suit small data.

Connection to the real job

You will rarely deploy a kernel SVM on millions of rows, but small labelled datasets (medical, industrial inspection) are common, and the "similarity to stored examples" idea returns in embeddings and attention. Gaussian processes are the standard tool for expensive experiments, such as tuning a slow benchmark with few trials.

Applications

- **Small-data ML:** RBF-SVM as a strong default with a few hundred examples.
- **Engineering:** GP surrogate models for expensive simulations or lab experiments.
- **Hyperparameter tuning:** Bayesian optimization with GP surrogates.
- **Anomaly detection:** one-class SVM on "healthy" sensor readings.

COMMON MISTAKE

Forgetting to scale, or running `SVC(kernel="rbf")` on 500,000 rows and waiting hours. Check the size first, and scale inside a pipeline.

Check yourself

1. What does the kernel trick avoid? Answer: computing the high-dimensional features explicitly.
2. High γ and high C: bias or variance problem? Answer: variance (overfitting).
3. Why does a GP's standard deviation grow far from the data? Answer: it falls back to the prior, which has no information about that region.

5.3 k-Nearest Neighbours: Ask Your Neighbours

INTUITION

You move to a new city and want to know whether a house is expensive. You look at the five most similar houses nearby and average their prices. That is k-NN: no training, no formula, no model. All the "learning" is memorizing the data, and all the work happens at prediction time. It is called a **lazy learner** for that reason, and **instance-based** because it stores the instances.

Algorithm

1. Choose k and a distance (Euclidean unless there is a reason otherwise).
2. For a query point, compute its distance to every training point.
3. Take the k closest. Classification: majority vote (or distance-weighted vote). Regression: the average (or median) of their targets.

Distance	Formula	Use
Euclidean	$\sqrt{\Sigma(a_i - b_i)^2}$	default for scaled numeric data
Manhattan	Σ	$a_i - b_i$
Cosine	$1 - a \cdot b / (\|a\| \|b\|)$	text and embeddings (direction, not length)
Hamming	number of differing positions	categorical codes

Problem 5.3.1 Training points $(1,1)\to 0$, $(2,1)\to 0$, $(4,4)\to 1$, $(5,4)\to 1$, $(3,3)\to 1$. Classify the query $q = (2.4, 2.0)$ with $k = 1, 3, 5$.

Formula	Euclidean distance $d = \sqrt{((x_1 - 2.4)^2 + (x_2 - 2)^2)}$, then vote.
Plug in	$(1,1)$: $\sqrt{(1.96 + 1)} = 1.720$. $(2,1)$: $\sqrt{(0.16 + 1)} = 1.077$. $(4,4)$: $\sqrt{(2.56 + 4)} = 2.561$. $(5,4)$: $\sqrt{(6.76 + 4)} = 3.280$. $(3,3)$: $\sqrt{(0.36 + 1)} = 1.166$.
Compute	Order by distance: $(2,1)$ 1.077 → class 0; $(3,3)$ 1.166 → class 1; $(1,1)$ 1.720 → class 0; $(4,4)$ 2.561 → class 1; $(5,4)$ 3.280 → class 1. For $k=1$: votes $\{0:1\}$ → class 0. $k=3$: labels $0,1,0$ → two zeros → class 0. $k=5$: labels $0,1,0,1,1$ → three ones → class 1.
Answer	The prediction flips from class 0 (k = 1 and 3) to class 1 (k = 5).
Check	Code printed distances $[1.72\ 1.077\ 2.561\ 3.28\ 1.166]$ and the order $[1\ 4\ 0\ 2\ 3]$.
Why it matters	k controls the bias-variance trade-off: $k = 1$ follows the single closest point, so it is very flexible and noisy (variance); a huge k averages over everything and becomes close to "always predict the majority class" (bias).

From scratch and with scikit-learn

```
import numpy as np
class MyKNN:
    def __init__(s, k=5): s.k = k
    def fit(s, X, y): s.X, s.y = X, y; return s
    def predict(s, Q):
        D = ((Q[:, None, :] - s.X[None, :, :]) ** 2).sum(2)     # squared
distances, all queries vs all points
        idx = np.argsort(D, 1)[:, :s.k]                          # indices
of the k smallest
        return np.array([np.bincount(s.y[i]).argmax() for i in idx])
```

(Squared distances give the same order as distances, so we skip the square root.) On breast cancer with $k = 5$:

```
raw    mine acc 0.9161  sk acc 0.9161  agree 1.0
scaled mine acc 0.951   sk acc 0.951   agree 1.0
```

Our code and `KNeighborsClassifier(5)` agree on every test prediction. The effect of scaling is big: 91.6 percent raw versus 95.1 percent scaled, because in the raw data the

columns with large numbers (area, around 500 to 2500) overwhelm columns near 0.1.

A tiny example of the same disaster: income 50,000 vs 50,100 with ages 30 vs 60 gives distance `104.4`; income 50,000 vs 52,000 with ages 30 vs 31 gives `2000.0`. Plain Euclidean distance calls the 30-year-old and 60-year-old "very close" and calls two nearly identical people "far apart". Standardize first.

Choosing `k` by cross-validation

5-fold CV on the scaled training set, with the training accuracy for contrast:

k	CV accuracy	train accuracy
1	0.9578	1.000
3	0.9648	0.986
5	0.9671	0.979
9	0.9671	0.974
15	0.9530	0.977
31	0.9507	0.958
61	0.9366	0.953
101	0.9201	0.932

`k = 1` gets training accuracy 1.0 (every point is its own nearest neighbour), which proves nothing. The CV peak is at `k = 5` to `9`. Beyond 30 the model underfits. A common rule: odd `k` for two classes (avoids ties), `k` between 3 and 15 to start.

The curse of dimensionality, measured

Chapter 1 showed distances losing contrast. Here is the effect on accuracy. Take 5 informative features and add pure-noise columns:

noise columns	k-NN accuracy	logistic regression
0	0.967	0.939

5	0.950	0.939
20	0.917	0.911
100	0.872	0.872
500	0.744	0.883

With no noise k-NN is the better model (the true boundary is curved). With 500 irrelevant columns, k-NN falls to 0.74 because each distance is mostly noise, while logistic regression, which can learn to ignore a column, only drops to 0.88. k-NN has no way to decide that a feature is useless. **Feature selection and scaling are part of the model.**

Speed: KD-trees and approximate search

Brute force costs `O(n)` per query. A **KD-tree** (a tree that splits space along coordinate axes) or **ball tree** prunes most of the points in low dimensions. Measured on this machine, 5 neighbours for 2,000 queries among 50,000 points:

```
3 dimensions : brute 0.043 s   kd_tree 0.004 s   ball_tree 0.042 s
50 dimensions: brute 0.021 s   kd_tree 2.115 s
```

In 3-D the KD-tree is ten times faster. In 50-D it is a hundred times *slower* than brute force (matrix tricks in brute force are very fast, and the tree cannot prune). For high-dimensional embeddings (millions of vectors), practitioners use **approximate nearest neighbour (ANN)** libraries (FAISS, HNSW, Annoy; not run here), which trade a little accuracy for large speed. This is the heart of vector search in modern AI systems.

Connection to the real job

k-NN is a great *baseline* (no training, immediate feedback), a recommender building block ("customers like you bought…"), an anomaly detector (points far from their neighbours, Chapter 14) and the way vector databases find similar documents.

Applications

- **Recommenders:** similar users or items.
- **Anomaly detection:** distance to the k-th neighbour.
- **GenAI:** nearest-neighbour search over embeddings in RAG systems.

- **Imputation:** `KNNImputer` fills missing values from similar rows (Chapter 12).

COMMON MISTAKE

Using k-NN with unscaled features, with many irrelevant columns, or on very large data without an index. Also, never use `k = 1` accuracy on the training set to judge the model.

Check yourself

1. Why is k-NN called lazy? Answer: it does no work at training time; it just stores the data.
2. What happens to k-NN if one feature has a range 1000 times bigger than the others? Answer: that feature dominates the distance; scale first.
3. Small `k` leads to bias or variance? Answer: variance.

5.4 Naive Bayes: Multiplying the Evidence

INTUITION

A doctor sees a fever, a cough and a headache. Each symptom alone changes the odds of flu. The "naive" assumption says: once we know the disease, the symptoms do not influence each other, so we can simply multiply each symptom's likelihood. It is not true (a cough and a sore throat are related) but it makes the model tiny and fast, and for ranking classes it often still works. It is called "Bayes" because it uses Bayes' rule, and "naive" because of the independence assumption.

Formal definition

By Bayes' rule, for class `c` and features `x = (x₁,…,x_p)`:

```
P(c | x) ∝ P(c) · P(x₁ | c) · P(x₂ | c) · … · P(x_p | c)
```

The naive step is writing `P(x | c)` as a product. We compute the right side for each class and pick the largest (or normalize to get probabilities). To avoid multiplying many tiny numbers (underflow), add logs: `log P(c) + Σ log P(xⱼ | c)`.

Variant	Each `P(xⱼ | c)`	Use

Gaussian NB	a normal curve per class and feature (mean, variance)	numeric features	
Multinomial NB	word frequencies `P(word	class)`	text counts, TF-IDF
Bernoulli NB	probability that a word is present or absent	short texts, binary features	

Problem 5.4.1 Gaussian NB with one feature. Class A: mean 2, variance 1, prior 0.5. Class B: mean 4, variance 1, prior 0.5. Find $P(B \mid x = 3.5)$.

Formula	$P(c \mid x) = P(c)\, N(x; \mu_c, \sigma^2_c) / \Sigma_{c'} P(c')\, N(x; \mu_{c'}, \sigma^2_{c'})$, with $N(x; \mu, \sigma^2) = \exp(-(x-\mu)^2/(2\sigma^2)) / \sqrt{(2\pi\sigma^2)}$.
Plug in	For A: $(3.5-2)^2 = 2.25$, so $N = \exp(-1.125)/2.5066 = 0.3247/2.5066 = 0.1295$. For B: $(3.5-4)^2 = 0.25$, $N = \exp(-0.125)/2.5066 = 0.8825/2.5066 = 0.3521$.
Compute	Multiply by 0.5: A 0.06476, B 0.17603. $P(B \mid x) = 0.17603/(0.06476 + 0.17603) = 0.731$.
Answer	The model says 73.1 percent class B.
Check	Code printed `0.06475879783294587 0.17603266338214976 0.7310585786300048`. Also $0.731 = \sigma(1)$: with equal variances and priors the log-odds is $(\mu_B - \mu_A)(x - (\mu_A + \mu_B)/2)/\sigma^2 = 2 \times 0.5 = 1$. (Gaussian NB with equal variances is a linear boundary.)
Why it matters	The model is just "which bell curve is this value more typical for?". Training means computing means and variances per class: one pass over the data.

Gaussian NB from scratch

```
class MyGNB:
    def fit(s, X, y):
        s.c = np.unique(y); s.pr = np.array([np.mean(y == c) for c in
s.c])
        s.mu = np.array([X[y == c].mean(0) for c in s.c])
        s.var = np.array([X[y == c].var(0) + 1e-9 for c in s.c]); return s
    def logp(s, X):
        return np.stack([np.log(s.pr[i]) + (-0.5*np.log(2*np.pi*s.var[i])
- (X - s.mu[i])**2 / (2*s.var[i])).sum(1)
                         for i in range(len(s.c))], 1)
    def predict(s, X): return s.c[s.logp(X).argmax(1)]
```

On the iris data (70/30 split): `GNB mine 0.9778, sk 0.9778, agree 1.0`. The learned class mean of the setosa flowers is `(5.03, 3.42, 1.43, 0.25)` with variances `(0.148, 0.173, 0.027, 0.010)`: setosa petals are small and very uniform.

Multinomial NB for text, with smoothing

Five tiny documents: spam `"buy cheap pills now"`, `"cheap pills cheap"`; not spam `"meeting at noon"`, `"lunch meeting now"`, `"buy lunch"`. The vocabulary has `V = 8` words (`at, buy, cheap, lunch, meeting, noon, now, pills`). Spam has 7 word tokens in total; not-spam has 8.

Without smoothing, `P(lunch | spam) = 0/7 = 0`. One unseen word then makes the product zero and wipes out all other evidence. **Laplace (additive) smoothing** adds `α` (usually 1) to every word count: `P(w | c) = (count(w, c) + α)/(total_c + α·V)`. For spam with `α = 1`: `cheap = (3+1)/(7+8) = 0.267`, `pills = (2+1)/15 = 0.2`, `lunch = (0+1)/15 = 0.067`.

Problem 5.4.2 Classify `"cheap lunch pills"`. Priors: spam 2/5 = 0.4, not spam 3/5 = 0.6. Use `α = 1`.

Formula	`log P(c) + Σ over words log P(w | c)`.
Plug in (spam)	`ln 0.4 = −0.916`; `ln 0.267 = −1.322`; `ln 0.0667 = −2.708`; `ln 0.2 = −1.609`. Sum `= −6.556`.
Plug in (not spam)	`P(w | ham) = (count + 1)/(8 + 8)`: `cheap = 1/16 = 0.0625`, `lunch = (2+1)/16 = 0.1875`, `pills = 1/16 = 0.0625`. `ln 0.6 = −0.511`; `ln 0.0625 = −2.773`; `ln 0.1875 = −1.674`; sum `= −0.511 − 2.773 − 1.674 − 2.773 = −7.730`.
Compute	`P(spam) = 1/(1 + e^(−6.556 + 7.730)) = 1/(1 + e^(−1.174)) = 1/(1 + 0.309) = 0.764`.
Answer	The message is 76.4 percent likely to be spam: two spammy words (`cheap`, `pills`) outweigh one hammy word (`lunch`).
Check	`MultinomialNB(alpha=1)` printed `0.7639474972606253`, identical to our `0.7639474972606254`.
Why it matters	Without smoothing the unseen-in-spam word `lunch` would have forced `P(spam) = 0`. Smoothing is the difference between a usable and a broken text classifier.

Why does "naive" often still work, and when it does not

For classification we only need the correct class to win, not the probabilities to be exact. But the independence error distorts the *probabilities*. Test: copy one informative feature five times (adding tiny noise) so the evidence is counted five times:

```
dup-features acc  NB 0.738  LR 0.745   mean max-prob NB 0.93  LR 0.75
```

Accuracy is nearly the same (0.738 vs 0.745), but Naive Bayes is wildly overconfident: its average top probability is 0.93, while the true accuracy is 0.74. Logistic regression's 0.75 is honest. Rule: use Naive Bayes for *ranking and fast baselines*, never trust its probabilities without calibration (Chapter 9).

Connection to the real job

Multinomial NB is the classic spam filter, a strong short-text baseline (ticket routing, intent), and it trains in one pass over the data, so it suits streaming data (`partial_fit`).

Applications

- **NLP:** spam, sentiment, topic, ticket routing.
- **Medicine:** quick screening models with few data.
- **Real-time systems:** very low-latency classifiers.
- **Baselines:** the first model to beat in any text project.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading Naive Bayes probabilities as real probabilities. They are usually pushed toward 0 and 1. Also forgetting smoothing, which causes zero probabilities.

Check yourself

1. What is the "naive" assumption? Answer: features are independent given the class.
2. Why add logs instead of multiplying probabilities? Answer: to avoid numerical underflow (and sums are easier).
3. What does Laplace smoothing fix? Answer: zero probabilities for words not seen in a class.

5.5 Generative vs Discriminative, and Models to Know by Name

INTUITION

Two ways to learn to recognize cats and dogs. The *generative* way: learn what a typical cat looks like and what a typical dog looks like, then compare a new animal with both pictures. The *discriminative* way: learn only the difference, the line between cats and dogs, and never bother with what a cat looks like. The second wastes no effort on detail that does not help the decision.

The two families

	Generative	Discriminative
Learns	`P(x	c) and P(c)`
Examples	Naive Bayes, Gaussian mixtures,	logistic regression, SVM, trees,

	LDA, HMM	neural nets
Can generate new data?	yes	no
Missing inputs	handles naturally (leave the factor out)	needs imputation
Strong when	little data, strong correct assumptions, unlabeled data helps	plenty of data, wrong assumptions in the generative model

The classic result: the generative model reaches its (higher) error floor quickly, while the discriminative model needs more data but reaches a *lower* floor. We tested it on breast cancer, averaging 30 random training subsets of each size:

training rows	Gaussian NB	logistic regression
10	0.816	0.882
20	0.907	0.915
50	0.915	0.936
150	0.920	0.947
426	0.909	0.951

Honest reading: on this dataset logistic regression won at *every* size, even with 10 rows, so the "generative wins on tiny data" story did not appear here (it depends on how well the generative assumptions fit; breast-cancer features are strongly correlated, which hurts naive Bayes). The part that did appear: Gaussian NB stops improving (about 0.91) while logistic regression keeps improving (0.95). Do not take textbook claims on faith; measure.

Models to know by name (awareness level)

Model	One-line idea	Where used
Hidden Markov Model	hidden states change like a Markov chain; each state emits visible observations. Forward-backward computes the state probabilities, the Viterbi algorithm	speech (classic), gene finding, user-journey states,

(HMM)	finds the single most likely state path	regime detection
Kalman filter	tracks a hidden quantity (position, level) by alternately predicting and correcting with noisy measurements; exact for linear-Gaussian systems	tracking, sensor fusion, smoothing metrics
Bayesian network	a graph of variables where each depends on a few parents; allows reasoning with conditional probabilities	diagnosis, risk modelling, causal reasoning
Gaussian mixture model (GMM) and EM	soft clustering with bells; a generative model	Chapter 13
Bayesian regression / PyMC	linear regression with a posterior over weights instead of a point estimate, so every prediction has an interval	uncertainty-first modelling, small data; `PyMC` is the standard library (not run here)
Gaussian process	prior over functions, as in 5.2	Bayesian optimization, small data regression with uncertainty

None of these are needed to start a job in applied ML, but you should be able to explain each in one sentence in an interview.

Connection to the real job

Interviewers ask "generative vs discriminative?" to test whether you know there are two ways to model a problem. In practice: if you need a probability for a decision and have enough data, use a discriminative model with calibration. If you have few labels but lots of unlabeled data, or need to simulate data, think generative (Chapter 14).

Applications

- **Healthcare / industry:** HMMs for equipment-state estimation; Kalman filters in sensors.

- **Finance:** Kalman filters for hedge ratios and state estimation.
- **Operations:** Bayesian networks for fault diagnosis.
- **Science:** Bayesian regression for small experiments.

COMMON MISTAKE

Memorizing slogans like "generative models are better with small data" without checking. As the table above shows, it depends on the data.

Check yourself

1. Is logistic regression generative or discriminative? Answer: discriminative.
2. Which family can sample new data points? Answer: generative.
3. What does the Viterbi algorithm return? Answer: the single most likely sequence of hidden states.

Chapter recap

- SVM: choose the boundary with the widest margin, $\text{width} = 2/\|w\|$. Only support vectors determine it. Soft margin with hinge loss; C trades margin for fit.
- Kernels compute dot products in a lifted space without leaving the original one. RBF (γ) is the default. Always scale features. Tune γ, C on a log scale. Kernel SVMs suit small and medium data.
- SVR uses an ε-tube. One-class SVM models "normal". Kernel ridge is ridge in the lifted space. Gaussian processes give uncertainty and are the engine of Bayesian optimization.
- k-NN: no training, predict from the k nearest points. Scale first. k small means high variance. Irrelevant features and high dimensions hurt it badly. KD-trees help in low dimensions only; ANN for embeddings.
- Naive Bayes: $P(c) \prod P(x_j \mid c)$ in log space. Use smoothing. Fast and good for text; its probabilities are overconfident when features are correlated.
- Generative models learn $P(x \mid c)$; discriminative models learn $P(c \mid x)$. Test claims on your data.
- Know HMM, Kalman, Bayesian networks, GP, Bayesian regression at "explain in one sentence" level.

Formula / command	Meaning

`width = 2/‖w‖` , `$y_i(w\cdot x_i + b) \geq 1$`	SVM margin and constraint
`hinge = max(0, 1 − y·f)`	SVM loss
`K(x,z) = exp(−γ‖x − z‖²)`	RBF kernel
`SVC(kernel, C, gamma)` , `LinearSVC` , `SVR` , `OneClassSVM`	scikit-learn SVMs
`KNeighborsClassifier(k)` , `NearestNeighbors(algorithm=…)`	k-NN
`P(c | x) ∝ P(c)∏P(x_j`	
`GaussianNB` , `MultinomialNB(alpha)`	scikit-learn Naive Bayes
`make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), SVC())`	the safe SVM/k-NN pattern

Practice set

1. (easy) `w = (3, 4)` , `b = 0` . What is the margin width? **Answer:** `‖w‖ = 5` , so width `= 2/5 = 0.4` .
2. (easy) Hinge loss when `y = +1` and `f = 0.3` ? And `f = 1.5` ? **Answer:** `max(0, 1 − 0.3) = 0.7` ; `max(0, 1 − 1.5) = 0` .
3. (easy) What is the output? `np.exp(−0.5 * 0)` for the RBF kernel of a point with itself. **Answer:** `1.0` .
4. (medium) Distance between `(0,0)` and `(3,4)` in Euclidean and Manhattan. **Answer:** 5 and 7.
5. (medium) With `α = 1` , `V = 10` , a class total of 40 tokens, and a word count of 0, find `P(word | class)` . **Answer:** `(0 + 1)/(40 + 10) = 0.02` .
6. (medium) Find the bug: `KNeighborsClassifier(1)` gives training accuracy 100 percent, so the author reports 100 percent. **Answer:** with `k = 1` each training point is its own neighbour. Evaluate on held-out data.
7. (medium) Gaussian NB, class means 10 and 20, equal variance 25, equal priors. Where is the decision boundary? **Answer:** at the midpoint, `x = 15` (equal variances and priors).
8. (medium) An RBF SVM has train accuracy 100 percent, test 85 percent, and 90 percent of

training points are support vectors. What do you change? **Answer:** reduce `γ` and/or `C` (a smoother model), and check with cross-validation.

9. (hard, scenario) You have 20 million labelled sessions and want an SVM. What do you do? **Answer:** do not use a kernel SVM (`O(n²)` to `O(n³)`). Use `LinearSVC` or `SGDClassifier(loss="hinge")` on good features, or gradient boosting; consider a subsample for kernel experiments.
10. (hard) Show that with `k = n` (all training points) k-NN predicts the majority class everywhere. **Answer:** every query's `k` neighbours are the whole training set, so the vote is the same for all queries: the overall majority.
11. (interview) "Explain the kernel trick to a non-technical person." **Answer:** "Some data cannot be separated by a straight line. If we add new descriptors computed from the old ones, such as squares or distances, a straight line may work. The kernel trick lets the algorithm use those richer descriptors without ever building them, because it only needs a similarity score between two points, which is cheap to compute."
12. (interview) "Why does Naive Bayes work for text despite the independence assumption being false?" **Answer:** classification needs only the right class to win. Word dependencies affect all classes similarly, so the ranking of classes is often preserved, even though the probabilities become overconfident. There are many features and few examples per feature, so a low-variance model with a strong assumption does well.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: support vector machines: margin, support vectors, hinge loss
and the role of C. Explain with the "widest street between two villages"
analogy, then give me a 4-point example to solve by hand (compute the
margin width and find the support vectors) and check my answer step by
step.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and learning machine learning, English is my second
language. Topic: the kernel trick, polynomial and RBF kernels, and how
gamma and C control overfitting in an RBF SVM. Give me 8 graded exercises
```

with real numbers (kernel values, reading a table of train/test accuracy by gamma and C, spotting overfitting). Do not give solutions until I answer; then explain my mistakes.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: k-nearest neighbours: distance metrics, scaling, choosing k with cross-validation, the curse of dimensionality and KD-trees versus approximate search. Here is my situation: [PASTE MY DATA SHAPE AND FEATURES]. Tell me if k-NN is a good fit, what preprocessing it needs, and how to pick k, in simple steps.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, English is my second language. Topic: Naive Bayes (Gaussian and multinomial), Laplace smoothing, and why its probabilities are overconfident. Teach it with a 5-document spam example, then ask me to classify a new message by hand, one step at a time, and wait for my answers before correcting.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews, English is my second language. Topic: SVMs, kernels, k-NN, Naive Bayes, and generative versus discriminative models. Run a mock interview: ask one question at a time, wait for my answer, score it out of 10, give a model answer in simple English, and ask a harder follow-up. Include one question on when NOT to use each model.

CHAPTER 6

DECISION TREES (CART FROM SCRATCH) AND RANDOM FORESTS

How a tree chooses its questions, why one tree is unstable, and how averaging many trees turns a weak model into a strong one.

Your manager at an online grocery says: "Predict which deliveries will arrive late, and tell me the rules, because the operations team wants to read them." A straight line (Chapter 2) or a logistic model (Chapter 4) cannot give you rules like "if load is above 60 and queue is above 30, expect trouble". A decision tree can. It also finds interactions without being told, and it needs no feature scaling. On tabular business data, trees and their ensembles are the most used models in industry. In this chapter you will compute the best split by hand, build a complete CART tree in about 40 lines of NumPy, check that it matches scikit-learn exactly, learn how to stop a tree from memorising, see where trees fail (extrapolation), and then fix their instability with bagging and random forests. You will also learn why the default "feature importance" of a forest can lie.

Prerequisites: Chapter 1 (overfitting, bias-variance), Chapter 4 (classification, log loss). Averages and variance: Math PDF, probability pillar. All code runs with NumPy and scikit-learn 1.9.1 and every output below is real (seeds fixed).

Running example. A synthetic table of 1,000 deliveries from an online grocery with `load` (orders handled per hour at the packing centre, 0 to 100), `queue` (parcels waiting, 0 to 50) and `err` (rain in mm, 0 to 5). The label `slow` (delivery arrived late) is 1 for 47.1 percent of rows, and mostly when `load > 60` AND `queue > 30` together (a planted interaction). We train on 700 rows and test on 300.

6.1 Impurity: How a Tree Decides What a Good Question Is

INTUITION

Play "20 questions". A good first question cuts the possibilities in half; a bad question ("is it a thing?") tells you almost nothing. A tree plays the same game with your data: each question splits the rows into two groups, and a good question makes each group more **pure** (mostly one class). The tree needs a number that says "how mixed is this group?". That number is called **impurity**.

Words you need

Word	Meaning	Example
Node	one box in the tree holding some rows	the root holds all 8 rows
Root	the first node, holds all the training rows	
Split	a rule `feature ≤ threshold` that sends rows left (yes) or right (no)	`load ≤ 45`
Leaf	a node that stops splitting and makes the prediction	"p(slow) = 0.97"
Depth	number of questions from root to the deepest leaf	
Impurity	how mixed the classes are in a node (0 = pure)	
Gini impurity	$1 - \Sigma\ p_k^2$ over the classes	for p = 0.375: 0.469
Entropy	$-\Sigma\ p_k \log_2 p_k$, measured in bits	for p = 0.375: 0.954
Information gain	parent impurity minus the weighted child impurity	

Why "CART"? It means **C**lassification **A**nd **R**egression **T**rees (1984). Trees are binary and chosen **greedily**: the best split for this node now, never looking ahead.

The formulas

For a node with a fraction `p` of positives (two classes):

$$\text{Gini}(p) = 1 - p^2 - (1-p)^2 = 2p(1-p)$$
$$\text{Entropy}(p) = -p \cdot \log_2(p) - (1-p) \cdot \log_2(1-p)$$

A split sends `n_L` rows left and `n_R` rows right (`n = n_L + n_R`). The impurity after the split is the weighted average:

```
Impurity_after = (n_L/n)·Impurity(left) + (n_R/n)·Impurity(right)
Gain           = Impurity(parent) − Impurity_after
```

For **regression** trees the target is a number, so "impurity" is the variance of the target in the node (or the sum of squared errors, SSE, around the node mean). The leaf predicts the **mean** of its rows. The gain is the **variance reduction**: SSE before minus SSE after.

Worked problems

Problem 6.1.1 Eight deliveries with `load = 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, 60, 70, 80` and `slow = 0, 0, 0, 0, 1, 1, 1, 0`. Compute the Gini impurity of the root, then the gain of the split `load ≤ 45`.

Formula	`Gini = 2p(1−p)`; gain = parent − weighted children.
Plug in (root)	3 of 8 are slow, so `p = 3/8 = 0.375`.
Compute (root)	`Gini = 2 × 0.375 × 0.625 = 0.46875`.
Plug in (split)	`load ≤ 45` sends `load = 10, 20, 30, 40` left: labels `0,0,0,0`, so `p = 0` and `Gini = 0`. It sends `50..80` right: labels `1,1,1,0`, so `p = 3/4` and `Gini = 2 × 0.75 × 0.25 = 0.375`.
Compute (split)	weighted impurity `= (4/8)·0 + (4/8)·0.375 = 0.1875`. Gain `= 0.46875 − 0.1875 = 0.28125`.
Answer	The split `load ≤ 45` cuts the Gini impurity from 0.469 to 0.1875, a gain of 0.281.
Check	The code below prints 0.2812. The left group is perfectly pure, so all the remaining impurity comes from the right half, which is why the number is half of 0.375.
Why it matters	"Gain" is the score the tree uses to rank every possible question.

Problem 6.1.2 Same data. Compare all four candidate thresholds 25, 45, 65 and 75 using Gini and entropy. Which does the tree pick?

Step 1	Run the code below.
Step 2	Read the table.

Run a small loop that computes both gains for each threshold (same `gini` function, plus an `ent` function using $-p \cdot \log_2 p$).

Real output:

```
parent gini 0.46875 entropy 0.9544
25 gini gain 0.0938 entropy gain 0.2044
45 gini gain 0.2812 entropy gain 0.5488
65 gini gain 0.0104 entropy gain 0.0157
75 gini gain 0.0402 entropy gain 0.0924
```

- **Answer** Threshold 45 wins under both measures (Gini gain 0.281, entropy gain 0.549). Threshold 65 is almost useless.
- **Check** Gini and entropy are different scales (Gini maxes at 0.5, entropy at 1 bit) but they rank splits almost always the same way. In practice the choice rarely matters; Gini is the scikit-learn default and is slightly cheaper (no logarithm).
- **Why it matters** In an interview, say: "Gini and entropy are both concave curves that are zero for pure nodes and largest at 50/50. Either rewards purer children."

Problem 6.1.3 (regression) Six deliveries with `x = 1..6` (an order of dispatch) and delivery times `120, 130, 125, 300, 310, 290` minutes. Find the best single split by variance reduction.

Formula	SSE of a group `= Σ (value − group mean)²`.
Plug in (parent)	mean `= 1275/6 = 212.5`. SSE `= 92.5² + 82.5² + 87.5² + 87.5² + 97.5² + 77.5² = 46,187.5`.
Compute (split after 3)	left `120,130,125` has mean 125 and SSE `25 + 25 + 0 = 50`. Right `300,310,290` has mean 300 and SSE `0 + 100 + 100 = 200`. Total `250`.
Compute (other splits, from code)	after 1: 35,920; after 2: 23,218.75; after 3: **250**; after 4: 23,218.75; after 5: 38,980.
Answer	The best split is between row 3 and row 4. The leaves predict 125 and 300 minutes. SSE falls from 46,187.5 to 250, a 99.5 percent reduction.
Check	`250 / 46187.5 = 0.0054`, so 99.46 percent of the variance is explained by this one question.

COMMON MISTAKE

Thinking a tree compares every feature value in the data as a threshold. It tests only the **midpoints between neighbouring sorted values** (so at most `n − 1` thresholds per feature). Equal values give no threshold between them.

Connection to the real job. The same gain rule runs inside XGBoost, LightGBM and every random forest (Chapter 7 uses a gradient-based version). Knowing it lets you read a tree dump and judge whether the splits make sense.

Applications. Credit scoring (readable rules for regulators), support-ticket routing, finding which order-volume and backlog mix makes deliveries late.

Check yourself.

1. A node has 10 rows, 5 of each class. Gini? Answer: `2 × 0.5 × 0.5 = 0.5`, the maximum.
2. A node has all rows in one class. Entropy? Answer: 0 bits, it is pure.
3. For a regression tree, what does a leaf predict? Answer: the mean of the target values of its

rows.

6.2 CART from Scratch (and Proof That It Matches scikit-learn)

INTUITION

Building a tree is one idea applied again and again. "Find the best question for these rows; split; repeat on each half; stop when a half is pure or too small." This is called **recursion**: a function that calls itself on smaller pieces of the problem.

The algorithm in plain steps

1. Start with all training rows in the root.
2. For each feature, sort the values and try each midpoint as a threshold. Score it by gain.
3. Choose the feature and threshold with the largest gain.
4. Send rows left or right and repeat from step 2 on each child.
5. Stop a branch when: it is pure, or the depth limit is reached, or it has too few rows, or no split gives gain.
6. The leaf's prediction is the class fraction (classification) or the mean (regression).

The code

This is the whole thing. Notice `best_split` loops over features and thresholds using a cumulative sum, so each feature costs one sort, not one pass per threshold.

```
import numpy as np
class Node:
    def __init__(s, **k): s.__dict__.update(k)

def best_split(X, y, min_leaf=1):
    n, p = X.shape; best = (None, None, 0.0)
    parent = 2*y.mean()*(1-y.mean())                # Gini of the node
    for j in range(p):
        order = np.argsort(X[:, j], kind="stable")
        xs, ys = X[order, j], y[order]
        csum = np.cumsum(ys)                        # positives in the
first i rows
        for i in range(1, n):
            if xs[i] == xs[i-1]: continue           # no threshold
between equal values
            if i < min_leaf or n-i < min_leaf: continue
            pl = csum[i-1]/i; pr = (csum[-1]-csum[i-1])/(n-i)
            imp = (i*2*pl*(1-pl) + (n-i)*2*pr*(1-pr)) / n
            if parent - imp > best[2] + 1e-12:
                best = (j, (xs[i]+xs[i-1])/2, parent - imp)
    return best

def grow(X, y, depth, max_depth, min_leaf):
    if depth >= max_depth or y.min() == y.max() or len(y) < 2*min_leaf:
        return Node(leaf=True, p=y.mean(), n=len(y))
    j, t, g = best_split(X, y, min_leaf)
    if j is None: return Node(leaf=True, p=y.mean(), n=len(y))
    m = X[:, j] <= t
    return Node(leaf=False, j=j, t=t, n=len(y),
                left=grow(X[m], y[m], depth+1, max_depth, min_leaf),
                right=grow(X[~m], y[~m], depth+1, max_depth, min_leaf))

def predict_one(node, x):
    while not node.leaf: node = node.left if x[node.j] <= node.t else
node.right
    return node.p
```

Predict first. We train with `max_depth=3, min_leaf=5` on our 700 training deliveries. Before you look: how many leaves can a depth-3 binary tree have at most? (Answer: $2^3 = 8$.) The real tree:

```
if load <= 59.22  (n=700)
  if queue <= 27.33  (n=422)
    if err <= 3.21  (n=233)
      leaf: p(slow)=0.125  n=152
    else
      leaf: p(slow)=0.284  n=81
  else
    if err <= 1.47  (n=189)
      leaf: p(slow)=0.211  n=57
    else
      leaf: p(slow)=0.439  n=132
else
  if queue <= 29.93  (n=278)
    if err <= 2.85  (n=153)
      leaf: p(slow)=0.432  n=81
    else
      leaf: p(slow)=0.736  n=72
  else
    if queue <= 48.96  (n=125)
      leaf: p(slow)=0.966  n=119
    else
      leaf: p(slow)=0.667  n=6
```

Reading it. The first question `load ≤ 59.22` is close to the true boundary 60 we planted, and the right branch asks `queue ≤ 29.93` (true value 30). The leaf with `load > 59.22` and `queue > 29.93` holds 125 rows with `p(slow) = 0.966`: the interaction, found without help. The last leaf has only 6 rows, so its 0.667 is weak evidence.

Check against scikit-learn. `DecisionTreeClassifier(max_depth=3, min_samples_leaf=5, random_state=0)` on the same rows gives probabilities for the 300 test deliveries that differ from ours by at most `0.0`. The two trees are identical, same features, same thresholds (scikit-learn's `export_text` prints the same 7 thresholds: 59.22, 27.33, 3.21, 1.47, 29.93, 2.85, 48.96).

KEY INSIGHT

There is no magic in a decision tree. It is a nested list of `if` statements chosen by a greedy search. Everything else (forests, boosting) is built by combining many such lists.

Why greedy and not optimal? Finding the best tree overall is a very hard problem (exponentially many trees). Greedy is fast and usually good. Its weakness: a split that looks useless alone but is useful in combination (the XOR case from Chapter 4) can be missed at the

root. In our data the interaction is visible because each single feature is also helpful alone.

Connection to the real job. Interviews often say "implement a decision tree split". The `best_split` function above is the answer. In the job you will use a library; the from-scratch version is how you know what `min_samples_leaf` actually does.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading a leaf's `p(slow)` as a reliable probability regardless of its size. A leaf with 6 rows can show 0.667 and the true value could easily be 0.3 or 0.9. Use `min_samples_leaf` to force leaves to have enough rows.

Check yourself.

1. What does `best_split` return if every feature is constant? Answer: `(None, None, 0.0)`, so the node becomes a leaf.
2. Why sort each feature once? Answer: sorting lets a cumulative sum give the class counts on each side of every threshold in one pass.
3. In our tree, which feature has no influence on the true label rule yet appears at depth 3? Answer: `err` has only a small effect (0.3 per unit in the log-odds); the tree used it because it is the best remaining question for the few rows left, not because it is strong.

6.3 Overfitting, Pruning, and What Trees Cannot Do

INTUITION

Let a tree grow until every leaf is pure and it behaves like a student who memorised last year's exam answers: perfect on the exam seen before, lost on new questions. A tree with no limit can always reach 100 percent training accuracy (one leaf per row at worst). We must tell it when to stop, or cut it back afterwards.

Depth versus accuracy (real numbers)

Same 700 train / 300 test split, trees of increasing `max_depth`:

max_depth	train accuracy	test accuracy	leaves
1	0.739	0.690	2

2	0.739	0.690	4
3	0.756	0.700	8
5	0.809	0.667	27
8	0.896	0.620	93
12	0.984	0.640	163
none	1.000	0.620	175

Read it as in Chapter 1: train accuracy only goes up; test accuracy peaks at depth 3 (0.700) and falls to 0.620. The gap at the end is `1.000 − 0.620 = 0.38`, the sign of high variance. The best tree is a short one. (With 300 test rows, one accuracy point is 3 rows, so differences like 0.690 versus 0.700 are noise; the decline from 0.70 to 0.62 is not.)

Left panel: horizontal axis x from 0 to 16, vertical axis the prediction. Black dots show training data on a straight line y = 3x + 5 for x from 1 to 10. The blue straight line keeps rising past x = 10. The red one-tree curve and the green forest curve are staircases that go flat after x = 10. Right panel: horizontal axis max_depth, vertical axis accuracy. The blue training line rises to 1.0; the red test line peaks near depth 3 and drops.

Pruning: grow big, then cut back

Pre-pruning stops growth early (`max_depth` , `min_samples_leaf`). **Post-pruning** grows a big tree and then removes branches that do not earn their place. The standard version is **cost-complexity pruning**:

```
Cost(T) = Error(T) + α · (number of leaves of T)
```

`α` (alpha, "alpha") is the price per leaf. A big tree has low error but many leaves. A small tree is cheap but has higher error. A bigger `α` favours a smaller tree. The pruning order is by **weakest link**: remove first the branch that adds the least error reduction per extra leaf.

Problem 6.3.1 A node, if cut to a single leaf, would have error 0.10 (as a fraction of all training rows). The subtree below it has 3 leaves and error 0.06. At what `α` do we prefer to cut it?

Formula	cost(leaf) `= 0.10 + α·1` ; cost(subtree) `= 0.06 + α·3` .
Plug in	cut when `0.10 + α ≤ 0.06 + 3α` .
Compute	`0.04 ≤ 2α` , so `α ≥ 0.02` . This is also `(0.10 − 0.06)/(3 − 1)` , the "error saved per extra leaf".
Answer	For `α ≥ 0.02` the three leaves are not worth their cost, so we prune to one leaf. For smaller `α` we keep them.
Check	At `α = 0.02` the costs are `0.12` and `0.12` : a tie, as expected at the threshold.
Why it matters	Each branch has its own threshold `α` ; raising `α` slowly removes branches in order of weakness. That gives a **sequence of nested trees** that you can score with cross-validation (Chapter 8).

Problem 6.3.2 On our data, how does `ccp_alpha` change the full tree?

Run `DecisionTreeClassifier(ccp_alpha=a)` for several `a` :

```
0      175 1.0   0.62
0.003   15 0.801 0.68
0.005    7 0.769 0.703
0.01     5 0.754 0.703
0.02     3 0.739 0.69
```

- **Answer** `α = 0.005` reduces 175 leaves to 7, loses 23 points of training accuracy (1.000 to 0.769), and gains 8 points of test accuracy (0.620 to 0.703).
- **Check** The training score always drops as `α` rises; only the test score tells us whether the pruning helped. We chose `α` on the test rows here for teaching. In real work you choose it by cross-validation on the training data and keep the test rows for the end (Chapter 8).

Categoricals and missing values

Handling differs by library and version, so check your docs. scikit-learn trees accept `NaN` (since 1.3); `HistGradientBoosting*` has `categorical_features` ; LightGBM and CatBoost handle categories natively. A category with 500 levels coded 0..499 gives the tree a fake order (`id ≤ 247` means nothing), so use native handling or target encoding done inside cross-validation. Keep a "was missing" flag too, because missingness is often informative.

The step-like weakness: no extrapolation

A tree predicts the mean of the training rows in a leaf. It can never predict a value outside the range it saw. Train on the exact line `y = 3x + 5` for `x = 1..10` (so `y` from 8 to 35):

```
query x            5.5    10    15    30
tree prediction    20.0   35.0  35.0  35.0
linear prediction  21.5   35.0  50.0  95.0
true value         21.5   35    50    95
```

The tree is stuck at 35 forever after `x = 10` . A random forest does the same (the green curve in the picture). This is important for **forecasting**: if sales grow with time and you give a tree the raw time index, it will predict a flat line in the future. Fixes: predict the change or ratio rather than the level, detrend first, use a linear model for the trend and a tree for the residual, or add a linear-tree option (LightGBM has `linear_tree`).

COMMON MISTAKE

Using a forest or boosted trees on a target that trends upward (demand, traffic, price) and trusting the forecast beyond the training range. The model silently flatlines. Check by plotting predictions beyond the training range.

Strengths: no scaling, finds interactions, readable when shallow. **Weaknesses:** unstable (a small data change can change the root split), step-like, cannot extrapolate, overfits when deep.

Applications. Forecasting with detrended targets, shallow auditable risk scorecards, quick non-linear baselines.

6.4 Bagging and Random Forests: Averaging Away the Variance

INTUITION

Ask one person to guess the weight of an ox and they may be far off. Ask 500 independent people and average: the errors cancel and the crowd is usually close. One deep tree is a noisy guesser (high variance). A **random forest** asks hundreds of slightly different trees and averages them. The trick is making the trees different from each other, because averaging identical copies gives no improvement.

The two sources of randomness

1. **Bootstrap sample** ("bagging" is short for **b**ootstrap **agg**regat**ing**). For each tree, draw `n` rows from the `n` training rows **with replacement**. Some rows appear twice or more, some not at all. Each tree sees a different version of the data.
2. **Random feature subset** at each split. Instead of testing all features, each split looks at only `max_features` randomly chosen ones. This stops every tree from using the same strong feature at the root.

Prediction: for classification average the trees' probabilities (or vote); for regression average the numbers.

Why averaging reduces variance: the formula

Suppose each tree's prediction at a point has variance σ^2, and any two trees have correlation ρ (rho). The variance of the average of B trees is:

$$\text{Var(average)} = \rho\cdot\sigma^2 + (1-\rho)\cdot\sigma^2 / B$$

Problem 6.4.1 Each tree has $\sigma^2 = 4$. Compare $B = 100$ trees with correlation $\rho = 0.5$ and with $\rho = 0.1$.

Formula	$\text{Var} = \rho\sigma^2 + (1-\rho)\sigma^2/B$.
Plug in ($\rho = 0.5$)	$0.5 \times 4 + 0.5 \times 4 / 100 = 2 + 0.02$.
Plug in ($\rho = 0.1$)	$0.1 \times 4 + 0.9 \times 4 / 100 = 0.4 + 0.036$.
Compute	2.02 and 0.436.
Answer	With correlated trees (0.5) the average still has variance 2.02, about half of a single tree. With less correlated trees (0.1) it falls to 0.436, nearly a ninth.
Check	If $B \to \infty$ the second term vanishes and the floor is $\rho\sigma^2$: 2.0 and 0.4. Adding trees beyond a point cannot beat the correlation floor, which is why the random feature subset (which lowers ρ) matters more than the number of trees.
Why it matters	This formula explains the two knobs: more trees shrink the second term; smaller `max_features` shrinks ρ (but raises each tree's bias a little).

Bias stays about the same as for one tree, so bagging works best with **low-bias, high-variance** trees: deep, unpruned trees. That is the opposite of boosting (Chapter 7), which uses shallow trees and attacks bias.

Out-of-bag (OOB) error: free validation

Problem 6.4.2 What fraction of the rows is left out of one bootstrap sample?

Formula	The chance a given row is **not** drawn in one draw is $1 - 1/n$. We draw n times, so it is never drawn with probability $(1 - 1/n)^n$.
Plug in	$n = 5$: $0.8^5 = 0.328$. For large n: $(1-1/n)^n \to e^{-1} = 0.368$.
Compute (simulation, n = 1000, 200 repeats)	the average fraction of distinct rows in a sample is 0.633, and $1 - e^{-1} = 0.632$.
Answer	About 63.2 percent of rows are in each bootstrap sample; about 36.8 percent are left out.
Check	Real output: 0.63299 0.63212, matching theory to 3 decimals.
Why it matters	The left-out rows are a free test set for that tree. For each row, average only the predictions from the trees that did **not** see it. The score of these predictions is the **OOB score**, an honest estimate with no separate validation set. In scikit-learn: `RandomForestClassifier(oob_score=True)`.

Real results on our data (700 train, 300 test), `min_samples_leaf=1`:

trees	OOB accuracy	test accuracy
1	0.591	0.623
5	0.683	0.650
25	0.719	0.680
100	0.724	0.687

300	0.721	0.673

Two lessons. (1) The OOB score tracks the test score, so it is a usable free validation (but see Chapter 8: if rows are grouped or in time order, OOB is optimistic because the left-out row has near-twins in the trees that saw it). (2) Accuracy stops improving after about 100 trees. **A forest rarely overfits by adding more trees**; the extra trees only cost time and memory. (The 0.687 to 0.673 move is noise.)

One tree versus a forest

Retrained 15 times on bootstrap resamples: a single tree scored `0.631` test accuracy (std 0.025); a 100-tree forest `0.680` (std 0.017). More accurate and more stable.

The main knobs

`n_estimators` (200 to 500; more never hurts accuracy), `max_features` (`√p` is the classification default; smaller means less correlated trees), `min_samples_leaf` (3 to 20 for noisy data), `max_samples`, `class_weight`. On our 3-feature data `max_features=1, 2, 3` gave test accuracy `0.693, 0.693, 0.680`; the effect is larger with many features.

Extra Trees (Extremely Randomized Trees) go one step further: instead of searching for the best threshold, each candidate feature gets a **random** threshold, and the best of those is used. It is faster and decorrelates trees more. On our data `ExtraTreesClassifier` scored 0.703 test. It often matches a random forest and sometimes beats it on noisy data.

Connection to the real job. A random forest is the best "first strong model" for tabular data: few hyperparameters, robust to scaling and outliers, OOB gives a quick score. Many teams ship it as the baseline before boosting.

Applications. Fraud and default baselines, churn with hundreds of features, small-data risk models, late-delivery prediction.

COMMON MISTAKE

Thinking "more trees overfit" and tuning `n_estimators` down to 10. The forest overfits by tree **depth** and leaf size, not by tree count. Use plenty of trees and regularize through `min_samples_leaf` and `max_features`.

Check yourself.

1. With $\rho = 1$ (identical trees), what is the variance of the average? Answer: σ^2, no gain.
2. How many of 1,000 rows are OOB for a typical tree? Answer: about 368.
3. Why does `max_features < p` help? Answer: it lowers the correlation between trees, which lowers the variance floor $\rho\sigma^2$.

6.5 Feature Importance: Which Number to Trust

INTUITION

After training, the boss asks "which features matter?". There are two ways to answer. One asks the trees how much each feature helped when **building** the model (impurity importance). The other **breaks** the feature and sees how much the score drops on held-out data (permutation importance). The first is quick but can be fooled; the second measures what you actually care about.

The two methods

- **Impurity importance** (also "mean decrease in impurity", MDI; `feature_importances_`): for each feature, add up the gain of every split that used it, across all trees, and normalise to sum 1. It is computed from **training** data, so a feature that helps memorise gets credit.
- **Permutation importance**: take held-out data, shuffle one feature's column (breaking its link to the target), and measure how much the score falls. A big drop means the model relied on it. Use `sklearn.inspection.permutation_importance`.

Impurity importance favours features with **many distinct values** (high cardinality): a column of random customer ids offers hundreds of thresholds, so by pure luck some split looks good in each node.

Problem 6.5.1 We add two useless columns to the 1,000 deliveries: `cust_id` (a random integer from 0 to 499) and `noise` (random numbers rounded to integers). A forest (300 trees, deep) is trained and importances are compared:

feature	impurity importance	permutation importance (test)
load	0.365	0.135
queue	0.244	0.025

err	0.185	0.018
cust_id	**0.152**	**0.000**
noise	0.055	0.000

- **Step 1** Compare the `cust_id` row. Impurity says it is the fourth most useful feature (15 percent of the total credit), close to `err` (18.5 percent).
- **Step 2** Permutation says shuffling it changes test accuracy by 0.000. The model does not truly use it on new data.
- **Answer** Impurity importance credited a random id with 15 percent importance because it has many split points and lets the deep trees memorise training rows. Permutation importance correctly says zero.
- **Check** We know by construction that `cust_id` has no relation to the label, so any importance above zero on held-out data would be a bug in the method.
- **Why it matters** Never publish "top features" from `feature_importances_` on data with ids or continuous noise. Use permutation importance on held-out data, or SHAP (the model-explanation material later in this series). Also remember that for **correlated** features, permutation importance splits or hides credit (the model uses the twin).

REAL JOB TIP

If an important feature in your model turns out to be an id, a timestamp or an index, assume leakage first (Chapter 8) and investigate before celebrating the score.

Chapter recap

- A decision tree is a greedy nested list of `if feature ≤ threshold` questions. Each split is chosen to maximise **gain** = parent impurity minus weighted child impurity.
- Gini `2p(1−p)` and entropy `−Σ p log₂ p` rank splits almost identically. Regression uses variance (SSE) reduction and leaves predict the mean.
- Candidate thresholds are midpoints between sorted values; sorting once and using cumulative sums keeps it fast.
- Our 40-line NumPy tree matched scikit-learn exactly (max probability difference 0.0).
- A tree with no limits memorises (train 1.00, test 0.62). Control it with `max_depth`, `min_samples_leaf` or cost-complexity pruning (`ccp_alpha`); choose by cross-validation.

- Trees do not need scaling, find interactions, but are unstable, step-like and **cannot extrapolate**.
- Bagging averages trees trained on bootstrap samples. $\text{Var} = \rho\sigma^2 + (1-\rho)\sigma^2/B$: random feature subsets lower ρ .
- About 36.8 percent of rows are out-of-bag for each tree, giving a free validation score. More trees never hurt accuracy; depth and leaf size cause overfitting.
- Impurity importance is biased toward high-cardinality features. Prefer permutation importance on held-out data.

Formula / command	Meaning
$\text{Gini} = 1 - \Sigma p_k^2$, $\text{Entropy} = -\Sigma p_k \log_2 p_k$	node impurity
$\text{Gain} = I(\text{parent}) - \Sigma\ (n_i/n)\ I(\text{child}_i)$	split score
$\text{SSE} = \Sigma\ (y - \bar{y})^2$	regression impurity
$\text{Cost} = \text{Error} + \alpha \cdot \text{leaves}$	cost-complexity pruning
$\text{Var} = \rho\sigma^2 + (1-\rho)\sigma^2/B$	variance of an average of correlated models
$(1-1/n)^n \to 0.368$	out-of-bag fraction
`DecisionTreeClassifier(max_depth, min_samples_leaf, ccp_alpha)`	tree
`RandomForestClassifier(n_estimators, max_features, oob_score=True)`	forest
`permutation_importance(model, X_val, y_val)`	honest importance

Practice set

1. (easy) A node has 20 rows, 5 positive. Gini? **Answer:** $p = 0.25$, $2 \times 0.25 \times 0.75 = 0.375$.
2. (easy) A split sends 6 rows left (all negative) and 4 rows right (all positive) from a 50/50 node of 10 rows. Gain in Gini? **Answer:** parent 0.5; children both 0; gain 0.5 (a perfect split).
3. (medium) What is the output? `DecisionTreeRegressor().fit([[1],[2],[3]],`

`[10,20,30]).predict([[100]])`. **Answer:** `[30.]`, the right-most leaf; trees do not extrapolate.

4. (medium) Find the bug: you one-hot encode `customer_id` with 20,000 levels and the forest's training score is 0.99 but test 0.70. **Answer:** the id lets trees memorise customers; drop the id (or use group-aware validation, Chapter 8). Check with permutation importance.
5. (medium) A subtree has 4 leaves and error 0.05; as a single leaf its error would be 0.11. At what α is it pruned? **Answer:** $(0.11 - 0.05)/(4 - 1) = 0.02$.
6. (hard, scenario) Your demand forecast uses a random forest on features `[week_index, price, promo]`. It is good in back-tests but flat when sales grow 30 percent next year. Why, and what do you do? **Answer:** trees cannot predict beyond the target range seen; `week_index` splits become constant. Model the trend separately (linear or growth rate), forecast the ratio to trend, or detrend; validate on a later time period (Chapter 8).
7. (hard) Show that about 63.2 percent of rows are in a bootstrap sample. **Answer:** each row is missed with probability $(1-1/n)^n \to e^{-1} = 0.368$, so it is included with $1 - 0.368 = 0.632$.
8. (interview) "Why does a random forest decorrelate its trees, and why does it matter?" **Answer:** Bootstrap rows and a random feature subset at each split make trees different. The variance of the average is $\rho\sigma^2 + (1-\rho)\sigma^2/B$; with identical trees ($\rho = 1$) averaging helps nothing, and lower ρ lowers the floor.
9. (interview) "Gini vs entropy, and which feature-importance would you trust?" **Answer:** both are concave impurity measures that give almost the same trees; Gini is slightly cheaper. For importance, prefer permutation importance on held-out data, because impurity importance rewards high-cardinality features (an id looked 15 percent important in our test).

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: how a decision tree (CART) picks its best split with Gini,
entropy and information gain. Explain with a "20 questions" analogy, walk
through one split on 8 rows with every number, then give me 8 graded
exercises (no solutions yet) and check my answers one by one.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: a
decision tree from scratch in NumPy (best_split with cumulative sums,
recursive grow, predict). Review my code for bugs, speed problems and edge
cases (equal values, min_samples_leaf, pure nodes): [PASTE MY CODE HERE].
Then ask me three questions to test my understanding.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic:
overfitting in trees, pre-pruning, cost-complexity pruning (ccp_alpha),
and why trees cannot extrapolate. Use a delivery-time example, give me
four computation problems, and quiz me one at a time, waiting for each
answer.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: bagging
and random forests: bootstrap, out-of-bag error, max_features, and the
variance formula rho*sigma^2 + (1-rho)*sigma^2/B. Explain with a crowd-
guessing analogy, give me 6 numeric exercises, and review my reasoning
when I reply.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews, and English is my
second language. Topic: decision trees, random forests and feature
importance (impurity vs permutation). Run a mock interview: one question
at a time, score my answer out of 10, show a model answer in simple
English, then a harder follow-up. Include one derivation and one find-the-
bug question.
```

CHAPTER 7

GRADIENT BOOSTING (DERIVED), XGBOOST, LIGHTGBM, CATBOOST AND TUNING

Many small trees, each one fixing the mistakes of the team so far. The workhorse of tabular machine learning, derived step by step.

On spreadsheets and database tables (credit risk, churn, demand, fraud, click prediction) the model that wins most often is not a deep network. It is **gradient boosting**: hundreds of small trees added one after another. A random forest (Chapter 6) averages independent trees to cut variance; boosting builds trees in sequence to cut bias. In this chapter you will derive the method from one idea (gradient descent in the space of functions), build it in 15 lines of NumPy and match scikit-learn, then derive the second-order formulas that make XGBoost special, see what LightGBM and CatBoost change, and learn the practical tuning order. By the end you can explain boosting on a whiteboard and tune a booster without guessing.

Prerequisites: Chapter 6 (trees, gain), Chapter 4 (log loss and its gradient), gradient descent and Taylor series (Math PDF, calculus pillar). The libraries XGBoost, LightGBM and CatBoost could not be installed in this environment, so their code is marked "not run here". Every other output (NumPy, scikit-learn 1.9.1, including `HistGradientBoosting`, which follows the LightGBM design) is real, with fixed seeds.

Running example. A synthetic regression table of 3,000 rows and 5 features, split 1,800 train / 600 validation / 600 test. The target mixes a wave ($\sin(2 \cdot x_0)$), an interaction ($0.6 \cdot x_1 \cdot x_2$), a step ($x_3 > 0.5$), a slope ($0.3 \cdot x_4$) and noise with standard deviation 0.5, so the best possible mean squared error (MSE) is about 0.25. Baselines on the test set: predict the mean 4.613; linear regression 3.905; random forest 1.224.

7.1 The Idea: Fix the Leftovers (and AdaBoost in One Page)

INTUITION

A delivery-time estimate for a food app is off. You do not rebuild the whole estimator. You look at the **leftover error** on each past order (it said 30 minutes, it took 42), write a small correction rule, add it, and check again. Repeat 200 times. Each rule is weak (a tiny tree), but the sum of corrections is strong. That is boosting.

Words you need

Word	Meaning
Weak learner	a simple model, only a little better than guessing (a tree with 2 to 8 leaves)
Ensemble	many models combined into one prediction
Residual	`y − current prediction`, the leftover error
Shrinkage / learning rate `η`	a number like 0.1 that scales each new tree's contribution
Boosting round	one step: fit a tree, add it to the sum

Bagging versus boosting. Bagging trains trees independently on resampled data and averages: it reduces **variance**. Boosting trains trees one after another on what is still wrong: it reduces **bias**, and therefore **can overfit** if pushed too far. That is why learning rate and early stopping matter.

AdaBoost: reweight the hard examples

The first successful boosting method (AdaBoost, 1990s) works on classification. After each weak learner, it **raises the weight of the examples it got wrong**, so the next learner pays attention to them. The learner's vote is larger when it is more accurate: $\alpha = \tfrac{1}{2} \cdot \ln((1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon)$, where ε is its weighted error.

Problem 7.1.1 Ten examples start with weight 0.1 each. A stump (one-split tree) gets 2 examples wrong. Compute α and the new weights.

Formula	`ε = sum of weights of mistakes`; `α = ½ ln((1−ε)/ε)`; wrong examples get weight `× e^α`, right ones `× e^(−α)`; then divide by the total.
Plug in	`ε = 2 × 0.1 = 0.2`, so `α = ½ ln(0.8/0.2) = ½ ln 4 = 0.6931`.
Compute	`e^α = 2` and `e^(−α) = 0.5`. Wrong examples: `0.1 × 2 = 0.2` each (two of them, total 0.4). Right examples: `0.1 × 0.5 = 0.05` each (eight, total 0.4). Sum `0.8`. Normalised: each wrong example `0.2/0.8 = 0.25`, each right example `0.05/0.8 = 0.0625`.
Answer	After one round the two hard examples carry 0.25 each (total 0.5), and the eight easy ones share the other 0.5.
Check	Weights sum to `2 × 0.25 + 8 × 0.0625 = 1.0`. The mistakes went from 20 percent of the weight to 50 percent, so the next stump must work on them.
Why it matters	Reweighting is one way to "focus on leftovers". Gradient boosting (next) generalises it to any loss, and AdaBoost turns out to be a special case (exponential loss).

Check yourself.

1. Does boosting mainly reduce bias or variance? Answer: bias.
2. A stump has weighted error 0.5. What is `α`? Answer: `½ ln(1) = 0`: a coin flip gets no vote.
3. Why can boosting overfit when forests rarely do? Answer: each round chases the leftover error, including noise.

7.2 Gradient Boosting Derived: Gradient Descent on Predictions

INTUITION

Normal gradient descent (Chapter 2) moves the **parameters** downhill. Here we have no parameters to move, only a list of predictions, one number per training row. We can still take a downhill step on those numbers: for each row, nudge the prediction in the direction that lowers the loss. But a list of nudges cannot predict for a new row. So we **fit a small tree to the nudges**, and the tree generalises them to every row. That is "gradient descent in function space".

The derivation

Let the model's prediction for row i be $F(x_i)$. The total loss is $L = \Sigma_i \ell(y_i, F(x_i))$. We want to lower L.

1. **Start** with a constant F_0, the single number that minimises the loss (the mean of y for squared error; the log-odds of the positive rate for log loss).
2. **For each round** $m = 1, 2, \ldots, M$**:**
    1. Compute the **pseudo-residual** (negative gradient) for every row: $r_i = -\partial \ell(y_i, F)/\partial F$ evaluated at the current $F = F_{m-1}(x_i)$.
    2. Fit a small regression tree $h_m(x)$ to the pairs (x_i, r_i).
    3. Update $F_m(x) = F_{m-1}(x) + \eta \cdot h_m(x)$.
3. **Output** F_M. For classification, pass F_M through the sigmoid.

The name explains itself: gradient (the direction), boosting (adding weak learners).

Squared error. $\ell = \tfrac{1}{2}(y - F)^2$. Then $\partial \ell/\partial F = -(y - F)$, so the pseudo-residual is $r = y - F$: the **ordinary residual**. Boosting with squared loss literally fits trees to the leftovers. (If the loss is $(y-F)^2$ without the ½, the gradient is twice as large; the constant is absorbed by η and the tree.)

Log loss. With $p = \sigma(F)$: $\ell = -[y \ln p + (1-y) \ln(1-p)]$. From Chapter 4, $\partial \ell/\partial F = p - y$, so $r = y - p$: the probability error, the same as logistic regression's residual. The second derivative is $\partial^2 \ell/\partial F^2 = p(1-p)$; we need it in 7.4.

Other losses give other residuals. Absolute error gives $r = \text{sign}(y - F)$; Huber and quantile losses give clipped or tilted versions. That is why boosting accepts any differentiable loss: only the formula for r changes (Math PDF, loss functions).

Worked problems

Problem 7.2.1 Four rows $x = 1, 2, 3, 4$ with $y = 3, 5, 4, 10$. Use squared error, stumps (one split), learning rate $\eta = 0.5$. Do two rounds by hand.

Step 1	$F_0 = \text{mean}(y) = 22/4 = 5.5$. Initial MSE $= (6.25 + 0.25 + 2.25 + 20.25)/4 = 7.25$.
Step 2 (round 1)	Residuals $r = y - 5.5 = -2.5, -0.5, -1.5, +4.5$. The best stump splits between $x = 3$ and $x = 4$: left mean $(-2.5 - 0.5 - 1.5)/3 = -1.5$, right mean 4.5.
Step 3	Update $F_1 = 5.5 + 0.5 \times (-1.5) = 4.75$ for $x = 1..3$ and $5.5 + 0.5 \times 4.5 = 7.75$ for $x = 4$. MSE $= (1.75^2 + 0.25^2 + 0.75^2 + 2.25^2)/4 = 2.1875$.
Step 4 (round 2)	Residuals $3 - 4.75 = -1.75$, $5 - 4.75 = 0.25$, $4 - 4.75 = -0.75$, $10 - 7.75 = 2.25$. The best stump again splits at 3.5: left mean -0.75, right 2.25.
Step 5	$F_2 = 4.75 - 0.375 = 4.375$ for $x = 1..3$ and $7.75 + 1.125 = 8.875$ for $x = 4$. MSE 0.9219.
Answer	The MSE fell $7.25 \to 2.1875 \to 0.9219$ in two rounds; round 3 (from code) reaches 0.4492 and starts splitting at $x = 1.5$.
Check	$0.9219 = (1.375^2 + 0.625^2 + 0.375^2 + 1.125^2)/4 = (1.8906 + 0.3906 + 0.1406 + 1.2656)/4 = 0.9219$. The code gives the same.
Interpretation	Each round closes $\eta = 50$ percent of the gap the tree sees. With $\eta = 1$ the stump would fix the gap fully but would also chase noise. Small steps are safer.

Problem 7.2.2 (the same recipe, classification) Six rows $x = 1..6$, labels $y = 0, 0, 1, 0, 1, 1$. Start from $F_0 = \ln(0.5/0.5) = 0$ so every $p = 0.5$. Find the pseudo-residuals and the best stump.

Compute	$r = y - p = -0.5, -0.5, +0.5, -0.5, +0.5, +0.5$.
Fit	The best stump splits at $x \le 2.5$. Left (rows 1, 2): mean $r = (-0.5 - 0.5)/2 = -0.5$. Right (rows 3 to 6): mean $r = (0.5 - 0.5 + 0.5 + 0.5)/4 = +0.25$.
Answer	With $\eta = 0.5$ the log-odds for rows 1 and 2 move by $0.5 \times (-0.5) = -0.25$ and for rows 3 to 6 by $0.5 \times 0.25 = +0.125$.
Check	Rows 1 and 2 are both truly 0, so pushing their probability down is right. Rows 3 to 6 contain three 1s and one 0, so a small push up is right.
Interpretation	Each leaf moves by the average residual of its rows, so mixed leaves move only a little. Section 7.4 refines this step with the second derivative.

From scratch, and proof that it matches scikit-learn

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.tree import DecisionTreeRegressor

class MyGB:
    def __init__(s, n_trees=100, lr=0.1, depth=3): s.B, s.lr, s.d =
n_trees, lr, depth
    def fit(s, X, y):
        s.f0 = y.mean(); F = np.full(len(y), s.f0); s.trees = []
        for b in range(s.B):
            t = DecisionTreeRegressor(max_depth=s.d,
random_state=0).fit(X, y - F)  # fit residuals
            F += s.lr * t.predict(X); s.trees.append(t)
        return s
    def predict(s, X):
        return s.f0 + s.lr * sum(t.predict(X) for t in s.trees)
```

Compared with `GradientBoostingRegressor(criterion="squared_error", max_depth=3, learning_rate=0.1)` on our running example (20 trees), the largest difference in predictions on the 600 test rows is `4.4e-16`, which is rounding noise. With 200 trees, a near-tie in some split flipped and the maximum difference grew to `0.69` on a single row, while the test MSE is `0.785` (ours) versus `0.776` (scikit-learn). Same algorithm, tiny tie-break differences.

KEY INSIGHT

The trees fit **residuals**, never the original `y`. The final prediction is a sum: `F₀ + η·h₁(x) + η·h₂(x) + …`. Prediction time is therefore linear in the number of trees (relevant for latency budgets).

Left panel: horizontal axis x from 0 to 6, vertical axis prediction. Black dots are noisy samples of a sine wave. The red line, one stump, is a single step. The orange line, 5 stumps, is a rough staircase of the wave. The green line, 50 stumps, follows the wave closely. Right panel: horizontal axis number of trees up to 1000, vertical axis validation MSE. Learning rate 1.0 (red) drops fast then rises. Learning rates 0.3 and 0.1 fall slower and reach lower minima; learning rate 0.03 is still falling at 1000 trees.

Connection to the real job. In an interview, "explain gradient boosting" should take 30 seconds: constant start; compute negative gradient; fit a small tree to it; add it with a small learning rate; repeat.

Applications. Credit and insurance pricing, fraud, churn, ETA and demand prediction, click and ranking models.

COMMON MISTAKE

Fitting each new tree to the original `y`. Then the trees are all copies and nothing is corrected. Check: the target of tree `m` must be `y − F_{m−1}` (or the gradient).

Check yourself.

1. Pseudo-residual for squared loss `½(y−F)²`? Answer: `y − F`.
2. Pseudo-residual for log loss? Answer: `y − p`.
3. What does the first constant `F₀` equal for squared error? Answer: the mean of `y`.

7.3 Learning Rate, Number of Trees, Subsampling and Early Stopping

INTUITION

Walking down a hill in the dark: big strides get you down quickly but you may overshoot into the next valley; small strides are safe but slow. The learning rate is the stride, the number of trees is how many steps you may take. They trade off, so you fix one and tune the other.

On the running example (depth-3 trees, `GradientBoostingRegressor`, up to 1,000 trees), the best validation MSE for each learning rate:

learning rate	best number of trees	validation MSE at best	validation MSE at 1,000 trees
1.0	35	0.7399	0.8755
0.3	215	0.6617	0.7285
0.1	997	0.5935	0.5937
0.03	1000 (not yet done)	0.7138	0.7138

Read it like this. A big step (1.0) finishes in 35 trees but ends worse (0.74) and then **overfits** (0.88 at 1,000 trees). Smaller steps find better minima but need more trees. A learning rate of 0.03 simply needs more than 1,000 trees (it is still improving). This is why the practitioner rule is: **pick a small learning rate (0.05 to 0.1 while exploring, 0.01 to 0.03 for the final model) and let early stopping choose the number of trees.**

Early stopping means: after every round, measure the loss on a validation set; stop when it has not improved for `k` rounds (the "patience") and keep the best round. Using `HistGradientBoostingRegressor(early_stopping=True, validation_fraction=0.2, n_iter_no_change=30)`:

learning rate	trees used	test MSE
0.3	140	0.6618
0.1	684	0.6088
0.03	1227	0.6081

Dropping from 0.1 to 0.03 gives almost nothing (0.6088 to 0.6081) at twice the cost. Fix a

learning rate, stop worrying, and spend your time on tree shape (7.5).

Subsampling (stochastic gradient boosting). Train each tree on a random fraction of rows (`subsample` in scikit-learn and XGBoost; `bagging_fraction` in LightGBM, usually 0.5 to 0.9), and optionally a random fraction of columns (`colsample_bytree` , `feature_fraction`). This adds the forest idea of randomness: less correlated trees, less overfitting, faster training.

Check yourself.

1. Learning rate 0.01 versus 0.1: which needs more trees? Answer: 0.01, about ten times more.
2. What does `n_iter_no_change=30` mean? Answer: stop if there is no improvement for 30 rounds.
3. Why subsample rows? Answer: it decorrelates trees and reduces overfitting and time.

7.4 XGBoost, LightGBM and CatBoost: What Each One Changes

INTUITION

All three libraries run the same loop as 7.2. They differ in how they choose splits and leaf values, how fast they go, and how they treat categories. Think of three engineers optimising the same pipeline: one fixed the maths (XGBoost), one fixed the speed (LightGBM), one fixed the categorical leakage (CatBoost).

XGBoost: a second-order, regularised objective

Plain gradient boosting uses only the **first derivative** `g` . XGBoost approximates the loss with a Taylor series up to the **second derivative** `h` (a Newton step: it knows not only the slope but the curvature, as in the Math PDF's optimisation chapter). For one tree with leaf values `w` on `T` leaves, the objective for this round is:

```
Obj ≈ Σᵢ [ gᵢ·f(xᵢ) + ½·hᵢ·f(xᵢ)² ] + γ·T + ½·λ·Σⱼ wⱼ²
gᵢ = ∂ℓ/∂F   (first derivative)     hᵢ = ∂²ℓ/∂F²   (second derivative)
```

`γ` (gamma) is a penalty per leaf; `λ` (lambda) is an L2 penalty on leaf values. For a leaf `j` holding rows `I_j` , let `G = Σ gᵢ` and `H = Σ hᵢ` . The leaf contributes `G·w + ½(H + λ)w²` . Set the derivative to zero: `G + (H + λ)w = 0` . So:

```
optimal leaf value   w* = − G / (H + λ)
best objective value      = − ½ · G² / (H + λ)        (per leaf, plus γ)
split gain = ½ · [ G_L²/(H_L+λ) + G_R²/(H_R+λ) − (G_L+G_R)²/(H_L+H_R+λ) ]
− γ
```

A split is made only if the gain is positive. Notice that γ kills weak splits, λ shrinks leaf values and gains, and H (the sum of curvatures) acts like a **soft count of rows**: `min_child_weight` is the smallest allowed H in a leaf. For squared error $h = 1$, so H is the row count. For log loss $h = p(1-p)$, which is at most 0.25, so the condition is stricter for confident rows.

Problem 7.4.1 Use the six rows from Problem 7.2.2 with $F_0 = 0$, so $p = 0.5$ everywhere. Compute g, h, then the leaf values and the gain for the split after row 2, with $\lambda = 0$ and $\lambda = 1$.

Formula	$g = p - y$, $h = p(1 - p)$; $w = -G/(H + \lambda)$; gain as above.
Plug in	$g = 0.5, 0.5, -0.5, 0.5, -0.5, -0.5$; $h = 0.25$ each.
Compute (left = rows 1, 2)	$G_L = 1.0$, $H_L = 0.5$. **(right = rows 3 to 6)** $G_R = -1.0$, $H_R = 1.0$.
λ = 0:	$w_L = -1.0/0.5 = -2.0$, $w_R = 1.0/1.0 = +1.0$. Gain $= ½[1/0.5 + 1/1.0 - 0/1.5] = ½ \times 3 = 1.5$.
λ = 1:	$w_L = -1.0/1.5 = -0.667$, $w_R = 1.0/2.0 = +0.5$. Gain $= ½[1/1.5 + 1/2.0 - 0] = ½ \times 1.1667 = 0.5833$.
Answer	Without regularisation the leaf values are -2 and $+1$ (log-odds), gain 1.5. With $\lambda = 1$ they shrink to -0.667 and $+0.5$, gain 0.583.
Check	Code (a six-line function) printed gains for all five possible splits with $\lambda = 1$: $0.1556, 0.5833, 0.1429, 0.5833, 0.1556$, so the best are after row 2 and after row 4 (a tie by symmetry). Larger λ gives $\lambda = 5$: leaves -0.182 and $+0.167$, gain 0.174; $\lambda = 20$: -0.049 and $+0.048$, gain 0.048.
Interpretation	As λ grows, every leaf moves toward 0 and every split matters less. This is regularisation exactly like ridge (Chapter 3), but on leaf values.

Why **second order**? The Newton step $-G/H$ accounts for curvature: where the loss is flat (h small, confident predictions), it takes bigger steps; where it is steep, smaller ones. It also lets

XGBoost optimise any loss for which you can supply `g` and `h` (7.5). The first-order version (plain gradient boosting) takes the mean residual per leaf, which is `−G/n`, a cruder step.

Other XGBoost features:

Feature	What it does
Exact vs histogram split finding	exact tests every threshold (slow, big data); `tree_method="hist"` bins values for speed
Sparsity-aware splits	each split learns a default direction for missing values
`max_depth`, `min_child_weight`	tree size; minimum `H` per leaf
`subsample`, `colsample_bytree`	row and column sampling
`reg_lambda`, `reg_alpha`, `gamma`	L2 on leaf values, L1 on leaf values, per-leaf penalty
`scale_pos_weight`	reweights positives for imbalance (distorts probabilities: Chapter 9)

LightGBM: speed on large data

- **Histogram:** values are first put into at most 255 bins (equal-frequency), and each split scans 255 bin boundaries instead of thousands of values. With 3,000 rows and 255 bins, that is about 12 times fewer thresholds; with millions of rows, the saving is large. `HistGradientBoosting` in scikit-learn does the same (default `max_bins=255`).
- **Leaf-wise growth:** XGBoost's default grows level by level (all nodes at one depth, balanced). LightGBM repeatedly splits the **leaf with the largest gain**, so trees can be deep and lopsided. For the same number of leaves it reaches lower training loss, but it overfits more easily on small data. The key control is `num_leaves` (not depth), together with `min_data_in_leaf`.
- **GOSS (gradient-based one-side sampling):** keep all rows with large gradients (badly fitted) and a random sample of the small-gradient rows (up-weighted to compensate). Faster, little loss in accuracy.
- **EFB (exclusive feature bundling):** sparse features that are almost never non-zero

together are bundled into one column. Helps with wide one-hot data.
- **Native categoricals:** pass a categorical column and it finds the best split of categories into two groups, with no one-hot encoding.

CatBoost: categories without leakage

- **Target statistics:** a category (such as a city) is replaced by the average target for that category. Done naively, each row's own label leaks into its feature (Chapter 8's leakage). CatBoost computes the statistic for each row **only from rows that come before it** in a random order. Called **ordered target statistics**.
- **Ordered boosting:** the same idea applied to the gradient: the residual of a row is computed with a model that was not trained on that row, to reduce a subtle "prediction shift" bias.
- **Symmetric (oblivious) trees:** every node on one level uses the same split. They are fast at prediction time and regularise strongly.
- **Defaults:** good out of the box; often the best choice with many categorical columns and little tuning time.

Comparison

	XGBoost	LightGBM	CatBoost
Growth	level-wise (default)	leaf-wise	symmetric, level-wise
Main size knob	`max_depth`	`num_leaves`	`depth`
Categories	manual or experimental	native	native, ordered statistics
Strength	mature, flexible, many options	speed and memory on big data	defaults, categoricals
Watch out	slower on huge data	overfits small data with big `num_leaves`	slower training on CPU for big data (version dependent)

Not run here (standard usage; parameter names exist but early-stopping arguments change between versions, so check your version's docs):

```
import lightgbm as lgb
model = lgb.LGBMRegressor(learning_rate=0.05, n_estimators=5000,
num_leaves=15,
                          min_child_samples=50, subsample=0.8,
subsample_freq=1,
                          colsample_bytree=0.8, reg_lambda=1.0,
random_state=0)
# model.fit(X_tr, y_tr, eval_set=[(X_va, y_va)], callbacks=
[lgb.early_stopping(100)])
```

Applications. XGBoost or LightGBM as the default tabular model; CatBoost for many categories; ranking objectives for search.

COMMON MISTAKE

Copying `max_depth=10` from XGBoost advice into LightGBM, which is controlled by `num_leaves`. A depth-10 tree can have 1,024 leaves; with `num_leaves=1000` on 5,000 rows, each leaf holds about 5 rows.

Check yourself.

1. In XGBoost, what is the leaf value for $G = -3$, $H = 4$, $\lambda = 2$? Answer: $-G/(H+\lambda) = 3/6 = 0.5$.
2. Why does leaf-wise growth overfit small data faster? Answer: it can make deep, narrow branches that isolate a few rows.
3. What problem do CatBoost's ordered statistics solve? Answer: target leakage in categorical encoding.

7.5 Tuning Order, Constraints, Custom Losses and Limits

INTUITION

Tuning a booster is like adjusting a recipe: change the biggest ingredient first, then the next one. Changing ten knobs at once teaches you nothing. The order below follows the size of the effect.

The tuning order

1. **Fix the learning rate** (0.05 to 0.1), set a large tree cap and turn on early stopping on a validation set.
2. **Tune tree complexity:** `max_depth` or `num_leaves`, then `min_child_weight` or `min_data_in_leaf`.
3. **Add randomness:** row and column sampling (0.5 to 0.9).
4. **Add regularisation:** `lambda`, `alpha`, `gamma`.
5. **Finally lower the learning rate** (for example 0.1 to 0.02) and refit with early stopping. This usually gives a small gain.

Search with random search or Optuna (Chapter 8 explains why tuning needs nested validation) and use log scales for learning rate and λ.

Problem 7.5.1 Apply this order to the running example with `HistGradientBoostingRegressor`, learning rate 0.1, up to 1,500 trees, early-stopping round chosen on validation. Which step helps most?

Step	Setting	validation MSE	best trees	test MSE
0 default	31 leaves	0.5658	222	0.4949
1 tree size	`max_leaf_nodes=3`	0.3597	1079	0.3393
2 leaf size	+ `min_samples_leaf=50`	0.3401	927	**0.3208**
3 L2	+ `l2_regularization=10`	0.3505	1498	0.3410

- **Step 1** Tree size mattered most: shrinking from 31 leaves to 3 cut test MSE from 0.495 to 0.339. Our target is a sum of mostly one- and two-variable pieces; small trees fit it without chasing noise.
- **Step 2** Requiring 50 rows per leaf added a little (0.339 to 0.321).
- **Step 3** L2 regularisation did not help (it also left the model still improving at the 1,500-tree cap). A value of `l2 = 1` had validation 0.3334 versus 0.3401, within noise.
- **Answer** Tune tree size first. The tuned test MSE is `0.3208` against `0.4949` for the defaults, `1.224` for the random forest and `3.905` for linear regression. The floor from noise is about `0.25`.
- **Check** `0.3208 − 0.25 = 0.07` is the remaining excess error, so we are within 0.07 MSE of the best possible. More tuning cannot gain much; better features or more data would be the next step.

- **Warning** Differences below about 0.02 MSE here are noise (validation of 600 rows). A step that does not clearly help should be dropped.

Monotonic constraints

If domain knowledge says the prediction must never fall as a feature rises (price with size, risk with number of missed payments), force it with `monotone_constraints` (XGBoost, LightGBM) or `monotonic_cst` (scikit-learn). Test: on a noisy line `y = 0.5x + noise`, an unconstrained model's prediction curve had **90 downward steps** over 400 grid points; with `monotonic_cst=[1]` it had **0**. Constraints reduce variance, make the model explainable to regulators, and cost little accuracy when the knowledge is right.

Custom objectives and metrics

XGBoost and LightGBM accept your own function returning `g` and `h` per row. Example: a loss that penalises under-prediction of capacity three times as much as over-prediction. You derive `g` and `h` as in 7.4 (for an asymmetric squared loss $\ell = w \cdot (y-F)^2$ with `w = 3` if `y > F` else 1, we get $g = -2w(y-F)$ and $h = 2w$). A **custom evaluation metric** is different: it is only used to monitor and stop, never differentiated. Often the best approach is to train with a standard loss and tune the **threshold or post-processing** against the business metric (Chapter 9).

Diagnostics and limits

Use learning curves (validation loss per round), permutation importance or SHAP (a method that splits each prediction into feature contributions) rather than gain importance (the bias from 6.5 applies), and partial dependence plots. Limits: boosting cannot extrapolate (6.3); text, images and very sparse high-cardinality data suit other models; trees do not invent lags and ratios; noisy labels hurt boosting more than forests because it keeps fitting leftovers.

Ensembling: averaging, stacking, blending

Boosting is itself an ensemble, but you can combine **different** models. **Averaging** takes the mean of predictions. **Stacking** trains a "meta model" on predictions made on data the base models did not train on, called **out-of-fold (OOF) predictions** (if the meta model sees in-sample predictions, it learns to trust the most overfit model: leakage, Chapter 8). **Blending** is the simple version: the meta model is trained on one holdout set.

On the running example (test MSE): random forest `1.2082`, boosting `0.4145` (a small tuned

`HistGradientBoosting`), linear `3.9052`. Averaging forest and boosting gives `0.6132`, **worse** than boosting alone because the forest is much weaker. A stack with a non-negative linear meta model on OOF predictions put weights `0.015, 1.03, 0.0` (forest, boosting, linear) and scored `0.4122`, essentially the same as boosting alone, because there was nothing complementary to add. Lesson: **diversity helps only among models of similar strength**; the correlation of errors between forest and booster here was 0.59.

Ensembling pays in competitions; it costs latency and maintenance. For most business systems one tuned booster is the right trade.

Applications. Monotone constraints for regulated pricing, asymmetric custom loss when under-forecasting costs more, tuned boosters for ranking.

COMMON MISTAKE

Tuning all hyperparameters on one validation set for 500 trials and reporting that score. After enough trials some setting wins by luck. Use a separate test set or nested cross-validation (Chapter 8).

Check yourself.

1. Which knob first after fixing the learning rate? Answer: tree size (depth or leaves).
2. Why average only similar-strength models? Answer: a much weaker model adds error that diversity cannot offset (0.613 versus 0.4145 above).
3. Gradient and curvature for $\ell = w(y-F)^2$? Answer: $g = -2w(y-F)$, $h = 2w$.

Chapter recap

- Boosting adds weak trees one after another, each fixing the leftover error; it reduces bias and can overfit.
- Gradient boosting: start from a constant, compute the negative gradient (pseudo-residual) per row, fit a small tree to it, add $\eta \times \text{tree}$, repeat. For squared loss the pseudo-residual is $y - F$; for log loss it is $y - p$.
- Our 15-line version matched scikit-learn to `4e-16` for 20 trees. Hand example: MSE `7.25` → `2.1875` → `0.9219`.
- Learning rate and number of trees trade off: use a small rate and early stopping on a validation set. Subsampling rows and columns adds regularisation.

- XGBoost uses `g` and `h`: `w* = −G/(H+λ)` and gain `½[G_L²/(H_L+λ) + G_R²/(H_R+λ) − G²/(H+λ)] − γ`.
- LightGBM: histograms, leaf-wise growth, GOSS, EFB, native categoricals, `num_leaves`. CatBoost: ordered target statistics, ordered boosting, symmetric trees.
- Tune in order: learning rate and trees, tree size, sampling, regularisation, then lower the learning rate. Tree size gave the largest gain in our run (test MSE `0.495 → 0.321`).
- Monotone constraints, custom objectives (give `g` and `h`) and diversity-aware stacking are the advanced tools. Boosting cannot extrapolate.

Formula / command	Meaning
$F_m = F_{m-1} + \eta \cdot h_m$	boosting update
$r = -\partial \ell / \partial F$	pseudo-residual (`y−F` squared, `y−p` log loss)
$w^* = -G/(H+\lambda)$	XGBoost leaf value
$\text{gain} = \tfrac{1}{2}[G_L^2/(H_L+\lambda) + G_R^2/(H_R+\lambda) - G^2/(H+\lambda)] - \gamma$	XGBoost split gain
$\alpha = \tfrac{1}{2} \ln((1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon)$	AdaBoost vote weight
`GradientBoostingRegressor`, `HistGradientBoosting*`	scikit-learn
`n_iter_no_change`, `early_stopping`	stop on a validation set
`monotonic_cst` / `monotone_constraints`	force monotone effects

Practice set

1. (easy) `y = 4, 8`, F_0 for squared loss? **Answer:** the mean, `6`.
2. (easy) A stump has weighted error `ε = 0.1`. AdaBoost `α`? **Answer:** $\tfrac{1}{2} \ln(0.9/0.1) = \tfrac{1}{2} \ln 9 = 1.0986$.
3. (medium) After round 1 residuals are `−2, +2`; one stump separates them; `η = 0.1`. New predictions? **Answer:** the leaf means are `−2` and `+2`; `6 − 0.2 = 5.8` and `6 + 0.2 = 6.2`.

4. (medium) `p = 0.8`, `y = 1`. Gradient and hessian for log loss? **Answer:** `g = p − y = −0.2`, `h = p(1−p) = 0.16`.
5. (medium) A leaf has `G = −2`, `H = 0.8`, `λ = 1`. Leaf value? **Answer:** `2/1.8 = 1.111`.
6. (medium) Find the bug: `tree.fit(X, y)` inside the boosting loop each round. **Answer:** it fits the original target instead of the residual, so every tree is the same and nothing is corrected.
7. (hard, scenario) A LightGBM model with `num_leaves=255` on 4,000 rows scores 0.99 AUC in training and 0.71 in validation. Fix? **Answer:** too much capacity: set `num_leaves` to 8 to 15, `min_data_in_leaf` to 50 or more, add `feature_fraction` 0.7, and use early stopping.
8. (hard) Derive the XGBoost optimal leaf value. **Answer:** the leaf loss is `G·w + ½(H+λ)w²`; the derivative `G + (H+λ)w = 0` gives `w = −G/(H+λ)`; the second derivative `H+λ > 0` confirms a minimum.
9. (interview) "Random forest versus gradient boosting?" **Answer:** a forest averages deep independent trees (cuts variance, hard to overfit, few knobs); boosting adds shallow trees sequentially on the gradient (cuts bias, usually more accurate when tuned, can overfit, needs learning rate and early stopping).
10. (interview) "Why does XGBoost use second derivatives and what is `min_child_weight`?" **Answer:** the second derivative gives a Newton step and a closed-form leaf value `−G/(H+λ)`; `min_child_weight` is the minimum sum of hessians `H` in a leaf, a soft minimum row count that stops tiny leaves.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: gradient boosting derived as gradient descent on
predictions, with pseudo-residuals for squared loss and log loss. Explain
with a "fix the leftover error" analogy, do a 4-row hand example with
every number, then give me 8 graded exercises (no solutions yet) and check
my answers.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
```

moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: the XGBoost objective: gradient g, hessian h, leaf value −G/(H+lambda), split gain and the roles of gamma, lambda and min_child_weight. Derive it step by step with a 6-row numeric example, then ask me to compute two gains myself and review my work.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: XGBoost vs LightGBM vs CatBoost: growth strategy, histograms, GOSS, EFB, categorical handling and ordered target statistics. Give a comparison I can memorise, then quiz me one question at a time on which library to choose for three realistic scenarios.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: tuning a gradient boosting model in the right order (learning rate and early stopping, tree size, sampling, regularisation) and avoiding overfitting the validation set. My setup: [PASTE MY DATA SIZE, LIBRARY AND CURRENT PARAMETERS]. Propose a tuning plan and explain each step.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews, and English is my second language. Topic: gradient boosting, random forests, stacking and monotonic constraints. Run a mock interview: one question at a time, score my answer out of 10, show a model answer in simple English, then ask a harder follow-up. Include one derivation and one debugging question.

CHAPTER 8

VALIDATION DESIGN AND LEAKAGE

Your score is only as honest as the way you split the data. How to build splits that mimic the real future, and how to hunt every kind of leak.

A clinic builds a model to predict which appointments will be no-shows. The team reports an AUC (a ranking score from 0.5 for guessing to 1.0 for perfect) of 0.89, and everyone celebrates. Three weeks after launch the real AUC is 0.60. Nothing is wrong with the algorithm. The score was fake, because one column was recorded after the appointment happened. This chapter is about preventing that story. You will learn how to choose a split that copies how the model will really be used (random, stratified, grouped, or forward in time), how to tune a model without fooling yourself (nested cross-validation), and a complete checklist of leakage types, each with a demonstration where the fake score is visible. Many professionals in data jobs never learn this properly, and it is the single most valuable habit in applied ML.

Prerequisites: Chapter 1 (train, validation, test, i.i.d.), Chapter 6 and 7 (the models we use for demos). Averages and standard deviation: Math PDF, probability pillar. The deeper treatment of tuning budgets is in Chapter 11, and the sanity tests (shuffled labels, tiny subset) are in Chapter 10; here we focus on the design of the split. All outputs are real (NumPy and scikit-learn 1.9.1, fixed seeds).

Running example. Hospital appointments. Each row is one appointment with `age`, number of `prev` earlier no-shows, `dist` (kilometres from home) and the label `noshow`. We build several synthetic versions of this table to show each trap.

8.1 Hold-out, k-Fold, Stratified and Repeated Cross-Validation

INTUITION

A teacher must know whether a student understands the subject or has memorised last week's homework. She sets a **new** exam with questions the student has not seen. Validation is that new exam for a model. One exam is noisy (a lucky day), so she may give five exams and average. That is k-fold cross-validation.

Words you need

Word	Meaning
Hold-out	one split: for example 80 percent train, 20 percent validation
Fold	one of `k` equal parts of the data
k-fold cross-validation (CV)	split into `k` folds; train on `k−1`, validate on the remaining one; repeat `k` times; average the `k` scores
Stratified	each fold keeps the same class proportions as the whole data
Leave-one-out	`k = n`: each row is its own fold (expensive, high variance)
Repeated CV	run k-fold several times with different random shuffles
Test set	a final set touched once, after all choices are made

Why not just train/validation once?

A single hold-out of 20 rows can change the score a lot with a different random split. k-fold uses every row for validation exactly once, so the estimate is steadier, at the cost of training the model `k` times. Typical `k` is 5 or 10. A larger `k` means training sets closer to the full size (less pessimistic bias) but more compute and more overlap between training sets.

Problem 8.1.1 Ten rows, `KFold(3)` without shuffling. List the validation rows of each fold and the training size.

Formula	the first `n mod k` folds get `[n/k]` rows, the rest `[n/k]`.
Compute	`10 mod 3 = 1`, so fold 1 has 4 rows and folds 2 and 3 have 3 rows.
Answer	Validation rows: `[0,1,2,3]`, `[4,5,6]`, `[7,8,9]`. Training sizes: 6, 7, 7.
Check	`4 + 3 + 3 = 10`, every row validated once. The code printed exactly this.
Why it matters	Folds are unequal when `k` does not divide `n`; with big data this does not matter.

Stratification: rare classes

With a rare class, an ordinary random split can leave a fold with no positives at all. In 200 rows with 12 positives, `KFold(5, shuffle=True)` gave positives per validation fold of `[3, 2, 5, 2, 0]` (a fold with zero positives cannot even compute AUC). `StratifiedKFold` gave `[2, 2, 2, 3, 3]`. **Rule: classification gets stratified folds by default.** For regression you can stratify on bins of the target.

How noisy is a CV score? Repeating it

On a small dataset (120 rows, 30 features, weak signal) the same logistic model scored, over five different shuffles of a 5-fold CV: `0.617, 0.558, 0.625, 0.600, 0.608`. That is a range of 0.067 just from the random fold assignment. Repeating 5-fold CV 20 times (100 scores) gave mean `0.595`, with a fold-to-fold standard deviation of `0.086`. Two points:

1. Report the mean and the spread (`0.595 ± 0.086` over folds), not one number.
2. A difference between two models of 0.01 inside this spread means nothing (Chapter 10 shows paired comparisons).

Problem 8.1.2 A model has 100 validation rows and a true accuracy of 0.60. What is the standard deviation of the measured accuracy?

Formula	for a proportion `p` measured on `n` rows: `σ = √(p(1−p)/n)`.
Plug in	`√(0.6 × 0.4 / 100) = √0.0024`.
Compute	`σ = 0.049`.
Answer	About 0.05, so a measured 0.65 and a measured 0.55 can come from the same model.
Check	Four times more rows halves it: `n = 400` gives `0.0245`.
Interpretation	A validation set of 100 rows can only distinguish models that differ by roughly 10 points. Use more data or repeated CV.

The picture. Each row of the panel is one fold. Blue rows train; red rows validate.

Three panels, each with 4 horizontal bars (folds) over 24 rows. Left, shuffled KFold: red validation rows are scattered among blue training rows. Middle, GroupKFold: red rows come in blocks of whole patients. Right, TimeSeriesSplit: blue training rows are always to the left of the red validation rows, and the blue block grows with each fold.

Connection to the real job. CV is how you pick between models and settings before touching the test set. In an interview, you are expected to name the right splitter for a given data story; the next two sections are those stories.

Applications. Model selection on small tables; stratified folds in healthcare and finance where the event is rare.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reporting the best fold or a single lucky split. Always report mean and spread.

Check yourself.

1. 100 rows, 5-fold CV: how many training rows per fold? Answer: 80.
2. Why stratify? Answer: so each fold has the same class mix and no fold lacks the rare class.
3. Does a larger `k` always help? Answer: no, it costs compute and gives highly overlapping training sets; 5 to 10 is usual.

8.2 Group Splits: The Same Person Must Not Be on Both Sides

INTUITION

A student takes a practice test with 8 questions about her own village. If the final exam also has questions about the same village, a high score tells you she knows her village, not geography. Rows that belong to the same person, device, shop or hospital are like questions about the same village: they share hidden details. If some of them are in training and some in validation, the model "recognises the village".

When it applies. The rows are not independent: repeated visits by the same patient, many photos of the same product, several sessions by the same user, rows from the same machine. The model will be used on **new** patients, so the validation must contain only patients that the training did not see. This is **GroupKFold** (or `StratifiedGroupKFold` when you also need class balance): pass a `groups` column and each group goes entirely into one fold.

Problem 8.2.1 A dataset has 300 patients with 8 visits each (2,400 rows). Each patient has five stable body measurements and a hidden tendency to miss appointments. The model is a

random forest. Compare random CV and group CV.

```
rf = RandomForestClassifier(200, random_state=0)
s1 = cross_val_score(rf, X, y, cv=StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=0), scoring="roc_auc")
s2 = cross_val_score(rf, X, y, cv=GroupKFold(5), groups=patient_id,
scoring="roc_auc")
```

Real output:

```
random kfold AUC 0.696 (std 0.011)   group kfold AUC 0.540 (std 0.032)
AUC on 300 brand-new patients: 0.588
```

- **Step 1** In random CV, a patient's other 7 visits are in training, and the five stable measurements work like a fingerprint. The forest learns "this fingerprint is a person who often misses".
- **Step 2** In group CV the patient is wholly in validation, the fingerprint is useless, and the AUC falls to 0.54.
- **Step 3** We then generated 300 truly new patients: the AUC was 0.588. The group estimate (0.54 ± 0.03) is close to the truth. The random estimate (0.696) is not.
- **Answer** Random CV overstated the AUC by about 0.11 (0.696 versus 0.588 real). The group split gave an honest, if slightly pessimistic, answer.
- **Check** The signal that really transfers is only the visit-level feature, which is weak, so a true AUC near 0.6 is plausible.
- **Interpretation** If the model will see new patients, validate on new patients. A score of 0.70 would have led the clinic to the wrong decision.

COMMON MISTAKE

Splitting rows at random because "the rows look independent". Ask: could two rows come from the same person, device, shop, city or document? If yes, define the group.

Check yourself.

1. Photos: 10,000 images of 500 products; the model must recognise new products. Which splitter? Answer: `GroupKFold` on product id.
2. What if you must recognise the same 500 products later? Answer: then random CV is acceptable, because new rows will belong to known groups.

3. Why use `StratifiedGroupKFold` ? Answer: keep groups intact and also keep class proportions similar.

8.3 Time: Validate on the Future

INTUITION

A weather forecaster is judged on tomorrow, not on days she can already see on the calendar. If you shuffle a time series into random folds, validating on Tuesday while training on Monday and Wednesday is easy: you just interpolate between neighbours. In real use you will never have Wednesday when predicting Tuesday.

Walk-forward (expanding-window) validation

`TimeSeriesSplit` always trains on the past and validates on the next block. Ten rows, 3 splits:

```
train [0..3]       test [4,5]
train [0..5]       test [6,7]
train [0..7]       test [8,9]
```

With `gap=1` (skip one row between train and test) the train sets become `[0..2]` , `[0..4]` , `[0..6]` . A **gap** is needed when the label of a row is only known later (a 7-day outcome), or when features use a window that overlaps: otherwise information from the validation period leaks backwards into training.

Problem 8.3.1 A demand series is a random walk (it drifts smoothly) plus small noise: 500 days. Features: the day number and one noise column. Model: random forest. Compare random 5-fold CV and 5-split walk-forward validation using R² (1.0 is perfect; 0 equals predicting the mean; negative is worse than the mean).

Real output:

```
random R2 0.965      walk-forward R2 -1.482   per split [-1.76 -1.48 -0.08
-1.44 -2.65]
```

- **Step 1** Random folds put day 200 in validation and days 199 and 201 in training. A forest on "day number" simply copies the neighbours: R² 0.965.

- **Step 2** Walk-forward trains only on earlier days and must predict a drifted future. The forest cannot extrapolate (Chapter 6), so it predicts the last level it saw: R^2 is negative in every split.
- **Answer** The model looks excellent (0.965) under random CV and is worse than a constant under honest time validation (−1.48).
- **Check** The mean of the training period is a poor guess for a drifting series, hence large negative values.
- **Interpretation** Any time-ordered problem needs forward validation, plus a naive baseline (copy the last value) for comparison.

Out-of-time validation. Besides walk-forward folds, keep the most recent block (for example the last 3 months) as a final **out-of-time test set**. It also tests if the process drifted.

Other temporal traps

- **Features that look into the future:** a rolling average computed with the whole series (centered windows), a customer's "total purchases" including purchases after the prediction date. Rule: for each row, compute features using only information available **at prediction time**.
- **Label timing:** a "churned within 30 days" label for last month's customers is not yet known. Build a label cut-off.
- **Seasonality:** if the model must forecast December, validation that contains no December says little.

COMMON MISTAKE

Random-splitting a time series (or any data with drifting behaviour) and then deploying on the future. Check: does the validation set come after the training set in time?

Check yourself.

1. Why use a gap in `TimeSeriesSplit` ? Answer: to stop overlapping windows or delayed labels leaking validation information into training.
2. Random CV on time data is usually too optimistic or pessimistic? Answer: optimistic.
3. Model must forecast next 30 days; what is the validation block length? Answer: about 30 days, to mimic the real task.

8.4 Nested Cross-Validation: Tuning Without Fooling Yourself

INTUITION

A student takes 48 practice papers, picks the one on which she scored best, and tells her parents "I scored 92". Of course, among 48 tries one is lucky. The score of the **best** try is inflated by the act of choosing. Tuning a model is the same: you try many settings, take the best CV score, and report it. That reported number is optimistic.

How big is the effect? Selection bias in numbers

Problem 8.4.1 Fifty models that guess at random are each scored on the same 100 test rows. Expected accuracy of each is 0.5. What is the best score?

Formula	one model's accuracy has $\sigma = \sqrt{(0.5 \times 0.5/100)} = 0.05$. The maximum of 50 draws sits about 2.2σ above the mean (a standard fact for 50 normal draws).
Compute	$0.5 + 2.2 \times 0.05 = 0.61$.
Answer	The best coin-flip model should score about 0.61. The real run: best of 50 was 0.63, with the average at 0.505.
Check	All the models are worthless, so any score above 0.5 is pure luck of selection.
Interpretation	Looking at many models on the same validation or test rows makes the winner look better than it is. That is why we must separate **choosing** from **reporting**.

The nested procedure

- **Inner loop (choose):** on the training part of each outer fold, run a cross-validated search to pick hyperparameters.
- **Outer loop (report):** evaluate the chosen model on the outer validation fold, which the inner search never saw. Average the outer scores.

```
inner = GridSearchCV(pipe, param_grid, cv=StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=1))
nested_scores = cross_val_score(inner, X, y, cv=StratifiedKFold(5,
shuffle=True, random_state=2))
```

Real experiment: 120 rows, 30 features (only one is useful), a grid of 48 settings (feature count `k` and regularisation `C`), repeated for 10 random data splits. The best possible accuracy for this problem is about `0.646`. We measured accuracy on 20,000 brand-new rows.

Estimate	Mean over 10 repeats
Best CV score from the grid search (not nested)	0.700
Nested CV score	0.662
True accuracy on 20,000 new rows	0.622

- **Answer** The tuned model's own CV score (0.700) was too optimistic by 0.078. Nested CV (0.662) cut the bias in half but was still slightly high. The truth was 0.622. Note that 0.700 is above the best achievable accuracy (0.646), which proves the number is inflated.
- **Check** Any estimate above the theoretical ceiling must be selection bias.
- **Interpretation** With small data and large search spaces, nested CV (or a final untouched test set) is how you report an honest score. With large data and few settings, the bias is small.

Test-set discipline

- Split off a **test set** first and put it away. Do all choices (features, model, thresholds, early stopping rounds) using CV on the rest.
- Touch the test set **once**, at the end. Every peek that influences a decision turns it into a validation set.
- If the test score is a disappointment, you may fix a bug, but fiddling until it improves destroys its meaning; collect new data for a fresh test if you can.
- After the final choice, refit on all non-test data (train plus validation) and, if allowed, report the test score of that model.

For wider tuning methods and compute budgets see Chapter 11.

COMMON MISTAKE

Doing grid search with CV and then quoting `best_score_` as the expected performance. It is a selection-biased number. Quote nested CV or a clean test score.

Check yourself.

1. Which loop picks hyperparameters in nested CV? Answer: the inner loop.
2. What does the outer loop's score estimate? Answer: the performance of the whole procedure (search plus fit) on unseen data.
3. When can you skip nested CV? Answer: when you have lots of data and a clean separate test set.

8.5 The Leakage Taxonomy: Hunt Each One

INTUITION

A student steals the answer key. Her mark is excellent, and it tells you nothing about her knowledge. **Data leakage** means the model sees information in training (or in validation) that it will not have when it is really used. The model is not smart; it is cheating without knowing it.

The taxonomy

Type	What happens	How to detect	Prevention
Target leakage	a feature encodes the outcome or is recorded after it	suspiciously strong feature; importance dominated by one column	ask "is this known at prediction time?" for every column
Train-test contamination	scaling, imputing, encoding or feature selection fitted on all data	score drops when moved inside a pipeline	`Pipeline` so every step is fitted per fold
Duplicate / near-duplicate	the same record in train and validation	count duplicates; score drops when	de-duplicate before splitting;

rows		removed	group by entity
Group leakage	same person or device on both sides	random CV much higher than group CV	group splits (8.2)
Temporal leakage	future information used to predict the past	random CV much higher than forward CV	time splits, as-of features (8.3)
Label leakage via IDs and timestamps	an id or timestamp correlates with the label because of how data was collected	importance of id-like columns	drop ids; check collection process

Demonstration 1: target leakage

2,000 appointments. Honest features `age`, `prev`, `dist`. We add `replied`, "did the patient reply to the reminder SMS", recorded in the system **after** the day. By construction every no-show has `replied = 0`.

```
honest AUC (3 features)              0.604
with the leaky column `replied`      0.889
importances: age 0.161, prev 0.066, dist 0.167, replied 0.605
```

- **Read it** One column jumped the score from 0.604 to 0.889 and takes 60 percent of the importance. In real life, a jump this big from a "business" feature should make you suspicious, not happy. The fix is not statistical: it is asking when the column is recorded. At prediction time (before the appointment) `replied` does not exist.

Demonstration 2: preprocessing leakage

60 rows, 2,000 features, labels that are **pure coin flips**. The true accuracy of any model must be 50 percent.

```
Xs = SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20).fit_transform(X, y)         # WRONG:
looks at all labels
cross_val_score(LogisticRegression(), Xs, y, cv=5)             # 0.95
pipe = make_pipeline(SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20), LogisticRegression())
cross_val_score(pipe, X, y, cv=5)                               # 0.483
```

Real output: `select outside CV acc 0.95 inside pipeline 0.483` .

- **Read it** Choosing the 20 best features from 2,000 using all labels will always find 20 columns that happen to match the noise. Validation rows helped choose them, so validation is no longer new. Inside the pipeline the selection sees only training rows, and the honest result is 0.48, i.e., chance. The same applies to scaling, imputation, target encoding, PCA and SMOTE: **fit on training folds only**.

Demonstration 3: duplicates

The same 2,000-row table with 600 rows duplicated (a classic outcome of merging sources), random CV with a forest (`min_samples_leaf=1`): AUC `0.779` . Without the duplicates: `0.562` . The model simply remembers the copies. Run `df.duplicated().sum()` on every dataset, and also look for near-duplicates (same entity, tiny differences).

Demonstration 4: the shuffled-label check

Shuffle the labels and run your whole CV pipeline: the score must fall to chance. On our honest table it gave AUC `0.525` , near 0.5. If a pipeline scores high on shuffled labels, it leaks. (More such tests are in Chapter 10.)

Adversarial validation: can a model tell train from test?

Label every training row 0 and every new-data row 1, then train a classifier to separate them. If it cannot (AUC near 0.5), the two sets look alike. If it can, something differs: the features that separate them show where.

```
test ages shifted by +8 years:      adversarial AUC 0.566
test from the same distribution:    adversarial AUC 0.473
```

An AUC of 0.47 is chance (the same data). 0.566 detects the mild shift. A real shift (a new region, a new device) would give 0.8 or more. Use the result to build a validation set that looks like the test (for example, pick the training rows that look most like the test rows) and to decide if retraining is needed (drift monitoring belongs to the MLOps material).

Problem 8.5.1 A bank model uses `account_closed_flag` as a feature to predict loan default and shows an AUC of 0.97. Diagnose it.

Step 1	Ask: when is `account_closed_flag` set? Closing an account usually follows default.
Step 2	So the column is a consequence of the label: target leakage.
Step 3	Remove it and retrain; AUC will fall (for example to the 0.7 range).
Answer	The 0.97 comes from a feature that is not available at the time of the loan decision. Build a feature list with its "as-of time" and remove anything recorded after the decision.
Check	An old rule of thumb: when a simple model gives near-perfect scores on a hard business problem, look for leakage before you celebrate.

Connection to the real job. In production a leaked model collapses: the feature is missing or different, and the metric drops. The best defence is a review habit: for each feature ask *what, when, who*: what is it, when is it known, who creates it (is the label involved?).

Applications. Healthcare (lab tests ordered because disease is already suspected), fraud (flags that appear days later), marketing (retention contact as a churn feature), any merged tables (duplicates).

COMMON MISTAKE

Standardising or imputing the whole table first, then splitting "to keep things simple". It is the commonest leak. Rule: **anything that learns from data goes inside the pipeline**.

Check yourself.

1. Which tool prevents preprocessing leakage? Answer: `Pipeline` (or `ColumnTransformer` inside it), fitted per fold.
2. A feature importance chart shows a customer id as the top feature. What do you suspect? Answer: leakage through the id (group or time effect) or duplicates.
3. What does an adversarial-validation AUC of 0.5 mean? Answer: train and test are indistinguishable in the features.

8.6 A Checklist You Can Reuse

1. Write the **use case**: who will the model see (new patients or old?), when (the future?), and

what is known at that time?

2. Choose the splitter: random stratified, group, or time; use a gap if labels are delayed.
3. Remove duplicates; define groups.
4. Put all learned preprocessing in a `Pipeline`.
5. Tune with inner CV; report with the outer CV or a test set touched once.
6. Report the mean and the spread. Compare with a naive baseline (mean, last value, majority class).
7. Run sanity checks: shuffled labels, a suspicious-importance review, adversarial validation.
8. Hold out a final out-of-time or out-of-group test if data allow.

The out-of-bag score of a forest (Chapter 6) is also random-split validation: it has the same group and time problems. Treat it as a quick check, not a final verdict.

Chapter recap

- Validation must **mimic how the model will be used**: new people means group split, future means time split.
- k-fold uses each row once for validation; stratify for classification; report mean and spread; repeat CV on small data.
- A measured accuracy has noise $\sqrt{p(1-p)/n}$: 100 rows gives about 0.05.
- Group leakage in our demo: random CV AUC 0.696, group CV 0.540, brand-new patients 0.588.
- Time leakage: random CV R^2 0.965 versus walk-forward −1.482 for a drifting series.
- Choosing the best of many settings inflates the score (best coin-flip of 50 got 0.63). Nested CV (inner picks, outer reports) reduced the bias: 0.700 vs 0.662 vs true 0.622.
- Touch the test set once. Peeking turns it into a validation set.
- Leakage types: target, train-test contamination, duplicates, group, temporal, id or timestamp. A leaked column lifted AUC from 0.604 to 0.889; selecting features outside CV gave 0.95 on pure noise.
- Tools: `Pipeline`, de-duplication, shuffled-label tests, adversarial validation.

Formula / command	Meaning
`KFold`, `StratifiedKFold(k, shuffle=True, random_state=0)`	random folds, class-balanced

`GroupKFold(k)` , `StratifiedGroupKFold`	whole groups per fold
`TimeSeriesSplit(n_splits, gap=g)`	walk-forward, with optional gap
`RepeatedStratifiedKFold(n_repeats)`	repeated CV
`σ = √(p(1−p)/n)`	noise of a measured proportion
`cross_val_score(GridSearchCV(...), X, y, cv=outer)`	nested CV
`make_pipeline(prep, model)`	fit preprocessing inside each fold
`df.duplicated().sum()`	find duplicate rows

Practice set

1. (easy) 1,000 rows, 10-fold CV. How many rows to train in each fold? **Answer:** 900.
2. (easy) A fold has 0 positives. What is wrong and what is the fix? **Answer:** a rare class and random folds; use `StratifiedKFold` .
3. (easy) Which splitter for 5 years of daily sales, to forecast next month? **Answer:** `TimeSeriesSplit` with a validation block of about 30 days (and a gap if features use windows).
4. (medium) Accuracy measured as 0.80 on 400 rows. Rough 95 percent range? **Answer:** `σ = √(0.8 × 0.2/400) = 0.02` ; range about `0.80 ± 0.04` , so 0.76 to 0.84.
5. (medium) What is the output? A forest on a drifting series, random CV R^2 0.96, walk-forward R^2 −1.5. Which do you believe and why? **Answer:** walk-forward; it copies the real use. Random CV lets the forest interpolate neighbours.
6. (medium) Find the bug: `X = StandardScaler().fit_transform(X); cross_val_score(model, X, y)` . **Answer:** the scaler saw the validation rows' mean and spread; use `make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), model)` . (The effect is usually small for scaling and large for supervised steps like feature selection, but the habit matters.)
7. (medium) 5,000 chest X-ray images from 800 patients; the model must work on new patients. Describe the split. **Answer:** `GroupKFold` with `groups=patient_id` , so images

of one patient are all in one fold.

8. (medium) `GridSearchCV.best_score_` is 0.91 and the test set gives 0.84. Is something wrong? **Answer:** probably not a bug: `best_score_` is selection-biased; the test score is the honest one. A very large gap suggests over-tuning or leakage.
9. (hard, scenario) A churn model uses `days_since_last_login` computed on the day of the export, which is after the churn date for churned users. AUC 0.95. What happened and what is the fix? **Answer:** temporal and target leakage (users who churned have a large number by definition); compute the feature as of the prediction date for every row (point-in-time features).
10. (hard) Show that picking the best of 50 equal models inflates accuracy. **Answer:** with $\sigma = 0.05$ on 100 rows, the best of 50 draws is about $0.5 + 2.2 \times 0.05 = 0.61$ although every model is at 0.5.
11. (interview) "Explain nested cross-validation and when you would use it." **Answer:** an inner CV loop chooses hyperparameters using only the outer training part; the outer loop scores the chosen procedure on data the search never saw; it is needed for honest estimates when data are small or the search is large.
12. (interview) "Your model's AUC is 0.97 in validation and 0.65 in production. List five causes you check." **Answer:** target leakage, train-test contamination (preprocessing), duplicates or group overlap, temporal leakage or drift, and a feature that is computed differently in production (training-serving skew).

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: validation design: hold-out, k-fold, stratified, repeated
CV, and why a CV score has noise. Explain with an exam analogy, give me 8
graded exercises with real numbers (no solutions yet), then check my
answers one at a time.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: group k-
fold and time-series (walk-forward) splits, including gaps and out-of-time
```

tests. My data story is: [PASTE DESCRIPTION OF MY ROWS, ENTITIES, TIME COLUMN AND TARGET]. Tell me which splitter to use, why, and what could still leak.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: nested cross-validation and test-set discipline. Explain why the best CV score is biased upward with a 50-coin-flip-models example, then show how nested CV fixes it. Ask me four questions, one at a time, and wait for my answers.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: the leakage taxonomy: target leakage, train-test contamination, duplicates, group, temporal, and id or timestamp leakage. Review my pipeline for leaks: [PASTE MY CODE OR FEATURE LIST]. For each leak you find, explain how to prove it with an experiment and how to fix it.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews, and English is my second language. Topic: validation and leakage. Run a mock interview: one question at a time, wait for my answer, score it out of 10, show a model answer in simple English, then ask a harder follow-up. Include a scenario where AUC is 0.97 in validation and 0.65 in production.

CHAPTER 9

METRICS, THRESHOLDS, CALIBRATION, UNCERTAINTY AND CONFORMAL PREDICTION

Which number to report, where to put the cut-off, whether the probabilities can be trusted, and how to say "I am 90 percent sure the answer lies between here and here".

A bank has a model that gives each loan a default probability. Four questions follow. Which number tells the manager the model is good (accuracy? AUC?)? Above which probability do we reject a loan? When the model says 0.30, do 30 out of 100 such loans really default? And for a loan amount forecast, how wide is the safe range? Each question has a different tool, and using the wrong one is a very common reason why "good" models fail in business. In this chapter you will compute every classification, regression and ranking metric by hand on tiny examples, choose a threshold from costs, measure and repair calibration (Platt, isotonic, temperature), and build prediction intervals that really cover 90 percent of the cases (conformal prediction), all with real, reproducible outputs.

Prerequisites: Chapter 4 (log loss, thresholds, class weights), Chapter 8 (honest validation), Chapter 7 (boosting). Percentiles, expectation and the normal curve: Math PDF, probability pillar. Outputs come from NumPy and scikit-learn 1.9.1 with fixed seeds. The `MAPIE` library is named in the skill map but was not installable here, so we build conformal prediction by hand (about ten lines).

9.1 The Confusion Matrix and Threshold Metrics

INTUITION

A smoke alarm can be wrong in two ways: it rings with no fire (false alarm), or stays silent during a fire (a miss). The two errors cost different amounts, so one number for "how often is it right" hides what matters. The confusion matrix counts all four outcomes; every classification metric is a different way to read those four counts.

Words you need

Word	Meaning

Positive	the case we look for (default, fraud, disease)
TP (true positive)	predicted positive, truly positive
FP (false positive)	predicted positive, truly negative (false alarm)
FN (false negative)	predicted negative, truly positive (a miss)
TN (true negative)	predicted negative, truly negative
Threshold	the probability cut-off above which we predict positive

```
                  truly positive   truly negative
predicted positive       TP               FP
predicted negative       FN               TN
```

The metrics

Metric	Formula	Question it answers
Accuracy	`(TP + TN) / n`	how often right overall
Precision	`TP / (TP + FP)`	of those we flagged, how many were real
Recall (sensitivity, TPR)	`TP / (TP + FN)`	of the real ones, how many did we catch
Specificity (TNR)	`TN / (TN + FP)`	of the real negatives, how many did we leave alone
F1	`2PR / (P + R)`	harmonic mean of precision and recall
Fβ	`(1+β²)PR / (β²P + R)`	recall counts `β` times as much as precision
MCC	`(TP·TN − FP·FN) / √((TP+FP)(TP+FN)(TN+FP)(TN+FN))`	correlation between prediction and truth, from −1 to 1

Cohen's kappa	`(p_o − p_e)/(1 − p_e)`	agreement beyond chance

The **harmonic mean** punishes imbalance: F1 of precision 1.0 and recall 0.01 is 0.02, not 0.5.

Problem 9.1.1 A disease screen on 1,000 patients: `TP = 30, FP = 10, FN = 20, TN = 940`. Compute every metric.

Step 1	Positives `= 30 + 20 = 50`; predicted positives `= 40`. Accuracy `= (30 + 940)/1000 = 0.97`.
Step 2	Precision `= 30/40 = 0.75`. Recall `= 30/50 = 0.60`. Specificity `= 940/950 = 0.9895`.
Step 3	`F1 = 2 × 0.75 × 0.6 / (0.75 + 0.6) = 0.9/1.35 = 0.6667`. `F2 = 5 × 0.45 / (4 × 0.75 + 0.6) = 2.25/3.6 = 0.625`. `F0.5 = 1.25 × 0.45 / (0.25 × 0.75 + 0.6) = 0.5625/0.7875 = 0.7143`.
Step 4	`MCC = (30·940 − 10·20) / √(40 · 50 · 950 · 960) = 28000 / 42709 = 0.6556`.
Step 5	Kappa: `p_o = 0.97`; `p_e = (40·50 + 960·950)/1000² = 0.914`; `kappa = (0.97 − 0.914)/(1 − 0.914) = 0.6512`.
Answer	Accuracy 0.97, precision 0.75, recall 0.60, F1 0.667, F2 0.625, F0.5 0.714, MCC 0.656, kappa 0.651. scikit-learn gave the same values.
Check	F2 (recall-heavy) is below F1 because recall (0.6) is lower than precision (0.75); F0.5 is above F1 for the same reason.
Interpretation	The screen misses 40 percent of the sick (recall 0.6), although "97 percent accuracy" sounds great.

Problem 9.1.2 (the accuracy trap) In the same 1,000 patients, 50 are sick. A "model" that says "healthy" to everyone: accuracy?

Compute	`950/1000 = 0.95`, recall `0`.
Answer	95 percent accuracy with zero usefulness. Our real screen (0.97) is only 2 points better on accuracy but catches 60 percent of the sick.
Check	The **majority-class baseline** always equals `1 − prevalence`. Any metric must be compared to its baseline.

Overall numbers hide subgroups. A model with 900 rows from region A at accuracy 0.95 and 100 rows from region B at accuracy 0.60 has overall accuracy `(900·0.95 + 100·0.60)/1000 = 0.915`. The weakness in B is invisible. Always report **segment-level** metrics (new versus old customers, regions, rare classes).

Connection to the real job. In a review meeting the first questions are "what is the baseline?" and "what happens to the segment we care about?". Precision and recall map to business words: precision is "wasted reviews", recall is "missed cases".

COMMON MISTAKE

Choosing accuracy with a rare event. Look at precision, recall and the baseline instead.

Check yourself.

1. `TP = 8, FP = 2, FN = 12`. Precision and recall? Answer: `0.8` and `8/20 = 0.4`.
2. When is F2 preferred to F1? Answer: when a miss costs more than a false alarm (screening).
3. Why compare to the majority baseline? Answer: accuracy of "always negative" equals `1 − prevalence`.

9.2 Scores That Do Not Need a Threshold: ROC-AUC, PR-AUC, Log Loss, Brier

INTUITION

Thresholds are a decision you make later. Before that, ask: does the model put the truly positive cases above the truly negative ones? **ROC-AUC** measures exactly this ranking quality, like a teacher checking whether the students she believes are strong really outscored the weak ones.

ROC curve and AUC. Vary the threshold from high to low. At each, plot the true positive rate (recall) against the false positive rate `FP/(FP + TN)`. The area under this curve is the **AUC**. Its meaning: *the probability that a random positive case gets a higher score than a random negative case.* 0.5 is guessing, 1.0 is perfect ranking.

Problem 9.2.1 Three positives with scores `0.9, 0.6, 0.55` and four negatives with `0.7, 0.4, 0.3, 0.2`. Compute the AUC by counting pairs.

Formula	AUC = (number of positive-negative pairs where the positive scores higher) / (all pairs).
Compute	Pairs: `3 × 4 = 12`. Positive 0.9 beats all 4 negatives. Positive 0.6 beats 0.4, 0.3, 0.2 (not 0.7): 3. Positive 0.55 beats 0.4, 0.3, 0.2: 3. Total `4 + 3 + 3 = 10`.
Answer	`AUC = 10/12 = 0.8333`; scikit-learn agrees.
Interpretation	In 83 percent of random (positive, negative) pairs the model ranks the positive higher.

PR curve and average precision. Plot precision against recall as the threshold varies. The area summary is average precision (AP, "PR-AUC"). The baseline of a random model on this plot is the **prevalence**, not 0.5.

Why ROC-AUC hides rare-class trouble. The false positive rate divides by the huge number of negatives, so many false alarms still look small. We kept the same score distribution (positives centred 1.5 above negatives) and changed only the prevalence, with 100,000 rows each:

prevalence	ROC-AUC	PR-AUC (AP)	PR baseline
0.50	0.855	0.853	0.501
0.20	0.856	0.640	0.200
0.01	0.857	0.106	0.010

ROC-AUC does not move (0.855 to 0.857), which is its strength (it measures ranking independent of prevalence) and its weakness (it does not tell you how many of your flags will be wrong). At prevalence 1 percent the PR-AUC is 0.106: most flagged cases will be false alarms. **Use PR-AUC (and precision at the operating point) when positives are rare.**

Probability-quality scores

- **Log loss** = $-\text{mean}[\, y \cdot \ln p + (1-y) \cdot \ln(1-p) \,]$: heavily punishes confident mistakes.
- **Brier score** = $\text{mean}[(p - y)^2]$: the mean squared error of probabilities; bounded between 0 and 1, gentler than log loss.

Problem 9.2.2 Labels $y = 1, 0, 1, 1$, probabilities $p = 0.9, 0.2, 0.6, 0.3$. Compute log loss and Brier.

Log loss	terms: $-\ln 0.9 = 0.1054$, $-\ln 0.8 = 0.2231$, $-\ln 0.6 = 0.5108$, $-\ln 0.3 = 1.2040$. Sum 2.0433 , mean 0.5108 .
Brier	$((0.1)^2 + (0.2)^2 + (0.4)^2 + (0.7)^2)/4 = (0.01 + 0.04 + 0.16 + 0.49)/4 = 0.175$.
Answer	Log loss 0.5108, Brier 0.175 (scikit-learn gives the same).
Check	The 4th row, $p = 0.3$ for a true positive, supplies 1.204 of the 2.043 total log loss: one confident error dominates.
Interpretation	Use AUC for "does it rank", log loss and Brier for "are the probabilities good" (Section 9.6). A model can have good AUC and bad log loss.

COMMON MISTAKE

Quoting ROC-AUC alone for fraud at 0.1 percent prevalence. Add PR-AUC and the precision at the review capacity.

Check yourself.

1. AUC 0.5 means? Answer: ranking no better than random.
2. Which score changes with prevalence for the same model? Answer: PR-AUC (and precision), not ROC-AUC.
3. A model gives $p = 0.01$ for a true positive. Log loss on that row? Answer: $-\ln 0.01 = 4.6$.

9.3 Choosing the Threshold from Cost

INTUITION

Airport security sets the alarm level by the cost of missing a threat versus the cost of stopping a harmless traveller. There is no "natural" 0.5. The model gives scores; **you** choose where to cut, by what each error costs.

The rule. Let a miss cost `c_FN` and a false alarm cost `c_FP`. Flag a case if the expected cost of not flagging exceeds that of flagging: `p·c_FN > (1 − p)·c_FP`, i.e.

```
flag if  p > c_FP / (c_FP + c_FN)
```

This needs calibrated probabilities (9.6). For `c_FN = 19`, `c_FP = 1`: threshold `1/20 = 0.05`.

Problem 9.3.1 20,000 cases, 5 percent positive (1,030 positives). A logistic model gives probabilities. A miss costs 19, a false alarm 1. Find the best threshold from a table.

threshold	FN	FP	total cost	precision	recall
0.50	856	80	16,344	0.685	0.169
0.20	580	740	11,760	0.378	0.437
0.10	362	1,957	8,835	0.254	0.649
0.05	204	4,050	**7,926**	0.169	0.802
0.03	123	6,103	8,440	0.129	0.881
0.02	76	7,973	9,417	0.107	0.926

- **Plug in** (row 0.50) `19 × 856 + 1 × 80 = 16,264 + 80 = 16,344`.
- **Compute** (row 0.05) `19 × 204 + 4,050 = 3,876 + 4,050 = 7,926`.
- **Answer** The cheapest cut is 0.05, exactly the theory `1/(1+19)`. The cost at the default 0.5 is more than double (16,344 versus 7,926).
- **Check** At 0.05 the true positives caught are `1,030 − 204 = 826`, plus 4,050 false alarms, so 4,876 flags in all and precision `826/4,876 = 0.169`, matching the table.
- **Interpretation** The best operating point has a low precision (only 17 percent of flags are real) because misses are 19 times as costly. Whether that is acceptable depends on

whether the team can handle 4,876 flags.

Left: reliability diagram. Horizontal axis the mean predicted probability, vertical axis the observed fraction positive; the dashed diagonal is perfect. The green forest line sits near the diagonal; the red overfit boosting line is too flat and cuts across it: predictions near 0 are too low and near 1 too high. The blue boosting-plus-temperature line is close to the diagonal again. Right: cost against threshold, a U-shaped curve with its minimum near 0.05.

When capacity is limited, use top-K. If reviewers can check only `K` cases a day, rank by score and flag the top `K`. On the same data: `K = 100` gives precision@K `0.75` and recall@K `0.073`; `K = 500`: `0.54` and `0.262`; `K = 1000`: `0.419` and `0.407`. This is how you answer "if we can review 500 per day, how many frauds will we catch?" (26 percent of all positives here). A related summary is **recall at a fixed precision**, for example "recall when we require at least 50 percent precision".

COMMON MISTAKE

Leaving the threshold at 0.5 after changing class weights or resampling. The probabilities changed, so the correct cut-off changed too.

Check yourself.

1. `c_FN = 9`, `c_FP = 1`. Threshold? Answer: `1/(1+9) = 0.1`.
2. Is the best threshold the one that maximises F1? Answer: only if the costs happen to match F1's balance; usually not.
3. Reviewers can handle 200 cases per day. Which metric? Answer: precision@200 and recall@200.

9.4 Regression Metrics

INTUITION

A delivery app predicts arrival in minutes. Being 10 minutes late is annoying; 60 minutes late is a complaint. Different metrics punish big errors differently, so the right one depends on how the business feels about a big miss.

Problem 9.4.1 Actual $y = 100, 200, 300, 400$, predicted $\hat{y} = 110, 180, 330, 400$. Compute the metrics.

Errors	$\hat{y} - y = 10, -20, 30, 0$.
MAE	(mean absolute error) $= (10 + 20 + 30 + 0)/4 = 15$. In the same unit as y; every error counts in proportion.
RMSE	(root mean squared error) $= \sqrt{((100 + 400 + 900 + 0)/4)} = \sqrt{350} = 18.71$. Squaring makes large errors count more.
MAPE	(mean absolute percentage error) $= \text{mean}(0.10, 0.10, 0.10, 0) = 7.5\ \%$.
WAPE	(weighted absolute percentage error) $= \Sigma\lvert e\rvert/\Sigma y = 60/1000 = 6\ \%$.
sMAPE	$= \text{mean}(2\lvert e\rvert/(\lvert y\rvert + \lvert\hat{y}\rvert)) = 7.39\ \%$.
R^2	$= 1 - SSE/SST$: $SSE = 1400$; mean of y is 250, $SST = 150^2 + 50^2 + 50^2 + 150^2 = 50{,}000$; $R^2 = 1 - 0.028 = 0.972$.
RMSLE	(root mean squared log error) $= \sqrt{\text{mean}((\ln(1+\hat{y}) - \ln(1+y))^2)} = 0.0850$; it measures ratio errors and is gentler to large values.
Answer	MAE 15, RMSE 18.7, MAPE 7.5 %, WAPE 6 %, sMAPE 7.4 %, R^2 0.972, RMSLE 0.085. The code matches.

Metric	Use it when	Watch out
MAE	errors cost in proportion; robust to outliers	does not punish rare big errors
RMSE	big errors are disproportionately bad	dominated by outliers
R^2	comparing to the "predict the mean" baseline	depends on the spread of y (below)
MAPE	business wants percent	undefined at $y = 0$; over-predictions can be penalised without limit while under-predictions are capped at 100

		percent
WAPE	many small items, percent at portfolio level	hides item-level error
RMSLE	values span orders of magnitude; ratio matters	punishes under-prediction more than over
Quantile (pinball) loss	you want a quantile, not the mean	needs a chosen `τ`

Outliers decide MAE versus RMSE. Ten errors: nine equal to 1 and one equal to 50. MAE `= 59/10 = 5.9`, RMSE `= √((9 + 2500)/10) = 15.84`. RMSE is nearly three times MAE because of one bad miss. If one rare miss is truly catastrophic (a flight arrival time), RMSE reflects that; if outliers are measurement glitches, MAE is fairer.

R² is not a quality score by itself. We used the same good model (the true line plus noise of standard deviation 3) on two datasets. RMSE: `2.99` and `2.97`, essentially identical. R²: `0.299` and `0.919`, only because the second target had a larger spread. A low R² can be a perfectly fine model (the noise is just large) and a high R² can hide a poor model on a narrow range. **Look at RMSE or MAE in the real unit and compare with a baseline.**

Pinball (quantile) loss for quantile `τ`: `max(τ·(y − q), (τ − 1)·(y − q))`. For `τ = 0.9`, `y = 10`: a forecast `q = 8` (too low by 2) costs `0.9 × 2 = 1.8`; `q = 12` (too high by 2) costs `0.1 × 2 = 0.2`. Under-forecasting is punished nine times as much, so the model learns the 90th percentile (the "stock enough" level).

Residual analysis by segment. Plot residuals against each feature and group. Look for: a funnel shape (errors grow with the value: use a log target or a percentage metric), a pattern (missing feature), and subgroups with biased errors (always under-predicting for new customers).

COMMON MISTAKE

Using MAPE when the target can be zero or near zero (sales of rarely sold items). The score explodes. Use WAPE or MAE.

Check yourself.

1. One huge error; MAE or RMSE reacts more? Answer: RMSE.
2. Same RMSE, R^2 of 0.3 and 0.9: why? Answer: the target spread differs.
3. Pinball loss with $\tau = 0.5$? Answer: half the absolute error (the median).

9.5 Ranking and Recommendation Metrics (and a Word on Clustering)

INTUITION

In a search page nobody scrolls to result 50. What matters is whether the right items are **near the top**. Ranking metrics reward good items at high positions.

Words you need. `Relevance` (a grade for each item: 0 = useless to 3 = perfect). `@K` : only the first `K` results count.

- **Recall@K** `= relevant items in the top K / all relevant items` .
- **MRR** (mean reciprocal rank): average of `1/rank of the first relevant item` .
- **MAP** (mean average precision): for each list, average the precision at each position of a relevant item; then average over lists.
- **NDCG** (normalised discounted cumulative gain): gain of an item discounted by $\log_2(\text{position} + 1)$, divided by the best possible ordering: $\text{DCG} = \Sigma\ \text{gain}_i\ /\ \log_2(i + 1)$, $\text{NDCG} = \text{DCG}\ /\ \text{IDCG}$. With graded relevance it is the standard.

Problem 9.5.1 A search returns six items in this order with relevance `3, 2, 3, 0, 1, 2` . Compute NDCG (gain = relevance).

Formula	`DCG = Σ rel_i / log₂(i + 1)`.
Compute DCG	`3/1 + 2/1.585 + 3/2 + 0/2.322 + 1/2.585 + 2/2.807 = 3 + 1.262 + 1.5 + 0 + 0.387 + 0.712 = 6.861`.
Compute IDCG	(best order `3, 3, 2, 2, 1, 0`): `3 + 3/1.585 + 2/2 + 2/2.322 + 1/2.585 + 0 = 3 + 1.893 + 1 + 0.861 + 0.387 = 7.141`.
Answer	`NDCG = 6.861/7.141 = 0.9608`, equal to scikit-learn's `ndcg_score`.
Check	The second 3 sits at position 3 instead of 2; that small misplacement costs about 4 percent.
Note	Many industry systems use gain `2^rel − 1`. The same list gives `13.848/14.595 = 0.9488`. Always state which version you use.

Problem 9.5.2 Three queries; relevant items (1) appear at: query A `[0,1,0,1,0]`, B `[1,0,0,0,0]`, C `[0,0,0,0,1]`. Compute MAP and MRR.

AP	A: relevant at ranks 2 and 4: `(1/2 + 2/4)/2 = 0.5`. B: `1/1 = 1.0`. C: `1/5 = 0.2`.
MAP	`(0.5 + 1.0 + 0.2)/3 = 0.5667`.
MRR	first relevant at ranks 2, 1, 5: `(0.5 + 1 + 0.2)/3 = 0.5667`.
Answer	MAP and MRR are both 0.5667 here (a coincidence of this tiny example, since each list has one relevant item except A).
Interpretation	On average the first good result is at about rank 1.8 (`1/0.5667`, roughly).

Clustering is judged by the silhouette score (−1 to 1) and, with known labels, the adjusted Rand index (0 chance, 1 perfect).

COMMON MISTAKE

Computing ranking metrics on a test set where the model could see the same user's later clicks. Split by time or user (Chapter 8).

Check yourself.

1. NDCG of a perfect order? Answer: 1.0.

2. MRR if the first relevant item is at rank 4? Answer: `0.25` for that query.
3. Which metric ignores order inside the top K? Answer: recall@K.

9.6 Calibration: Can You Trust the Probability?

INTUITION

A weather app says "70 percent chance of rain" on 100 days. If it rained on about 70 of them, the app is **calibrated**. If it rained on 40, the app ranks days well (higher number, more rain) but its numbers are wrong. Decisions that multiply a probability by a cost (9.3) need calibrated numbers; a ranking-only use does not.

Reliability diagram. Group predictions into bins (for example 0 to 0.1, 0.1 to 0.2). For each bin plot the mean predicted probability (x) against the observed fraction of positives (y). A calibrated model lies on the diagonal. **Expected calibration error (ECE)** `= Σ_bins (n_bin/n)·|observed − predicted|` .

Problem 9.6.1 12,000 rows, 18 percent positive, a real mixture of effects, split 6,000 train, 3,000 calibration, 3,000 test. Three models, measured on the test set:

Model	AUC	Log loss	Brier	ECE
Logistic regression	0.7941	0.3909	0.1224	0.0138
Random forest (300 trees)	0.7813	0.4052	0.1246	0.0238
Boosting, 400 rounds at rate 0.2 (overfit)	0.7655	**0.6578**	0.1506	**0.1239**

- **Step 1** Logistic regression is naturally close to calibrated (its loss is the likelihood), ECE 0.014.
- **Step 2** The overfit boosting model has a decent AUC (0.77) but a terrible log loss (0.66, worse than predicting the base rate, about 0.48) and ECE 0.124. Its reliability line: predicted `0.000, 0.001, 0.009, 0.072, 0.602` against observed `0.033, 0.093, 0.143, 0.238, 0.432` in five equal-sized bins. The lowest bin says "almost never" when 3 percent happen; the top bin says 60 percent when 43 percent happen. **Overconfident.**
- **Step 3** The forest shows the opposite classic pattern in mild form: it averages trees, so predictions shrink toward the middle (predicted `0.018` vs observed `0.039` in the lowest

bin).

- **Answer** Ranking (AUC) and calibration are different properties. The boosting model ranks well enough but its probabilities cannot be used for expected-cost decisions as they are.
- **Check** A model that always predicts the base rate 0.183 has log loss `−0.183 ln 0.183 − 0.817 ln 0.817 = 0.311 + 0.165 = 0.476` ; 0.658 is worse than that.

Three repair tools (fit on a separate calibration set, never on the training rows)

- **Platt scaling:** fit a logistic regression `p' = σ(a·logit(p) + b)` on the calibration set. Two parameters, safe on small data. Works when the distortion is S-shaped.
- **Isotonic regression:** fit a step-like, monotonic mapping from score to probability. More flexible, needs more data (rule of thumb: thousands of rows), can overfit if small.
- **Temperature scaling:** divide the logits by one number `T : p' = σ(logit(p)/T) . T > 1` softens overconfident predictions. One parameter; it never changes the ranking, so AUC stays the same. Standard for neural networks.

Results on the test set:

Model	AUC	Log loss	ECE
Forest, raw	0.7813	0.4052	0.0238
Forest + Platt	0.7813	0.4014	0.0181
Forest + isotonic	0.7785	0.3988	**0.0055**
Boosting, raw	0.7655	0.6578	0.1239
Boosting + temperature (`T = 3.225`)	0.7655	**0.4189**	0.0474

- **Read it** Temperature scaling with one number improved the boosting log loss from 0.658 to 0.419 and left AUC unchanged (0.7655). Isotonic cut the forest's ECE from 0.024 to 0.006 and moved AUC slightly (ties created by steps). `T = 3.2` says: shrink the logits by a factor of 3.
- **Check** `AUC` for Platt and temperature are identical to raw: monotone transformations keep order.

Calibration after resampling

If you undersample the majority class to balance the data (Chapter 12), the model learns a 50/50 world: on our data the average predicted probability became `0.413` while the true prevalence is `0.188` (the AUC stayed `0.794`). The fix is a formula: with `β` = the fraction of negatives kept, `p_true = β·p / (β·p + 1 − p)`. After correction the mean prediction is `0.177` and ECE fell from `0.225` to `0.014`. Class weights have the same effect on probabilities as resampling.

COMMON MISTAKE

Calibrating on the training set (where an overfit model is already too confident) or on the test set (using it up). Use a separate calibration fold or cross-validated calibration (`CalibratedClassifierCV`).

Check yourself.

1. Does Platt scaling change the AUC? Answer: no, it is monotone.
2. A model says 0.9 and is right 60 percent of the time. Over or under confident? Answer: overconfident.
3. Why not calibrate on training data? Answer: the training predictions are already too confident, so the fix is biased.

9.7 Uncertainty: Intervals, Bootstrap, Quantiles and Conformal Prediction

INTUITION

"The delivery will take 35 minutes" is less useful than "between 28 and 49 minutes, with 90 percent confidence". A prediction interval states how sure the model is. A good interval has two properties: it **covers** the truth the stated fraction of the time (coverage), and it is **narrow** when the case is easy (efficiency).

Uncertainty on the metric itself: bootstrap confidence intervals

The test score is only an estimate. **Bootstrap** it: resample the test rows with replacement 1,000 times, recompute the metric each time, and take the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles. For a test set

of 400 rows with 65 positives, the measured AUC was `0.736` with a 95 percent interval `[0.672, 0.800]`. A model that scores 0.75 on the same data is **not** clearly better. Report `0.74 (0.67 to 0.80)` and compare models on the same rows (Chapter 10).

Two kinds of uncertainty

Kind	Meaning	Reducible by more data?	Example
Aleatoric	randomness in the world	no	two identical customers behave differently
Epistemic	the model's ignorance	yes	a region with few training rows

An ensemble of models trained on bootstrap samples shows epistemic uncertainty as the spread between members. **Warning from our test:** 30 boosted models trained on `x` from 0 to 5 predicted at `x = 2.5` with spread `0.101`, at `x = 4.9` with `0.058`, and at `x = 8.0` (outside the data) with only `0.182` while the truth was `0.99` and the ensemble predicted `−1.08`. Tree ensembles are confidently wrong outside the training range (Chapter 6), so ensemble spread alone does not warn you about extrapolation.

Quantile regression

Train with the pinball loss (9.4) for `τ = 0.05` and `τ = 0.95` to get a 90 percent interval directly: `GradientBoostingRegressor(loss="quantile", alpha=0.95)`. Works with heteroscedastic noise (noise that changes with `x`), but the coverage is **not guaranteed**.

Conformal prediction: coverage with a guarantee

Conformal prediction wraps any model and gives intervals with a **distribution-free** guarantee: if the calibration and test rows are exchangeable (roughly, "same kind of data, in any order"), the interval covers the truth with at least the chosen probability, whatever the model is. The split version needs only a separate calibration set:

1. Fit the model on the training set.
2. On the calibration set (size `n`) compute **scores** $s_i = |y_i - \hat{y}_i|$.
3. Let $k = \lceil (n+1)(1-\alpha) \rceil$ and $\hat{q}$ = the k-th smallest score.

4. For a new case the interval is $\hat{y} \pm \hat{q}$.

Problem 9.7.1 $n = 1{,}000$ calibration rows, $\alpha = 0.1$ (target 90 percent). Find k; then check the real coverage on 5,000 test rows. The data have noise that grows with x (standard deviation $0.3 + 0.4x$).

Plug in	$k = \lceil 1001 \times 0.9 \rceil = \lceil 900.9 \rceil = 901$.
Compute	The 901st smallest absolute error was $\hat{q} = 4.581$; the interval is $\hat{y} \pm 4.581$ (width 9.163).
Answer (overall)	Test coverage was 0.910: the guarantee holds (at least 0.90).
Answer (by region)	Coverage by x range: $[0, 2.5)$ 1.000; $[2.5, 5)$ 0.980; $[5, 7.5)$ 0.886; $[7.5, 10)$ **0.763**.
Interpretation	The average is right but the intervals are too wide where the noise is small and too narrow where it is large. This is **marginal** coverage, not coverage in every segment.

Conformalized quantile regression (CQR) fixes this. Fit the lower and upper quantile models ($\tau = 0.05, 0.95$), compute the score $\max(\text{lower} - y, y - \text{upper})$ on the calibration set, take the same k-th smallest value $\hat{q}$, and widen the interval to $[\text{lower} - \hat{q}, \text{upper} + \hat{q}]$.

x range	split conformal coverage	split width	CQR coverage	CQR width
0 to 2.5	1.000	9.16	0.918	2.85
2.5 to 5	0.980	9.16	0.919	6.32
5 to 7.5	0.886	9.16	0.895	9.48
7.5 to 10	0.763	9.16	0.900	12.68

- **Read it** The raw quantile models had coverage 0.887 (below the 0.90 target, no guarantee); after the conformal correction the coverage is 0.908 overall and about 0.90 in every region, with narrow intervals where the noise is small (2.85) and wide where it is large (12.68).

Conformal for classification. Use the score $1 - p(\text{true class})$. On a calibration set of

1,500 rows, $k = \lceil 1501 \times 0.9 \rceil = 1351$ gave $\hat{q} = 0.678$, so a class enters the **prediction set** when its probability is at least $1 - 0.678 = 0.322$. On 2,000 test rows: coverage 0.886 (target 0.90; with 2,000 rows the standard error is about 0.007, so slightly low but close), average set size 1.43; 57 percent of cases have a single class and 43 percent get both. A set with both classes is the model saying "I cannot decide"; these are the cases to send to a human.

`MAPIE` (a library for this) was not installable here; its use is standard but "not run here". The hand version above is the same algorithm.

Limits. The guarantee needs exchangeable data: under drift (Chapter 8 and monitoring) the coverage can fail. It covers **averages over cases**, not a promise for one particular case. The intervals are only as useful as the base model's score.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using the standard deviation of residuals times 1.96 as a "95 percent interval" when the noise is not constant or not normal. Check coverage on held-out data, by segment.

Check yourself.

1. $n = 99$, $\alpha = 0.1$. What is k? Answer: $\lceil 100 \times 0.9 \rceil = 90$.
2. Does conformal prediction need a separate calibration set? Answer: yes in the split version.
3. What does a prediction set with both classes mean? Answer: the model cannot separate them with the chosen confidence.

Where these tools are used

Domain	Typical choices from this chapter
Credit and insurance	AUC, calibrated probabilities (pricing), cost-based cut-off, conformal ranges
Fraud and security	PR-AUC, precision@K with review capacity, recall at fixed precision
Medicine	recall and F2 for screening, calibration, "refer" when the prediction set has both classes
Demand and delivery	WAPE or MAE, pinball loss for stock levels, CQR intervals

forecasting	
Search and recommendation	NDCG@K, MRR, recall@K of the retrieval step

Chapter recap

- The confusion matrix has four counts; every classification metric reads them differently. Accuracy misleads when classes are rare; compare with the majority baseline.
- Precision is "how many flags are real", recall is "how many real ones we catch", F-beta weighs them, MCC and kappa correct for chance.
- ROC-AUC is ranking quality and does not depend on prevalence; PR-AUC does, and is the right view for rare events. Log loss and Brier judge the probabilities.
- Choose the threshold from costs: flag if `p > c_FP/(c_FP + c_FN)`. Our table's best cut (0.05) matched the theory. With limited capacity use precision@K.
- Regression metrics: MAE (proportional), RMSE (punishes big errors), WAPE (portfolio percent), RMSLE (ratios), pinball (quantiles). R^2 depends on the spread of the target.
- Ranking metrics reward good items near the top: NDCG, MAP, MRR, recall@K. State the gain formula.
- Calibration is separate from ranking. Repair with Platt, isotonic or temperature scaling on a separate calibration set. Resampling and class weights distort probabilities.
- Report uncertainty: bootstrap intervals on metrics, and conformal intervals with coverage checked by segment (CQR gives adaptive widths).
- Tree ensembles do not signal extrapolation by their spread.

Formula / command	Meaning
`P = TP/(TP+FP)`, `R = TP/(TP+FN)`, `F1 = 2PR/(P+R)`	precision, recall, F1
`AUC = P(score_pos > score_neg)`	ranking quality
`flag if p > c_FP/(c_FP + c_FN)`	cost-based threshold
`log loss`, `Brier = mean((p−y)²)`	probability

	quality
`NDCG = DCG/IDCG`, `DCG = Σ rel/log₂(i+1)`	ranking quality with grades
`ECE = Σ (n_bin/n)·`	obs − pred
`p' = σ(logit(p)/T)`	temperature scaling
`k = ⌈(n+1)(1−α)⌉`, interval `ŷ ± q̂`	split conformal
`precision_recall_curve`, `roc_auc_score`, `average_precision_score`, `calibration_curve`, `CalibratedClassifierCV`	scikit-learn tools

Practice set

1. (easy) `TP = 40, FP = 10, FN = 10, TN = 40`. Accuracy, precision, recall? **Answer:** `80/100 = 0.8`, `40/50 = 0.8`, `40/50 = 0.8`.
2. (easy) Spam rate is 2 percent. A filter that passes everything has what accuracy? **Answer:** `0.98`, so accuracy is useless here.
3. (easy) Actual `10, 20`, predicted `12, 15`. MAE and RMSE? **Answer:** errors `2, −5`; MAE `3.5`; RMSE `√((4 + 25)/2) = √14.5 = 3.81`.
4. (medium) Miss costs 4, false alarm costs 1. Threshold? **Answer:** `1/(1+4) = 0.2`.
5. (medium) Find the bug: `precision_score(y_true, y_pred)` returns 0.0 with a warning, though the model flags 30 cases. **Answer:** probably `y_true` and `y_pred` swapped or no flagged case is truly positive; check the confusion matrix and the label coding (`pos_label`).
6. (medium) AUC 0.90, but log loss is worse than the baseline. What does it mean? **Answer:** the ranking is good but the probabilities are badly calibrated (overconfident); apply temperature scaling or isotonic on a calibration set.
7. (medium) A demand forecast reports MAPE 12 percent but many items sell 0 or 1 unit per day. Which metric instead? **Answer:** WAPE (`Σ|e|/Σy`) or MAE, because MAPE explodes for tiny actuals.

8. (medium) A model is trained on a 1:1 undersampled set (kept 1 in 19 negatives, $\beta = 1/19$) and says $p = 0.5$. True probability? **Answer:** $\beta \cdot p/(\beta \cdot p + 1 - p) = 0.0263/(0.0263 + 0.5) = 0.05$.
9. (hard, scenario) A loan model has AUC 0.82 overall, but the manager notes complaints from self-employed applicants. What do you do? **Answer:** compute AUC, calibration and the approval error rates for that segment; if it is poor, check the features available for them, the training counts, and consider segment-aware thresholds or a separate model; report with bootstrap intervals because the segment may be small.
10. (hard) $n = 200$ calibration scores, $\alpha = 0.05$. Which sorted score is $\hat{q}$? **Answer:** $k = \lceil 201 \times 0.95 \rceil = \lceil 190.95 \rceil = 191$, the 191st smallest.
11. (interview) "When would you use PR-AUC over ROC-AUC?" **Answer:** with rare positives. ROC-AUC does not depend on prevalence and the false positive rate is diluted by the many negatives; PR-AUC shows how many flags are correct. Example: same ROC-AUC 0.856 gave PR-AUC 0.64 at 20 percent prevalence and 0.106 at 1 percent.
12. (interview) "Your model has AUC 0.9, but the business says the probabilities are wrong. Explain and fix." **Answer:** AUC measures ranking; calibration measures whether 0.3 means 30 percent. Draw a reliability diagram, compute ECE, calibrate on held-out data with Platt, isotonic or temperature scaling, and re-check log loss and the cost-based threshold.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Topic: classification metrics from the confusion matrix: accuracy,
precision, recall, F1, Fbeta, MCC, ROC-AUC and PR-AUC. Explain with a
smoke-alarm analogy, then give me 8 graded exercises with real numbers (no
solutions yet) and check my answers one at a time.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic: choosing
a decision threshold from business costs, expected-cost curves and
precision@K. My scenario: [PASTE MY POSITIVE RATE, COST OF A MISS, COST OF
A FALSE ALARM AND REVIEW CAPACITY]. Calculate the threshold, show a small
cost table, and explain the trade-off in plain words.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic:
regression and ranking metrics: MAE, RMSE, R-squared pitfalls, MAPE, WAPE,
RMSLE, pinball loss, NDCG, MAP and MRR. Give me one tiny numeric example
of each, then quiz me one question at a time and wait for my answers.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Topic:
probability calibration: reliability diagrams, ECE, Platt scaling,
isotonic regression and temperature scaling, and how class weights or
resampling distort probabilities. Explain with a weather-forecast analogy,
show me how to fix an overconfident model step by step, and review my
code: [PASTE MY CODE HERE].
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews, and English is my
second language. Topic: uncertainty: bootstrap confidence intervals for
metrics, quantile regression, split conformal prediction and conformalized
quantile regression. Run a mock interview: one question at a time, score
my answer out of 10, show a model answer in simple English, then ask a
harder follow-up. Include one calculation of k = ceil((n+1)(1-alpha)).
```

CHAPTER 10

ERROR ANALYSIS, DEBUGGING MODELS, AND COMPARING MODELS

What to do after the first model scores badly, and how to know honestly that model B beats model A.

You trained a model and the score is disappointing. Or it looks great and you do not trust it. What do you do next? Most beginners start changing hyperparameters at random. A professional does something different: first checks that the pipeline is not lying, then reads the mistakes, then fixes the largest cause. A good doctor does not prescribe a new medicine before reading the test results; this is the same habit. By the end of this chapter you will be able to run four sanity tests that catch broken pipelines in minutes, read learning and validation curves to decide "more data or a different model?", slice the errors to find which customers the model fails, and compare two models with a paired test instead of staring at two numbers.

Running example. A telecom company wants to predict customer churn (the customer cancels the plan). We use a synthetic dataset of 4,000 customers (fixed seed 0) with columns `tenure` (months), `spend` (monthly bill), `calls` (support calls last month), `plan` (basic/plus/pro) and `region`. About 34% of customers churn. We planted one secret on purpose: customers with tenure under 12 months and 3 or more support calls churn very often. A simple linear model cannot see this "new and angry" group. Your task is to find it using only the tools in this chapter. All code uses numpy, pandas, scikit-learn 1.9.1 and scipy; every output below was really produced. Metrics (accuracy, ROC-AUC, log loss) and validation ideas come from Chapters 1 and 4; Math PDF Pillar 5 covers loss functions.

10.1 Sanity Tests: Is the Pipeline Even Honest?

INTUITION

Before you tune an engine, check the car has an engine. Before you debug a smart model, run tests so cheap that a failure means a bug in your pipeline, not a weakness of the model. A shop owner first checks that one sale rings up correctly at the till before opening the doors to 1,000 customers. Same idea.

Words you need

Word	Meaning
Baseline	A trivial model (for example "always predict the most common class") that any real model must beat.
Target leakage	A feature that secretly contains the answer, or is only known after the outcome happens.
ROC-AUC	A score from 0 to 1 for how well the model ranks positives above negatives. 0.5 is a coin flip.
Feature importance	A number saying how much the model used each feature.

The four tests

1. **Trivial baseline.** Train a dummy model. Your real model must beat it, or there is no signal (or a bug).
2. **Shuffle the labels.** Randomly permute y in the training set and retrain. There is now nothing to learn, so the test score must fall to chance (AUC near 0.5). If it stays high, the information is leaking from somewhere else.
3. **Overfit a tiny subset.** Train on 40 rows. A flexible model should reach nearly 100% training accuracy. If it cannot, the model or the training loop is broken (wrong learning rate, wrong labels, frozen features).
4. **Read the top feature.** If one feature has importance near 1.0, be suspicious. Real churn is never explained by one column.

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.ensemble import GradientBoostingClassifier
from sklearn.dummy import DummyClassifier
from sklearn.tree import DecisionTreeClassifier
from sklearn.metrics import accuracy_score, roc_auc_score, log_loss
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline

rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
n = 4000
tenure = rng.integers(1, 60, n); spend = rng.normal(50, 15, n).round(1)
calls = rng.poisson(1.5, n)
plan = rng.choice(['basic','plus','pro'], n, p=[.5,.3,.2])
region = rng.choice(['N','S','E','W'], n)
z = -0.2 - 0.05*tenure + 0.03*(spend-50) + 0.3*calls + (plan=='basic')*0.6
z += ((tenure < 12) & (calls >= 3)) * 2.5          # the hidden segment
y = (rng.random(n) < 1/(1+np.exp(-z))).astype(int)
flip = rng.random(n) < 0.05                          # 5% label noise
y = np.where(flip, 1-y, y)
df = pd.DataFrame(dict(tenure=tenure, spend=spend, calls=calls,
                       plan=plan, region=region, churn=y))
X = pd.get_dummies(df.drop(columns='churn'), columns=['plan','region'],
dtype=float)
Xtr, Xte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(X, y, test_size=0.3, random_state=0,
stratify=y)
```

Before you run the next block, predict: what accuracy will a model get that always says "no churn"? (Hint: 34% churn.)

```
d = DummyClassifier(strategy='prior').fit(Xtr, ytr)
print("dummy acc", round(accuracy_score(yte, d.predict(Xte)), 3))
lr = make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)).fit(Xtr, ytr)
gb = GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0).fit(Xtr, ytr)
for nm, m in [('logreg', lr), ('gboost', gb)]:
    pr = m.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]
    print(nm, "acc", round(accuracy_score(yte, m.predict(Xte)), 3),
          "auc", round(roc_auc_score(yte, pr), 3), "logloss",
round(log_loss(yte, pr), 3))
```

```
dummy acc 0.658
logreg acc 0.733 auc 0.752 logloss 0.549
gboost acc 0.722 auc 0.731 logloss 0.562
```

The dummy gets 65.8% accuracy by always saying "stays". So the real models at 73% are only 7 points better in accuracy. This is the honest size of the signal: it is a hard problem, and 5% of labels were flipped on purpose, which no model can recover. Notice also that the simple logistic regression beats gradient boosting on this data. We will come back to that.

Test 2 and 3 in code

```
ys = np.random.default_rng(1).permutation(ytr)
g2 = GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0).fit(Xtr, ys)
print("shuffled-label test auc", round(roc_auc_score(yte,
g2.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]), 3))

idx = np.arange(40)
dt = DecisionTreeClassifier(random_state=0).fit(Xtr.iloc[idx], ytr[idx])
print("tiny-40 train acc, tree:", dt.score(Xtr.iloc[idx], ytr[idx]))
```

```
shuffled-label test auc 0.46
tiny-40 train acc, tree: 1.0
```

AUC 0.46 is near 0.5, so shuffling killed the signal. That is the healthy result. (It is not exactly 0.5 because 1,200 test rows still have random noise; a gap of 0.04 is normal.) The tree memorised all 40 rows, so the training loop works.

A leaky feature, caught by test 4

Imagine a careless engineer adds `days_since_cancel_request`, taken from the billing system. It is small for churners (they asked to cancel) and large for others. This is information from the future, not available when we need to predict.

```
rl = np.random.default_rng(5)
Xl = Xtr.copy(); Xl['days_since_cancel_request'] = np.where(ytr==1,
rl.integers(0,5,len(ytr)), rl.integers(30,90,len(ytr)))
Xlt = Xte.copy(); Xlt['days_since_cancel_request'] = np.where(yte==1,
rl.integers(0,5,len(yte)), rl.integers(30,90,len(yte)))
gl = GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0).fit(Xl, ytr)
print("auc", round(roc_auc_score(yte, gl.predict_proba(Xlt)[:, 1]), 3))
print(pd.Series(gl.feature_importances_,
Xl.columns).sort_values(ascending=False).head(3).round(3))
```

```
auc 1.0
days_since_cancel_request    1.0
spend                        0.0
tenure                       0.0
```

A test AUC of 1.000 on a churn problem is not a triumph, it is an alarm. One feature has importance 1.0. You would ask: "Is this value known at the moment of prediction?" The answer is no, so remove it.

Problem 10.1.1 A fraud model scores AUC 0.97 on validation. You shuffle the training labels and retrain; the validation AUC is 0.91. What do you conclude?

Formula	A model trained on shuffled labels has nothing to learn; expected AUC is about 0.5.
Plug in	Observed 0.91 versus expected 0.5.
Compute	The gap above chance is 0.91 − 0.50 = 0.41.
Answer	Information reaches the model without passing through the training labels. Typical causes: the validation rows are duplicates of training rows, or a feature was computed using the labels (for example, target encoding fit on all data).
Check	A clean pipeline would return roughly 0.5 ± 0.03.
Why it matters	This test finds leakage that no amount of staring at the model would reveal.

Problem 10.1.2 A churn model gets accuracy 90% on a dataset where 92% of customers stay. Is it good?

Formula	Baseline accuracy = share of the majority class.
Plug in	Always predicting "stays" gives 92%.
Compute	90% − 92% = −2 points.
Answer	The model is worse than a model that never thinks, so it is not good yet. We would look at recall and PR-AUC instead (Chapter 12 returns to this).
Check	If 920 of 1,000 stay, "always stays" is right 920 times, which is 92%.

The picture

```
Sanity ladder (run top to bottom, stop at the first failure)
  [dummy baseline]   model must beat it            -> no? signal or bug
  [shuffle labels]   score must fall to chance     -> no? leakage
  [tiny overfit]     train score must hit ~100%    -> no? broken training
  [top features]     none should dominate at 1.0   -> yes? leakage
  then and only then: tune, engineer features, compare models
```

Connection to the real job

In a team this ladder is a small script that runs in the CI pipeline after every change. A junior who runs it before asking "why is my model bad?" saves a senior's afternoon.

Applications

- **Data Science:** reject suspiciously perfect scores before they reach a slide deck.
- **MLOps:** run the shuffle test as an automated check in the training pipeline.
- **Fraud and credit:** leakage is the most common cause of a model that works offline and fails live.
- **Deep Learning:** "overfit one batch" is the first debugging step for a neural network.

COMMON MISTAKE

Celebrating AUC above 0.95 on a business problem. Real-world noisy outcomes rarely allow it. Treat it as a bug until proven otherwise.

COMMON MISTAKE

Running the shuffle test on the test labels too. Shuffle only the training labels; keep the test labels real, because you are testing what the model learned.

Check yourself

1. A model trained on 40 rows cannot reach high training accuracy. Is this overfitting? Answer: No. Something is broken (training loop, labels, learning rate) or the model is too weak; overfitting means the training score is high.
2. What AUC should the shuffled-label test give? Answer: About 0.5.
3. Why is a feature importance of 1.0 suspicious? Answer: Real outcomes depend on many causes; one feature explaining everything usually means it contains the answer (leakage).

10.2 Learning Curves and Validation Curves: Diagnosis by Picture

INTUITION

A doctor does not guess; she measures and reads a chart. A learning curve is the model's health chart: it answers "if I collect more data, will the model improve?" A validation curve answers "is my model too simple or too flexible?" It is like plotting a student's exam marks against hours studied to see where extra hours stop helping.

Chapter 1 introduced the generalization gap (training score minus validation score). Here we use it as a tool.

Definitions

- **Learning curve:** train the model on 10%, 25%, 50%... of the data; at each size plot the training score and the cross-validation score. (Cross-validation, "CV": split into k parts, train on k−1, test on the rest, repeat.)
- **Validation curve:** keep the data size fixed; change ONE hyperparameter (for example tree depth) and plot training and validation scores.

How to read them:

What you see	Diagnosis	What to try
Both curves low and close together	High bias (underfitting): model too simple	More features, more flexible model
Training high, validation much lower, gap shrinking as data grows	High variance (overfitting)	More data, regularization, simpler model
Validation curve still rising at the right end	More data will help	Collect data
Validation curve flat at the right end	More data will not help	Change the model or features

```
from sklearn.model_selection import learning_curve, validation_curve,
StratifiedKFold
cv5 = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=0)
sizes = [0.1, 0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 1.0]
s, tr, va = learning_curve(GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0), X,
y,
                           train_sizes=sizes, cv=cv5, scoring='roc_auc')
for a, b, c in zip(s, tr.mean(1), va.mean(1)): print(a, round(b, 3),
round(c, 3))
s2, tr2, va2 = learning_curve(make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)),
                              X, y, train_sizes=sizes, cv=cv5,
scoring='roc_auc')
for a, b, c in zip(s2, tr2.mean(1), va2.mean(1)): print("lr", a, round(b,
3), round(c, 3))
```

```
320 0.98 0.671
800 0.904 0.701
1600 0.841 0.713
2400 0.822 0.722
3200 0.802 0.727
lr 320 0.756 0.729
lr 800 0.743 0.733
lr 1600 0.738 0.738
lr 2400 0.747 0.74
lr 3200 0.745 0.74
```

Learning and validation curves for the churn data

Left: x-axis is the number of training rows, y-axis is ROC-AUC. Solid lines are training scores, dashed lines are validation scores. Orange is boosting, green is logistic regression. Right: for boosting, x-axis is tree depth; the training score climbs to 1.0 while the validation score falls.

Problem 10.2.1 Read the boosting learning curve above.

Step 1	At 320 rows: training 0.980, validation 0.671. Gap = 0.980 − 0.671 = 0.309.
Step 2	At 3,200 rows: training 0.802, validation 0.727. Gap = 0.075.
Step 3	The gap shrinks as data grows and the validation curve is still rising (0.713 → 0.722 → 0.727).
Answer	Boosting is in the high-variance regime; more data would help it a little more, but slowly.
Check	A large gap with a falling gap is the classic variance signature (Chapter 1).

Problem 10.2.2 Read the logistic regression learning curve.

Step 1	At 1,600 rows: training 0.738, validation 0.738. Gap = 0.
Step 2	At 3,200 rows: 0.745 and 0.740. Gap = 0.005. The validation curve moved by only 0.002 between 2,400 and 3,200 rows.
Answer	Both curves are flat and together, at about 0.74. This is high bias: the model is too simple for the pattern, and more data will NOT help. We need better features or a model that can express the hidden segment.
Check	The planted segment (tenure < 12 and calls ≥ 3) is an interaction. A plain linear model cannot represent it, which matches the diagnosis.
Why it matters	Without this chart you might spend a month collecting data that cannot help.

The validation curve

```
depths = [1, 2, 3, 5, 8]
tr, va = validation_curve(GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0,
n_estimators=100), X, y,
                          param_name='max_depth', param_range=depths,
cv=cv5, scoring='roc_auc')
for d_, a, b in zip(depths, tr.mean(1), va.mean(1)): print("depth", d_,
round(a, 3), round(b, 3))
```

```
depth 1 0.748 0.733
depth 2 0.77 0.732
depth 3 0.802 0.727
depth 5 0.909 0.703
depth 8 0.999 0.676
```

The training score climbs from 0.748 to 0.999 as the trees get deeper, but the validation score falls from 0.733 to 0.676. The best depth is the shallowest one (1 or 2). On a noisy problem, flexibility only memorises noise. A depth-8 model "knows" the training set perfectly (0.999) and is the worst on new data.

Residual plots and calibration plots

For regression, plot the **residual** (actual minus predicted) against the prediction or against a feature. Random scatter around zero is healthy; a curve means missing non-linearity (Chapter 2); a funnel shape means the error grows with the size (heteroscedasticity). For classification, a **calibration plot** compares predicted probabilities with real frequencies (Chapter 4 touches on this; a later chapter goes deeper). All of them do the same job: show systematic error as a visible pattern.

Connection to the real job

Before any request for "more data" or "more compute", show the learning curve. It turns a budget argument into a picture.

Applications

- **Data Science:** justify labeling budgets; stop collecting data when the curve is flat.
- **Machine Learning:** choose regularization strength with the validation curve.
- **Deep Learning:** the same plot with epochs on the x-axis shows when to stop training.
- **Forecasting:** residual-versus-time plots reveal drift and seasonality that the model missed.

COMMON MISTAKE

Plotting only the training curve. It always goes up and tells you nothing. You need training and validation together.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading tiny wiggles. Learning curves from 5-fold CV have noise (the boosting validation standard deviation across folds is about 0.015). Differences smaller than that are not real.

Check yourself

1. Training 0.99, validation 0.70. Bias or variance? Answer: Variance (overfitting).
2. Training 0.65, validation 0.64. Bias or variance? Answer: Bias (underfitting).
3. Both curves flat at the right end. Will 10x more data help? Answer: No, change the model or the features.

10.3 Error Analysis: Read the Mistakes

INTUITION

A teacher marks an exam and then asks: "Which questions did the whole class miss?" Averages hide that. If 40 students all fail question 7, the lesson plan has a hole. Error analysis is the same: group the model's mistakes and find the pattern. Andrew Ng's rule is "look at the worst mistakes by hand, cluster them, fix the biggest cluster first". This beats blind tuning.

The method (four steps)

1. **Score every example** by its individual loss (log loss per row for classifiers, absolute error for regression).
2. **Read the worst ones** by hand: 30 to 50 rows. Write down a cause for each.
3. **Slice**: compute the metric for each segment (tenure bucket, plan, region, new/old customers). A slice with a clearly worse score is a clue.
4. **Fix the biggest cluster** and measure again with the same CV folds.

Per-row log loss for a true label y and predicted probability p is `loss = −(y·ln(p) +`

`(1−y)·ln(1−p))` . If the customer churned (y = 1) and the model said p = 0.04, loss = −ln(0.04) = 3.22. A confident wrong answer costs a lot.

Confusion matrix and worst rows

```
from sklearn.metrics import confusion_matrix
pr = lr.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]
print(confusion_matrix(yte, (pr >= 0.5).astype(int)))
te = df.loc[Xte.index].copy(); te['p'] = pr; te['y'] = yte
te['err'] = -(yte*np.log(pr) + (1-yte)*np.log(1-pr))
print(te.sort_values('err', ascending=False).head(5)
[['tenure','spend','calls','plan','y','p','err']].round(2))
worst = te.sort_values('err', ascending=False).head(60)
print("worst60 tenure", worst.tenure.mean().round(1), "calls",
worst.calls.mean().round(2),
      "| overall", te.tenure.mean().round(1), te.calls.mean().round(2))
```

```
[[709  81]
 [240 170]]
      tenure  spend  calls  plan  y     p   err
2269      54   26.8      0   plus  1  0.04  3.31
551       58   40.2      0   plus  1  0.05  3.00
785       41    4.8      0  basic  1  0.06  2.75
3075      54   29.3      2   plus  1  0.07  2.66
521       48   41.9      0   plus  1  0.08  2.47
worst60 tenure 43.4 calls 1.07 overall 30.4 1.52
```

Read the matrix: rows are the truth (0 = stayed, 1 = churned), columns are the prediction. There are 709 true "stays" predicted right, 81 false alarms, 240 churners we missed, and 170 churners we caught. Recall for churners is 170 / (170 + 240) = 0.41. We miss 59% of churners.

Read the worst rows: they are long-tenure, low-call customers who churned anyway. The model correctly thinks they are safe, and they left. Is this a bug? No. These are mostly the 5% of labels we randomly flipped, plus honest bad luck. **Lesson: the worst-loss rows are often label noise, not model errors.** If the worst 60 rows had a pattern (all from one region, say), we would investigate. Here the pattern is "very safe customers who left", which looks like noise, so we stop looking there. This is why you also slice.

Slice analysis

```
te['seg'] = np.where((te.tenure < 12) & (te.calls >= 3), 'new+calls>=3',
'other')
g = te.groupby('seg').apply(lambda g: pd.Series(dict(n=len(g),
churn=g.y.mean(), pred=g.p.mean(),
        acc=((g.p >= .5) == g.y).mean(), logloss=g.err.mean())))
print(g.round(3))
te['tb'] = pd.cut(te.tenure, [0, 6, 12, 24, 60])
print(te.groupby('tb', observed=True).apply(lambda g:
pd.Series(dict(n=len(g), churn=g.y.mean(),
        pred=g.p.mean(), acc=((g.p >= .5) == g.y).mean()))).round(3))
```

```
                n  churn   pred    acc  logloss
seg
new+calls>=3   41  0.927  0.709  0.854    0.392
other        1159  0.321  0.328  0.728    0.555
             n  churn   pred    acc
tb
(0, 6]       115  0.530  0.583  0.643
(6, 12]      124  0.629  0.543  0.661
(12, 24]     234  0.397  0.442  0.679
(24, 60]     727  0.245  0.235  0.776
```

(`tb` is a tenure bucket; `(0, 6]` means tenure above 0 and up to 6.) The segment "new with 3+ calls" has 41 customers, 92.7% of whom churned, but the model predicts an average of 70.9%. It under-predicts by 22 points. The overall metrics hide this because the segment is only 3.4% of the data (41 of 1,200). In the tenure buckets, the (6, 12] group churns 62.9% but is predicted at 54.3%. The slice table pointed us to the neighbourhood of the hidden pattern without us knowing it in advance.

Problem 10.3.1 Compute the model's under-prediction for the segment, and its cost in customers.

Formula	gap = actual rate − predicted rate; missed customers ≈ gap × n.
Plug in	0.927 − 0.709 = 0.218; 0.218 × 41.
Compute	0.218 × 41 = 8.9.
Answer	The model under-counts churners in this segment by about 9 people out of 41 in our test set. On a base of 1 million customers where this segment is 3.4% (34,000 people), that is 0.218 × 34,000 ≈ 7,400 churners that retention teams would never target.
Check	0.927 × 41 = 38.0 actual churners; 0.709 × 41 = 29.1 predicted; the difference is 8.9.
Why it matters	A segment this small does not move overall AUC much, but it can be the most valuable one for the business.

Problem 10.3.2 Fix it and measure. We add one feature, `new_calls = 1 if tenure < 12 and calls >= 3` , a hand-made interaction (Chapter 2 introduced interaction terms).

```
from sklearn.model_selection import RepeatedStratifiedKFold,
cross_val_score
cv = RepeatedStratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, n_repeats=2, random_state=0)
X2 = X.copy(); X2['new_calls'] = ((df.tenure < 12) & (df.calls >=
3)).astype(float)
mk = lambda: make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000))
a = cross_val_score(mk(), X, y, cv=cv, scoring='roc_auc')
b = cross_val_score(mk(), X2, y, cv=cv, scoring='roc_auc')
print(round(a.mean(), 4), round(b.mean(), 4), round((b - a).mean(), 4))
l2 = mk().fit(X2.loc[Xtr.index], ytr)
p2 = l2.predict_proba(X2.loc[Xte.index])[:, 1]
print("segment mean prediction", p2[(te.seg ==
'new+calls>=3').values].mean().round(3))
```

```
0.7414 0.7443 0.0029
segment mean prediction 0.921
```

- **Step 1** The segment prediction moved from 0.709 to 0.921, now close to the true 0.927.
- **Step 2** The overall AUC moved only from 0.7414 to 0.7443, a gain of 0.0029, because the segment is small.

- **Answer** The fix is a big win for the segment and a tiny win in the headline metric. Judge fixes on the slice you targeted, not only on the average.
- **Check** Both gains are consistent: a 3.4% segment improved by about 21 points of probability.

Other things to look at

- **Label-noise inspection:** rows where the model is very confident and the label disagrees. Here only 2 of 1,200 rows have p < 0.05 and y = 1. Open them and check whether the label is wrong. Tools such as `cleanlab` automate this (confident learning); not run here.
- **Confusion analysis for many classes:** print the confusion matrix and find the biggest off-diagonal cell; those two classes need clearer features or labels.
- **Hardest examples versus ambiguous examples:** if two human labelers disagree on a row, no model can be right.
- **Distribution shift:** if errors cluster in the latest month, your data has drifted. The three types are covariate shift (inputs change), label shift (class balance changes), and concept drift (the rule `x → y` changes). Chapter 12 shows how to detect them.

The picture

```
all errors (1,200 rows)
   |-- label noise / irreducible  ---- big, but you cannot fix it
   |-- segment "new + 3+ calls"  ----- small, systematic, FIXABLE   <- fix
first
   |-- long-tenure surprises      ---- looks random, ignore
```

Connection to the real job

Weekly "error review" meetings at strong ML teams are exactly this: 30 minutes, a table of worst rows, a decision about the next fix. It replaces guessing.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** discovering missing features and segments.
- **Data Analytics:** finding which customers a dashboard metric hides.
- **Fairness work:** slicing by group (region, age band) to catch worse performance on one group.

- **GenAI:** reading the worst 50 chatbot answers and tagging causes is the same method.

COMMON MISTAKE

Taking the highest-loss rows as the problem. In noisy data, they are often label noise. Check whether they have a pattern before you chase them.

COMMON MISTAKE

Hunting for slices after seeing the test set, then reporting the best slice as "improvement". Do error analysis on validation data; keep the test set for one final number.

Check yourself

1. Overall accuracy is 73%, but one slice has 40% accuracy and 3% of the data. Is the model fine? Answer: Not necessarily; the slice may matter more than its size suggests. Investigate its business value.
2. Why can the highest-loss rows mislead? Answer: They are often label errors or irreducible noise.
3. What is log loss for y = 1, p = 0.5? Answer: $-\ln(0.5) = 0.693$.

10.4 Comparing Models Properly

INTUITION

Two runners finish a race in 12.1 s and 12.3 s on one day. Is the first faster? Not necessarily; on a different day the order may flip. To know, you must race many times under the same conditions and look at the typical difference. Comparing models is the same: one number each is a single race.

Rules

1. **Same folds for every model.** Use the same split object (same seed), so each model sees the same train and test rows. Then the scores are *paired*: fold 1 of model A is compared to fold 1 of model B.
2. **Compare the differences, not the two averages.** Compute `d_i = score_A,i − score_B,i` for each fold, then look at mean and spread of `d`.

3. **Use a test, but know its limits.** The paired t-test on CV folds is the common choice. Its caveat: folds share training data, so the scores are not independent and the test is too optimistic (p-values too small). The **Nadeau-Bengio correction** inflates the variance: `var_corrected = var(d) × (1/k + n_test/n_train)`, where k is the number of scores.
4. **McNemar's test** compares two classifiers on the same test rows by looking only at the rows where exactly one is right.
5. **Bootstrap**: resample the test set many times and compute the difference each time; the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles give a 95% interval.
6. **Prefer the simpler model if the difference is within noise.** It is cheaper, faster, easier to explain.
7. **Offline is not online.** An offline win must be confirmed with an A/B test.

Real data: three models, 10 paired scores

```
from scipy import stats
from sklearn.ensemble import RandomForestClassifier
mods = {'logreg': make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)),
        'gboost': GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0),
        'forest': RandomForestClassifier(n_estimators=200, random_state=0,
min_samples_leaf=5)}
sc = {k: cross_val_score(m, X, y, cv=cv, scoring='roc_auc') for k, m in
mods.items()}
for k, v in sc.items(): print(k, v.mean().round(4), v.std().round(4))
```

```
logreg 0.7414 0.0164
gboost 0.728 0.0145
forest 0.7241 0.016
```

(5 folds x 2 repeats = 10 scores each.) The averages differ by 0.013 and the standard deviations are about 0.015, so the gap looks smaller than the fold-to-fold noise. A beginner might say "they are the same". A paired test is more sensitive, because fold difficulty affects both models equally and cancels out.

```
d = sc['gboost'] - sc['logreg']
print("diff mean", d.mean().round(4), "sd", d.std(ddof=1).round(4))
print(stats.ttest_rel(sc['gboost'], sc['logreg']))
k = len(d); n_te = len(y)//5; n_tr = len(y) - n_te
var = d.var(ddof=1) * (1/k + n_te/n_tr)
t = d.mean()/np.sqrt(var)
print("corrected t", t.round(2), "p", (2*stats.t.sf(abs(t), k-
1)).round(4))
```

```
diff mean -0.0134 sd 0.0101
TtestResult(statistic=np.float64(-4.206274330707449),
pvalue=np.float64(0.0022853687483761443), df=np.int64(9))
corrected t -2.25 p 0.0511
```

Problem 10.4.1 Verify the paired t statistic by hand.

Formula	`t = mean(d) / (sd(d) / √k)`, with k = 10 scores.
Plug in	`−0.0134 / (0.0101 / √10)`.
Compute	√10 = 3.162; 0.0101 / 3.162 = 0.003194; −0.0134 / 0.003194 = −4.20.
Answer	t = −4.20 matches scipy (−4.206, tiny rounding). The plain test says p = 0.0023: boosting is clearly worse.
Check	With 9 degrees of freedom, |t| above 3.25 gives p below 0.01, so p = 0.002 is the right order.

Problem 10.4.2 Apply the Nadeau-Bengio correction.

Step 1	k = 10, n_test = 800 (one fifth of 4,000), n_train = 3,200. So `1/k + n_test/n_train = 0.1 + 0.25 = 0.35`.
Step 2	Corrected variance = `var(d) × 0.35`, with var(d) = 0.0101² = 0.000102. So the variance is 0.0000357, and its square root is 0.00598.
Step 3	Corrected t = −0.0134 / 0.00598 = −2.24 (code: −2.25; rounding).
Answer	Corrected p = 0.051. The naive test said "very significant" (p = 0.002); the honest test says "borderline". Always prefer the corrected version for CV scores.
Check	The corrected standard error 0.00598 is bigger than the naive 0.00319 by a factor √(0.35 × 10) = 1.87. The t shrinks by the same factor: 4.21 / 1.87 = 2.25. Good.
Why it matters	Naive CV t-tests produce false "wins", which cost companies real money when a worse model ships.

McNemar's test and the bootstrap on the hold-out set

```
pa = gb.predict(Xte) == yte; pb = lr.predict(Xte) == yte
b = int((pa & ~pb).sum()); c = int((~pa & pb).sum())
stat = (abs(b - c) - 1)**2 / (b + c)
print("b", b, "c", c, "mcnemar", round(stat, 3), "p",
round(stats.chi2.sf(stat, 1), 4))
rb = np.random.default_rng(0); ds = []
pg = gb.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]; pl = lr.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]
for _ in range(1000):
    i = rb.integers(0, len(yte), len(yte))
    ds.append(roc_auc_score(yte[i], pg[i]) - roc_auc_score(yte[i], pl[i]))
print("boot diff", np.mean(ds).round(4), np.percentile(ds, [2.5,
97.5]).round(4))
```

```
b 51 c 64
mcnemar 1.252 p 0.2631
boot diff -0.0216 [-0.034 -0.008]
```

Here `b = 51` rows were right for boosting and wrong for logistic regression, and `c = 64` rows the reverse. The test statistic is `(|b − c| − 1)² / (b + c) = (13 − 1)² / 115 = 144 / 115 = 1.252`, p = 0.26. On accuracy, the two models are not distinguishable on this test set: the models disagree on only 115 rows, and the split is 51 versus 64. Yet the bootstrap on AUC says boosting is lower by 0.022 with a 95% interval of [−0.034, −0.008], which excludes zero.

Why do the two tests disagree? They measure different things: McNemar looks at accuracy at a 0.5 threshold, the bootstrap at ranking quality (AUC). **Pick the metric that matches the business decision first, then test that metric.**

The decision

- Logistic regression has AUC 0.741, boosting 0.728. After the correction, the difference is borderline; the bootstrap says logistic regression is better.
- Logistic regression is simpler, faster and explainable.
- **Decision:** ship logistic regression (with the `new_calls` feature from 10.3), run an A/B test, and keep boosting as a challenger. A flexible model does not always win; on small noisy tabular data, it often does not.

Real-world mapping

Item	Example value	Where it appears in the job
Paired folds	same `RepeatedStratifiedKFold` object for all models	experiment code in a notebook or pipeline
Mean paired difference	−0.0134 AUC	a table in the model-selection report
Corrected p-value	0.051	the sentence "difference is borderline" in a review
A/B test	2 weeks, 50/50 traffic	final proof before full rollout

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** model selection reports with intervals, not single numbers.
- **MLOps:** champion versus challenger gates before deployment.
- **Data Analytics:** comparing two forecast methods for the next quarter.
- **GenAI:** comparing two prompts or two LLM versions on the same 200 test questions uses the same paired logic.

COMMON MISTAKE

Comparing models on different splits (different random seeds). A model can win just by getting an easier split.

COMMON MISTAKE

Running 50 experiments, reporting the best one on the test set. The best of 50 is biased upward. Chapter 11 returns to this with nested validation.

INTERVIEW TIP

If asked "model B has 0.5% higher accuracy, do we ship?", answer: "I need a paired comparison with an interval, the cost of the extra complexity, and an online test. Half a percent may be noise."

Check yourself

1. Why do we pair folds? Answer: Fold difficulty affects both models equally; pairing cancels it and makes the comparison more sensitive.
2. Why correct the CV t-test? Answer: Folds share training data, so scores are correlated and the naive variance is too small.
3. Two models are within noise. Which do you ship? Answer: The simpler, cheaper one.

Chapter recap

- First check the pipeline: dummy baseline, shuffled labels (score must fall to chance), tiny-subset overfit, and suspicious top features.
- AUC near 1.0 on a messy business problem is a leakage alarm, not a celebration.
- Learning curves tell you if more data helps (rising validation curve, big gap) or not (flat, small gap means high bias).
- Validation curves show where flexibility turns into memorising: training rose to 0.999 while validation fell to 0.676.
- Error analysis: score each row, read the worst 30 to 50, slice by segment, fix the biggest systematic cluster first.
- The worst-loss rows are often label noise; slices find fixable problems that averages hide (a

3.4% segment under-predicted by 22 points).

- Compare models on identical folds, using paired differences; correct the CV t-test; use McNemar or bootstrap on a hold-out; choose the metric first.
- If differences are within noise, ship the simpler model, then confirm with an online A/B test.

Tool	Command / formula
Baseline	`DummyClassifier(strategy='prior')`
Learning curve	`learning_curve(model, X, y, train_sizes=[...], cv=cv, scoring=...)`
Validation curve	`validation_curve(model, X, y, param_name=..., param_range=...)`
Per-row log loss	`−(y·ln p + (1−y)·ln(1−p))`
Paired t	`t = mean(d) / (sd(d)/√k)`
Corrected variance	`var(d) × (1/k + n_test/n_train)`
McNemar	`(
Bootstrap CI	resample test rows 1,000 times, take 2.5 and 97.5 percentiles

Practice set

Problem 10.P.1 (easy) 1,000 emails, 950 are not spam. What accuracy does "always not spam" get?

Answer: 950 / 1000 = 95%. Any real spam model must beat that (and we should look at recall).

Problem 10.P.2 (easy) Per-row log loss for y = 0 and p = 0.9?

Answer: −(0·ln 0.9 + 1·ln(0.1)) = −ln(0.1) = 2.303.

Problem 10.P.3 (easy) After shuffling training labels, your validation AUC is 0.52. Healthy or not?

Answer: Healthy; it is near the 0.5 chance level.

Problem 10.P.4 (what is the output?) Fold scores for A are [0.80, 0.82, 0.78, 0.84], for B [0.79, 0.80, 0.77, 0.82]. What is mean(d)?

Answer: d = [0.01, 0.02, 0.01, 0.02]; mean = 0.015.

Problem 10.P.5 (medium) For the d in 10.P.4, compute the paired t statistic.

Answer: mean = 0.015. Deviations: −0.005, 0.005, −0.005, 0.005; squares sum 0.0001; sample variance = 0.0001 / 3 = 0.0000333; sd = 0.005774. SE = 0.005774 / √4 = 0.002887. t = 0.015 / 0.002887 = 5.20 (3 degrees of freedom, p about 0.014). With only 4 folds and the correction factor, it would be much weaker; be careful.

Problem 10.P.6 (find the bug) `train_test_split` is called with a different `random_state` for each model, and the results are compared. What is wrong?

Answer: Each model sees a different test set, so differences may come from split luck. Use one split (or one CV object) for all models.

Problem 10.P.7 (medium) Training AUC 0.98, validation 0.76, and the gap barely changes from 50% to 100% of the data. What do you try?

Answer: High variance that more data does not fix at this scale. Try regularization, shallower trees, fewer features, or stronger early stopping; and look for leakage differences between train and validation.

Problem 10.P.8 (scenario) Overall accuracy is 91%. Slice by device: mobile 94% (80% of rows), desktop 70% (20% of rows). Check the overall number.

Answer: 0.8 × 94 + 0.2 × 70 = 75.2 + 14 = 89.2%, not 91%. So the stated numbers are inconsistent: someone made an arithmetic or slicing error, which is itself a finding. Weighted slice metrics must reproduce the overall number.

Problem 10.P.9 (interview) "How would you debug a model that works offline and fails in production?"

Answer: Check training-serving skew (different feature code paths), leakage (features not available at prediction time), distribution shift between training period and live data, and data pipeline bugs such as units or missing values. Compare feature distributions between training and logged serving data, and slice errors by time.

Problem 10.P.10 (interview) "Your new model has +0.4% AUC over the old one in CV. Do you deploy?"

Answer: Not on that alone. I would pair the folds, compute a corrected interval, check the gain on important slices, consider latency and maintenance, and run an A/B test. If the interval includes zero, I keep the simpler one.

Prompt pack

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me the four sanity tests for a machine
learning pipeline (dummy baseline, shuffled labels, tiny-subset overfit,
suspicious feature importance). Explain each with a small scikit-learn
example, tell me exactly what output I should expect when the pipeline is
healthy and when it is broken, and then check my understanding with three
short questions, one at a time, waiting for my answers.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me how to read learning curves and
validation curves to decide between "more data", "more regularization", or
"better features". Use a numeric example with training and validation
scores at five data sizes, explain bias and variance in plain English, and
give me 8 graded exercises (easy to hard) with different curve shapes. Do
not show the solutions until I ask.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Walk me through error analysis on a classifier:
per-row loss, reading the worst rows, slice analysis, and deciding what to
fix first. I will paste my model's predictions and a few columns below.
Ask me for what you need, then guide me step by step to find the biggest
systematic error and explain why average metrics can hide it. [PASTE HERE]
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me how to compare two models properly:
paired folds, paired t-test on cross-validation scores, the Nadeau-Bengio
correction, McNemar's test, and bootstrap intervals. Use small made-up
```

fold scores and compute everything by hand with me, line by line. Then quiz me one question at a time on when each method is the right choice.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews. Run a mock interview on debugging and comparing models: sanity tests, leakage, learning curves, error analysis, offline-versus-online evaluation. Ask me one question at a time, wait for my spoken-style answer, then give feedback on correctness and clarity, and a model answer in simple English. Do ten questions, harder each time.

CHAPTER 11

HYPERPARAMETER TUNING, OPTIMIZATION, AND AUTOML

How to search for good settings cheaply, honestly, and reproducibly, and what AutoML tools really do.

A model has two kinds of numbers. The first kind it learns by itself from data. The second kind you must set before training starts, and the model cannot learn them. A wrong choice can cost 5 points of AUC. It is like choosing the oven temperature and baking time before you bake; the cake cannot choose them for you, and a poor choice ruins the batch. By the end of this chapter you will be able to run grid, random and successive-halving searches, explain how Bayesian optimization decides the next trial, measure honestly how good a tuned model is (nested validation), see how over-tuning fools you, and use AutoML tools sensibly. We also revisit the optimizers (gradient descent, momentum, Adam) that do the *training* part, with a small experiment.

Running example. The churn data from Chapter 10 (4,000 customers, seed 0, 5% label noise, a hidden "new and angry" segment). We now include the `new_calls` feature found in 10.3. We hold out 30% (1,200 rows) as a final test set and tune only on the other 2,800 rows with 5-fold CV. The model is scikit-learn's `HistGradientBoostingClassifier` (a fast gradient boosting tree model; Chapters 6 to 9 explain trees and boosting). Metric: ROC-AUC. The generator below is the one from Chapter 10 in a compact form.

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
def make_churn(n=4000, seed=0):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    tenure = rng.integers(1, 60, n); spend = rng.normal(50, 15,
n).round(1)
    calls = rng.poisson(1.5, n)
    plan = rng.choice(['basic','plus','pro'], n, p=[.5,.3,.2])
    region = rng.choice(['N','S','E','W'], n)
    z = -0.2 - 0.05*tenure + 0.03*(spend-50) + 0.3*calls +
(plan=='basic')*0.6
    z += ((tenure < 12) & (calls >= 3)) * 2.5
    y = (rng.random(n) < 1/(1+np.exp(-z))).astype(int)
    y = np.where(rng.random(n) < 0.05, 1-y, y)
    df = pd.DataFrame(dict(tenure=tenure, spend=spend, calls=calls,
plan=plan, region=region))
    X = pd.get_dummies(df, columns=['plan','region'], dtype=float)
    X['new_calls'] = ((tenure < 12) & (calls >= 3)).astype(float)
    return X, y
```

11.1 Parameters, Hyperparameters, and the Search Space

INTUITION

Baking bread: the dough's texture changes by itself during kneading (parameters, learned). The oven temperature and baking time you set before you start (hyperparameters). You cannot learn the oven temperature from the dough while it bakes; you try a few batches and taste them. Tuning is "trying batches" in a smart order.

Words you need

Word	Meaning	Example in our model
Parameter	A number the training algorithm learns	the split thresholds and leaf values inside the trees
Hyperparameter	A number you set before training	`learning_rate`, `max_leaf_nodes`, `max_iter`
Search space	The allowed values for each hyperparameter	`learning_rate` from 0.005 to 0.3

Trial	One try: train with one setting, score it with CV	one row in a results table
Budget	How many trials or how much time you can spend	40 trials

Why scales matter

Learning rates behave in *ratios*: 0.01 versus 0.1 is a big change, 0.21 versus 0.30 is not. So you sample on a **log scale**: equal chance for 0.005 to 0.05 and for 0.05 to 0.5. Compare what 8 samples look like under both choices.

```
from scipy import stats
print(np.sort(stats.loguniform(0.005, 0.3).rvs(8,
random_state=0)).round(4))
print(np.sort(stats.uniform(0.005, 0.295).rvs(8,
random_state=0)).round(4))
```

```
[0.0283 0.03   0.0465 0.0473 0.059  0.0704 0.0935 0.1926]
[0.13   0.1341 0.1657 0.1669 0.1828 0.1955 0.216  0.2681]
```

A plain uniform sampler puts all 8 samples above 0.13, so it never tries the small rates that, as you will see, work best. The log sampler covers 0.03 to 0.19.

Problem 11.1.1 On a log scale, how many "equal steps" fit between 0.005 and 0.3, if one step doubles the value?

Formula	steps = $\log_2$(high / low).
Plug in	$\log_2(0.3 / 0.005) = \log_2(60)$.
Compute	$2^5 = 32$, $2^6 = 64$, so $\log_2(60)$ is about 5.9.
Answer	About 6 doublings: 0.005, 0.01, 0.02, 0.04, 0.08, 0.16, (0.32). A log search treats each doubling as equally important.
Check	$0.005 \times 2^{5.9} \approx 0.005 \times 59.7 \approx 0.3$.

Problem 11.1.2 Which of these hyperparameters should be searched on a log scale: `learning_rate`, `max_leaf_nodes`, `l2_regularization`, `n_neighbors`?

Step 1	A hyperparameter that spans orders of magnitude and acts multiplicatively uses log: learning rate and L2 strength.
Step 2	Counts with a small range (leaves 3 to 40, neighbours 1 to 50) use a linear integer scale, or log if the range is huge (like 10 to 10,000).
Answer	`learning_rate` and `l2_regularization` on log; `max_leaf_nodes` and `n_neighbors` on integers.
Check	Ask: "would doubling this value be a meaningful step?" If yes, log.

Tuning order of importance

You cannot tune everything. For gradient boosted trees use this order (each step fixes earlier choices):

1. Fix the learning rate to a moderate value (for example 0.05 to 0.1) and tune the number of trees with early stopping.
2. Tune tree complexity: depth or number of leaves, minimum samples per leaf.
3. Tune sampling (row and column sampling).
4. Tune regularization (L1/L2 strength).
5. At the very end, lower the learning rate and add trees for a small final gain.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** every production model has a stored config of tuned values.
- **MLOps:** the search space is versioned in a config file next to the code.
- **Deep Learning:** learning rate, batch size and weight decay are tuned the same way.
- **Operations:** choosing reorder levels and delivery-slot settings for a warehouse; a systematic search beats random fiddling.

COMMON MISTAKE

Searching `learning_rate` on a linear scale. You waste most trials on large rates.

COMMON MISTAKE

Tuning on the test set. Tune with CV on the training part only; touch the test set once (Chapter 10.4 rules).

Check yourself

1. Is the number of trees a parameter or a hyperparameter? Answer: Hyperparameter (you set it before training).
2. Why log scale for learning rate? Answer: Its effect is multiplicative; the log scale gives each order of magnitude equal attention.
3. Name the first thing to fix when tuning boosting. Answer: A moderate learning rate, then tune trees with early stopping.

11.2 Grid Search and Random Search

INTUITION

You are looking for the best restaurant in a city with two criteria: price and distance. A grid search visits every restaurant at fixed street corners, even if it means visiting 3 restaurants that have the same cheap price. A random search picks random addresses; after 9 visits you have tried 9 different prices and 9 different distances. If only one criterion really matters, random search tested it 9 times while the grid tested it only 3 times.

How they work

- **Grid search:** list a few values per hyperparameter and try every combination. With 3 values for each of 2 hyperparameters it takes 3 × 3 = 9 trials; with 5 hyperparameters at 3 values each, $3^5 = 243$ trials. It explodes as dimensions grow.
- **Random search:** draw each hyperparameter from a distribution; each trial is a fresh random combination. The budget is exactly what you choose (`n_iter`).

Each trial is scored by k-fold CV; the setting with the best mean CV score wins, and by default scikit-learn **refits** the winner on the whole training part.

First, the untuned model:

```
from sklearn.experimental import enable_halving_search_cv
from sklearn.model_selection import (StratifiedKFold, train_test_split,
cross_val_score,
                                     GridSearchCV, RandomizedSearchCV,
HalvingRandomSearchCV)
from sklearn.ensemble import HistGradientBoostingClassifier
from sklearn.metrics import roc_auc_score
X, y = make_churn()
Xtr, Xte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(X, y, test_size=0.3, random_state=0,
stratify=y)
cv = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=0)
base = HistGradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0)
print("default cv", cross_val_score(base, Xtr, ytr, cv=cv,
scoring='roc_auc').mean().round(4))
print("default test", round(roc_auc_score(yte, base.fit(Xtr,
ytr).predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]), 4))
```

```
default cv 0.6827
default test 0.7135
```

Predict: will a grid over learning rate and number of leaves beat 0.6827? (The default has 31 leaves, rate 0.1: complex for noisy data.)

```
grid = GridSearchCV(HistGradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0,
max_iter=100),
                    {'learning_rate': [0.01, 0.1, 0.3], 'max_leaf_nodes':
[4, 16, 64]},
                    cv=cv, scoring='roc_auc').fit(Xtr, ytr)
print(grid.best_params_, grid.best_score_.round(4))
import pandas as pd
r = pd.DataFrame(grid.cv_results_)
print(r.pivot(index='param_max_leaf_nodes', columns='param_learning_rate',
              values='mean_test_score').round(4))
```

```
{'learning_rate': 0.1, 'max_leaf_nodes': 4} 0.7286
param_learning_rate     0.01    0.10    0.30
param_max_leaf_nodes
4                     0.7148  0.7286  0.7139
16                    0.7188  0.7066  0.6725
64                    0.7009  0.6730  0.6622
```

Read the table: rows are leaves, columns are learning rates, each cell is mean CV AUC. The

best cell is 4 leaves at rate 0.1 (0.7286). Look down any column: more leaves is always worse. The data is small and noisy, so simple trees win. The grid raised CV AUC from 0.6827 to 0.7286, a gain of 0.046 from just two hyperparameters.

Now random search with five hyperparameters and 40 trials:

```
dist = {'learning_rate': stats.loguniform(0.005, 0.3), 'max_leaf_nodes':
stats.randint(3, 40),
        'min_samples_leaf': stats.randint(10, 200), 'l2_regularization':
stats.loguniform(1e-3, 10),
        'max_iter': stats.randint(30, 300)}
rs = RandomizedSearchCV(HistGradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0),
dist, n_iter=40,
                        cv=cv, scoring='roc_auc', random_state=0).fit(Xtr,
ytr)
print("best cv", rs.best_score_.round(4))
print("test", round(roc_auc_score(yte,
rs.best_estimator_.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]), 4))
```

```
best cv 0.729
test 0.7279
```

Random search versus grid search

Left: each dot is one random trial; x-axis is learning rate (log scale), y-axis is the number of leaves, colour is the CV AUC (yellow is better). Right: the 9 fixed grid points in the same axes. Notice the grid reuses only 3 distinct values per axis, while random uses 40.

Honest reading: with 9 random trials we got CV 0.7288 and with the 3x3 grid 0.7286: **no real difference at small budgets in this problem**. The theory (Bergstra and Bengio, 2012) says random search wins when only a few hyperparameters matter, which is common, and when you add more hyperparameters. The extra 31 trials gave only 0.0002 more; the response surface here is flat near the top. Cost: the grid took 31 s on this laptop for 9 trials of 5 folds, because the 64-leaf, 300-iteration corner is slow.

The CV score by learning rate bucket shows what random search found:

```
learning_rate bucket   trials  mean CV AUC   best
(0.0, 0.02]              10      0.7255      0.7290
(0.02, 0.06]             11      0.7159      0.7289
(0.06, 0.15]             11      0.7133      0.7280
(0.15, 0.4]               8      0.7004      0.7162
```

Small rates are safer on average; the best score in each bucket up to 0.15 is similar. This is what a *flat optimum* looks like: many settings are almost equally good, so spending 1,000 trials is wasteful.

Problem 11.2.1 How many fits does `GridSearchCV` perform for 4 hyperparameters with 3, 3, 4 and 5 values and 5-fold CV, including the final refit?

Formula	fits = (product of value counts) × folds + 1 refit.
Plug in	(3 × 3 × 4 × 5) × 5 + 1.
Compute	3 × 3 = 9; 9 × 4 = 36; 36 × 5 = 180; 180 × 5 = 900; 900 + 1 = 901.
Answer	901 model fits. At 2 seconds each, that is 30 minutes. Random search with `n_iter=40` costs 40 × 5 + 1 = 201 fits.
Check	40 trials × 5 folds = 200, plus the refit = 201.
Why it matters	Compute cost is your budget, in money and time; know it before you press run.

Problem 11.2.2 A grid has 2 important and 3 unimportant hyperparameters, each at 3 values (243 trials). How many distinct values of an important hyperparameter does each method test, with the same 243 trials?

Step 1	The grid tests exactly 3 distinct values of each important hyperparameter.
Step 2	Random search draws a fresh value each trial, so about 243 distinct values.
Answer	3 versus about 243. When only some dimensions matter, random search explores the important ones about 80 times more finely.
Check	243 / 3 = 81.

Connection to the real job

Most teams use random search or Optuna (11.4) for the first pass, and they stop early once the curve of "best score so far" flattens. They write the search space and the seed in a config file so someone else can reproduce the run.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** random search on tree models and SVM (`C` , `gamma` on log scales).
- **Data Science:** quick baseline tuning for a notebook or a hackathon.
- **MLOps:** scheduled retraining jobs reuse a stored search space.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using a grid with many parameters "to be thorough". The cost grows as a product; most of those trials repeat the same values of the key parameter.

COMMON MISTAKE

Forgetting that default hyperparameters may already be fine. Always report the untuned default score (here 0.6827 in CV) so you know what tuning bought you.

Check yourself

1. 3 values for each of 4 hyperparameters: how many grid combinations? Answer: $3^4 = 81$.
2. Why can random search beat grid search? Answer: It tests many more distinct values of each hyperparameter, which matters when only a few hyperparameters are important.
3. What does `refit=True` do? Answer: It retrains the best setting on the whole training data.

11.3 Smarter Searches: Successive Halving and Bayesian Ideas

INTUITION

Hiring: 40 applicants. Instead of a full 3-day trial for each, you give everyone a 1-hour test, keep the best third, give them a 3-hour test, then keep the best third again. Bad candidates are removed cheaply. That is successive halving. The second idea: after 10 interviews you notice that candidates from certain backgrounds do well, so you interview more like them (Bayesian optimization): learn from past trials where to look next.

Successive halving and Hyperband

Successive halving: start many candidates on a *small* budget (few rows or few iterations), keep the best `1/factor`, give the survivors `factor` times the budget, and repeat. **Hyperband** runs several halving schedules with different starting budgets, to protect against "slow starters" that look bad on small budgets.

```
hs = HalvingRandomSearchCV(HistGradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0),
dist, cv=cv,
        scoring='roc_auc', random_state=0, factor=3, resource='n_samples',
        min_resources=300, n_candidates=40).fit(Xtr, ytr)
print(hs.best_score_.round(4), hs.n_iterations_, hs.n_candidates_,
hs.n_resources_)
```

```
0.7255 3 [40, 14, 5] [300, 900, 2700]
```

Read: round 1 trains 40 candidates on 300 rows; the best 14 (about 40 / 3) go to round 2 with 900 rows; the best 5 go to round 3 with 2,700 rows. The total training work is far lower than 40 candidates on 2,700 rows. The final score 0.7255 is close to the full random search (0.729), at a fraction of the cost. (The last score is measured on a bigger sample than the early ones, so scores across rounds are not directly comparable.)

Problem 11.3.1 Compute the rows processed by the halving run and by full random search, counting rows per candidate per round (ignore CV folds; treat cost as proportional to rows).

Formula	cost = Σ (candidates × rows per candidate).
Plug in	Halving: 40 × 300 + 14 × 900 + 5 × 2700. Full: 40 × 2800 (all training rows, roughly 2,700 used in the last halving round).
Compute	Halving: 12,000 + 12,600 + 13,500 = 38,100. Full (using 2,700): 40 × 2,700 = 108,000.
Answer	Halving uses about 35% of the work (38,100 / 108,000 = 0.353) and lands within 0.0035 AUC of the best.
Check	Each round costs about the same (12,000 to 13,500), which is the design: more budget for fewer candidates.

Bayesian optimization

Idea: treat the score as an unknown function of the hyperparameters. After every trial, fit a cheap **surrogate model** (often a Gaussian process, GP; a model that predicts a mean and an uncertainty for any new point). Then choose the next trial by an **acquisition function** that balances *exploiting* (try where the predicted score is high) and *exploring* (try where uncertainty is high). The most common one is **expected improvement (EI)**: how much better than the best-so-far do we expect to get? Optuna's default sampler, **TPE** (Tree-structured Parzen Estimator), uses another trick: it models "good trials" and "bad trials" with two densities and picks points that are likely under the good one and unlikely under the bad one.

We build a tiny Bayesian optimizer to see it work. The "validation score" is an artificial smooth function with one best peak: $f(x) = \sin(3x) + 0.5x - 0.2x^2$, for x between 0 and 5. Its true maximum is 1.211 at x = 0.55. We start with 4 trials and let EI choose 6 more.

```
from sklearn.gaussian_process import GaussianProcessRegressor
from sklearn.gaussian_process.kernels import Matern
def f(x): return np.sin(3*x) + 0.5*x - 0.2*x**2
grid_x = np.linspace(0, 5, 501)
xs = [0.4, 1.9, 3.3, 4.7]; ys = [f(v) for v in xs]
for it in range(6):
    gp = GaussianProcessRegressor(Matern(length_scale=0.6, nu=2.5),
alpha=1e-6,
                                  optimizer=None,
normalize_y=True).fit(np.array(xs)[:, None], ys)
    mu, sd = gp.predict(grid_x[:, None], return_std=True); best = max(ys)
    zz = (mu - best) / np.maximum(sd, 1e-9)
    ei = (mu - best) * stats.norm.cdf(zz) + sd * stats.norm.pdf(zz)   #
expected improvement
    xn = grid_x[ei.argmax()]; xs.append(float(xn));
ys.append(float(f(xn)))
    print(it, "next x", round(float(xn), 2), "f", round(float(f(xn)), 3),
"best", round(max(ys), 3))
```

```
0 next x 0.09 f 0.31 best so far 1.1
1 next x 0.66 f 1.16 best so far 1.16
2 next x 0.54 f 1.21 best so far 1.21
3 next x 1.13 f 0.064 best so far 1.21
4 next x 0.57 f 1.21 best so far 1.21
5 next x 2.53 f 0.95 best so far 1.21
```

Read it line by line. The first guess (0.09) explores the edge near the best point and is poor. The second (0.66) and third (0.54) zoom in, reaching 1.21 which equals the true maximum (1.211). Trials 3 and 5 (1.13 and 2.53) are *exploration*: EI sent the search to places with high uncertainty.

By trial 3 we have the optimum after 7 evaluations in total. Random search with 10 evaluations got a best of 1.021 on average over 200 repeated runs, and as low as −0.048 in the worst run. (We caution: our first point 0.4 was already close to the peak, which helps; and a GP surrogate works best with few, continuous, smooth hyperparameters.)

Problem 11.3.2 Why did EI choose x = 1.13 at step 3 even though the best was already found?

Step 1	EI = (expected gain over the best) accounting for uncertainty. Near 0.55 the GP is already certain, so the expected gain is almost 0.
Step 2	At x = 1.13 there are no nearby trials, so the standard deviation is large; even if the predicted mean is low, a small chance of a high score gives a positive EI.
Answer	It was exploring: with no knowledge about 1.13, an unlucky region could hide a better peak. Here it was not better (0.064).
Check	The sd term in the EI formula `(μ − best)·Φ(z) + σ·ϕ(z)` grows with uncertainty, so unexplored areas keep EI above zero.

Optuna (not run here)

Optuna is not installed here, so this code is not run; it is the standard pattern (check the current docs for version details):

```
import optuna
def objective(trial):
    params = dict(
        learning_rate=trial.suggest_float("learning_rate", 0.005, 0.3,
log=True),
        max_leaf_nodes=trial.suggest_int("max_leaf_nodes", 3, 40),
        min_samples_leaf=trial.suggest_int("min_samples_leaf", 10, 200),
        l2_regularization=trial.suggest_float("l2_regularization", 1e-3,
10, log=True),
    )
    model = HistGradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0, **params)
    return cross_val_score(model, Xtr, ytr, cv=cv,
scoring="roc_auc").mean()

study = optuna.create_study(direction="maximize",
                            sampler=optuna.samplers.TPESampler(seed=0))
study.optimize(objective, n_trials=40)
print(study.best_params, study.best_value)
```

Optuna can also prune bad trials early (like halving), store studies in a database, and run trials in parallel.

Applications

- **Deep Learning:** Hyperband-style schedulers stop bad training runs after a few epochs.
- **Machine Learning:** Optuna with TPE is a common default for boosting models.
- **Data Engineering / MLOps:** studies stored in a database allow distributed tuning.
- **Operations and engineering:** Bayesian optimization is also used to tune expensive physical or system experiments (a factory setting, a cache size) where each test run is costly.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using Bayesian optimization when each trial is cheap (a 1-second model). Random search with many trials is simpler and as good. BO pays off when a trial costs minutes or hours.

COMMON MISTAKE

Comparing halving round scores as if they were on the same data size. Early rounds use 300 rows and are noisy and lower.

Check yourself

1. What do the surrogate and the acquisition function each do? Answer: The surrogate predicts score and uncertainty for untried settings; the acquisition function chooses the next trial from that.
2. In halving with factor 3, 27 candidates in round 1: how many in round 2? Answer: 9.
3. When is plain random search a better choice than BO? Answer: When trials are cheap or the space is high-dimensional and discrete.

11.4 Honest Evaluation of Tuning: Nested CV, Over-tuning, Budgets

INTUITION

A student takes the same practice exam 100 times, memorises which answers scored best, and then reports the best score as her skill. That score is inflated. The search is the student, the validation set is the exam. If you choose "the best of 100" on one validation set, the winner is partly the luckiest, not the best.

Over-tuning on noise

Let us test this with data that has **no signal at all**: 300 rows, 10 random features, random 0/1 labels. The true AUC of any model is 0.5. We try 100 random decision-tree settings and score each on one validation half.

```
from sklearn.tree import DecisionTreeClassifier
rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
Xn = rng.normal(size=(300, 10)); yn = rng.integers(0, 2, 300)
Xa, Xb, ya, yb = train_test_split(Xn, yn, test_size=0.5, random_state=0)
res = []
for i in range(100):
    m = DecisionTreeClassifier(max_depth=int(rng.integers(1, 8)),
min_samples_leaf=int(rng.integers(1, 30)),
                               max_features=float(rng.uniform(.2, 1)),
random_state=int(rng.integers(0, 1000))).fit(Xa, ya)
    res.append(roc_auc_score(yb, m.predict_proba(Xb)[:, 1]))
print("mean val AUC", np.mean(res).round(3), "best of 100",
np.max(res).round(3))
```

```
mean val AUC 0.477 best of 100 0.577
```

The average trial scored 0.477 (chance). The best of 100 scored 0.577: a 7.7-point "improvement" produced by luck alone. If you reported 0.577, you would be cheating yourself. The more trials and the smaller and noisier the validation set, the bigger the lie.

Nested cross-validation

Nested CV has two loops. The **inner loop** (with its own CV) picks the best hyperparameters using only the outer-training rows. The **outer loop** scores the tuned model on outer-test rows it never saw. The average outer score estimates the quality of the *whole procedure* "tune then fit".

```
outer = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=1)
inner_scores, outer_scores = [], []
for tri, tei in outer.split(X, y):
    s = RandomizedSearchCV(HistGradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=0),
dist, n_iter=20,
            cv=StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=2),
scoring='roc_auc',
            random_state=0).fit(X.iloc[tri], y[tri])
    inner_scores.append(s.best_score_)
    outer_scores.append(roc_auc_score(y[tei], s.predict_proba(X.iloc[tei])
[:, 1]))
print("inner", np.round(inner_scores, 4), np.mean(inner_scores).round(4))
print("outer", np.round(outer_scores, 4), np.mean(outer_scores).round(4))
```

```
inner [0.7247 0.7333 0.7301 0.7333 0.7325] 0.7308
outer [0.7535 0.7192 0.7474 0.7244 0.7383] 0.7366
```

The inner mean (the "best of the search", 0.7308) is the number you would quote without nested CV. The outer mean is 0.7366, and the outer folds range from 0.7192 to 0.7535. Here the outer score is not lower than the inner. That is allowed: the inner scores use less data (each inner model trains on 64% of the rows, the refit model on 80%), and an outer fold has its own noise: the spread of 0.034 across five folds is bigger than the gap of 0.006. **The lesson is the spread**: quote "0.737 ± 0.015 (std across outer folds)", not "0.731". With 20 trials on a flat surface, the optimism of the inner score is small here; on a noisy surface with many trials (like the noise experiment) it would be large.

Problem 11.4.1 Compute the standard deviation of the outer scores and a rough 95% interval.

Formula	sd = $\sqrt{(\Sigma(x_i - \text{mean})^2 / (k - 1))}$; interval ≈ mean ± 2 × sd / $\sqrt{k}$.
Plug in	values 0.7535, 0.7192, 0.7474, 0.7244, 0.7383; mean 0.7366.
Compute	deviations: 0.0169, −0.0174, 0.0108, −0.0122, 0.0017; squares: 0.000286, 0.000303, 0.000117, 0.000149, 0.000003; sum 0.000858; divide by 4: 0.0002145; sd = 0.01465. Standard error = 0.01465 / $\sqrt{5}$ = 0.00655; interval = 0.7366 ± 0.0131, i.e. 0.7235 to 0.7497.
Answer	The tuned procedure scores about 0.737 AUC, plausibly between 0.724 and 0.750.
Check	`np.std(outer_scores, ddof=1)` gives 0.0146.
Why it matters	A reported interval stops people over-reading a 0.005 difference.

Budgeting rules

1. **Start with the default and a simple baseline**; report both.
2. **Tune on a subsample first** (halving does this automatically), then refit the winner on all training data.
3. **Stop when the best-so-far curve is flat** for 10 to 20 trials.
4. **Do not over-tune noisy validation sets.** If the CV standard deviation across folds is 0.015, differences of 0.002 are not worth chasing.
5. **Use the same CV folds for all trials** (seeded `cv` object) so the trials are paired.

Reproducibility

Item	How	Where it appears in the job
Random seeds	`random_state=0` in splits, models, samplers	rerunning an experiment gets the same number
Environment	pinned `requirements.txt` or lock file	the same library versions on every machine
Config files	search space and fixed params stored in YAML or JSON	a reviewer sees what you tried

Experiment tracking	MLflow or Weights & Biases (not run here) log params, metrics, artifacts	"which run produced model v7?"
Data version	a dated snapshot or hash of the training table	rebuild a model from last March

COMMON MISTAKE

Quoting the best CV score of the search as the model's performance. It is biased upward; use a held-out test set (touched once) or nested CV.

COMMON MISTAKE

Searching again after looking at the test result "because it was a bit low". Now the test set is a validation set. Collect fresh data instead.

Check yourself

1. In nested CV, which loop chooses hyperparameters? Answer: The inner loop.
2. Why is "best of 100 trials" optimistic? Answer: The winner is partly the luckiest on that validation set.
3. Name two things to log for reproducibility. Answer: seed and data version (also config, library versions).

11.5 Optimization Recap: What Training Itself Does

INTUITION

Training is walking downhill in fog. At each step you feel the slope under your feet (the gradient) and move against it. The step size is the learning rate. Too small: you take all day. Too big: you jump across the valley and fall higher up. Momentum is a heavy ball that keeps rolling in the same direction; Adam gives each direction its own step size.

The derivations (gradient, momentum, Adam, learning rate schedules) are in the learner's Math PDF, Pillar 5; Chapter 2 of this document used gradient descent for linear regression. Here is only a compact experiment that shows the behaviour.

Setup

The loss is a long narrow valley: $L(w) = 0.5\ (w_1^2 + 25\ w_2^2)$. The gradient is $(w_1,\ 25\ w_2)$. Start at w = (4, 1). The minimum is at (0, 0) with loss 0. The curvature differs 25 times between directions, like unscaled features in regression (Chapter 2, "why scaling matters"). Plain GD must use a step small enough for the steep direction (w_2), so it crawls along the flat direction (w_1).

```
A = np.diag([1.0, 25.0])
def run(opt, steps=60, lr=0.03):
    w = np.array([4.0, 1.0]); m = np.zeros(2); v = np.zeros(2); vel =
np.zeros(2); out = []
    for t in range(1, steps + 1):
        g = A @ w
        if opt == 'gd':   w = w - lr * g
        elif opt == 'mom': vel = 0.9 * vel + g; w = w - lr * vel
        elif opt == 'adam':
            m = 0.9*m + 0.1*g; v = 0.999*v + 0.001*g*g
            mh = m/(1 - 0.9**t); vh = v/(1 - 0.999**t)
            w = w - 0.3 * mh / (np.sqrt(vh) + 1e-8)
        out.append(0.5 * w @ A @ w)
    return out
for o in ['gd', 'mom', 'adam']:
    L = run(o); print(o, "loss at step 10:", round(L[9], 4), "step 30:",
round(L[29], 6), "step 60:", round(L[59], 8))
for lr in [0.01, 0.03, 0.07, 0.085]:
    print("gd lr", lr, "loss@60", run('gd', lr=lr)[59])
```

```
gd loss at step 10: 4.3504 step 30: 1.286453 step 60: 0.20687028
mom loss at step 10: 5.0254 step 30: 0.591473 step 60: 0.01943896
adam loss at step 10: 2.2256 step 30: 0.47766 step 60: 0.00240678
gd lr 0.01 loss@60 2.395043130498667
gd lr 0.03 loss@60 0.20687027841451988
gd lr 0.07 loss@60 0.0013214289388152583
gd lr 0.085 loss@60 17187499.822868153
```

Read it. At step 60, plain GD with rate 0.03 has loss 0.207; momentum reaches 0.019 (10 times lower); Adam reaches 0.0024 (86 times lower). Momentum is *worse* early (5.03 at step 10, it overshoots and oscillates) and better later. Learning rate matters more than the optimizer: GD with 0.07 beats momentum and nearly beats Adam (0.0013), and with 0.085 it **diverges**: the loss explodes to 1.7×10^7.

Problem 11.5.1 Find the divergence threshold for plain GD on this loss.

Formula	For `L = ½ a w²`, a step gives `w ← w (1 − lr·a)`. It shrinks only if `|1 − lr·a| < 1`, so `lr < 2/a`.
Plug in	The steepest direction has a = 25.
Compute	2 / 25 = 0.08.
Answer	GD diverges for lr above 0.08. Our test: 0.07 converges, 0.085 diverges. It matches.
Check	At lr = 0.085, `1 − 0.085 × 25 = −1.125`, and $\|-1.125\| > 1$, so each step multiplies w_2 by 1.125 in size and flips its sign.
Why it matters	This is why you scale features: with the same curvature in all directions the safe step is much larger and training is faster.

Problem 11.5.2 At the best stable rate for the flat direction, how fast does plain GD shrink w_1 per step, with lr = 0.07?

Formula	factor per step = 1 − lr · a, with a = 1.
Plug in	1 − 0.07 × 1.
Compute	0.93 per step; after 60 steps: $0.93^{60} = 0.0128$, so w_1 goes from 4 to 0.051.
Answer	The flat direction shrinks only 7% per step, while the steep direction is already at its limit; this mismatch (a ratio of 25) is called **ill-conditioning**.
Check	Loss contribution of w_1: $0.5 \times 0.051^2 = 0.0013$, which matches the printed 0.0013.

What to remember for tuning

Optimizer	Idea	Typical use
SGD (mini-batch)	gradient from a small batch	large data; noisy but cheap
SGD + momentum	add a running average of past gradients	smooths zig-zag; CNN training

Adam / AdamW	per-parameter step from gradient averages	default for neural networks; AdamW separates weight decay
Learning-rate schedule	decay or warm-up the rate	most deep learning runs
Early stopping	stop when validation stops improving	boosting and neural networks

Regularization tools (L1/L2, early stopping, dropout, augmentation, simpler model, more data, ensembling) were covered in Chapter 3 and reappear as hyperparameters here: `l2_regularization`, `max_iter` with early stopping, and so on.

Applications

- **Deep Learning:** learning rate is almost always the single most important hyperparameter.
- **Machine Learning:** logistic regression and linear models are fit by L-BFGS or SGD; solver choice and `max_iter` can cause "did not converge" warnings.
- **GenAI fine-tuning:** AdamW with warm-up and cosine decay is a standard recipe.

COMMON MISTAKE

Blaming the optimizer when the real problem is unscaled features or a learning rate off by 10x.

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating the `ConvergenceWarning` in scikit-learn as harmless. It means the optimizer stopped early; scale the features or raise `max_iter`.

Check yourself

1. What happens when the learning rate exceeds 2/a for a curvature a? Answer: Divergence; the loss grows.
2. Why does scaling help? Answer: It makes the curvature similar in all directions, so one learning rate suits all.
3. Which is more often the first thing to tune in deep learning: batch size or learning rate? Answer: Learning rate.

11.6 AutoML: What It Does and When to Use It

INTUITION

AutoML is a very organised intern who tries many models and many settings overnight, using the search methods above, and hands you a leaderboard in the morning. Useful, tireless, but it does not know your business, does not check for leakage, and will happily train on a feature that contains the answer.

What AutoML tools do

1. Preprocess data (impute, encode).
2. Try several model families (linear, trees, boosting, sometimes neural nets).
3. Search hyperparameters (Bayesian or halving search with a time budget).
4. Build an **ensemble** (stack or blend) of the best models.

Tools (not run here; not installed, API changes by version)

Tool	Style	Note
AutoGluon	stacks many models with multi-layer ensembles	strong tabular baselines, heavy on compute
FLAML	cost-aware, lightweight search with a time budget	good when the time budget is small
H2O AutoML	Java-based, cluster-friendly	leaderboard and stacked ensembles
auto-sklearn	scikit-learn pipelines with meta-learning	Linux-focused

A typical use looks like this (FLAML, not run here; check the docs for the current API):

```
from flaml import AutoML
automl = AutoML()
automl.fit(X_train=Xtr, y_train=ytr, task="classification",
metric="roc_auc", time_budget=60)
print(automl.best_estimator, automl.best_config)
```

How to use AutoML well

- Use it as a **baseline and an upper bound**: "AutoML got 0.74, my hand-built model got 0.73, so my feature work is close to the ceiling for this data."
- Always run the Chapter 10 sanity tests on its winner. An AutoML tool cannot know that `days_since_cancel_request` is leaked.
- Give it the **same validation scheme** you would use yourself (group or time split, not random).
- Remember the cost: ensembles are slow at prediction time and hard to explain. Many production teams then distil the answer into a simpler model.

Real-world mapping

Item	Example	Where it appears
Time budget	60 seconds to 1 hour	a notebook baseline before a project kickoff
Leaderboard	list of models with CV scores	a table in the model-selection document
Ensemble	stack of 5 boosted models	high-accuracy, high-latency solution

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating AutoML as a replacement for understanding the data. It optimises the metric you give it on the split you give it; bad inputs produce confident garbage.

Check yourself

1. Name one good use of AutoML. Answer: A quick baseline or an upper bound to compare your own model against.
2. What must you still check on an AutoML winner? Answer: Leakage, validation design, latency and explainability.
3. Why can an AutoML ensemble be a problem in production? Answer: It is slow, large, and difficult to explain and maintain.

Chapter recap

- Parameters are learned; hyperparameters are set by you before training and must be searched.
- Sample scale-like hyperparameters (learning rate, L2) on a log scale.
- Grid search costs the product of value counts; random search tests many more distinct values and is the better default as dimensions grow.
- Tuning gave a real gain here (CV AUC 0.6827 to 0.729), but the top of the surface was flat: 9 trials were nearly as good as 40.
- Successive halving used about a third of the work and got within 0.0035 AUC; Bayesian optimization (surrogate + expected improvement) helps when each trial is expensive.
- The best of many trials is biased upward (noise data: 0.477 average, 0.577 best of 100); use a test set touched once or nested CV, and report the spread.
- Optimization: learning rate matters most; GD diverges when lr > 2/curvature; momentum and Adam help on ill-conditioned problems; scaling features helps all.
- AutoML is a baseline and a ceiling check, not a substitute for sanity tests and good validation.

Tool	Command / formula
Grid	`GridSearchCV(model, {param: [values]}, cv=cv, scoring=...)`
Random	`RandomizedSearchCV(model, {param: stats.loguniform(a, b)}, n_iter=40, ...)`
Halving	`HalvingRandomSearchCV(..., factor=3, resource='n_samples')` (needs `enable_halving_search_cv`)
Grid fits	`product(value counts) × folds + 1`
Expected improvement	`(μ − best)·Φ(z) + σ·ϕ(z)`, `z = (μ − best)/σ`
GD stability	`lr < 2 / curvature`
Nested CV	outer loop scores; inner loop (a search object) tunes

Practice set

Problem 11.P.1 (easy) Are `max_depth` and the leaf values of a tree parameters or hyperparameters?

Answer: `max_depth` is a hyperparameter; leaf values are parameters.

Problem 11.P.2 (easy) A grid has 4 values of `C` and 5 values of `gamma`, with 3-fold CV. How many fits (no refit)?

Answer: 4 × 5 × 3 = 60.

Problem 11.P.3 (easy) You sample the learning rate from `uniform(0.001, 0.1)`. What is wrong?

Answer: About 90% of samples fall above 0.01, so small rates are almost never tried. Use `loguniform(0.001, 0.1)`.

Problem 11.P.4 (what is the output?) `stats.loguniform(1, 100)` gives a median sample of about?

Answer: The median of a log-uniform is the geometric mean: $\sqrt{(1 \times 100)} = 10$.

Problem 11.P.5 (medium) Successive halving with factor 2 starts with 64 candidates at 100 rows. List candidates and rows per round until one candidate remains.

Answer: 64 at 100; 32 at 200; 16 at 400; 8 at 800; 4 at 1,600; 2 at 3,200; 1 at 6,400. Each round costs 6,400 rows in total (64 × 100 = 32 × 200 = ...).

Problem 11.P.6 (medium) GD on $L = \frac{1}{2} \cdot 4 \cdot w^2$ with lr = 0.6. Does it converge? Compute w after 2 steps from w = 1.

Answer: Factor per step = 1 − 0.6 × 4 = −1.4; |−1.4| > 1, so it diverges. $w_1 = -1.4$, $w_2 = 1.96$.

Problem 11.P.7 (find the bug) `RandomizedSearchCV(...).fit(X, y)` is run on the full dataset and then `roc_auc_score(y, search.predict_proba(X)[:, 1])` is printed as the final result. What is wrong?

Answer: The model was tuned and fitted on all of those rows, so the score is measured on training data. Hold out a test set (or use nested CV).

Problem 11.P.8 (scenario) You have 20 trials of tuning, and the best CV AUC is 0.812 with a fold standard deviation of 0.02. A colleague's setting scored 0.815. Which do you choose?

Answer: They are within noise (0.003 is much less than 0.02). Choose the simpler, cheaper or more stable one.

Problem 11.P.9 (interview) "Why is random search often better than grid search?"

Answer: Usually only a few hyperparameters matter. A grid tests only a few distinct values of each; random search tests a new value of every hyperparameter on every trial, so it explores the important ones more finely for the same budget. It also lets you choose any budget.

Problem 11.P.10 (interview) "How do you get an honest performance estimate when you tune hyperparameters?"

Answer: Keep a test set untouched until the end, or use nested CV: the inner loop tunes, the outer loop scores. Report the mean and spread over the outer folds, and compare with an untuned default and a simple baseline.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me the difference between parameters and
hyperparameters, and how grid search and random search work, using a small
scikit-learn example with a gradient boosting or random forest model.
Explain why random search often wins, why learning rates need a log scale,
and how to count the number of model fits. Check my understanding with
three questions, one at a time.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Explain Bayesian optimization (surrogate model,
acquisition function, expected improvement, and the idea behind TPE in
Optuna) in plain English with a tiny one-dimensional example computed step
by step. Then give me 6 graded exercises about when to use random search,
successive halving, or Bayesian optimization. Do not show answers until I
ask.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me honest evaluation of tuned models: why
the best-of-many-trials score is optimistic, how nested cross-validation
works, and how to report a score with a spread. Use a numeric example with
five outer-fold scores and compute the standard deviation and an interval
```

with me, line by line. Then review my own tuning plan [PASTE HERE] and point out leakage or over-tuning risks.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and learning ML optimization. Review gradient descent, momentum and Adam on a simple two-variable quadratic loss with a long narrow valley. Show why too large a learning rate diverges (the 2/curvature rule) and why feature scaling helps. Compute two or three steps by hand with me, then give me 8 graded exercises (easy to hard), with solutions at the end.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews. Run a mock interview on hyperparameter tuning and AutoML: grid versus random search, Bayesian optimization, successive halving, nested CV, over-tuning, reproducibility, and when to trust AutoML. Ask one question at a time, wait for my answer, then correct me kindly and give a short model answer in simple English. Ten questions, increasing difficulty.

CHAPTER 12

HARD DATA SITUATIONS

Imbalanced classes, tiny and noisy data, missing values, high-cardinality categories, and data that changes over time.

Textbook datasets are clean, balanced, big and fully labelled. Real data is none of these. A bank has 1 fraudulent payment in 100. A hospital has 60 patients in a rare-disease study. A survey leaves the income field blank for one customer in four. A delivery table has 800 postcodes, most with only a handful of rows. Last summer's sales data does not describe this summer. A large part of applied ML skill is knowing what to do in each of these situations, and what *not* to do (for example, fixing imbalance in a way that quietly leaks test data). By the end of this chapter you will be able to pick the right metric and fix for imbalance, trust (or distrust) a score from 60 rows, handle three kinds of missing data, encode a column with 800 categories without leaking, and detect that the world has changed.

Each section uses its own small dataset with a fixed seed and real output (numpy, pandas, scikit-learn 1.9.1, scipy). The learner's Math PDF covers probability and loss functions; Chapter 10 covered leakage and slicing, Chapter 11 tuning. Two libraries we would normally use, `imbalanced-learn` (SMOTE) and `cleanlab`, are not installed here, so their code is described and marked "not run here".

12.1 Imbalanced Classes

INTUITION

A security guard watches 1,000 visitors a day and one is a thief. A guard who waves everyone through is "99.9% accurate" and completely useless. With rare events, accuracy rewards doing nothing. We need scores that look only at the rare class, and tricks to make the model care about it.

The data

20,000 payments, 10 numeric features, about 1.3% fraud (`make_classification` with seed 0). Split 70/30 with stratification (the same fraud rate in both parts). Test set: 6,000 rows with 78 frauds.

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.datasets import make_classification
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
from sklearn.dummy import DummyClassifier
from sklearn.metrics import *

X, y = make_classification(n_samples=20000, n_features=10,
n_informative=5, n_redundant=0,
        weights=[0.99], flip_y=0.005, class_sep=0.8, random_state=0)
Xtr, Xte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(X, y, test_size=0.3, random_state=0,
stratify=y)
print("positives train/test", ytr.sum(), yte.sum(), "rate",
y.mean().round(4))
d = DummyClassifier(strategy='most_frequent').fit(Xtr, ytr)
print("always-negative acc", round(accuracy_score(yte, d.predict(Xte)),
4),
      "recall", recall_score(yte, d.predict(Xte)))
```

```
positives train/test 182 78 rate 0.013
always-negative acc 0.987 recall 0.0
```

"Always say not fraud" is 98.7% accurate and catches nothing. Any model must be judged against this.

Words you need

Word	Meaning
Precision	Of the items the model flags, the share that are truly positive: `TP / (TP + FP)`
Recall	Of all truly positive items, the share the model flags: `TP / (TP + FN)`
PR-AUC	Area under the precision-recall curve (scikit-learn: `average_precision_score`); focuses on the positive class
ROC-AUC	Ranking quality; hardly changes with the class balance, so it can look good even when precision is poor

Class weight	Making each rare-class row count more in the loss
Resampling	Changing the training set: copy rare rows (oversample) or drop common rows (undersample)
Threshold	The probability above which we say "positive" (default 0.5)

Step 1: the right metrics and a plain model

```
def rep(name, m, thr=0.5, p=None):
    p = m.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1] if p is None else p; pr = (p >=
thr).astype(int)
    print(f"{name:22s} acc {accuracy_score(yte,pr):.4f} prec
{precision_score(yte,pr,zero_division=0):.3f} "
          f"rec {recall_score(yte,pr):.3f} ROC {roc_auc_score(yte,p):.3f}
PR {average_precision_score(yte,p):.3f} meanp {p.mean():.4f}")
mk = lambda **k: make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000, **k))
lr = mk().fit(Xtr, ytr); rep("plain thr0.5", lr)
```

```
plain thr0.5           acc 0.9908 prec 0.960 rec 0.308 ROC 0.830 PR 0.534
meanp 0.0134
```

Problem 12.1.1 Recover the confusion matrix from these numbers: 78 true frauds, recall 0.308, precision 0.960, 6,000 rows.

Formula	`recall = TP / 78`, `precision = TP / (TP + FP)`.
Plug in	TP = 0.308 × 78 = 24.0. Then 0.960 = 24 / (24 + FP), so 24 + FP = 25.
Compute	FP = 1, FN = 78 − 24 = 54, TN = 5,922 − 1 = 5,921 (non-frauds are 6,000 − 78 = 5,922).
Answer	TP 24, FP 1, FN 54, TN 5,921. The model is almost never wrong when it speaks (24 of 25 flags are real), but it stays silent on 54 of 78 frauds.
Check	Accuracy = (24 + 5,921) / 6,000 = 0.9908, matching the printed 0.9908.

The mean predicted probability, 0.0134, equals the fraud rate (1.3%). The plain model is **calibrated**: its probabilities match reality. Keep that in mind.

Step 2: threshold moving

The default 0.5 is arbitrary. Choose a threshold from *training* predictions made by cross-validation (never from the test set), maximising F1 (`2·P·R / (P + R)`).

```
from sklearn.model_selection import cross_val_predict, StratifiedKFold
pc = cross_val_predict(mk(), Xtr, ytr, cv=StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=0),
                       method='predict_proba')[:, 1]
ps, rs, ts = precision_recall_curve(ytr, pc); f1 = 2*ps*rs/(ps+rs+1e-12)
t = ts[np.argmax(f1[:-1])]; print("best F1 thr from CV", round(t, 4))
rep("threshold moved", lr, thr=t)
```

```
best F1 thr from CV 0.2112
threshold moved        acc 0.9912 prec 0.791 rec 0.436 ROC 0.830 PR 0.534
meanp 0.0134
```

Recall rose from 0.308 to 0.436 (34 of 78 frauds) and precision fell from 0.960 to 0.791 (34 of 43 flags). ROC and PR AUC did not change at all, because the *ranking* is the same; only the cut changed. This is the cheapest fix and often enough.

Step 3: class weights and resampling

```
lw = mk(class_weight='balanced').fit(Xtr, ytr); rep("class_weight
balanced", lw)
rng = np.random.default_rng(0); pos = np.where(ytr == 1)[0]; neg =
np.where(ytr == 0)[0]
idx = np.concatenate([neg, rng.choice(pos, len(neg), replace=True)])
# oversample positives
lo = mk().fit(Xtr[idx], ytr[idx]); rep("random oversample", lo)
idx = np.concatenate([pos, rng.choice(neg, len(pos)*10, replace=False)])
# undersample negatives 10:1
lu = mk().fit(Xtr[idx], ytr[idx]); rep("undersample 10:1", lu)
```

```
class_weight balanced  acc 0.8227 prec 0.055 rec 0.782 ROC 0.857 PR 0.470
meanp 0.3139
random oversample      acc 0.8237 prec 0.055 rec 0.782 ROC 0.855 PR 0.474
meanp 0.3145
undersample 10:1       acc 0.9897 prec 0.633 rec 0.487 ROC 0.847 PR 0.513
meanp 0.0629
```

Read the table carefully. `class_weight='balanced'` and random oversampling give almost the same result (they are mathematically near-identical for this model): recall jumps to 0.782 (61 of 78), but precision collapses to 0.055: about 1,100 flags for 61 real frauds (61 / 0.055 ≈ 1,109), so more than 1,000 false alarms. Accuracy fell to 82%. Note the **PR-AUC went down** (0.534 to 0.470): reweighting did not make the model *rank* better, it only moved the operating point. The mean predicted probability is 0.314 where reality is 0.013: the probabilities are now wrong.

Problem 12.1.2 Fix the probabilities after undersampling. The model was trained with all 182 frauds and 1,820 non-frauds, out of 13,818 non-frauds in the training set. It says `p = 0.50` for a payment. What is the true probability?

Formula	`odds_true = odds_model × (kept negatives / all negatives)`, where `odds = p / (1 − p)`, then `p = odds / (1 + odds)`.
Plug in	kept fraction w = 1,820 / 13,818 = 0.1317. `odds_model = 0.5 / 0.5 = 1`.
Compute	`odds_true = 1 × 0.1317 = 0.1317`; `p = 0.1317 / 1.1317 = 0.1164`.
Answer	The real fraud probability is about 11.6%, not 50%.
Check	In the code, applying this to all test rows brings the mean predicted probability from 0.0629 to 0.0120, close to the true 0.013.
Why it matters	If you use probabilities for money decisions (expected loss = probability × amount), an uncorrected resampled model overstates risk by a large factor.

```
w = (len(pos)*10) / len(neg); pu = lu.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]
pcor = w*pu / (w*pu + (1 - pu)); rep("undersample corrected", lu, p=pcor)
pw = lw.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]; w2 = len(pos)/len(neg); pw2 =
w2*pw/(w2*pw + (1 - pw))
for nm, pp in [('plain', lr.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1]), ('class_weight',
pw), ('class_weight corrected', pw2)]:
    print(nm, 'brier', round(brier_score_loss(yte, pp), 4))
```

```
undersample corrected  acc 0.9895 prec 0.941 rec 0.205 ROC 0.847 PR 0.513
meanp 0.0120
plain brier 0.0082
class_weight brier 0.1334
class_weight corrected brier 0.0107
```

The Brier score (mean squared error of the probabilities; lower is better) shows the damage:

0.0082 for the plain model, 0.1334 after weighting, and 0.0107 after the correction. Note the corrected model at threshold 0.5 now has low recall again; the correction restores honest probabilities, and you then choose a threshold by cost.

Step 4: the leak that fools everyone

Oversampling copies rows. If you oversample *before* cross-validation, the copies land in both training and validation folds, and the model "predicts" rows it has seen.

```
from sklearn.ensemble import RandomForestClassifier
from sklearn.model_selection import cross_val_score
Xo = np.vstack([Xtr, Xtr[ytr == 1].repeat(9, axis=0)])
yo = np.concatenate([ytr, np.ones((ytr == 1).sum()*9, int)])
c5 = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=0)
bad  = cross_val_score(RandomForestClassifier(100, random_state=0,
n_jobs=-1), Xo, yo, cv=c5, scoring='average_precision')
good = cross_val_score(RandomForestClassifier(100, random_state=0,
n_jobs=-1), Xtr, ytr, cv=c5, scoring='average_precision')
print("oversample BEFORE cv PR-AUC", bad.mean().round(3), "honest cv PR-
AUC", good.mean().round(3))
```

```
oversample BEFORE cv PR-AUC 1.0 honest cv PR-AUC 0.512
```

A PR-AUC of 1.0 against an honest 0.512: pure leakage. The rule: **resample only the training part of each fold**, ideally inside a pipeline (the `imbalanced-learn` library has a pipeline that does this; not run here). SMOTE (Synthetic Minority Over-sampling Technique) makes *new* rare rows by interpolating between a rare row and one of its nearest rare neighbours; the same rule applies, and it can create unrealistic points when classes overlap. In many tabular problems, plain class weights or threshold moving work as well.

Which fix, when

Situation	First choice
You only need a ranked list (top 100 to investigate)	Do nothing; evaluate with PR-AUC and precision at 100
You need a yes/no decision	Train normally, move the threshold by cost
The model ignores the rare class (trees,	Class weights (`scale_pos_weight` in

boosting)	XGBoost)
Training is too slow with a huge majority class	Undersample, then correct the probabilities
Extremely rare (1 in 100,000), no labels	An anomaly-detection method instead of classification
You use probabilities for expected cost	Calibrate after any resampling

ROC curve versus precision-recall curve on the fraud data

Left: ROC curve, x-axis false positive rate, y-axis recall; it bends nicely towards the top-left corner. Right: precision-recall curve, x-axis recall, y-axis precision; the dashed line at 0.013 is what a random model would score. At recall 0.5 the precision is far below 1. The ROC plot hides this because the false positive rate divides by the huge number of negatives.

Problem 12.1.3 Recall at fixed precision. The business accepts that at least 30% of flagged payments must be real fraud. What recall does the plain model reach on the test set?

```
ps, rs, ts = precision_recall_curve(yte, lr.predict_proba(Xte)[:, 1])
print("recall at precision>=0.30:", rs[ps >= 0.30].max().round(3))
```

```
recall at precision>=0.30: 0.564
```

- **Step 1** Walk along the PR curve; keep points with precision at least 0.30.
- **Step 2** Take the largest recall among them.
- **Answer** 56.4% of frauds (44 of 78) can be caught while at least 30% of the flags are real.
- **Check** 0.564 × 78 = 44.0, an integer, as it must be.
- **Why it matters** "Recall at a fixed precision" turns a vague PR curve into a number a manager can agree to.

Applications

- **Data Science:** fraud, churn, defect detection, disease screening.
- **Machine Learning:** `class_weight` , `scale_pos_weight` , focal loss for deep models.
- **Healthcare:** rare-disease screening, where recall is tuned to clinical cost.

- **Operations:** predictive maintenance, where failures are rare and false alarms cost technician hours.

COMMON MISTAKE

Resampling before splitting or before cross-validation. Always split first, resample only the training fold.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reporting accuracy or ROC-AUC alone on rare-event data. Add PR-AUC, and precision and recall at your operating threshold.

Check yourself

1. 2 in 1,000 are positive. What accuracy does "always negative" get? Answer: 99.8%.
2. Does moving the threshold change ROC-AUC? Answer: No; it only changes the operating point.
3. Why calibrate after resampling? Answer: Resampling changes the class ratio the model sees, so its probabilities no longer match reality.

12.2 Small Data, Noisy Labels, and More Features Than Rows

INTUITION

Judging a restaurant from 3 meals is risky: one bad evening ruins the average. Small data makes every estimate shaky, flexible models memorise the few examples, and noisy labels are like a few reviews written by mistake. The tools are: simple models, strong regularization, repeated evaluation, and a healthy suspicion of lucky scores.

Small data: the score itself is noisy

60 rows, 5 features, two features carry signal. We also generate 5,000 fresh rows from the same recipe as a "big test set", something you never have in real life but which reveals the truth.

```
from sklearn.model_selection import RepeatedStratifiedKFold
rng = np.random.default_rng(1)
n = 60; Xs = rng.normal(size=(n, 5)); ys = (Xs[:, 0] + 0.8*Xs[:, 1] +
rng.normal(0, 1, n) > 0).astype(int)
Xs_t = rng.normal(size=(5000, 5)); ys_t = (Xs_t[:, 0] + 0.8*Xs_t[:, 1] +
rng.normal(0, 1, 5000) > 0).astype(int)
for nm, m in [('logreg', mk()), ('forest', RandomForestClassifier(200,
random_state=0))]:
    m.fit(Xs, ys)
    cvv = cross_val_score(m, Xs, ys,
cv=RepeatedStratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, n_repeats=20, random_state=0),
scoring='roc_auc')
    print(nm, "repeated-cv", cvv.mean().round(3), "+-",
cvv.std().round(3),
          "big-test", round(roc_auc_score(ys_t, m.predict_proba(Xs_t)[:,
1]), 3),
          "train", round(roc_auc_score(ys, m.predict_proba(Xs)[:, 1]), 3))
single = [cross_val_score(mk(), Xs, ys, cv=StratifiedKFold(5,
shuffle=True, random_state=s), scoring='roc_auc').mean() for s in
range(10)]
print("single 5-fold across 10 seeds", np.round(single, 3), "range",
round(max(single) - min(single), 3))
```

```
small n=60 logreg repeated-cv 0.813 +- 0.104 big-test 0.824 train 0.869
small n=60 forest repeated-cv 0.714 +- 0.146 big-test 0.775 train 1.0
single 5-fold across 10 seeds [0.808 0.797 0.77  0.803 0.821 0.832 0.813
0.745 0.765 0.804] range 0.087
```

Read it.

- The simple logistic regression has repeated-CV AUC 0.813, and the big test confirms 0.824. Repeated CV (100 scores) was an honest guide.
- The forest memorises: training AUC 1.0, but 0.775 on new data.
- A single 5-fold CV changes by up to 0.087 AUC (0.745 to 0.832) just by changing the shuffle seed. **With 60 rows, a single CV number is partly luck.** Use repeated CV and report the spread (± 0.104 per fold).

Problem 12.2.1 Why does the standard deviation of the 100 fold scores (0.104) overstate the uncertainty of the *mean* score?

Formula	Standard error of a mean = sd / √(number of scores) for independent scores.
Plug in	0.104 / √100 = 0.0104.
Compute	The mean is therefore known to about ± 0.01 *if the scores were independent*. They are not (the folds overlap), so the true uncertainty is larger, but still far below 0.104.
Answer	The per-fold sd (0.104) says how much one 12-row test fold swings. The mean over many repeats is more stable, but it is still estimated from the same 60 rows, so it cannot be more accurate than those 60 rows allow.
Check	Single 5-fold means across seeds ranged 0.745 to 0.832, i.e. about ± 0.04, which is between the two numbers.
Why it matters	Know which uncertainty you are quoting: fold-to-fold swing, estimation error of the mean, or error from having only 60 rows.

What to do with small data

- Prefer simple, regularized models (Chapter 3), and strong baselines.
- Use repeated or leave-one-out CV; report spreads.
- Use domain knowledge to build a few strong features rather than many weak ones.
- Reuse knowledge: transfer learning, pretrained embeddings, data augmentation, or Bayesian priors.
- Collect more data if you can (check the learning curve, Chapter 10.2).

Noisy labels

Labels are noisy when humans mislabel, systems log wrong values, or the outcome is truly random. We use a clean problem (3,000 rows) and then flip a share of the *training* labels at random; the test labels stay clean.

```
from sklearn.tree import DecisionTreeClassifier
Xn, yn = make_classification(n_samples=3000, n_features=10,
n_informative=5, random_state=0, class_sep=1.0, flip_y=0)
Xa, Xb, ya, yb = train_test_split(Xn, yn, test_size=0.4, random_state=0)
for noise in [0, 0.2, 0.4]:
    r = np.random.default_rng(0); yf = np.where(r.random(len(ya)) < noise,
1 - ya, ya); out = []
    for nm, m in [('logreg', mk()), ('deep tree',
DecisionTreeClassifier(random_state=0)),
                  ('forest leaf10', RandomForestClassifier(200,
min_samples_leaf=10, random_state=0, n_jobs=-1))]:
        m.fit(Xa, yf); out.append(f"{nm} {accuracy_score(yb,
m.predict(Xb)):.3f}")
    print("noise", noise, out)
```

```
noise 0 ['logreg 0.876', 'deep tree 0.884', 'forest leaf10 0.903']
noise 0.2 ['logreg 0.872', 'deep tree 0.718', 'forest leaf10 0.913']
noise 0.4 ['logreg 0.858', 'deep tree 0.591', 'forest leaf10 0.802']
```

Read: the unpruned deep tree is destroyed by label noise (0.884 to 0.718 to 0.591), because it memorises every wrong label. Logistic regression barely moves (0.876 to 0.858). The forest with `min_samples_leaf=10` stays strong until noise is very high. **Models that average (linear models, forests with large leaves, strong regularization) tolerate noise; models that memorise do not.** Other defences are robust losses (for example MAE or Huber for regression), label smoothing, and cleaning.

Label cleaning by hand (the idea behind `cleanlab`): train with cross-validation, then look at rows where the *out-of-fold* prediction strongly disagrees with the label.

```
from sklearn.model_selection import cross_val_predict
r = np.random.default_rng(0); yf = np.where(r.random(len(ya)) < 0.2, 1 -
ya, ya); flipped = (yf != ya)
oof = cross_val_predict(mk(), Xa, yf, cv=5, method='predict_proba')[:, 1]
top = np.argsort(-np.abs(oof - yf))[:100]
print("flagged top100: truly flipped", flipped[top].sum(), "base rate",
flipped.mean().round(3))
```

```
flagged top100: truly flipped 94 base rate 0.202
```

Of the 100 most "suspicious" rows, 94 really had flipped labels, against a base rate of 20%. A human reviewer who checks 100 rows instead of 1,800 finds 94 errors. `cleanlab` (confident

learning) does this more carefully; not run here.

More features than rows (p ≫ n)

60 rows, 500 features, only 3 matter. With 500 columns and 60 rows, a model can fit the training labels perfectly with pure noise.

```
rng = np.random.default_rng(2); n, p_ = 60, 500
Xh = rng.normal(size=(n, p_)); yh = (Xh[:, 0] + Xh[:, 1] - Xh[:, 2] +
rng.normal(0, 0.5, n) > 0).astype(int)
Xh_t = rng.normal(size=(5000, p_)); yh_t = (Xh_t[:, 0] + Xh_t[:, 1] -
Xh_t[:, 2] + rng.normal(0, 0.5, 5000) > 0).astype(int)
for nm, m in [('weak reg C=1e6', LogisticRegression(C=1e6,
max_iter=5000)),
              ('L2 C=0.05', LogisticRegression(C=0.05, max_iter=5000)),
              ('L1 C=0.3', LogisticRegression(penalty='l1',
solver='liblinear', C=0.3))]:
    m.fit(Xh, yh); print(nm, "train acc", round(m.score(Xh, yh), 3), "test
acc", round(m.score(Xh_t, yh_t), 3),
                         "nonzero", int((m.coef_ != 0).sum()))
```

```
weak reg C=1e6 train acc 1.0 test acc 0.602 nonzero 500
L2 C=0.05 train acc 1.0 test acc 0.603 nonzero 500
L1 C=0.3 train acc 1.0 test acc 0.862 nonzero 19
```

All three models reach 100% training accuracy. Test accuracy: 0.602 for the two dense models (nearly coin-flip: they spread weight over 500 noise columns), but **0.862 for the L1 model**, which keeps only 19 non-zero weights and so finds the real signal. L1 (Chapter 3) works as a feature selector. For p ≫ n, use regularization (especially L1 or elastic net), feature selection inside the CV loop, or dimensionality reduction (Chapter 13).

Applications

- **Healthcare and genomics:** thousands of measurements for under 100 patients.
- **Industrial ML:** a new machine with 80 labelled failures.
- **Surveys and research:** small samples where the spread matters more than the mean.
- **Annotation projects:** noisy crowd labels, cleaned by consensus or confident learning.

COMMON MISTAKE

Selecting the "best 20 features" using all the data and then cross-validating. The selection already saw the validation rows. Put selection inside the pipeline.

COMMON MISTAKE

Trusting one CV number on tiny data. Repeat CV with different seeds and show the range.

Check yourself

1. With 60 rows, why is a forest with training score 1.0 a warning? Answer: It memorised the rows; the honest score is lower (here 0.775).
2. Which handles label noise better, a deep unpruned tree or logistic regression? Answer: Logistic regression.
3. Why is L1 useful when p ≫ n? Answer: It sets most weights to zero, which acts as feature selection.

12.3 Missing Data and Messy Features

INTUITION

A survey form with a blank field means different things. If the clerk spilled coffee on a random sheet, the blanks are harmless noise. If older people skip the field more often, the blank says something about age. If rich people refuse to state their income, the blank says something about the very number that is missing. The correct fix depends on *why* it is missing.

The three mechanisms

Name	Meaning	Example	Consequence
MCAR (missing completely at random)	Missingness is unrelated to anything	A random sensor dropout	Dropping rows is unbiased (but wastes data)
MAR (missing	Missingness	Older	Fixable by using the other

at random)	depends on *other observed* columns	customers skip the income field	columns
MNAR (missing not at random)	Missingness depends on the missing value itself	High earners hide their income	Cannot be fully fixed from the data; model the process or add an indicator

The data

5,000 shop customers: `age`, `income` (rises with age) and `spend` (monthly spend, the target). We then hide income in three ways.

```
import pandas as pd
rng = np.random.default_rng(0); n = 5000
age = rng.integers(20, 70, n); income = np.exp(rng.normal(10.5, 0.4, n)) +
800*(age - 20)
spend = 0.02*income + 30*np.sin(age/10) + rng.normal(0, 200, n)
df = pd.DataFrame(dict(age=age, income=income, spend=spend))
def make_missing(kind):
    d = df.copy(); r = np.random.default_rng(1)
    if kind == 'MCAR': m = r.random(n) < 0.3
    elif kind == 'MAR': m = r.random(n) < np.where(d.age > 50, 0.55, 0.05)
    else: m = r.random(n) < 1/(1 + np.exp(-(d.income - 78000)/6000))
    d.loc[m, 'income'] = np.nan; return d, m
for kind in ['MCAR', 'MAR', 'MNAR']:
    d, m = make_missing(kind)
    print(kind, "missing", m.mean().round(3), "| true mean",
df.income.mean().round(0),
          "| mean of observed", d.income.mean().round(0), "| true mean of
missing rows", df.income[m].mean().round(0))
```

```
MCAR missing 0.304 | true mean income of all 59208.0 | mean of observed
59001.0 | true mean of missing rows 59681.0
MAR missing 0.241 | true mean income of all 59208.0 | mean of observed
56046.0 | true mean of missing rows 69143.0
MNAR missing 0.194 | true mean income of all 59208.0 | mean of observed
52592.0 | true mean of missing rows 86692.0
```

Read it. Under MCAR, the observed mean (59,001) is close to the truth (59,208): the missing rows look like the rest. Under MAR, the observed mean is 56,046 (3,162 too low) because the missing rows are older and richer. Under MNAR, the observed mean is 52,592 (6,616 too low),

and the people with a blank earn on average 86,692. Simple averaging of what you see misleads whenever missingness is not random.

Problem 12.3.1 Compute the bias of the observed mean under MAR in percent.

Formula	bias % = (observed − true) / true × 100.
Plug in	(56,046 − 59,208) / 59,208 × 100.
Compute	−3,162 / 59,208 = −0.0534; × 100 = −5.3.
Answer	The observed mean income is 5.3% too low. Filling blanks with this mean would put a too-low value on exactly the customers who are richer than average.
Check	Missing share 24.1% at a mean of 69,143 and observed share 75.9% at 56,046: 0.241 × 69,143 + 0.759 × 56,046 = 16,664 + 42,538 = 59,202, which matches 59,208 within rounding.

Imputation methods compared (MAR case)

Imputation means filling a missing value with a guess. Options: a constant (mean, median, most common), **KNN** (average of the most similar rows), **iterative / MICE** (predict each column from the others, repeating), a **missing indicator** (an extra 0/1 column saying "this was blank"), or a model that handles NaN natively (histogram gradient boosting sends missing values down the better branch of each split).

```
from sklearn.impute import SimpleImputer, KNNImputer
from sklearn.experimental import enable_iterative_imputer
from sklearn.impute import IterativeImputer
from sklearn.linear_model import LinearRegression
from sklearn.ensemble import HistGradientBoostingRegressor
from sklearn.compose import ColumnTransformer
from sklearn.metrics import mean_squared_error
d, m = make_missing('MAR'); tr, te = train_test_split(np.arange(n),
test_size=0.3, random_state=0)
Xd = d[['age', 'income']]
def fitscore(pipe):
    pipe.fit(Xd.iloc[tr], d.spend.iloc[tr]); return
mean_squared_error(d.spend.iloc[te], pipe.predict(Xd.iloc[te]))**0.5
print("baseline sd of spend", d.spend.iloc[te].std().round(1))
print("oracle (no missing) RMSE",
round(mean_squared_error(df.spend.iloc[te],
LinearRegression().fit(df[['age','income']].iloc[tr],
df.spend.iloc[tr]).predict(df[['age','income']].iloc[te]))**0.5, 1))
print("mean impute",
round(fitscore(make_pipeline(SimpleImputer(strategy='mean'),
LinearRegression())), 1))
print("mean impute + indicator",
round(fitscore(make_pipeline(ColumnTransformer([('i',
SimpleImputer(strategy='mean', add_indicator=True), ['age', 'income'])]),
LinearRegression())), 1))
print("KNN impute", round(fitscore(make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
KNNImputer(n_neighbors=10), LinearRegression())), 1))
print("iterative impute",
round(fitscore(make_pipeline(IterativeImputer(random_state=0,
max_iter=10), LinearRegression())), 1))
print("HistGB native NaN",
round(fitscore(HistGradientBoostingRegressor(random_state=0, max_iter=100,
learning_rate=0.05)), 1))
```

```
baseline sd of spend 448.1
oracle (no missing) RMSE 198.8
mean impute 278.9
mean impute + indicator 267.9
KNN impute 255.9
iterative impute 254.2
HistGB native NaN 260.5
```

RMSE is the typical error in currency units; lower is better. With no missing values, a linear model reaches 198.8. With 24% of the income field blank, mean imputation costs 80 units of

error (278.9). The indicator helps a little (267.9). KNN, iterative imputation and the native-NaN boosting model all land around 254 to 261, recovering about 25 of the lost 80 units. **No method recovers the full loss**: information that was never recorded is gone. Dropping rows with missing income is no better: it keeps 2,636 of 3,500 training rows and cannot make a prediction for the customers who matter most (those with blanks) at serving time.

Problem 12.3.2 How much of the damage did the best imputation recover?

Formula	recovered share = (mean-impute error − best error) / (mean-impute error − oracle error).
Plug in	(278.9 − 254.2) / (278.9 − 198.8).
Compute	24.7 / 80.1 = 0.308.
Answer	Iterative imputation recovered about 31% of the loss from using mean imputation.
Check	198.8 + 0.692 × 80.1 = 254.2.
Why it matters	Imputation reduces harm but never replaces data collection; fix the form or the sensor when you can.

Rules for missing data

1. **Never impute with test data.** Put the imputer inside a `Pipeline` so it is fit on training rows only (Chapter 10 on leakage).
2. **Add a missing-indicator** when the blank itself may carry signal (MNAR).
3. **Report the missing rate per column** and per segment; a column 60% blank may be better dropped.
4. At serving time the pipeline needs the *same* handling for blanks, including blanks in columns that had none in training.
5. **Mixed types** (numbers, categories, text) are handled with `ColumnTransformer`: numeric columns get imputer + scaler, categorical columns get imputer + encoder, text gets a vectorizer. One pipeline, one `fit`, one `predict`.

```
from sklearn.preprocessing import OneHotEncoder
pre = ColumnTransformer([
    ('num', make_pipeline(SimpleImputer(strategy='median'),
StandardScaler()), ['age', 'income']),
    ('cat', make_pipeline(SimpleImputer(strategy='most_frequent'),
OneHotEncoder(handle_unknown='ignore')), ['plan']),
])  # 'plan' is an illustrative categorical column; this block only
defines the pipeline and is not run here
```

Applications

- **Healthcare:** lab tests are missing because a doctor chose not to order them (MNAR; the blank is informative).
- **Surveys:** income and age questions skipped, usually MAR or MNAR.
- **Sensors and IoT:** dropouts are usually MCAR; stuck values are another problem.
- **Finance:** missing credit history often means "new customer", an informative blank.

COMMON MISTAKE

Filling blanks with 0. For income, zero is a real value that changes the meaning. Use an indicator and a neutral fill.

COMMON MISTAKE

Fitting the imputer on the whole dataset before splitting. The test rows leak their averages into training.

Check yourself

1. Older customers skip the income question more often. Which mechanism? Answer: MAR (depends on an observed column, age).
2. Why add a missing indicator? Answer: The fact of being blank may predict the target (especially under MNAR).
3. Which model families accept NaN directly? Answer: Histogram gradient boosting in scikit-learn, XGBoost, LightGBM and CatBoost (details vary by library and version).

12.4 High-Cardinality Categorical Features

INTUITION

A courier company has 800 postcodes. One-hot encoding (one 0/1 column per postcode) creates 800 columns, with about 7 rows each. The model must learn 800 separate facts from 4,200 training rows. The alternative is to replace each postcode with one number, such as its average lateness. This is powerful, but dangerous: the postcode's own rows are used to compute its number, so the model sees the answer. This is **target leakage in disguise** and must be handled carefully.

Cardinality means the number of distinct values in a column.

The data

6,000 deliveries, 800 postcodes (average 7.5 rows each; 52 postcodes have 3 rows or fewer), a distance, and a 0/1 target "late". Each postcode has a true hidden effect on lateness.

```
from sklearn.preprocessing import TargetEncoder
rng = np.random.default_rng(0); n = 6000; K = 800
code = rng.integers(0, K, n); eff = rng.normal(0, 1.0, K)
dist = rng.normal(5, 2, n); z = -0.5 + eff[code] + 0.15*(dist - 5)
y = (rng.random(n) < 1/(1 + np.exp(-z))).astype(int)
D = pd.DataFrame(dict(code=code.astype(str), dist=dist))
print("unique codes", D.code.nunique(), "rows per code mean", round(n/K,
1), "rare codes (<=3 rows)", int((D.code.value_counts() <= 3).sum()))
Dtr, Dte, ytr, yte = train_test_split(D, y, test_size=0.3, random_state=0)
def ev(pre, name, model=None):
    m = make_pipeline(pre, model or
LogisticRegression(max_iter=2000)).fit(Dtr, ytr)
    print(f"{name:34s} test AUC {roc_auc_score(yte, m.predict_proba(Dte)
[:, 1]):.3f}  train AUC {roc_auc_score(ytr, m.predict_proba(Dtr)[:,
1]):.3f}")
ev(ColumnTransformer([('n', StandardScaler(), ['dist'])]), "distance
only")
ev(ColumnTransformer([('c', OneHotEncoder(handle_unknown='ignore'),
['code']), ('n', StandardScaler(), ['dist'])]), "one-hot (800 cols), C=1")
ev(ColumnTransformer([('c', OneHotEncoder(handle_unknown='ignore'),
['code']), ('n', StandardScaler(), ['dist'])]), "one-hot, C=0.3",
LogisticRegression(C=0.3, max_iter=2000))
```

```
unique codes 800 rows per code mean 7.5 rare codes (<=3 rows) 52
distance only                       test AUC 0.577  train AUC 0.568
one-hot (800 cols), C=1             test AUC 0.684  train AUC 0.841
one-hot, C=0.3                      test AUC 0.680  train AUC 0.815
```

Distance alone gives 0.577. Adding the postcode through one-hot lifts it to 0.684, but the training AUC is 0.841: a large gap (0.157), the sign of overfitting on rarely seen postcodes.

Target encoding: the right and the wrong way

Target encoding replaces each category with the mean of the target in that category. The naive version computes it on the training rows and also uses those same rows to train the model.

```
te_map = pd.Series(ytr, index=Dtr.index).groupby(Dtr.code).mean(); gm =
ytr.mean()
Dtr_n = Dtr.copy(); Dtr_n['te'] = Dtr.code.map(te_map)
Dte_n = Dte.copy(); Dte_n['te'] = Dte.code.map(te_map).fillna(gm)
m = LogisticRegression(max_iter=2000).fit(Dtr_n[['te', 'dist']], ytr)
print("naive target encoding   test", round(roc_auc_score(yte,
m.predict_proba(Dte_n[['te', 'dist']])[:, 1]), 3),
      " train", round(roc_auc_score(ytr, m.predict_proba(Dtr_n[['te',
'dist']])[:, 1]), 3))
ev(ColumnTransformer([('c', TargetEncoder(random_state=0), ['code']),
('n', 'passthrough', ['dist'])]), "sklearn TargetEncoder (cross-fit)")
```

```
naive target encoding               test AUC 0.671  train AUC 0.847
sklearn TargetEncoder (cross-fit)   test AUC 0.679  train AUC 0.838
```

Why the naive way is flawed. A postcode with 2 rows, both late, gets the value 1.0: the row's own label is inside its feature. On training rows this looks perfect; on new rows it is noise. The model learns to trust the encoded column too much (train 0.847 versus test 0.671). scikit-learn's `TargetEncoder` fixes this with **cross-fitting** during `fit_transform`: each row is encoded using statistics from the *other* folds, and the estimates are **shrunk** (pulled) towards the global mean for rare categories. The result: the test score is a bit better (0.679 versus 0.671) and the training score is honest.

Problem 12.4.1 Shrinkage by hand. The global late rate is 0.40. A postcode has 2 rows, both late (rate 1.0). Using a smoothing weight of 10 pseudo-rows at the global rate, what is the encoded value?

Formula	`encoded = (n × category_mean + s × global_mean) / (n + s)`, with s = 10.
Plug in	`(2 × 1.0 + 10 × 0.40) / (2 + 10)`.
Compute	(2 + 4) / 12 = 0.5.
Answer	The encoded value is 0.50, not 1.0: with only 2 observations we move only a little away from the global 0.40.
Check	A postcode with 200 rows at rate 1.0 gives (200 + 4) / 210 = 0.971, so a well-observed postcode keeps its own rate.
Why it matters	Shrinkage is the principled way to treat "I have seen this category twice". (Scikit-learn's own default smoothing is chosen automatically; the formula above is the idea, with `s` as an example value.)

Other encodings and the serving problem

```
fm = Dtr.code.value_counts()
Dtr_f = Dtr.assign(freq=Dtr.code.map(fm)); Dte_f =
Dte.assign(freq=Dte.code.map(fm).fillna(1))
m = LogisticRegression(max_iter=2000).fit(Dtr_f[['freq', 'dist']], ytr)
print("frequency encoding", round(roc_auc_score(yte,
m.predict_proba(Dte_f[['freq', 'dist']])[:, 1]), 3))
from sklearn.feature_extraction import FeatureHasher
import scipy.sparse as sp
h = FeatureHasher(n_features=64, input_type='string')
Htr = h.transform([[c] for c in Dtr.code]); Hte = h.transform([[c] for c
in Dte.code])
m = LogisticRegression(max_iter=2000).fit(sp.hstack([Htr,
Dtr[['dist']].values]), ytr)
print("hashing 64 buckets", round(roc_auc_score(yte,
m.predict_proba(sp.hstack([Hte, Dte[['dist']].values]))[:, 1]), 3))
print("test rows with unseen code", int((~Dte.code.isin(Dtr.code)).sum()),
"of", len(Dte))
```

```
frequency encoding test AUC 0.579
hashing 64 buckets test AUC 0.570
test rows with unseen code 14 of 1800
```

Encoding	Idea	Result here	When it fits
One-hot	1 column per value	0.684 (overfits rare codes)	Low cardinality (under about 50)
Target (cross-fit, shrunk)	category mean of target	0.679	Many categories, trees or linear models
Frequency	how often the value appears	0.579	When popularity itself is informative (here it is not)
Hashing	hash value into n buckets	0.570 with 64 buckets	Huge or open-ended vocabularies, memory limits; collisions lose information
Embeddings	learned dense vector per value	not run here	Neural networks with many categories
Native categorical (CatBoost, LightGBM)	the library handles it	not run here	Gradient boosting

Frequency encoding and 64-bucket hashing score near distance-only (0.577) because lateness here depends on *which* postcode, not on how common it is, and 64 buckets mix about 12 postcodes each. Honest lesson: there is no best encoding in general; test several inside the CV pipeline.

Unseen and rare categories. 14 of 1,800 test rows (0.8%) have a postcode never seen in training; at serving time new postcodes will keep appearing. `OneHotEncoder(handle_unknown='ignore')` encodes them as all zeros; target encoders fall back to the global mean (in our code `fillna(gm)`). Group rare values into an "other" bucket (for example, fewer than 5 rows) on purpose.

Applications

- **E-commerce:** product ID, seller ID, search query.

- **Advertising and recommendation:** user and item IDs (embeddings).
- **Logistics:** postcodes, warehouse and route codes.
- **Healthcare:** diagnosis and procedure codes (thousands of values).

COMMON MISTAKE

Computing target encoding on all data before splitting or before CV. The encoding contains the answer. Fit it inside the pipeline, with cross-fitting.

COMMON MISTAKE

One-hot encoding an ID column with 100,000 values. The model memorises; use encoding or embeddings.

Check yourself

1. Why is naive target encoding leaky? Answer: Each row's own label is part of its feature value, especially for rare categories.
2. A new postcode appears at serving time. What should happen? Answer: Use a fallback (global mean or an "other" bucket) instead of crashing.
3. Which encoding suits 5 categories? Answer: One-hot.

12.5 Distribution Shift and Non-Stationarity

INTUITION

A model is trained like a student who studied last year's exam. If this year's exam has the same questions in a different mix, the student does fine if the knowledge is solid. If the examiner changed what the right answers are, no amount of last year's study helps. We separate "the inputs look different" from "the rules changed".

Three kinds of shift

Type	What changes	Example	Typical effect
Covariate shift	The input distribution `P(x)` changes; the rule `x`	A shop's customers are	Hurts if the model is wrong or cannot extrapolate in the

	`→ y` is the same	now younger	new region
Label shift (prior shift)	The class balance `P(y)` changes	Fraud rate doubles during a holiday	Probabilities and thresholds go out of date
Concept drift	The rule `P(y given x)` changes	Customers now react differently to a discount	Predictions are wrong everywhere; retraining is required

The data

An ice-cream shop predicts daily `orders` from `temp` (temperature) and `promo` (a 0/1 promotion flag). The true rule: orders = 50 + slope × (temp − 15) + 20 × promo + noise. Period A (training): average temperature 12, slope 2. Period B (hot summer): average 22, same slope (covariate shift). Period C: average 22, slope 0.5 (concept drift: people are tired of ice cream).

```
from sklearn.ensemble import GradientBoostingRegressor
rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
def gen(n, temp_mu, slope):
    t = rng.normal(temp_mu, 4, n); promo = rng.integers(0, 2, n)
    return pd.DataFrame(dict(temp=t, promo=promo, orders=50 + slope*(t −
15) + 20*promo + rng.normal(0, 8, n)))
A = gen(3000, 12, 2.0); B = gen(3000, 22, 2.0); C = gen(3000, 22, 0.5)
for nm, mdl in [('linear', LinearRegression()), ('boosting',
GradientBoostingRegressor(random_state=0))]:
    mdl.fit(A[['temp', 'promo']], A.orders)
    r = lambda Dd: mean_squared_error(Dd.orders, mdl.predict(Dd[['temp',
'promo']]))**0.5
    print(nm, "RMSE same period", round(r(gen(1000, 12, 2.0)), 2), "|
covariate shift", round(r(B), 2), "| concept drift", round(r(C), 2))
```

```
linear RMSE same period 8.19 | covariate shift 7.99 | concept drift 14.8
boosting RMSE same period 8.12 | covariate shift 8.76 | concept drift
14.24
```

Predict first: which model suffers from covariate shift? Read: the **linear** model does not suffer at all (8.19 to 7.99): its rule (a straight line) is correct everywhere, so new temperatures are no problem. The **boosting** model gets worse (8.12 to 8.76), because trees predict a constant beyond the training range (they cannot extrapolate; this is the weakness noted for trees in earlier

chapters). Under **concept drift** both models fail (14.8 and 14.2, almost twice the usual error), as no model trained on A knows the new slope. **Covariate shift hurts only models that are wrong or cannot extrapolate in the new region; concept drift hurts every model.**

Detecting shift

PSI (Population Stability Index) compares the share of rows in each bin, between a reference sample and a new sample: `PSI = Σ (new% − ref%) × ln(new% / ref%)`. A common rule of thumb: below 0.1 stable, 0.1 to 0.25 moderate shift, above 0.25 large shift. **KS test (Kolmogorov-Smirnov)** measures the largest gap between two cumulative distributions, with a p-value. **Adversarial validation** trains a classifier to tell old rows from new rows; if it can (AUC well above 0.5), the data differ, and its feature importances show *which* feature drifted.

Problem 12.5.1 Compute PSI by hand for a feature split into two bins. Reference shares: 50% / 50%. New shares: 70% / 30%.

Formula	`PSI = Σ (new − ref) × ln(new / ref)`.
Plug in	Bin 1: (0.70 − 0.50) × ln(0.70 / 0.50); Bin 2: (0.30 − 0.50) × ln(0.30 / 0.50).
Compute	Bin 1: 0.20 × ln(1.4) = 0.20 × 0.3365 = 0.0673. Bin 2: (−0.20) × ln(0.6) = (−0.20) × (−0.5108) = 0.1022. Sum = 0.1695.
Answer	PSI = 0.17: a moderate shift.
Check	Both terms are positive, as they must be (each term has the same sign for the difference and the log).
Why it matters	Both bins contribute positively; PSI is never negative and is zero only when the shares are equal.

```
from scipy import stats
from sklearn.ensemble import RandomForestClassifier
from sklearn.model_selection import cross_val_score, StratifiedKFold
def psi(a, b, bins=10):
    e = np.quantile(a, np.linspace(0, 1, bins + 1)); e[0] = -np.inf; e[-1]
= np.inf
    pa = np.clip(np.histogram(a, e)[0]/len(a), 1e-4, None); pb =
np.clip(np.histogram(b, e)[0]/len(b), 1e-4, None)
    return np.sum((pb - pa)*np.log(pb/pa))
print("PSI temp A vs fresh A", round(psi(A.temp, gen(3000, 12, 2).temp),
3), "A vs B", round(psi(A.temp, B.temp), 3))
print("KS temp A vs B", stats.ks_2samp(A.temp, B.temp).statistic.round(3))
def adv(P, Q):
    Z = pd.concat([P[['temp', 'promo']], Q[['temp', 'promo']]]); lab =
np.r_[np.zeros(len(P)), np.ones(len(Q))]
    return cross_val_score(RandomForestClassifier(100, random_state=0,
min_samples_leaf=5), Z, lab,
                           cv=StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=0), scoring='roc_auc').mean()
print("adversarial AUC A vs fresh A", round(adv(A, gen(3000, 12, 2)), 3),
"A vs B", round(adv(A, B), 3))
```

```
PSI temp A vs fresh A 0.008 A vs B 4.754
KS temp A vs B 0.797
adversarial AUC A vs fresh A 0.495 A vs B 0.952
```

Read: PSI for a fresh sample from the same period is 0.008 (no shift); for summer it is 4.754, far above 0.25. KS says 79.7% of the probability mass differs at the worst point. The adversarial classifier gets AUC 0.495 (coin flip) when the periods are the same and 0.952 when different, and its feature importances were `temp` 0.999 and `promo` 0.001: it points straight at the temperature. **Detection tools see covariate shift (inputs) but cannot see concept drift**, because the inputs of C look the same as B. For concept drift you need labels: watch the model's error over time.

Responding

For concept drift we have 3,000 old rows (A) and the first 600 rows of the new regime (C). We test on 1,000 fresh rows of C. Compare four training choices for a linear model.

```
Ctest = gen(1000, 22, 0.5); mixed = pd.concat([A, C.iloc[:600]]); wts =
np.r_[np.ones(3000), np.full(600, 5.0)]
for nm, (Dd, w) in {'old only': (A, None), 'old+600 new': (mixed, None),
                    'old+600 new weighted x5': (mixed, wts), 'new 600
only': (C.iloc[:600], None)}.items():
    mm = LinearRegression().fit(Dd[['temp', 'promo']], Dd.orders,
sample_weight=w)
    print(nm, "RMSE on new regime", round(mean_squared_error(Ctest.orders,
mm.predict(Ctest[['temp', 'promo']]))**0.5, 2))
```

```
old only RMSE on new regime 15.1
old+600 new RMSE on new regime 9.52
old+600 new weighted x5 RMSE on new regime 8.26
new 600 only RMSE on new regime 7.91
```

Old data alone: error 15.1. Adding 600 new rows: 9.52. Giving the new rows 5 times the weight (**recency weighting**): 8.26. Using only the 600 new rows: 7.91, the best here, because the old rule is simply wrong. The noise floor is 8 (the noise sd we generated), so 7.91 is essentially perfect. **When the rule changes, recent data beats a large pile of old data.** If the change is gradual and you are unsure, weight recent data more, or retrain on a sliding window.

Other responses (details in the MLOps material): scheduled retraining; monitoring input PSI and the live error rate; online or incremental learners such as `river` (not run here); robust features that do not depend on the drifting quantity; and a fallback rule when drift alarms fire.

Applications

- **Retail and demand forecasting:** seasons, promotions, new products change the inputs and rules.
- **Credit and fraud:** fraudsters adapt, so the rule `x → y` itself drifts.
- **Healthcare:** a new device or hospital changes input distributions.
- **GenAI:** user questions change over time; evaluation sets go stale.

COMMON MISTAKE

Monitoring only the inputs. Input checks miss concept drift; you also need delayed labels and the live error rate.

COMMON MISTAKE

Randomly shuffling time-ordered data for validation. The future leaks into training. Validate on later data (Chapter 10, out-of-time validation).

Check yourself

1. Inputs shift but the rule stays; the model is a straight line that fits the rule. Will it fail? Answer: No; the correct rule extrapolates.
2. Why can a tree model fail under covariate shift? Answer: It predicts constants outside the training range.
3. PSI below 0.1 means? Answer: Stable, no meaningful shift.

Chapter recap

- Rare classes: accuracy is meaningless; use precision, recall, PR-AUC and recall at a fixed precision.
- Threshold moving is the cheapest fix (recall 0.308 to 0.436 with no retraining); class weights and resampling change the operating point and distort probabilities; correct them with the odds formula.
- Resample only inside training folds: oversampling before CV gave a fake PR-AUC of 1.0 versus an honest 0.512.
- Small data: repeated CV with spreads; a single 5-fold swung by 0.087 AUC; simple models beat memorising ones (0.824 versus 0.775 on big test).
- Noisy labels: averaging models tolerate them, deep trees memorise them; out-of-fold disagreement flags bad labels (94 of 100 flagged were truly wrong).
- $p \gg n$: L1 regularization kept 19 of 500 features and reached 0.862 test accuracy; dense models got 0.60.
- Missing data: know MCAR/MAR/MNAR; impute inside the pipeline; add indicators; imputation recovers part of the loss, never all.
- High-cardinality categories: use cross-fitted, shrunk target encoding, handle unseen values, test several encodings; naive target encoding leaks.
- Shift: covariate shift hurts models that cannot extrapolate; concept drift hurts all; PSI, KS and adversarial validation detect input shift; recency weighting responds.

Topic	Command / formula
Metrics for rare classes	`average_precision_score`, `precision_recall_curve`
Class weights	`LogisticRegression(class_weight='balanced')`
Probability correction	`odds_true = odds_model × (kept / all negatives)`, then `p = odds / (1 + odds)`
Repeated CV	`RepeatedStratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, n_repeats=20)`
Imputers	`SimpleImputer(add_indicator=True)`, `KNNImputer`, `IterativeImputer`
Target encoding	`TargetEncoder()` (cross-fits inside `fit_transform`)
Shrunk mean	`(n·mean_cat + s·mean_global) / (n + s)`
PSI	`Σ (new% − ref%) × ln(new% / ref%)`
Adversarial validation	classifier old vs new rows; AUC near 0.5 means no shift

Practice set

Problem 12.P.1 (easy) 10,000 transactions, 50 fraud. A model flags 40 payments, of which 30 are fraud. Compute precision and recall.

Answer: Precision = 30 / 40 = 0.75. Recall = 30 / 50 = 0.60.

Problem 12.P.2 (easy) What does "always predict negative" score in accuracy for P.1?

Answer: 9,950 / 10,000 = 99.5%.

Problem 12.P.3 (easy) Classify: "Patients with severe illness skip the follow-up visit, so their blood test is blank."

Answer: MNAR (missingness depends on the missing value's meaning, severity).

Problem 12.P.4 (what is the output?) PSI of bins ref (0.8, 0.2) and new (0.8, 0.2)?

Answer: 0, since every difference is 0.

Problem 12.P.5 (medium) After undersampling negatives to 20% (keeping 20% of them), the model says p = 0.40. True probability?

Answer: Odds = 0.4 / 0.6 = 0.667. Multiply by 0.2: 0.1333. p = 0.1333 / 1.1333 = 0.1176, about 11.8%.

Problem 12.P.6 (medium) Shrunk target encoding with s = 5, global rate 0.2, a category with n = 10 and mean 0.6.

Answer: (10 × 0.6 + 5 × 0.2) / 15 = (6 + 1) / 15 = 0.4667.

Problem 12.P.7 (find the bug) `X_imp = SimpleImputer().fit_transform(X)` and then `cross_val_score(model, X_imp, y)`.

Answer: The imputer was fit on all rows, so each validation fold's information (its column means) leaked into training. Put the imputer in a `Pipeline` and pass the raw X to `cross_val_score`.

Problem 12.P.8 (find the bug) A team applies SMOTE to the full dataset and then runs 5-fold CV, getting AUC 0.97. Live AUC is 0.71. Why?

Answer: Synthetic points built from validation rows leaked into the training folds, as we saw with copies. Resample inside each training fold only.

Problem 12.P.9 (scenario) A demand model trained in winter fails in summer. A boosting model errs on high temperatures; a linear model does not. Explain, and say what you monitor.

Answer: Covariate shift: summer temperatures are outside the trees' training range, and trees predict constants there; a linear rule extrapolates. Monitor the PSI of key inputs and the live error against delayed labels; retrain with recent data if the error rises.

Problem 12.P.10 (interview) "How do you handle a dataset with 0.5% positives?"

Answer: Stratified split; metrics PR-AUC and precision/recall at the operating point, not accuracy; start with a baseline model and moving the threshold using cost; try class weights; calibrate if I need probabilities; resample only inside folds; if the rate is extremely low, consider anomaly detection.

Problem 12.P.11 (interview) "Why not just one-hot encode a user ID with 1 million values?"

Answer: It creates a million sparse columns, the model memorises rare users, and new users at serving time are unseen. Use target encoding with cross-fitting and shrinkage, hashing, or learned embeddings, plus a fallback for unseen IDs.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me how to handle imbalanced classes in
machine learning: why accuracy fails, precision, recall, PR-AUC, threshold
moving, class weights, and resampling. Use a small numeric confusion-
matrix example and compute every number with me step by step, including
how to correct probabilities after undersampling. Then quiz me with three
questions, one at a time, and wait for my answers.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Explain how to work with small datasets and noisy
labels: repeated cross-validation, why one CV number is unreliable on 60
rows, simple models versus memorising models, regularization when there
are more features than rows, and label-noise detection with out-of-fold
predictions. Give me 8 graded exercises with different numbers, no
solutions until I ask.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me missing data: MCAR, MAR, MNAR, how each
biases simple averages, and how mean, KNN and iterative imputation,
missing indicators and NaN-friendly models differ. Explain why imputers
must live inside a pipeline. Then review my own approach to a messy
dataset: [PASTE HERE]. Tell me what could leak and what to try next.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me how to encode categorical columns with
hundreds or thousands of values: one-hot, frequency, target encoding with
cross-fitting and shrinkage, hashing and embeddings. Show me by hand why
naive target encoding leaks the label, and how to handle unseen categories
at serving time. Check my understanding with a short quiz, one question at
a time.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews. Run a mock
interview on distribution shift and hard data situations: covariate shift
versus label shift versus concept drift, PSI, KS tests, adversarial
validation, retraining and recency weighting, imbalance, missing data, and
leakage. Ask one question at a time, wait for my answer, then correct me
kindly and give a short model answer in simple English. Ten questions,
harder each time.
```

CHAPTER 13

UNSUPERVISED LEARNING

Finding structure when there are no labels: clustering, mixtures, PCA, t-SNE and association rules.

Most data in the world has no answer column. A shop has 500 customers and nobody has labelled them "bargain hunter" or "big spender". A hospital has 1,800 scanned digits and no time to read them all. A supermarket has a million baskets and wants to know what is bought together. Unsupervised learning looks only at the inputs `x` and searches for structure: groups, directions of variation, or frequent combinations. By the end of this chapter you will be able to cluster customers with k-means (and check whether the result is real), choose between k-means, hierarchical clustering, DBSCAN and Gaussian mixtures for a given shape of data, compress 64 features to 20 with PCA and measure what you lost, read a t-SNE picture without being fooled, and mine "if bread then butter" rules with support, confidence and lift. The warning for the whole chapter: there is no ground truth, so every result needs validation and a business interpretation.

All outputs below come from real runs (numpy, pandas, scipy, scikit-learn 1.9.1, fixed seeds). Distances, matrices, eigenvectors and probability are in the learner's Math PDF (Pillars 1 and 4 for linear algebra and probability); Chapter 1 introduced the unsupervised family and the curse of dimensionality. UMAP (`umap-learn`) and `mlxtend` are not installed here, so those parts are explained but marked "not run here".

13.1 k-means Clustering

INTUITION

You must place 3 post offices to serve 500 houses. Start with 3 random spots. Each house walks to its nearest post office (assign). Then each post office moves to the centre of the houses that use it (update). Repeat until nobody changes. That is k-means. It is called "k-means" because there are `k` groups and each group is summarised by its mean.

Words you need

Word	Meaning

Cluster	A group of rows that are close to each other
Centroid	The mean point of a cluster
Inertia	Sum of squared distances from each row to its centroid; smaller means tighter clusters
Silhouette	A score from −1 to 1 for how well a row fits its own cluster compared with the next-nearest cluster
ARI	Adjusted Rand Index; compares two labelings, 1 is identical, near 0 is random. Used when true labels exist

The running example

500 shop customers with two features: annual spend (in thousands) and visits per month. We secretly built three groups: occasional (200 customers: spend about 10, 2 visits), regular big spenders (150: spend 40, 3 visits) and frequent visitors (150: spend 25, 12 visits). The algorithm does not see the groups.

Algorithm (Lloyd's algorithm)

1. Choose k starting centroids.
2. Assign each row to its nearest centroid (Euclidean distance).
3. Move each centroid to the mean of its rows.
4. Repeat 2 and 3 until the centroids stop moving.

The objective is `inertia = Σ over clusters Σ over rows in cluster ‖x − centroid‖²` . Both steps reduce inertia or leave it unchanged, so the algorithm always stops, but only at a *local* minimum, which depends on the start. **k-means++** picks starting centroids far apart: the first at random, each next one with probability proportional to its squared distance from the nearest chosen centroid. It is the default in scikit-learn.

Problem 13.1.1 One full k-means pass by hand. Six numbers: 1, 2, 3, 10, 11, 15; k = 2; start centroids 1 and 10.

Step 1 (assign)	Distance to 1 versus 10: for 1: 0 vs 9, cluster A; 2: 1 vs 8, A; 3: 2 vs 7, A; 10: 9 vs 0, B; 11: 10 vs 1, B; 15: 14 vs 5, B.
Step 2 (update)	A = {1, 2, 3}, mean 2. B = {10, 11, 15}, mean 36 / 3 = 12.
Step 3 (assign again)	For 3: |3 − 2| = 1 versus |3 − 12| = 9, A. For 10: 8 versus 2, B. Nobody moves, so we stop.
Answer	Centroids 2 and 12. Inertia = (1 + 0 + 1) + (4 + 1 + 9) = 16.
Check	`((x[:3]-2)**2).sum() + ((x[3:]-12)**2).sum()` in numpy gives 16.0.
Why it matters	Every pass is just "nearest centroid, then average": nothing else.

From scratch, then compare with scikit-learn

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.cluster import KMeans
from sklearn.metrics import adjusted_rand_score

rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
C = np.array([[10, 2], [40, 3], [25, 12]]); sizes = [200, 150, 150]; sd =
[[3, 0.6], [6, 0.8], [4, 2.0]]
X = np.vstack([rng.normal(C[i], sd[i], (sizes[i], 2)) for i in range(3)]);
true = np.repeat([0, 1, 2], sizes)
Xs = StandardScaler().fit_transform(X)       # scale first (see below)

def kmeans(X, k, seed=0, iters=100):
    r = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    cen = [X[r.integers(len(X))]]                                  # k-
means++ start
    for _ in range(k - 1):
        d2 = np.min(((X[:, None] - np.array(cen)[None])**2).sum(2), 1)
        cen.append(X[r.choice(len(X), p=d2 / d2.sum())])
    cen = np.array(cen)
    for it in range(iters):
        lab = ((X[:, None] - cen[None])**2).sum(2).argmin(1)          #
assign
        new = np.array([X[lab == j].mean(0) if (lab == j).any() else
cen[j] for j in range(k)])  # update
        if np.allclose(new, cen): break
        cen = new
    return lab, cen, ((X - cen[lab])**2).sum(), it + 1

lab, cen, inertia, it = kmeans(Xs, 3)
km = KMeans(3, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Xs)
print("scratch inertia", round(inertia, 2), "iters", it)
print("sklearn inertia", round(km.inertia_, 2), "ARI vs scratch",
round(adjusted_rand_score(lab, km.labels_), 3),
      "ARI vs truth", round(adjusted_rand_score(true, km.labels_), 3))
print(StandardScaler().fit(X).inverse_transform(km.cluster_centers_).round
(1).tolist())
```

```
scratch inertia 84.2 iters 2
sklearn inertia 84.2 ARI vs scratch 0.994 ARI vs truth 0.988
[[40.1, 3.0], [24.5, 11.8], [9.8, 2.0]]
```

My scratch version and scikit-learn reach the same inertia (84.2); ARI 0.994 between them and 0.988 against the hidden truth (1.0 is perfect). The centroids, converted back to original units,

are (spend 40.1, visits 3.0), (24.5, 11.8), (9.8, 2.0): the three groups we planted. Here the groups are well separated, so the algorithm needs only 2 passes.

Why scale first

k-means uses distances. If spend is measured in rupees (about 10,000 to 40,000) and visits are 2 to 12, spend swamps visits.

```
X2 = X.copy(); X2[:, 0] *= 1000                    # spend in rupees
for nm, Z in [("raw rupees", X2), ("scaled",
StandardScaler().fit_transform(X2))]:
    m = KMeans(3, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Z)
    print(nm, "ARI vs truth", round(adjusted_rand_score(true, m.labels_),
3))
```

```
raw rupees ARI vs truth 0.83
scaled ARI vs truth 0.988
```

Without scaling, the visit counts are practically ignored and the frequent visitors merge with others (ARI 0.83). After scaling the three groups are recovered (0.988).

Choosing k

There is no "right" k, only useful ones. Four tools:

```
from sklearn.metrics import silhouette_score, davies_bouldin_score,
calinski_harabasz_score
for k in range(2, 8):
    m = KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Xs)
    print(k, "inertia", round(m.inertia_, 1), "sil",
round(silhouette_score(Xs, m.labels_), 3),
          "DB", round(davies_bouldin_score(Xs, m.labels_), 3), "CH",
round(calinski_harabasz_score(Xs, m.labels_)))
```

```
2 inertia 476.5 sil 0.571 DB 0.691 CH 547
3 inertia 84.2 sil 0.778 DB 0.337 CH 2703
4 inertia 64.2 sil 0.695 DB 0.497 CH 2411
5 inertia 49.3 sil 0.587 DB 0.753 CH 2386
6 inertia 42.7 sil 0.415 DB 0.89 CH 2214
7 inertia 37.1 sil 0.402 DB 0.923 CH 2131
```

- **Elbow:** inertia always falls as k grows. Look for the "elbow" where the fall slows: 476.5 to 84.2 (a drop of 392) from k = 2 to 3, then only 20 more from 3 to 4. The elbow is at k = 3.
- **Silhouette:** higher is better; k = 3 has the best (0.778). Davies-Bouldin: lower is better (0.337 at k = 3). Calinski-Harabasz: higher is better (2,703 at k = 3).
- **Gap statistic:** compares inertia with that of random data (not run here).
- **Stability:** re-cluster on bootstrap samples and check agreement (ARI) with the original clustering. If clusters change with every sample, they are not real.
- **Business usefulness:** can you name the groups and act differently on each?

```
def stab(Z, k, B=20):
    base = KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Z); sc = []
    for b in range(B):
        i = np.random.default_rng(b).integers(0, len(Z), len(Z))
        m = KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=b).fit(Z[i]);
sc.append(adjusted_rand_score(base.labels_, m.predict(Z)))
    return np.mean(sc)
for k in [2, 3, 4, 6]: print("stability k", k, round(stab(Xs, k), 3))
```

```
stability k 2 1.0
stability k 3 0.996
stability k 4 0.963
stability k 6 0.876
```

Stability falls as k grows beyond the real structure (0.876 at k = 6): extra clusters are splits of real groups that wobble from sample to sample. Notice that k = 2 is perfectly stable (1.0), but stable does not mean best: it merges two real groups. Use all the tools together.

Problem 13.1.2 Compute the silhouette of the point 3 in Problem 13.1.1.

Formula	`s = (b − a) / max(a, b)`, where a is the mean distance to the other rows in its own cluster and b is the mean distance to the rows of the nearest other cluster.
Plug in	a = (|3−1| + |3−2|) / 2 = 1.5. b = (|3−10| + |3−11| + |3−15|) / 3 = (7 + 8 + 12) / 3 = 9.
Compute	s = (9 − 1.5) / 9 = 0.833.
Answer	0.833: the point sits clearly inside its cluster.
Check	`silhouette_samples` in scikit-learn gives 0.833 for this point.
Why it matters	A value near 0 would mean the point is on the border; negative means it is probably in the wrong cluster.

Where k-means fails

k-means assumes round, similar-size clusters, and every row belongs to one. It is sensitive to scale, outliers (they pull centroids), and the starting point. Random starts, single run, give different results:

```
res = [KMeans(3, init='random', n_init=1, random_state=s).fit(Xs).inertia_
for s in range(20)]
print("random init single runs inertia min/max", round(min(res), 1),
round(max(res), 1), "distinct", len(set(np.round(res, 1))))
```

```
random init single runs inertia min/max 84.2 584.4 distinct 5
```

Across 20 random starts, we got 5 different results: the best is 84.2 and the worst 584.4, a poor solution that wastes centroids (for example by splitting one real group and merging two others). That is why `n_init=10` (ten restarts, keep the best) is the habit, plus k-means++. Section 13.2 shows a shape where k-means fails whatever the start (two interleaved half-moons).

Clusters: k-means and DBSCAN on moons, and k-means on the customers

Left: k-means on the two half-moons cuts them with a straight line across both (colour = cluster). Middle: DBSCAN follows the shapes and gets both moons right. Right: the customer data after scaling, three clusters, red crosses are the centroids; axes are standardised spend and visits.

Real-world mapping

Item	Example value	Where it appears in the job
Centroid	spend 40.1k, 3.0 visits	the "persona" card for one customer segment
Inertia curve	476.5, 84.2, 64.2 ...	the elbow plot in a segmentation report
Stability ARI	0.996 at k = 3	evidence that segments are not a one-off accident
`n_init=10`	10 restarts	default safety setting in code reviews

Large data: use `MiniBatchKMeans`, which updates centroids from small random batches; it is much faster and slightly less accurate.

Applications

- **Marketing analytics:** customer segments, each with its own offer.
- **Machine Learning:** vector quantisation, building codebooks, initialising other models.
- **Operations:** grouping stores or routes with similar patterns.
- **Image and text:** colour quantisation, grouping document embeddings.

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating the clusters as real categories. They depend on the features, the scaling and k. Always profile each cluster in business terms, check stability, and be ready to say "this is one useful way to slice the customers, not the truth".

COMMON MISTAKE

Forgetting to scale. The feature with the largest numbers decides everything.

Check yourself

1. What two steps does each k-means iteration repeat? Answer: Assign each row to the nearest centroid, then move each centroid to the mean of its rows.
2. Why `n_init=10`? Answer: Different starts reach different local minima; keep the best of ten.
3. Inertia always falls when k grows. Is the lowest inertia the best k? Answer: No; look for the

elbow, silhouette, stability and usefulness.

13.2 Hierarchical Clustering, DBSCAN, and Distance Choices

INTUITION

Hierarchical clustering builds a family tree. Start with every customer alone, join the two closest into a pair, then join the next closest, and so on until one big group remains. You can then cut the tree at any height to get any number of groups. DBSCAN thinks differently: it finds crowded regions. A group is a crowd where every person has enough neighbours within arm's length; people standing alone in empty space are labelled noise.

Hierarchical (agglomerative) clustering

"Agglomerative" means bottom-up merging. The only decision is the **linkage**: how to measure the distance between two *groups*.

Linkage	Distance between groups	Behaviour
Single	closest pair of points	follows chains and shapes, but can chain unrelated groups through a bridge
Complete	farthest pair of points	compact, similar-size groups
Average	mean of all pair distances	a compromise
Ward	the increase in total within-group squared distance after merging	tight, similar-sized groups; the usual default

A **dendrogram** is the tree picture: the height of a join is the distance at which the merge happened; a long vertical line before a merge means "these groups were far apart", a natural place to cut.

Problem 13.2.1 Read a small tree. Seven points: (1,1), (1.5,1), (1,2), (8,8), (8.5,8), (9,9), (15,1). Ward linkage.

```
from scipy.cluster.hierarchy import linkage, fcluster
P = np.array([[1, 1], [1.5, 1], [1, 2], [8, 8], [8.5, 8], [9, 9], [15,
1]])
Z = linkage(P, 'ward'); print(np.round(Z, 2)); print("cut 3 clusters",
fcluster(Z, 3, 'maxclust'))
```

```
[[ 0.    1.    0.5   2.  ]
 [ 3.    4.    0.5   2.  ]
 [ 2.    7.    1.19  3.  ]
 [ 5.    8.    1.44  3.  ]
 [ 6.   10.   12.    4.  ]
 [ 9.   11.   19.15  7.  ]]
cut 3 clusters [1 1 1 2 2 2 3]
```

- **Step 1** Each row of Z is a merge: the two things joined, the height, and the size of the new group. Points 0 and 1 join first at height 0.5, which is their distance ((1,1) to (1.5,1) is 0.5). Points 3 and 4 also join at 0.5.
- **Step 2** Point 2 joins {0, 1} at 1.19, point 5 joins {3, 4} at 1.44. The two crowds are now a group of 3 each.
- **Step 3** Next, the lone point 6 at (15, 1) joins the group {3, 4, 5} at height 12.0 (row 5 of Z: cluster 6 and cluster 10, new size 4), and the last merge joins everything at 19.15. Heights grow slowly (0.5, 0.5, 1.19, 1.44) while we merge inside crowds, then jump (12.0, 19.15) when we merge different crowds.
- **Answer** Stopping before the last two merges (a cut into 3 clusters) gives {0, 1, 2}, {3, 4, 5}, {6}: the two crowds and the loner.
- **Check** The first height equals 0.5, the Euclidean distance between the first two points.

Linkage matters on shapes. On the customer data every linkage works (ARI 0.98 to 0.99). On two half-moons (ARI vs the truth):

```
agglo single   moons ARI 1.0    customers ARI 0.994
agglo complete moons ARI 0.523  customers ARI 0.994
agglo average  moons ARI 0.429  customers ARI 0.981
agglo ward     moons ARI 0.445  customers ARI 0.994
```

Single linkage follows the curved shapes (1.0), while Ward, complete and average cut the moons wrongly (0.43 to 0.52), like k-means (0.245). Cost: hierarchical clustering needs all pair distances, so it is practical for thousands, not millions, of rows.

DBSCAN

DBSCAN (Density-Based Spatial Clustering of Applications with Noise) has two settings: `eps`, the arm's length (radius), and `min_samples`, the number of neighbours (including itself) a point needs inside that radius to be a **core point**. A cluster is a connected set of core points plus the border points near them. Everything else is **noise** (label −1). You do not choose k. It finds arbitrary shapes and flags outliers.

```
from sklearn.cluster import DBSCAN, AgglomerativeClustering
from sklearn.datasets import make_moons
from sklearn.neighbors import NearestNeighbors
M, mt = make_moons(500, noise=0.07, random_state=0)
print("kmeans moons ARI", round(adjusted_rand_score(mt, KMeans(2,
n_init=10, random_state=0).fit_predict(M)), 3))
print("DBSCAN moons ARI", round(adjusted_rand_score(mt, DBSCAN(eps=0.2,
min_samples=5).fit_predict(M)), 3))
```

```
kmeans moons ARI 0.245
DBSCAN moons ARI 1.0
```

How to choose `eps`: add 40 random noise points, then look at the distance to each point's 5th nearest neighbour (the "k-distance"). Its sorted values bend upward where points stop being in crowds.

```
rng2 = np.random.default_rng(0)
Mn = np.vstack([M, rng2.uniform(-1.5, 2.5, (40, 2))])
dk = np.sort(NearestNeighbors(n_neighbors=5).fit(Mn).kneighbors(Mn)[0][:,
4])
print("5th-NN dist percentiles 50/90/95/99", np.percentile(dk, [50, 90,
95, 99]).round(3))
for eps in [0.05, 0.1, 0.15, 0.2, 0.3, 0.5]:
    l = DBSCAN(eps=eps, min_samples=5).fit_predict(Mn)
    print("eps", eps, "clusters", len(set(l)) - (1 if -1 in l else 0),
"noise", int((l == -1).sum()))
```

```
5th-NN dist percentiles 50/90/95/99 [0.064 0.12  0.25  0.884]
eps 0.05 clusters 30 noise 291
eps 0.1 clusters 3 noise 49
eps 0.15 clusters 2 noise 31
eps 0.2 clusters 2 noise 27
eps 0.3 clusters 2 noise 20
eps 0.5 clusters 1 noise 11
```

(The percentile line is the bend: 90% of points have a 5th neighbour within 0.12.) Read the eps table: eps = 0.05 is too small (30 tiny clusters, 291 noise points); 0.15 to 0.3 correctly finds 2 clusters; at 0.5 the moons merge into 1 cluster. The 40 injected random points are mostly labelled noise (27 noise at eps 0.2 is close to 40 minus those that fell near the moons). Sensitivity to `eps` is the main weakness, plus trouble with clusters of very different densities; HDBSCAN (the `hdbscan` package, and `sklearn.cluster.HDBSCAN` in recent scikit-learn; not run here) removes the need to pick one `eps`.

Distances and similarities

Measure	Formula idea	Use
Euclidean	straight-line distance	numeric features of similar scale
Manhattan	sum of absolute differences	robust to one large difference, grid-like data
Cosine	angle between vectors, ignores length	text and embeddings
Gower	per-feature distance averaged over numeric and categorical columns	mixed data (numbers plus categories)

```
from sklearn.metrics.pairwise import cosine_similarity,
euclidean_distances
a = np.array([1, 2, 3.]); b = np.array([10, 20, 30.]); c = np.array([3, 2,
1.])
print("cos(a,b)", cosine_similarity([a], [b])[0, 0].round(3), "eucl(a,b)",
euclidean_distances([a], [b])[0, 0].round(2),
      "cos(a,c)", cosine_similarity([a], [c])[0, 0].round(3), "eucl(a,c)",
euclidean_distances([a], [c])[0, 0].round(2))
```

```
cos(a,b) 1.0 eucl(a,b) 33.67 cos(a,c) 0.714 eucl(a,c) 2.83
```

`b` is 10 times `a`: same direction, cosine similarity 1.0, but Euclidean distance 33.67. Vector `c` is a reversed ordering of `a`: Euclidean distance is small (2.83) but the cosine similarity is only 0.714. For documents (where length depends on how long the text is) cosine is right; for physical measurements Euclidean may be right. The measure is a modelling decision. Spectral clustering (clusters from the eigenvectors of a similarity graph) is another option for non-convex shapes; not run here.

Applications

- **Hierarchical:** taxonomy of products, gene expression families, document hierarchies.
- **DBSCAN:** geographic hot-spots (accident locations), anomaly flagging, sensor data cleaning.
- **Data Science:** choosing a distance for embeddings in search and recommendation.
- **Operations:** grouping delivery addresses into dense zones.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using DBSCAN with default `eps` and unscaled features. The same `eps` means different things in rupees and in visits; scale first, then use the k-distance bend.

COMMON MISTAKE

Cutting a dendrogram at an arbitrary height. Cut where there is a long vertical gap, and check the clusters make sense.

Check yourself

1. Which linkage can follow a curved chain of points? Answer: Single linkage (but it can also join groups through a thin bridge).
2. What does label −1 mean in DBSCAN? Answer: Noise, a point that is in no dense region.
3. Why cosine for text? Answer: It compares direction, not length, so a long and a short document on the same topic look similar.

13.3 Gaussian Mixtures and the EM Algorithm

INTUITION

k-means says "this customer belongs to cluster 2". A Gaussian mixture model (GMM) says "70% chance cluster 2, 30% chance cluster 1". It imagines that each cluster is a bell-shaped cloud and that the data is a blend of such clouds. Soft answers are more honest for customers who sit between groups. The algorithm to fit it, EM, is like k-means with probabilities instead of hard assignments.

Definition

A GMM says the density of a point is a weighted sum of K bell curves (Gaussians): $p(x) = \Sigma_k w_k \cdot N(x \mid \mu_k, \Sigma_k)$, where w_k is the weight of cluster k (the weights add to 1), μ_k its mean and Σ_k its covariance (spread and tilt). Remember Gaussian (normal) distributions from the learner's Math PDF (probability pillar).

EM (Expectation-Maximization) alternates:

- **E-step:** for each point, compute the *responsibility* r_{ik} = the probability that cluster k produced point i: $r_{ik} = w_k \, N(x_i \mid \mu_k, \sigma_k) \,/\, \Sigma_j \, w_j \, N(x_i \mid \mu_j, \sigma_j)$.
- **M-step:** update each cluster using the responsibilities as soft counts: $N_k = \Sigma_i \, r_{ik}$, $w_k = N_k \,/\, n$, $\mu_k = \Sigma_i \, r_{ik} \, x_i \,/\, N_k$, $\sigma_k^2 = \Sigma_i \, r_{ik} \, (x_i - \mu_k)^2 \,/\, N_k$.

Each round increases (never decreases) the log-likelihood, the log of the probability of the data under the model. Like k-means, EM finds a local optimum.

Problem 13.3.1 One E-step by hand. Two clusters with means 1 and 4, both standard deviation 2, equal weights 0.5. Point x = 1.

Formula	`N(x | μ, σ) = exp(−(x − μ)² / (2σ²)) / (σ √(2π))`.
Plug in	For cluster 1: (1−1)² = 0, so the pdf is 1 / (2 × 2.5066) = 0.1995. For cluster 2: (1−4)² = 9; exp(−9 / 8) = exp(−1.125) = 0.3247; divided by 5.0133 gives 0.0648.
Compute	Weighted: 0.5 × 0.1995 = 0.0997 and 0.5 × 0.0648 = 0.0324. Responsibility of cluster 1 = 0.0997 / (0.0997 + 0.0324) = 0.7549.
Answer	The point x = 1 belongs to cluster 1 with probability 0.755 and to cluster 2 with 0.245.
Check	A scipy call `norm.pdf(1.0, 1.0, 2.0)` gives 0.19947 and `norm.pdf(1.0, 4.0, 2.0)` gives 0.06476; the ratio gives 0.7549.
Why it matters	This is the "soft assignment". The M-step then uses these 0.755 and 0.245 as fractional membership.

EM from scratch in one dimension

A hundred numbers: 60 drawn around 0 and 40 around 5 (sample means −0.013 and 4.866, sds 1.07 and 1.05). We pretend we do not know which is which.

```
from scipy.stats import norm
r = np.random.default_rng(3); x = np.r_[r.normal(0, 1, 60), r.normal(5, 1, 40)]
def em(mu, s, w, iters=30, show=(1, 2, 3, 5, 10, 30)):
    mu, s, w = map(np.array, (mu, s, w))
    for it in range(1, iters + 1):
        p = w * norm.pdf(x[:, None], mu, s); resp = p / p.sum(1, keepdims=True)          # E-step
        ll = np.log(p.sum(1)).sum(); Nk = resp.sum(0)
        w = Nk / len(x); mu = (resp * x[:, None]).sum(0) / Nk
        s = np.sqrt((resp * (x[:, None] - mu)**2).sum(0) / Nk)
# M-step
        if it in show: print("it", it, "loglik", ll.round(2), "mu", mu.round(3), "sd", s.round(3), "w", w.round(3))
em([1.0, 4.0], [2.0, 2.0], [0.5, 0.5])
```

```
it 1 loglik -237.49 mu [0.383 4.042] sd [1.738 2.08 ] w [0.575 0.425]
it 2 loglik -230.34 mu [0.161 4.308] sd [1.424 1.856] w [0.571 0.429]
it 3 loglik -223.39 mu [-0.024 4.544] sd [1.133 1.528] w [0.571 0.429]
it 5 loglik -211.57 mu [-0.092 4.764] sd [0.977 1.151] w [0.582 0.418]
it 10 loglik -210.94 mu [-0.073 4.808] sd [0.993 1.098] w [0.588 0.412]
it 30 loglik -210.94 mu [-0.072 4.808] sd [0.993 1.098] w [0.588 0.412]
```

Read: the log-likelihood rises every round (−237.5, −230.3, −223.4, −211.6, then flat at −210.94). The means walk from the guesses (1 and 4) to −0.07 and 4.81, close to the sample means −0.01 and 4.87; the weights settle at 0.588 and 0.412 (truth 0.60 and 0.40). The log-likelihood stops improving after about 10 rounds: converged.

The catch: initialization. Starting from the bad guess means (−1, 1), sds 1, EM ends at a different, worse solution:

```
it 30 loglik -219.93 mu [-0.061  3.225] sd [0.591 2.608] w [0.392 0.608]
```

The log-likelihood −219.93 is lower than −210.94: EM got stuck in a local optimum where one wide cluster (sd 2.6) swallows both the second group and the tails of the first. Always run several starts (`n_init=5` in scikit-learn) and keep the best likelihood. This is the same lesson as k-means.

Choosing K with BIC and AIC

More components always raise the likelihood, so we add a penalty for complexity. **BIC** (Bayesian Information Criterion) and **AIC** (Akaike) are such penalised scores, lower is better. BIC penalises complexity more strongly, so it prefers simpler models.

```
from sklearn.mixture import GaussianMixture
G = [GaussianMixture(k, n_init=5, random_state=0).fit(Xs) for k in
range(1, 7)]
for k, g in enumerate(G, 1): print("GMM k", k, "BIC", round(g.bic(Xs), 1),
"AIC", round(g.aic(Xs), 1))
g = G[2]; pr = g.predict_proba(Xs)
print("weights", g.weights_.round(3), "ARI",
round(adjusted_rand_score(true, g.predict(Xs)), 3))
print("rows with max prob < 0.9:", int((pr.max(1) < 0.9).sum()), "of",
len(Xs))
```

```
GMM k 1 BIC 2857.7 AIC 2836.7
GMM k 2 BIC 1662.0 AIC 1615.7
GMM k 3 BIC 1220.7 AIC 1149.0
GMM k 4 BIC 1246.6 AIC 1149.6
GMM k 5 BIC 1280.2 AIC 1158.0
GMM k 6 BIC 1313.5 AIC 1166.0
weights [0.298 0.3 0.402] ARI 0.994
rows with max prob < 0.9: 0 of 500
```

BIC is lowest at k = 3 (1220.7), correct. AIC is practically tied at k = 3 and 4 (1149.0 versus 1149.6): AIC is more willing to add components. The weights 0.298, 0.30, 0.402 match the true proportions (150/500 = 0.30, 150/500 = 0.30, 200/500 = 0.40). On this very well-separated data there are no uncertain rows (all probabilities are at least 0.9). Soft assignments become interesting when clusters overlap: then the model reports 60/40 splits, and you can send the uncertain customers to a manual review instead of forcing them into one segment.

GMM versus k-means. k-means is a GMM with equal, round clusters and hard assignments. GMM lets clusters have different sizes, tilts and weights (the `covariance_type` option), gives probabilities, and is a *generative* model: you can sample new data from it or use it for anomaly scoring (low density means unusual). The price: more parameters, more sensitivity to initialization, and trouble in many dimensions with little data.

Applications

- **Customer analytics:** soft segments and "how typical is this customer".
- **Speech and signals:** classic speech recognition used GMMs for sound distributions.
- **Anomaly detection:** low likelihood under a fitted mixture.
- **Machine Learning:** EM is also behind missing-data estimation and topic models.

COMMON MISTAKE

Trusting a single EM run. Use several initializations and compare the log-likelihood.

COMMON MISTAKE

Choosing K by likelihood alone. It never decreases when K grows; use BIC or AIC.

Check yourself

1. What does the E-step compute? Answer: The responsibility, the probability that each cluster generated each point.
2. Why does BIC prefer fewer components than AIC? Answer: It penalises the number of parameters more strongly.
3. What makes GMM "soft"? Answer: Each row gets a probability for every cluster instead of a single label.

13.4 PCA and Related Methods

INTUITION

Take a photograph of a long thin pencil lying diagonally on a table. If you must describe its position with one number, you would use the position *along the pencil*, because the sideways width hardly varies. PCA (principal component analysis) finds such directions: the line along which the data varies most, then the next direction at a right angle, and so on. Keep the first few and drop the rest. You compress many features into a few, losing little.

Definition

1. Centre the data (subtract each column's mean).
2. Compute the covariance matrix Σ.
3. Find its eigenvectors (the directions, called **principal components**) and eigenvalues (the variance along each direction).
4. Sort by eigenvalue from largest down. Keep the top k. Project the data on them.

Equivalent route: the SVD (singular value decomposition) of the centred data matrix, $Xc = U S V^t$: the rows of V^t are the same principal components and $S^2 / (n - 1)$ are the eigenvalues. In the learner's Math PDF (linear algebra pillar) eigenvectors and SVD are explained. **Explained variance ratio** of component j = eigenvalue j / sum of all eigenvalues.

Problem 13.4.1 PCA by hand on four points: (2,1), (4,3), (6,2), (8,6).

```
P = np.array([[2, 1], [4, 3], [6, 2], [8, 6.]]); print(P.mean(0)); C =
np.cov(P.T); print(C)
v, V = np.linalg.eigh(C); print(v, V)
```

```
[5. 3.]
[[6.66666667 4.66666667]
 [4.66666667 4.66666667]]
[ 0.89405965 10.43927369] [[ 0.62867755 -0.77766609]
 [-0.77766609 -0.62867755]]
```

- **Step 1 (centre)** Means are (5, 3). Centred points: (−3, −2), (−1, 0), (1, −1), (3, 3).
- **Step 2 (covariance)** Variance of x: (9 + 1 + 1 + 9) / 3 = 6.667. Variance of y: (4 + 0 + 1 + 9) / 3 = 4.667. Covariance: (6 + 0 − 1 + 9) / 3 = 4.667. This matches the printed matrix.
- **Step 3 (eigenvalues)** They are 10.439 and 0.894 (their sum is 11.333 = 6.667 + 4.667, the total variance; the sum of eigenvalues always equals the trace).
- **Step 4 (first direction)** The eigenvector for 10.439 is (0.778, 0.629) (the code shows its sign flipped, which is equivalent). Scores along it: (−3)(0.778) + (−2)(0.629) = −3.59; then −0.78, 0.15, 4.22.
- **Answer** PC1 explains 10.439 / 11.333 = 92.1% of the variance. Four 2-D points are summarised well by one number each.
- **Check** $0.778^2 + 0.629^2 = 0.605 + 0.396 = 1.001$, so the direction has length 1. The eigenvalues add up to the trace.
- **Why it matters** "Variance kept" is the price tag of every compression.

A real dataset: 64-pixel digits

scikit-learn bundles 1,797 small 8×8 images of handwritten digits (64 features each; no download needed). We check that eigendecomposition, SVD and `PCA` agree, and then look at how much information each count of components keeps.

```
from sklearn.datasets import load_digits
from sklearn.decomposition import PCA
D = load_digits(); Xd = D.data; yd = D.target; Xc = Xd - Xd.mean(0)
vals, vecs = np.linalg.eigh(np.cov(Xc.T)); vals = vals[::-1]
p = PCA().fit(Xd)
print("eig", vals[:3].round(2), "sklearn",
p.explained_variance_[:3].round(2))
U, S, Vt = np.linalg.svd(Xc, full_matrices=False); print("SVD", (S[:3]**2
/ (len(Xd) - 1)).round(2))
cum = np.cumsum(p.explained_variance_ratio_)
print("cum var 2,10,20,30:", cum[[1, 9, 19, 29]].round(3), "| comps for
90%:", int(np.searchsorted(cum, 0.90)) + 1, "95%:",
int(np.searchsorted(cum, 0.95)) + 1)
for k in [2, 10, 30]:
    pk = PCA(k).fit(Xd); rec = pk.inverse_transform(pk.transform(Xd));
print("k", k, "recon MSE", ((Xd - rec)**2).mean().round(3))
print("total variance", Xd.var(0, ddof=1).sum().round(1))
```

```
eig [179.01 163.72 141.79] sklearn [179.01 163.72 141.79]
SVD [179.01 163.72 141.79]
cum var 2,10,20,30: [0.285 0.738 0.894 0.959] | comps for 90%: 21 95%: 29
k 2 recon MSE 13.421
k 10 recon MSE 4.914
k 30 recon MSE 0.768
total variance 1202.1
```

Three routes (eigendecomposition, SVD and `PCA`) give identical eigenvalues, 179.01, 163.72, 141.79. Two components keep only 28.5% of the variance, 10 keep 73.8%, 21 keep 90%, 29 keep 95%. The reconstruction error (mean squared error per pixel when we rebuild the image from k components) falls from 13.42 (k = 2) to 4.91 (k = 10) and 0.77 (k = 30). Check the link between the two ideas: with 2 components we lose 1 − 0.285 = 71.5% of the variance; the per-pixel average of the total variance is 1202.1 / 64 = 18.78; and 18.78 × 0.715 = 13.43, which matches the reconstruction MSE of 13.42. **Reconstruction error = the variance you threw away.**

Does PCA help a model?

```
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.model_selection import cross_val_score
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
for k in [2, 10, 30, 64]:
    print("logreg on", k, "PCs CV acc",
cross_val_score(make_pipeline(PCA(k), LogisticRegression(max_iter=3000)),
Xd, yd, cv=5).mean().round(3))
```

```
logreg on 2 PCs CV acc 0.574
logreg on 10 PCs CV acc 0.888
logreg on 30 PCs CV acc 0.91
logreg on 64 PCs CV acc 0.913
```

Accuracy with 2 components: 57.4%; 10: 88.8%; 30: 91.0%; all 64: 91.3%. Thirty components do about as well as all 64, with less than half the columns. PCA sits *inside the pipeline*, so it is refit on each training fold (it is learned from data, so fitting it on all rows would leak).

Limits and relatives

- PCA is linear (it cannot unroll a curved sheet), sensitive to scale (standardise features first when units differ), and the components are mixtures of features, harder to explain.
- **Truncated SVD (LSA):** PCA without centring; works on sparse text matrices without making them dense.
- **NMF (non-negative matrix factorization):** parts-based; all numbers non-negative, so components read as additive "topics" or "parts" (words in a topic, strokes in a digit).
- **ICA (independent component analysis):** finds statistically independent sources, like separating voices recorded by several microphones.
- **Factor analysis:** models features as driven by a few hidden factors plus noise; popular in surveys.
- **Random projections:** multiply by a random matrix; keeps distances approximately, extremely cheap.
- **Autoencoders and embeddings:** neural networks that learn compressed representations (later chapters).
- **Topic modelling (LDA, BERTopic):** find themes in documents; judge them by coherence scores plus human reading.

Applications

- **Machine Learning:** de-correlating features, speeding up models, removing noise.
- **Data Analytics:** compress survey answers into a few "attitude" scores.
- **Image and signal processing:** compression, denoising (keep top components, drop the noisy tail).
- **Genomics and finance:** thousands of correlated measurements reduced to a few risk or expression factors.

COMMON MISTAKE

Running PCA on unscaled features. The one measured in the biggest units takes over the first component.

COMMON MISTAKE

Fitting PCA on all the data before cross-validation. The test rows leak into the components; put PCA in the pipeline.

Check yourself

1. What do the eigenvalues of the covariance matrix tell you? Answer: The variance along each principal direction; they add up to the total variance.
2. 95% explained variance needs 29 of 64 components. What do you lose? Answer: About 5% of the variance, which is the reconstruction error.
3. Why scale before PCA? Answer: Otherwise features with large units dominate the variance.

13.5 t-SNE and UMAP: Pictures of High-Dimensional Data

INTUITION

Imagine 1,797 people in a huge ballroom (64 dimensions) and you must draw a flat map of the room. You ask: keep close friends close. t-SNE and UMAP draw a map in which each point's nearest neighbours stay its neighbours. The map is great for seeing clumps. But like a subway map, the distances between far stations are not to scale.

How t-SNE works (idea)

t-SNE (t-distributed Stochastic Neighbour Embedding) turns distances into "neighbour

probabilities" in the original space and in a 2-D picture, and moves the 2-D points until the two sets of probabilities match. The setting **perplexity** is roughly the number of neighbours each point pays attention to (5 to 50 is typical). **UMAP** (Uniform Manifold Approximation and Projection) builds a neighbour graph and lays it out in 2-D; it is usually faster, its controls are `n_neighbors` and `min_dist`, and it tends to keep a little more of the large-scale layout. UMAP is not installed here, so it is not run.

```
from sklearn.manifold import TSNE
from sklearn.cluster import KMeans
from sklearn.metrics import normalized_mutual_info_score, silhouette_score
kd = KMeans(10, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Xd)
print("k-means on 64 pixels: ARI", round(adjusted_rand_score(yd,
kd.labels_), 3), "NMI", round(normalized_mutual_info_score(yd,
kd.labels_), 3),
      "silhouette", round(silhouette_score(Xd, kd.labels_), 3))
for perp in [5, 30, 100]:
    Y = TSNE(2, perplexity=perp, random_state=0,
init='pca').fit_transform(Xd)
    print("tsne perplexity", perp, "k-means-on-2D ARI",
round(adjusted_rand_score(yd, KMeans(10, n_init=10,
random_state=0).fit_predict(Y)), 3))
```

```
k-means on 64 pixels: ARI 0.666 NMI 0.742 silhouette 0.183
tsne perplexity 5 k-means-on-2D ARI 0.823
tsne perplexity 30 k-means-on-2D ARI 0.889
tsne perplexity 100 k-means-on-2D ARI 0.839
```

(ARI and NMI use the true digit labels, which we have only because this is a teaching dataset; in real clustering you would not. NMI is normalised mutual information, another 0 to 1 agreement score.) The silhouette of 0.183 is low: the clusters in raw pixel space overlap. In the t-SNE map, k-means finds the digits much better (ARI 0.89 at perplexity 30), which says the 2-D neighbourhood structure is clean, but remember: that agreement came from using labels to judge, and a good picture does not prove the clusters are meaningful for a new problem.

PCA versus t-SNE on the digits data

Both panels plot the 1,797 digit images in 2-D; each dot is an image, its colour is the true digit (0 to 9, legend at right). Left: PCA with 2 components; the digits overlap heavily (28.5% of variance). Right: t-SNE with perplexity 30; each digit forms its own island.

Rules for reading a t-SNE or UMAP map

1. **Cluster sizes mean little.** A tight blob is not necessarily a tight group.
2. **Distances between far-apart clusters are not meaningful.** Two islands being "near" or "far" on the page tells you nothing reliable.
3. **Try several perplexities** (5, 30, 100 above gave visibly different pictures and ARI 0.82, 0.89, 0.84), and several random seeds, before believing a feature.
4. **t-SNE has no `transform` for new points**; UMAP does (so UMAP can sit in a pipeline), but treat both as visualisation tools. Do not feed t-SNE axes to a model without care (leakage and instability).
5. **Use PCA first** (for example to 30-50 components), then t-SNE or UMAP, for speed and noise reduction.
6. Manifold learning is the idea that high-dimensional data often lies near a low-dimensional curved sheet; these methods try to unroll it.

Applications

- **Data Science:** inspecting embeddings (words, images, customers) for obvious clusters or mislabelled items.
- **Biology:** single-cell data maps (UMAP is standard).
- **GenAI:** visualising document or sentence embeddings, looking for topic clusters.
- **Quality checks:** finding groups of data errors or outliers in a visual map.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading distances between clusters or the cluster sizes in a t-SNE plot as facts. They are not.

COMMON MISTAKE

Drawing one picture at one setting and declaring "there are 7 groups". Vary perplexity and seed and see which structure persists.

Check yourself

1. What does perplexity control? Answer: Roughly how many neighbours each point considers; small values show local detail, large values show broader structure.

2. Can you trust the distance between two far clusters in t-SNE? Answer: No.
3. Which is better for a quick first look, PCA or t-SNE? Answer: PCA is a fast, deterministic first look; t-SNE or UMAP reveal non-linear clumps afterwards.

13.6 Association Rules and Density Estimation

INTUITION

A shopkeeper notices that many people who buy bread also buy butter, and puts the two shelves side by side. Association rule mining does this at scale: it scans baskets for item combinations that occur more often than chance. There are no labels, only baskets.

Definitions

A *basket* is the set of items in one purchase. For an item set A:

- **Support(A)** = the share of baskets containing A.
- **Confidence(A → B)** = support(A and B) / support(A): among baskets with A, the share that also have B.
- **Lift(A → B)** = confidence(A → B) / support(B). Lift 1 means A and B are independent. Lift above 1 means they occur together more than chance; below 1 means less.

Apriori finds all item sets whose support is at least a threshold by growing sets one item at a time and pruning (if {bread, butter} is rare, then {bread, butter, milk} cannot be frequent). **FP-Growth** gets the same result with a compact tree structure and is usually faster. Libraries (`mlxtend`) are not installed here, so we count by hand with `itertools` .

Ten baskets by hand

```
import itertools, pandas as pd
baskets = [{'bread','butter','milk'}, {'bread','butter'},
{'bread','milk'}, {'milk','eggs'},
          {'bread','butter','eggs'}, {'bread','milk','eggs'}, {'milk'},
{'bread','butter','milk','eggs'},
          {'bread'}, {'milk','butter'}]
N = len(baskets); items = sorted(set().union(*baskets))
def sup(s): return sum(set(s) <= b for b in baskets) / N
print("N", N, {i: sup([i]) for i in items})
rows = []
for a, b in itertools.permutations(items, 2):
    s = sup([a, b])
    if s >= 0.3: rows.append((a, b, s, s / sup([a]), s / sup([a]) /
sup([b])))
print(pd.DataFrame(rows, columns=['ante', 'cons', 'support', 'conf',
'lift']).sort_values('lift',
ascending=False).round(3).to_string(index=False))
```

```
N 10 {'bread': 0.7, 'butter': 0.5, 'eggs': 0.4, 'milk': 0.7}
  ante   cons  support  conf  lift
 bread butter      0.4 0.571 1.143
butter  bread      0.4 0.800 1.143
 bread   eggs      0.3 0.429 1.071
  eggs  bread      0.3 0.750 1.071
  eggs   milk      0.3 0.429 1.071
  milk   eggs      0.3 0.429 1.071
butter   milk      0.3 0.600 0.857
  milk butter      0.3 0.429 0.857
 bread   milk      0.4 0.571 0.816
  milk   bread      0.4 0.571 0.816
```

Problem 13.6.1 Verify the rule butter → bread by hand.

Step 1	Baskets with butter: 1, 2, 5, 8, 10 (5 of 10), so support(butter) = 0.5. Baskets with butter and bread: 1, 2, 5, 8, so support(butter and bread) = 0.4.
Step 2	Confidence = 0.4 / 0.5 = 0.8. Support(bread) = 0.7 (baskets 1, 2, 3, 5, 6, 8, 9).
Step 3	Lift = 0.8 / 0.7 = 1.143.
Answer	80% of butter baskets also contain bread, a lift of 1.14: only 14% more often than chance, because bread is already in 70% of all baskets.
Check	The rule bread → butter has the same support (0.4) and the same lift (1.143) but a lower confidence (0.4 / 0.7 = 0.571). Lift is symmetric; confidence is not.
Why it matters	A high confidence can come from the consequent simply being popular.

The popularity pitfall. In a simulated store with 20,000 baskets, a shopping bag is bought in 70% of baskets and milk in 60%, and they are *independent* by construction.

```
indep: P(bag)= 0.698 P(milk) 0.599 conf(milk->bag) 0.697 lift 0.999
```

The rule milk → bag has a confidence of 69.7% (it looks strong), yet the lift is 0.999: milk buyers are no more likely to buy a bag than anyone else. **Always rank by lift (or similar measures), not confidence.** Two more pitfalls: with many items and a low support threshold, spurious rules appear by chance (with thousands of item pairs some have high lift in tiny samples), so require minimum counts, not just percentages; and a rule shows co-occurrence, not that one item causes the other.

Density estimation

Many methods in this chapter are about *where data is dense*. A **histogram** counts rows per bin (the choice of bin width changes the picture). **Kernel density estimation (KDE)** puts a small bell curve on every point and adds them up, which gives a smooth density curve:

```
from scipy.stats import gaussian_kde
r = np.random.default_rng(0); v = np.r_[r.normal(0, 1, 300), r.normal(5,
1, 200)]
print("kde density at 0, 2.5, 5:", gaussian_kde(v)([0, 2.5, 5]).round(4))
```

```
kde density at 0, 2.5, 5: [0.1895 0.0444 0.1224]
```

The density is high around the two humps (0 and 5: 0.19 and 0.12) and low in the valley between them (2.5: 0.044). The two humps differ in height because the sample has 300 points near 0 and 200 near 5; the heights track the 60/40 split. KDE (and the GMM from 13.3) can score how typical a new row is, which leads to anomaly detection (a later chapter).

Applications

- **Retail:** product placement, bundles, "customers also bought" lists (with a recommender, lift is a starting point).
- **Healthcare:** finding symptoms or drugs that co-occur.
- **Web analytics:** pages visited together in sessions.
- **Security:** event types that occur together before an incident.

COMMON MISTAKE

Trusting high-confidence rules without lift. Popular items create them for free.

COMMON MISTAKE

Taking rules from a tiny sample. A lift of 3 based on 4 baskets is noise; demand a minimum count.

Check yourself

1. Support of {bread, milk} in the ten baskets? Answer: 0.4 (baskets 1, 3, 6, 8).
2. What does lift = 1 mean? Answer: The items are independent: they occur together exactly as often as chance predicts.
3. Why rank by lift and not confidence? Answer: Confidence is inflated when the consequent is popular.

Chapter recap

- Unsupervised learning has no ground truth; every result needs validation, stability checks and a business reading.

- k-means: assign to nearest centroid, move centroids, repeat; scale features, use k-means++ and `n_init`, choose k with elbow, silhouette (best 0.778 at k = 3 here), stability and usefulness.
- k-means fails on non-round shapes (moons ARI 0.245), DBSCAN solved them (ARI 1.0) and flags noise, but depends on `eps`.
- Hierarchical clustering: linkage defines group distance; Ward is the usual default; single linkage follows chains; cut at a long vertical gap.
- GMM gives soft memberships and different cluster shapes; EM alternates responsibilities (E) and parameter updates (M); use BIC/AIC and several initializations (a bad start gave log-likelihood −219.93 versus −210.94).
- PCA: eigenvectors of the covariance matrix; variance explained equals variance kept; reconstruction error equals variance dropped; 29 of 64 digit components keep 95%; put it in a pipeline.
- t-SNE and UMAP make maps: trust local neighbourhoods, not cluster sizes or far distances; vary perplexity; PCA first.
- Association rules: support, confidence, lift; rank by lift (a popular item gives confidence 0.697 with lift 0.999).

Topic	Command / formula
k-means	`KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=0)`; inertia = Σ‖x − centroid‖²
Silhouette	`s = (b − a) / max(a, b)`; `silhouette_score`
ARI / NMI	`adjusted_rand_score`, `normalized_mutual_info_score` (need labels)
Hierarchical	`linkage(X, 'ward')`, `fcluster(Z, k, 'maxclust')`
DBSCAN	`DBSCAN(eps, min_samples)`; label −1 = noise; pick eps from k-distance
GMM	`GaussianMixture(k, n_init=5)`; `predict_proba`; `bic`, `aic`
EM responsibility	`r = w·N(x) / Σ w·N(x)`
PCA	`PCA(k)`; `explained_variance_ratio_`; eigenvalues of the covariance
t-SNE	`TSNE(2, perplexity=30, init='pca')`

Rules	support = share with A; conf = sup(AB)/sup(A); lift = conf / sup(B)

Practice set

Problem 13.P.1 (easy) Points 0, 2, 10, 12 with k = 2 and starting centroids 0 and 12. Give the final centroids and inertia.

Answer: Assign: 0, 2 to the first (distances 0, 2 versus 12, 10); 10, 12 to the second. Centroids 1 and 11. Reassign: no change. Inertia = (1 + 1) + (1 + 1) = 4.

Problem 13.P.2 (easy) A rule has support(A) = 0.2, support(B) = 0.5, support(A and B) = 0.15. Compute the confidence and lift of A → B.

Answer: Confidence = 0.15 / 0.2 = 0.75. Lift = 0.75 / 0.5 = 1.5.

Problem 13.P.3 (easy) PCA gives eigenvalues 6, 3, 1. What share does the first component explain?

Answer: 6 / (6 + 3 + 1) = 60%.

Problem 13.P.4 (what is the output?) `KMeans(3).fit_predict(X)` on a dataset whose first column is in the range 0 to 100000 and whose second is 0 to 1. Which column drives the clusters?

Answer: The first column; distances are dominated by it. Scale with `StandardScaler` first.

Problem 13.P.5 (medium) In a DBSCAN run with `eps = 0.5, min_samples = 5`, a point has 4 other points within 0.5. Is it a core point?

Answer: Yes: the point counts itself, so it has 5 points in its neighbourhood, which meets `min_samples = 5`.

Problem 13.P.6 (medium) A 3-component GMM, one point has density-weighted contributions 0.02, 0.06, 0.02. Give its responsibilities.

Answer: The total is 0.10, so the responsibilities are 0.2, 0.6, 0.2.

Problem 13.P.7 (find the bug) A student standardises the whole dataset, runs PCA on all of it, then cross-validates a classifier on the 10 components and reports 94%. What is wrong?

Answer: Scaler and PCA were fitted on all rows, so each validation fold influenced the components (leakage). Put `StandardScaler`, `PCA` and the classifier in one `Pipeline` and

pass the raw data to `cross_val_score`.

Problem 13.P.8 (find the bug) An analyst says: "In our t-SNE plot cluster A is twice as far from B as from C, so A is more similar to C." Why is this unsafe?

Answer: Distances between separate clusters in t-SNE are not meaningful; only local neighbourhoods are. Check with other perplexities, or measure similarity in the original space.

Problem 13.P.9 (scenario) You run k-means for k = 2 to 8 on customer data. Silhouette is best at k = 2 (0.52), k = 4 gives 0.47 with a clearly named four-segment story (VIP, regular, occasional, dormant), and bootstrap stability at k = 4 is 0.93. Which k?

Answer: Likely k = 4. The silhouette difference is small, the stability is high, and the clusters are actionable. Report both and explain the choice. The metrics guide; usefulness decides.

Problem 13.P.10 (interview) "When would you choose DBSCAN over k-means?"

Answer: When clusters are not round, differ in size, or when I need noise points flagged, and I do not know k. Use k-means when clusters are compact, round, similar in size, and I need speed on a large dataset or a fixed number of segments.

Problem 13.P.11 (interview) "How do you decide how many components PCA should keep?"

Answer: Look at the cumulative explained variance (for example 90 to 95%), the elbow in the scree plot, and the downstream metric inside cross-validation (accuracy of the final model on k components). Pick the smallest k that keeps the metric.

Prompt pack

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Teach me k-means clustering step by step: the
assign and update steps, k-means++ initialization, inertia, why scaling
matters, and how to choose k with the elbow, silhouette and stability. Use
a small hand-computed example with six points, then a short NumPy
implementation. Finally ask me three questions one at a time and wait for
my answers before correcting me.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
```

moving into data roles. Compare k-means, hierarchical clustering (single, complete, average, Ward), DBSCAN and Gaussian mixture models. For each, give the intuition, the key setting to choose, a data shape it handles well and a shape where it fails. Then give me 8 graded exercises about choosing the right method for a described dataset. Do not show the solutions until I ask.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles. Explain the EM algorithm for a two-component one-dimensional Gaussian mixture. Compute one E-step and one M-step by hand with me using the numbers [1, 2, 3, 8, 9, 10] and starting means 2 and 9 (equal weights, sd 1.5). Explain responsibilities, log-likelihood, local optima and how BIC chooses the number of components. Check my understanding with a quiz.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles. Teach me PCA from first principles: centring, covariance matrix, eigenvectors and eigenvalues, explained variance, reconstruction error, and the SVD link. Walk through a four-point two-dimensional example by hand, then explain when PCA fails, why scaling matters, and why it must be fitted inside a cross-validation pipeline. Then review my own PCA code [PASTE HERE] for mistakes.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and preparing for ML interviews. Run a mock interview on unsupervised learning: choosing k, validating clusters without labels, DBSCAN versus k-means, GMM versus k-means, PCA versus t-SNE and UMAP, reading t-SNE plots, and association rules (support, confidence, lift, the popularity pitfall). Ask one question at a time, wait for my answer, then correct me kindly and give a short model answer in simple English. Ten questions, harder each time.

CHAPTER 14

ANOMALY DETECTION, SEMI-SUPERVISED, SELF-SUPERVISED, ACTIVE, TRANSFER AND ONLINE LEARNING

What to do when labels are rare, expensive, old, or missing: find the odd one out, squeeze value from unlabelled data, reuse other people's training, and keep learning as the world moves.

In a real job you almost never get a clean table with a perfect label on every row. A shop's order system records millions of rows and nobody has marked which ones were strange. A bank has 50 million transactions and only a few thousand confirmed frauds. A hospital has 100,000 X-ray images and a doctor who can label 200 per week. This chapter gives you six tools for that world: anomaly detection (find rows that do not fit), semi-supervised learning (use a few labels plus many unlabelled rows), self-supervised learning (invent labels from the data itself), active learning (choose which rows a human should label), transfer learning (reuse a model trained on a bigger task), and online learning (update a model one batch at a time as data drifts). By the end you will run each method on a small dataset, read the numbers honestly, and know when each one fails.

All code uses NumPy and scikit-learn only, with fixed seeds. Every output below is real output from running the scripts (`c14a.py` to `c14e.py`). Tools such as `river` , `ruptures` , `cleanlab` , `snorkel` or PyTorch are *not run here*; I name them only where a professional would reach for them. Chapter 9 gave you ROC-AUC and precision, Chapter 12 introduced distribution shift, and Chapter 13 gave you k-means, GMM and PCA. We reuse all three.

14.1 Anomaly Detection by Statistics: z-score, Robust z, IQR and Control Charts

INTUITION

A shop gets about 100 orders every hour. One hour it gets 400. You notice it without any model, because it is far from the pack. Statistical anomaly detection turns "far from the pack" into a number. The trap is that the number is computed *using the pack*, and a big outlier can poison the pack's own average.

Words you need

Word	Plain meaning
Anomaly (outlier)	a data point that does not behave like the rest
Point anomaly	one value is odd (one hour with 400 orders)
Contextual anomaly	the value is normal alone but odd in context (100 orders is fine at lunch time, odd at 3 a.m.)
Collective anomaly	each point looks fine but the group is odd (orders slowly fall by a little every day for a month)
z-score	how many standard deviations a value is from the mean: `z = (x − mean) / std`
MAD	median absolute deviation: the median of `
IQR	inter-quartile range: `Q3 − Q1`, the width of the middle half of the data
Control chart	a plot over time with a centre line and limits; a point beyond the limits raises an alarm

How the rules work

```
z-score:        z  = (x − mean) / std                  flag if |z| > 3
robust z:       rz = 0.6745 · (x − median) / MAD       flag if |rz| > 3.5
IQR fences:     lower = Q1 − 1.5·IQR,  upper = Q3 + 1.5·IQR
```

The constant 0.6745 makes the robust z comparable to a normal z-score when data is bell-shaped. The number 3.5 is the usual cut-off from the textbook that introduced this score.

Problem 14.1.1 Nine hourly order counts from one shop: `102, 98, 105, 99, 101, 97, 103, 100, 400`. Compute the ordinary z-score of 400 and decide if it is an anomaly under the rule `|z| > 3`.

Formula	`z = (x − mean) / std` (population standard deviation).
Plug in	Sum of the first eight = 805, plus 400 = 1205. Mean = 1205 / 9 = 133.89. Standard deviation computed from the squared distances = 94.11.
Compute	`z = (400 − 133.89) / 94.11 = 266.11 / 94.11 = 2.83`.
Answer	The z-score of the count 400 is 2.83, which is below 3, so the rule says "not an anomaly".
Check	`np.mean` and `np.std` print 133.89 and 94.11, and the z array in the run prints `2.83` for the last value.
Why it matters	The outlier itself pulled the mean up to 133.89 and the standard deviation up to 94. It hid itself. This is called **masking**. A count of 400 among counts near 100 is obviously wrong, yet the z-score rule misses it.

Problem 14.1.2 Same data. Use the robust z-score and the IQR fences.

Step 1	Sort: `97, 98, 99, 100, 101, 102, 103, 105, 400`. The median is the 5th value: 101.
Step 2	Absolute deviations from 101: `4, 3, 2, 1, 0, 1, 2, 4, 299`. Sorted: `0, 1, 1, 2, 2, 3, 4, 4, 299`. The median of these is 2, so MAD = 2.
Step 3	Robust z of 400: `0.6745 × (400 − 101) / 2 = 0.6745 × 299 / 2 = 100.84`. Far above 3.5.
Step 4	Quartiles (NumPy linear method): `Q1 = 99`, `Q3 = 103`, `IQR = 4`. Fences: `99 − 6 = 93` and `103 + 6 = 109`. The value 400 is above 109.
Answer	Both robust methods flag 400 clearly: robust z = 100.84, and 400 is outside the fences 93 to 109.
Check	The run prints `MAD 2.0`, `robust z ... 100.84`, and `fences 93.0 109.0`. The other eight points have robust z between −1.35 and 1.35.
Why it matters	Median and MAD do not move when one value explodes, so the ruler stays honest. Use robust statistics first on messy operational data.

Control charts and CUSUM (collective anomalies in a stream)

A **control chart** (the Shewhart chart, from manufacturing) plots a metric over time and draws limits at `mean ± 3 std`. A point outside the limits is an alarm. It catches big jumps quickly but is slow for small shifts. **CUSUM** (cumulative sum) adds up small deviations so that a *steady small push* eventually crosses a line:

```
C_t = max(0, C_{t-1} + (x_t − μ₀ − k))        alarm when C_t > h
μ₀ = the normal mean,  k = slack (about half the shift you care about),  h
= alarm height
```

Think of a bucket under a slow tap. A single drop means nothing. The bucket fills if the tap keeps dripping. The `max(0, …)` makes the bucket empty out when things are normal.

Problem 14.1.3 A daily order count has mean 100 and std 10 for 200 days, then the mean jumps to 115 (a new competitor closes nearby, say). Use CUSUM with `k = 5`, `h = 40`. Predict when it alarms.

Step 1	After the jump each point adds about `115 − 100 − 5 = 10` to the bucket on average.
Step 2	To pass `h = 40` we need about `40 / 10 = 4` steps.
Answer	We expect an alarm near day 204. The run (seed 0) alarms on day 203, and the plain 3-sigma rule (`x > 130`) also first fires at 203, with no false alarms before 200.
Check	With a second stream (shift only to 108, `k = 4`, `h = 40`) CUSUM alarmed on day 210 and the `x > 130` rule on day 211, but CUSUM also gave one false alarm before the shift. In these two runs they roughly tie. CUSUM's theoretical advantage (small, steady shifts) needs longer streams and tuning of `k` and `h`; I did not demonstrate it, so do not take it as proven here.
Why it matters	Detecting a *level shift* (for example after a price change or a software release) is a classic change-point task. Libraries such as `ruptures` (change-point detection) and ADWIN (a drift detector used in `river`) are the production versions of this idea; they are *not run here*.

For data with a daily or weekly pattern, first remove the pattern (seasonal decomposition or a forecast), then run the z-score or CUSUM on the **residuals**. "High for a Monday" becomes "high compared with what we predicted".

Connection to the real job

- Alert thresholds on dashboards are z-score rules in disguise. Robust versions reduce noisy pages.
- A deployment comparison ("has the typical delivery time shifted?") is a change-point question.

Applications

- Operations monitoring: sudden spikes in server errors, drops in daily orders, slow memory leaks (a collective anomaly).
- Finance and fraud: unusual transaction amounts per customer.
- Manufacturing: control charts on machine measurements.
- Data quality: sudden jump in null rate of a column.

COMMON MISTAKE

Using mean and standard deviation to find outliers in data that already contains outliers. The outliers inflate both numbers and hide themselves. Switch to median and MAD, or the IQR fences.

Check yourself

1. What does the robust z-score use instead of mean and std? Answer: the median and the MAD.
2. Is "3 km delivery that took 60 minutes" a point, contextual or collective anomaly? Answer: contextual (each value alone looks normal; the pair is odd).
3. In CUSUM, what does `max(0, …)` do? Answer: it empties the bucket when data is normal, so old good behaviour cannot hide a new shift.

14.2 Anomaly Detection with Machine Learning

INTUITION

Statistics looks at one column at a time. But a delivery time of 60 minutes is fine, and a distance of 3 km is fine, yet *60 minutes for 3 km* is strange because delivery time normally follows distance. ML detectors look at all columns together. They answer: "does this whole row look like the normal rows?"

The detectors in one table

Method	Idea in one line	Needs	Weak spot
Isolation Forest	random trees isolate odd points in few splits	little tuning	the default cut-off flags too much
Local Outlier Factor (LOF)	compare a point's local density with its neighbours'	scaled features, `n_neighbors`	slow on huge data
One-Class SVM	draw a boundary around normal data in kernel space	scaling, `nu`, `gamma`	sensitive to `gamma`
Elliptic Envelope	fit a Gaussian (mean and covariance), flag far points by Mahalanobis distance	roughly bell-shaped data	wrong if data is not Gaussian
Autoencoder	squeeze data through a narrow layer, rebuild it; big rebuild error means odd	enough normal data	needs tuning, hard to explain
Forecast residual	predict normal value, flag big residuals	a good forecast	only as good as the forecast

Isolation Forest, the idea. Imagine you must separate one point from all others by drawing random vertical and horizontal lines. A point far from the crowd is alone after two or three lines. A point inside the crowd needs many lines. The **anomaly score** is based on the average number of lines needed. Few lines means more anomalous.

LOF, the idea. A point in a sparse area is not odd if its neighbours are also in a sparse area. LOF divides the point's neighbourhood density by its neighbours' densities. A value near 1 means "like my neighbours"; much bigger than 1 means "much lonelier than my neighbours".

Autoencoder. A neural network with the same inputs and outputs, and a narrow middle (the **bottleneck**). Trained only on normal data, it learns to rebuild normal rows well. An odd row is rebuilt badly, so `reconstruction error = ‖x − x̂‖²` is the anomaly score.

One running example: delivery time versus distance

We simulate 1,000 normal food deliveries where delivery time follows distance: about `40 + 8·(km − 5)` minutes plus noise. We inject 20 anomalies: 5 point anomalies (very late deliveries, about 120 minutes at 6 km) and 15 contextual ones (60 minutes for a short 3 km trip, which is odd because a 3 km trip normally takes about 24 minutes).

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.ensemble import IsolationForest
from sklearn.neighbors import LocalOutlierFactor
from sklearn.svm import OneClassSVM
from sklearn.covariance import EllipticEnvelope
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.neural_network import MLPRegressor
from sklearn.metrics import roc_auc_score
rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
n = 1000
dist = rng.normal(50, 10, n); mins = 100 + 2.0*(dist-50) + rng.normal(0,
8, n)   # raw units, converted below
Xn = np.c_[mins/2.5, dist/10]                       # columns: minutes, km
Xa = np.vstack([np.c_[rng.normal(300,30,5)/2.5, rng.normal(60,10,5)/10],
                np.c_[rng.normal(150,5,15)/2.5, rng.normal(30,3,15)/10]])
X = np.vstack([Xn, Xa]); y = np.r_[np.zeros(n), np.ones(20)]
Xs = StandardScaler().fit_transform(X)
def rep(name, score):
    top = np.argsort(-score)[:20]
    print(f"{name:18s} AUC={roc_auc_score(y,score):.3f}  precision@20=
{y[top].mean():.2f}")
iso = IsolationForest(n_estimators=200, random_state=0).fit(Xs);
rep("IsolationForest", -iso.score_samples(Xs))
lof = LocalOutlierFactor(n_neighbors=20).fit(Xs);              rep("LOF",
-lof.negative_outlier_factor_)
oc  = OneClassSVM(gamma="scale", nu=0.02).fit(Xs);
rep("OneClassSVM", -oc.score_samples(Xs))
ee  = EllipticEnvelope(contamination=0.02, random_state=0).fit(Xs);
rep("EllipticEnvelope", -ee.score_samples(Xs))
rep("max |z| per column", np.abs(Xs).max(1))
```

Before you run it: which method do you expect to win? The contextual anomalies each have an ordinary z-score in each column (marginal z about 2 to 3), so a column-by-column rule should

struggle. Real output:

```
marginal z of the contextual anomalies (minutes, km): [[2.85, -2.18],
[2.37, -1.71], [2.28, -1.4]]
IsolationForest    AUC=0.987  precision@20=0.45
LOF                AUC=0.999  precision@20=0.95
OneClassSVM        AUC=0.883  precision@20=0.45
EllipticEnvelope   AUC=1.000  precision@20=1.00
max |z| per column AUC=0.966  precision@20=0.35
```

The autoencoder (2 inputs, hidden layers 8, 1, 8 with `tanh`, trained on normal rows only; the exact code is in `c14a.py`) gave `AUC=1.000 precision@20=1.00`.

How to read this

- **AUC** (Chapter 9) here means: pick one random anomaly and one random normal row; AUC is the chance the anomaly gets the higher score. Almost every method scores above 0.88.
- **Precision@20** means: look at the 20 highest-scored rows, as if an analyst can review only 20 alerts. How many are real? For the one-column rule it is 0.35 (7 of 20), for Isolation Forest 0.45, for LOF 0.95, and for Elliptic Envelope and the autoencoder 1.00.
- Why did Elliptic Envelope win? Our normal data really is a tilted Gaussian blob (delivery time follows distance linearly), exactly what this model assumes. On real, lumpy data it could lose. The lesson is not "Elliptic Envelope is best". The lesson is that *the method whose assumption matches your data wins*, and that AUC can hide differences that precision@20 shows (Isolation Forest has AUC 0.987 but precision@20 of only 0.45).

Problem 14.2.1 Isolation Forest's `predict` method (with the default `contamination="auto"`) flagged how many of our 1,020 rows? Is that sensible?

Step 1	Run `iso.predict(Xs)` and count the `-1` labels.
Step 2	The run prints: flagged 131 of 1,020, true hits 20.
Answer	It flagged 131 rows (12.8 percent) although only 20 (2 percent) are anomalies. All 20 were caught, but 111 flags are false alarms.
Check	Precision of the default cut-off = 20 / 131 = 15.3 percent.
Why it matters	The ranking was good (AUC 0.987) but the *default threshold* was poor. The score is a ranking; you must choose a cut-off from business cost: "how many alerts can the team review per day?" Never ship `predict()` defaults.

Evaluation without labels

You rarely have labels. Four honest ways to evaluate:

1. **Inject synthetic anomalies** (as we did): take real normal data, add known faults, and measure recall and precision. The risk is that your fake anomalies are easier than real ones.
2. **Analyst feedback loop:** show the top alerts to a human, record "real" or "false alarm", and track precision over weeks. This also builds a labelled set for later.
3. **Precision at review capacity:** fix how many alerts a person can handle (say 20 a day), and report precision@20.
4. **Back-test on known incidents:** replay last quarter's outages; did the detector fire before the humans noticed, and how many false pages did it cause?

Connection to the real job

- Anomaly detection on monitoring or sensor data is a strong portfolio project (project 6 in the skill map): take a real time series, inject synthetic faults (a spike, a level shift, a stuck sensor), and report precision@k.
- Fraud and intrusion teams use Isolation Forest as a first screen and send the top few percent to analysts.

Applications

- Data Science: fraud, insurance claims, expense audits.
- Machine Learning: equipment failure from sensor streams (autoencoders on vibration data).
- Data Engineering: schema or volume anomalies in daily pipelines.

- MLOps: input-drift alarms on feature distributions.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reporting one AUC and calling the detector good. With 2 percent anomalies, a detector with 0.98 AUC can still waste half of the analysts' time. Always report precision at the review capacity, and set the threshold from alert cost.

Check yourself

1. Why do LOF, Isolation Forest and One-Class SVM need scaled features (at least LOF and the SVM)? Answer: they use distances or kernels, so a column in large units would dominate; we use `StandardScaler` first.
2. What does an autoencoder's bottleneck force it to do? Answer: learn only the main pattern of normal data, so odd rows are rebuilt badly.
3. Our run had AUC 0.987 and precision@20 of 0.45 for Isolation Forest. What does the gap say? Answer: ranking is good overall, but the very top of the list still holds many normal rows; check the top of the ranking, not just the average.

14.3 Semi-Supervised, Self-Supervised and Weak Supervision

INTUITION

You have 10 labelled photos and 10,000 unlabelled ones. Imagine you put all of them on a table. Even without labels, you can see two clusters: photos that look alike sit together. If one photo in a cluster is labelled "cat", the rest of that cluster are probably cats. Unlabelled data tells you the *shape* of the data; labels only name the shapes.

Semi-supervised learning

Semi-supervised learning uses a small labelled set plus a large unlabelled set. It rests on the **cluster assumption**: points close together (or in the same dense region) share a label. Three methods:

Method	How it works

Self-training (pseudo-labeling)	train on the labelled rows, predict the unlabelled rows, keep the confident predictions as **pseudo-labels** (guessed labels), retrain, repeat
Label propagation	build a neighbour graph over all points; labels flow along edges to unlabelled neighbours
Consistency regularization	the model should give the same prediction for a point and for a slightly changed copy (noise, crop); used in deep learning (not run here)

We use the two-moons dataset: 600 points, two interlocking half-moons, split 70/30. Only **10 labels** (5 per class) are given in the training part.

```
from sklearn.datasets import make_moons
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.semi_supervised import LabelPropagation,
SelfTrainingClassifier
X, y = make_moons(600, noise=0.1, random_state=0)
# ... split, take 10 labelled rows, set the rest to -1 (scikit-learn's
"unlabelled" marker)
sup = LogisticRegression().fit(Xtr[lab], ytr[lab])
lp  = LabelPropagation(kernel="knn", n_neighbors=7).fit(Xtr, yp)
st  = SelfTrainingClassifier(LogisticRegression(), threshold=0.9).fit(Xtr,
yp)
```

Predict first: a straight-line model cannot separate two moons. Will label propagation, which uses the shape, do better with the same 10 labels? Real output:

```
supervised on 10 labels acc 0.733
LabelPropagation acc 1.0 | transduction acc on unlabelled train 1.0
SelfTraining(logreg) acc 0.733
```

Problem 14.3.1 Explain why label propagation reached 1.0 and logistic regression only 0.733, using the same 10 labels.

Step 1	Logistic regression draws one straight line. Two interlocking moons cannot be separated by a line, so even perfect labels give limited accuracy. Ten labels make it worse.
Step 2	Label propagation ignores lines. It connects each point to its 7 nearest neighbours; the labels spread along the curved moon from the 5 labelled points to every other point of that moon, and stop at the gap between moons.
Answer	Label propagation used the geometry of 590 unlabelled points, so 10 labels were enough to name both moons.
Check	Error would be 0 of 180 test points (accuracy 1.0). The straight-line supervised model had 0.733, i.e. 48 of 180 wrong.
Why it matters	When the cluster assumption holds, unlabelled data can be worth more than a bigger model. The score is on 180 held-out test points predicted by `lp.predict`.

Problem 14.3.2 Self-training with threshold 0.9 also gave 0.733. Why did it not help? Try lower thresholds.

Step 1	Check the starting model. The most confident prediction of the 10-label logistic model on any unlabelled point is only 0.896, below 0.9.
Step 2	So with `threshold = 0.9` no pseudo-label was ever accepted: the run reports 10 labelled rows after 1 iteration. Self-training did nothing.
Step 3	Lower the threshold. At 0.8 it labelled 376 rows and reached 0.733 (no gain). At 0.7 it labelled 387 rows and reached 0.783.
Answer	Self-training can only be as good as its first model. A weak starting model gives either no pseudo-labels (threshold too high) or wrong ones (threshold too low), and then it learns its own mistakes.
Check	The numbers `max conf 0.896`, `labelled after 10`, `376`, `387` are from the run.
Why it matters	This is **confirmation bias**: the model trusts its own guesses. Always compare against the supervised-only baseline, and check pseudo-label accuracy on a small hand-labelled sample.

Self-supervised learning

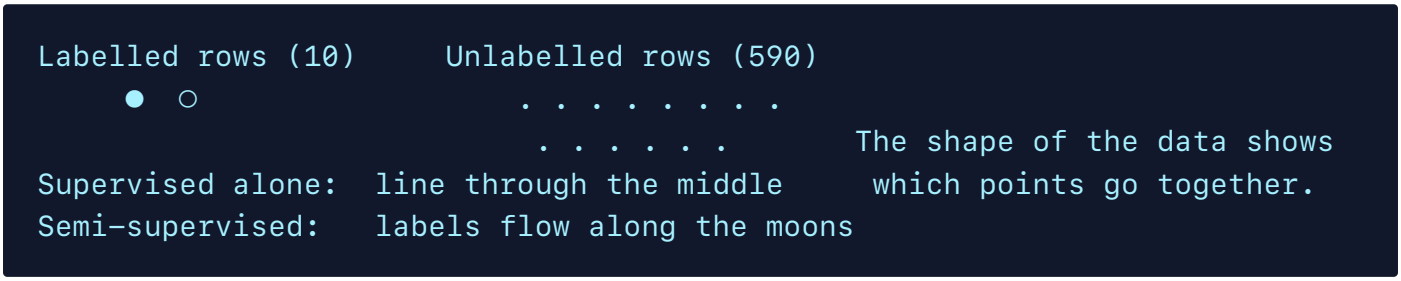
Self-supervised learning invents a labelling task from the data itself, so no human labels are needed. Hide a word and predict it. Hide a patch of an image and fill it in. Take two crops of one image and teach the model that they belong together (**contrastive learning**), while crops of different images are pushed apart. The model must learn useful structure to solve these "pretext" tasks, and that structure (the **representation**, a vector of numbers describing the input) can then be reused for real tasks. This is how large language models and modern vision models are pretrained. You cannot run this at scale on a laptop, so we treat it as a concept here (code *not run here*); you will meet the working versions in the deep learning part of the roadmap.

A small taste you *can* run: PCA (Chapter 13) is a self-supervised-style representation. It learns from the inputs alone, and its first components can be used as features. The idea scales up.

Weak supervision

When you cannot afford hand labels, write **labelling functions**: small rules like "if the message contains 'refund' and 'not received', label it complaint". Each rule is noisy and covers only some rows. A tool (such as Snorkel, *not run here*) estimates how accurate each rule is from their agreements and disagreements, and combines them into probabilistic labels. This is called **data programming**.

The picture



Connection to the real job

- Support-ticket classification: label 200 tickets, use 20,000 unlabelled ones with self-training or a pretrained language model.
- Pretrained embeddings are the output of self-supervised learning.

Applications

- GenAI: next-word prediction is the self-supervised task behind LLMs.
- Computer vision: contrastive pretraining on unlabelled images.

- Data Science: weak-labelled datasets for fraud or intent classification.
- Medicine: few labels, many scans.

COMMON MISTAKE

Adding pseudo-labels without a supervised baseline and a clean validation set. If the validation rows were pseudo-labelled by the same model, your score is meaningless. Keep a small, hand-labelled validation set that never enters the loop.

Check yourself

1. What is the cluster assumption? Answer: points in the same dense region tend to share a label.
2. What makes self-training fail? Answer: a weak first model gives wrong confident guesses (confirmation bias), or no guesses if the threshold is too strict.
3. In self-supervised learning, where does the label come from? Answer: from the data itself (a hidden word, a masked patch, a paired crop).

14.4 Active Learning

INTUITION

A teacher with limited time does not ask the student easy questions. She asks the questions where the student hesitates. Active learning lets the model say "label these ones for me", picking the rows it is most unsure about, so every human label teaches something.

How it works

1. Train on a small labelled set.
2. Score the unlabelled pool. **Uncertainty sampling** picks rows whose predicted probability is closest to 0.5 (or with the highest entropy).
3. A human labels those rows. Add them, retrain, repeat until the budget is gone.

Diversity sampling adds a second rule: do not pick 10 almost identical uncertain rows; pick uncertain rows that are spread out (for example one per cluster). A common recipe combines both.

Experiment

Pool of 2,000 rows (10 features, hard overlap), test set 1,000 rows. Start with 10 random labels, add 10 per round with either random choice or uncertainty, and compare at budgets 30, 60, 100 labels. Average over 20 different starts (seeds 0 to 19).

Problem 14.4.1 With 100 labels, how much does uncertainty sampling gain over random?

Step 1 Read the run:

```
budget 30: random 0.672  uncertainty 0.691
budget 60: random 0.722  uncertainty 0.736
budget 100: random 0.747  uncertainty 0.762
```

- **Step 2** Difference at 100 labels: `0.762 − 0.747 = 0.015` . At 30 labels: 0.019.
- **Step 3** Random needs how many labels to match 0.736? It reaches 0.722 at 60 and 0.747 at 100, so about 70 to 75 labels. Uncertainty got 0.736 with 60.
- **Answer** Uncertainty sampling gives about 1.5 to 2 accuracy points, equal to saving roughly 10 to 15 labels out of 60 to 75 in this experiment.
- **Check** The gain is small and consistent across the three budgets. It is an average over 20 starts, so it is not one lucky run.
- **Why it matters** If a label costs 50 rupees, saving 15 percent of the labels on a 100,000-row labelling job is real money. But expect modest, not magical, gains.

When active learning fails

- The first model is bad: it chooses useless rows. Start with a decent random batch.
- The most uncertain rows are mislabelled or noisy rows, so you pay humans for confusing examples.
- The labelled set becomes biased (only hard cases), so the accuracy numbers on it are no longer representative. Always keep a random test set.

Connection to the real job

Labelling vendors, medical imaging, and content moderation use active learning to decide what the next batch to label is. Pair it with the analyst feedback loop from 14.2.

Applications

- Anomaly detection: ask analysts to label the borderline alerts, not the obvious ones.
- NLP: label the sentences where the classifier is split.
- Document review (legal): rank documents for lawyers to read first.

COMMON MISTAKE

Evaluating the model on the actively chosen set. That set is full of hard cases, so accuracy looks low (or, after training, misleading). Evaluate on a separate, randomly sampled test set.

Check yourself

1. What does uncertainty sampling pick? Answer: unlabelled rows whose predicted probability is closest to 0.5.
2. Why add diversity? Answer: to avoid labelling many nearly identical uncertain rows.
3. Where should the test set come from? Answer: a random sample, not the actively selected rows.

14.5 Transfer Learning

INTUITION

A cricketer learning baseball already knows how to throw and catch. He does not restart from zero. A model pretrained on millions of images already knows edges, textures and shapes; you only teach it your small task. That is **transfer learning**: reuse what was learned on a big task for a small one.

The two ways

Way	What you do	When
Feature extraction	freeze the pretrained model, use its output vectors as features, train a small model on top	very few labels, similar domain
Fine-tuning	start from the pretrained weights and keep training on your data, with a small learning rate	moderate labels, domain a bit different

A **foundation model** is a large model pretrained (usually self-supervised) on a huge dataset, meant to be reused. For tabular data transfer is rare. For text, images and speech it is usually the best first option.

A runnable miniature

We build a world where inputs have 100 columns but are all driven by 3 hidden factors (plus lots of noise). Task A has 8,000 rows where we know the three hidden factors, and we pretrain a small network (100 inputs, a 3-unit hidden layer, 3 outputs) to predict them. Task B is a different yes/no question about the same hidden factors, with only **40 labelled rows**. We freeze the 3-unit layer and train logistic regression on those 3 features. The baseline trains logistic regression on all 100 columns with the same 40 rows. Average over 10 random draws of 40 rows.

Predict: 40 rows and 100 columns means the baseline has more parameters than rows. Who wins?

```
scratch 0.921  transfer 0.934
```

Problem 14.5.1 Compute the parameter counts and explain the result.

Formula	logistic regression parameters = columns + 1 (intercept).
Plug in	Scratch: `100 + 1 = 101` parameters for 40 rows. Transfer: `3 + 1 = 4` parameters for 40 rows.
Compute	Rows per parameter: scratch `40 / 101 = 0.40`; transfer `40 / 4 = 10`.
Answer	The transferred model has 4 parameters to learn from 40 rows, so noise cannot easily fool it. It scored 0.934 versus 0.921.
Check	The scratch model reached 0.923 when given 1,000 labels (from the first version of this experiment), so the 40-label transfer model almost matches a model with 25 times more labels.
Why it matters	This is the economic argument for transfer learning: most of the learning (finding the 3 hidden factors) was paid for once, by cheap unlabelled or related data.

Problem 14.5.2 What happened in my first attempt, and what does it teach?

Step 1	I first pretrained the network to predict Task A's *yes/no label* ($Z_1 + Z_2 > 0$) instead of the three hidden factors. Then transfer reached only 0.780 against 0.921 for scratch.
Step 2	Why? Task A's label depends on one direction in the 3-factor space, so the pretrained layer kept only that direction. Task B needs a different direction ($Z_2 - Z_3$), which the layer had thrown away.
Answer	This is **negative transfer**: a pretrained model that learned features irrelevant to the new task can be worse than starting fresh.
Check	Both numbers (0.780 and 0.921) are real outputs from the run in `c14c.py`.
Why it matters	Pretraining must teach *general* structure. Check transfer against a from-scratch baseline every time.

Connection to the real job

With a pretrained language or vision model, you freeze most layers, train a new final layer on a few hundred labelled rows, and often beat a model trained from scratch on 100,000. Code for PyTorch or Hugging Face fine-tuning is *not run here*.

Applications

- Computer vision: ImageNet-pretrained backbones for defect detection.
- NLP: pretrained text encoders for ticket classification.
- Speech: pretrained audio models for small-language recognition.
- Small data in general: a standard remedy listed in Chapter 12.

COMMON MISTAKE

Fine-tuning with a big learning rate on a tiny dataset. You wipe out the useful pretrained weights ("catastrophic forgetting"). Use a small learning rate, or freeze early layers.

Check yourself

1. Feature extraction versus fine-tuning? Answer: extraction freezes the pretrained model and trains only a head; fine-tuning also updates the pretrained weights.
2. What is negative transfer? Answer: pretraining on an unrelated or too narrow task makes

the new task worse than scratch.

3. Why did transfer win with 40 rows? Answer: it only had to learn 4 parameters instead of 101.

14.6 Online and Incremental Learning, plus Other Paradigms

INTUITION

A batch model is a printed textbook: accurate on the day of printing, getting out of date every day. An online model is a notebook you keep updating: each new page of data nudges what you know. When the world changes, the notebook follows and the textbook does not.

Definitions

Online learning updates the model one example (or one small batch) at a time, using each only once, with constant memory. **Incremental learning** is the same idea in batches. In scikit-learn, models with `partial_fit` (for example `SGDClassifier`) work this way. **Concept drift** is when the relation between inputs and the target changes over time (Chapter 12). **Prequential evaluation** ("test then train") scores each new batch with the current model *before* learning from it, so the score is always honest.

Experiment

A stream of 40 batches of 200 rows each. Two features. For batches 0 to 19 the label is $x_1 > 0$. From batch 20 the rule flips to $x_2 > 0$ (drift). Online model: `SGDClassifier` with `partial_fit` on every batch. Frozen model: trained only on batches 0 to 19.

Predict: after the drift, what accuracy does a frozen model get? (Hint: a rule on x_1 against a truth on x_2; the two are independent coin flips.)

```
online prequential acc: batches1-19 0.991 | 20-22 0.737 | 30-39 0.992
frozen model          : batches1-19 0.991 | 20-22 0.480 | 30-39 0.493
```

Problem 14.6.1 Read the table: what do the numbers say, and what is 0.493?

Step 1	Before drift both are 0.991.
Step 2	Right after drift (first three post-drift batches) the online model falls to 0.737 and the frozen one to 0.480.
Step 3	After 10 more batches the online model is back to 0.992; the frozen one is 0.493.
Answer	The frozen model is at about 0.5 because its rule on x_1 is now independent of the new label, so it is as good as a coin flip. The online model recovered in a few batches.
Check	If x_1 and the new label $x_2 > 0$ are independent, the old rule matches the new label half the time: 0.5. The observed 0.48 and 0.493 agree.
Why it matters	In production a silent drop to 0.5 would not crash anything. You would only see it with monitoring (Chapter 12 and your MLOps document).

Trade-offs

- Online learners adapt fast but can also **chase noise** (forget good old patterns). Use a decaying learning rate or a drift detector (ADWIN, in `river`, *not run here*) to decide when to reset.
- Reproducibility is harder: the model depends on the order of data. Log the stream position.
- Simple batch retraining on a schedule (nightly, weekly) is often enough and much easier to debug. Choose online learning when data volume or drift speed demands it.

Other paradigms (awareness only)

Paradigm	One-line idea	Typical use
Multi-task learning	one model with several outputs shares inner features	predict price and delivery time together
Multi-label learning	one row can have several labels at once	tagging a news article with many topics
Learning to rank	learn to order items, not predict a number; loss compares pairs or lists	search results, recommendations
Federated learning	train on user devices, share only model	phone keyboards,

	updates, never raw data	hospitals
Metric learning / Siamese networks	learn an embedding where similar items are close	face match, duplicate-product search
Differential privacy	add calibrated noise so one person's record cannot be recovered	releasing statistics safely

None of these needs to be mastered now. Know what each one is for, so you can name it in an interview and search for it when a project needs it.

Connection to the real job

Fraud models and ad ranking are retrained or updated continuously because behaviour drifts. Recommendation teams rely on learning-to-rank metrics (NDCG, Chapter 9).

Applications

- Fraud: the fraudsters change tactics weekly.
- Price and demand: habits change after festivals or policy changes.
- IoT: sensors age and drift.
- Search: click behaviour shifts with new products.

COMMON MISTAKE

Evaluating an online model on a random split of the stream. It leaks the future. Use prequential evaluation (score each batch before training on it), as we did.

Check yourself

1. What does `partial_fit` do? Answer: it updates the model with one new batch without retraining from scratch.
2. What is prequential evaluation? Answer: test on each new batch first, then train on it.
3. Why is a frozen model about 0.5 after our flipped rule? Answer: its old rule is independent of the new label.

Chapter recap

- Anomalies come in three kinds: point, contextual and collective. Decide which you are hunting before choosing a method.
- Mean and std hide outliers (masking). Median and MAD (robust z), or IQR fences, do not.
- CUSUM adds up small deviations so that a steady shift triggers an alarm; control charts catch big jumps.
- Isolation Forest, LOF, One-Class SVM, Elliptic Envelope and autoencoders look at all columns together; the one whose assumption fits your data wins.
- Anomaly scores are rankings. Choose the threshold from alert cost and review capacity, and report precision@k.
- Semi-supervised learning (label propagation, self-training) uses unlabelled data, but self-training copies its own mistakes if the first model is weak.
- Self-supervised learning builds its own labels from the data; it is how large pretrained models are made.
- Active learning labels the most uncertain rows first; expect modest savings and evaluate on a random test set.
- Transfer learning reuses a pretrained model and wins when labels are few; check against scratch for negative transfer.
- Online learning follows drift using `partial_fit`; use prequential evaluation.

Item	Formula or command	Note
z-score	`(x − mean) / std`	flag `
Robust z	`0.6745·(x − median) / MAD`	flag `
IQR fences	`Q1 − 1.5·IQR`, `Q3 + 1.5·IQR`	quick box-plot rule
CUSUM	`C = max(0, C + x − μ₀ − k)`	alarm when `C > h`
Isolation Forest	`IsolationForest().fit(X)`; `score_samples`	low score is odd
LOF	`LocalOutlierFactor(n_neighbors=20)`	`negative_outlier_factor_`
Self-training	`SelfTrainingClassifier(model, threshold=0.9)`	unlabelled rows marked `−1`
Label propagation	`LabelPropagation(kernel="knn")`	graph-based

Online	`SGDClassifier().partial_fit(X, y, classes=...)`	prequential test

Practice set

1. (easy) Data: `10, 12, 11, 13, 12, 90`. Find the median and MAD. **Answer:** Sorted: 10, 11, 12, 12, 13, 90; median = (12 + 12) / 2 = 12. Absolute deviations: 2, 0, 1, 1, 1, 78 sorted 0, 1, 1, 1, 2, 78; MAD = (1 + 1) / 2 = 1.

2. (easy) Using problem 1, the robust z of 90. **Answer:** `0.6745 × (90 − 12) / 1 = 52.6`. Clearly an outlier (cut-off 3.5).

3. (easy) What kind of anomaly is a slow memory leak over two hours? **Answer:** Collective: each minute alone looks fine; the trend is the anomaly.

4. (medium) CUSUM with $\mu_0 = 50$, $k = 2$, $h = 10$ on the values `50, 55, 56, 54, 58`. Find the alarm step (counting from 1). **Answer:** Step 1: `max(0, 0 + 50 − 50 − 2) = 0`. Step 2: `0 + 55 − 52 = 3`. Step 3: `3 + 56 − 52 = 7`. Step 4: `7 + 54 − 52 = 9`. Step 5: `9 + 58 − 52 = 15 > 10`, alarm at step 5.

5. (medium) What is the output? `LabelPropagation().fit(X, y)` where every `y` is `−1`. **Answer:** It fails or is meaningless: there are no labelled rows to propagate. At least one label per class is required.

6. (medium) Find the bug: you scale your data with `StandardScaler().fit(X_all)`, then call `LocalOutlierFactor` and report AUC using injected anomalies that were included in `X_all`. **Answer:** The scaler saw the anomalies, so their extremeness is slightly softened and the evaluation is optimistic. In a real pipeline you would fit the scaler on normal training history only (we did so for the autoencoder). It is a small leak, but the habit matters.

7. (medium) You can pay for 500 labels out of 50,000 rows. Describe an active learning plan. **Answer:** Label 100 random rows for a starting model and a random test set of 150 rows. Then in 5 rounds of 50, pick uncertain rows with a diversity rule (for example one per cluster from k-means), retrain, and track accuracy on the random test set. Compare with random labelling at the same budget.

8. (hard) Logistic regression on 100 features with 40 rows versus on 3 transferred features. Which has higher variance and why? **Answer:** The 100-feature model: 101 parameters from 40 rows can fit noise. The 4-parameter model has far lower variance (Chapter 1).

9. (hard, interview) A fraud detector has AUC 0.97 but the team complains of too many false alerts. What do you check? **Answer:** The threshold and the review capacity: compute precision@k at the number of alerts the team can handle; look at base rate (low fraud rate makes precision small even for high AUC); consider cost-based thresholds (Chapter 9) and feedback labels.

10. (hard, interview) "Your model's accuracy was 95 percent last month and nobody noticed it fell to 70 percent." How would you have caught it, and how would you fix it? **Answer:** Monitor input drift (PSI, KS test, adversarial validation) and, once labels arrive, prequential accuracy on recent batches; set alerts. Fix by retraining on recent data (maybe with recency weights) or switching to online learning, then investigate the cause of the drift.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Teach me anomaly detection on monitoring data: point, contextual
and collective anomalies, z-score versus robust z-score (median and MAD),
IQR fences, CUSUM, Isolation Forest and LOF. Explain step by step with
small numbers, then ask me three questions one at a time and check my
answers before moving on.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Give me 8
graded exercises (easy to hard, no solutions) on evaluating anomaly
detectors without labels: injected synthetic anomalies, precision at
review capacity, threshold choice from alert cost, and why AUC alone
misleads. Use delivery time and distance data as the story. When I send my
answers, mark them and explain each mistake.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Explain semi-
supervised learning (self-training, label propagation, pseudo-labels) and
self-supervised learning (masked prediction, contrastive learning) with
everyday analogies. Then quiz me one question at a time on when each
```

works, when self-training fails because of confirmation bias, and how to keep an honest validation set. Wait for my answer each time.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Teach me active learning and transfer learning: uncertainty and diversity sampling, feature extraction versus fine-tuning, negative transfer, and how to compare with a from-scratch baseline. Give a small numeric example for each, then run a mock interview with five questions, one at a time, and give feedback on my spoken-style answers. My answers: [PASTE HERE]

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Review my plan for an online-learning system that updates a model with partial_fit on a data stream with concept drift. Check my evaluation (prequential), my drift monitoring, my retraining or reset rule, and my risks. Ask me clarifying questions first, then give a numbered list of problems and fixes. My plan: [PASTE HERE]

CHAPTER 15

REINFORCEMENT LEARNING AND BANDITS

Learning to act, not just to predict: exploration versus exploitation, Thompson sampling, Markov decision processes, Bellman equations and Q-learning on a tiny grid world.

Every model so far answered "what is the label?". A bandit or reinforcement-learning (RL) system answers a different question: "what should I do now, so that things go well later?" Which of three web-page designs should be shown to the next visitor? Which ad? Which route should a delivery robot take? The system must act, see a reward, and improve, and it must pay for its own mistakes while it learns. For most business problems the practical entry point is the **bandit**: a one-step version of RL that powers adaptive experiments, recommendations and personalization. By the end of this chapter you will run a Thompson-sampling simulation and compare it with a fixed A/B test, build an Atari-style "Hello World" (Q-learning on a 4 by 4 grid), compute a Bellman update by hand, and know where the rest of the RL zoo (DQN, PPO, RLHF) fits.

Everything below uses NumPy only, fixed seeds, and real outputs from `/tmp/ml_scripts/c15a.py` and `c15b.py`. `gymnasium`, `stable-baselines3` and `RLlib` (the standard libraries) are not installed here, so any code that uses them is marked "not run here". Chapter 1 introduced reinforcement learning as one of the four families; this chapter opens it up. You will also use Bayes' rule and the Beta distribution from the learner's Math PDF (the probability pillar).

15.1 Multi-Armed Bandits: Exploration versus Exploitation

INTUITION

You walk into a food street with three stalls. You have 5,000 meals to eat in your life here. Stall 3 might be the best, but you do not know. If you always return to the first stall that was decent, you may never find the best one (no exploration). If you keep trying random stalls forever, you waste meals on bad food (no exploitation). A bandit algorithm is a rule for balancing the two. The name comes from a casino slot machine, the "one-armed bandit": each stall is an "arm".

Words you need

Word	Plain meaning
Arm / action	one choice (page design A, B or C)
Reward	the number we get after the choice (1 for click, 0 for no click)
Policy	the rule that picks the next arm
Exploration	trying an arm to learn about it
Exploitation	choosing the arm that currently looks best
Regret	`best possible reward − reward we got`, summed over time; the price of not knowing

Our running problem

Three page designs have true click rates `0.04, 0.05, 0.06`. We do not know these. We show the page 5,000 times and want as many clicks as possible. The **expected regret per step** of picking arm `a` is `0.06 − p_a`.

Five policies

Policy	Rule
Fixed A/B (round-robin)	cycle through the arms equally, never adapt
Greedy	after trying each arm once, always pick the best average
Epsilon-greedy	with probability ε = 0.1 pick a random arm, otherwise the best average
UCB (upper confidence bound)	pick the arm with the highest `mean + √(2·ln t / n)`: average plus a bonus for arms tried rarely
Thompson sampling	keep a belief about each arm's rate; draw one random sample from each belief; pick the arm with the largest draw

Thompson sampling, step by step

Each arm's click rate is unknown, so we describe our belief by a **Beta distribution** `Beta(α, β)` : start with `α = 1, β = 1` (every rate between 0 and 1 equally likely). After each show, add 1 to `α` on a click, or add 1 to `β` on no click. The mean of the belief is `α / (α + β)` . The spread shrinks as we gather data.

Why does it explore? An arm with few observations has a wide belief, so sometimes its random draw is large and it wins. An arm that is clearly poor has a narrow belief and rarely wins. Exploration fades by itself. This is **probability matching**: pick each arm with the probability that it is the best.

Problem 15.1.1 Arm A has had 3 clicks in 20 shows. Arm B has had 1 click in 5 shows. Compute each Beta belief, its mean and standard deviation, and the chance that B is truly better than A.

Formula	`α = 1 + clicks` , `β = 1 + non−clicks` ; mean `= α / (α+β)` ; `sd = √( αβ / ((α+β)²(α+β+1)) )` .
Plug in	A: `α = 1 + 3 = 4` , `β = 1 + 17 = 18` . B: `α = 1 + 1 = 2` , `β = 1 + 4 = 5` .
Compute	Mean A `= 4 / 22 = 0.182` . Mean B `= 2 / 7 = 0.286` . Sd A `= √(4·18 / (22²·23)) = √(72 / 11132) = 0.080` . Sd B `= √(2·5 / (7²·8)) = √(10 / 392) = 0.160` .
Answer	B has the higher mean (0.286 versus 0.182) but its belief is twice as wide. Drawing 100,000 samples from each (seed 0) gives `P(B > A) = 0.697` .
Check	If B's belief were exactly as narrow as A's, the probability that B beats A would be near 1 (0.286 is well above 0.182). Because B is wide, A still wins about 30 percent of the time, so Thompson sampling will still pick A about 30 percent of the time. That is exploration, on purpose.
Why it matters	A fixed A/B test would show B and A equally. Thompson sampling spends more traffic on B while still collecting data on A.

The simulation

We run each policy 200 times (200 different seeds, 5,000 steps each) and average the cumulative regret.

```
import numpy as np
true_p = np.array([0.04, 0.05, 0.06]); T = 5000; K = 3
def run(policy, seed):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    a = np.ones(K); b = np.ones(K); n = np.zeros(K); s = np.zeros(K); R =
0; reg = np.zeros(T)
    for t in range(T):
        if   policy == "ab":     arm = t % K
        elif policy == "greedy": arm = t if t < K else
int(np.argmax(s/np.maximum(n,1)))
        elif policy == "eps":    arm = t if t < K else (rng.integers(K) if
rng.random() < 0.1 else int(np.argmax(s/n)))
        elif policy == "ucb":    arm = t if t < K else int(np.argmax(s/n +
np.sqrt(2*np.log(t+1)/n)))
        elif policy == "ts":     arm = int(np.argmax(rng.beta(a, b)))
# Thompson sampling
        r = rng.random() < true_p[arm]
        n[arm] += 1; s[arm] += r; a[arm] += r; b[arm] += 1 - r
        R += true_p.max() - true_p[arm]; reg[t] = R
    return reg
```

Before you run it, predict the order from best to worst at step 5,000. For the fixed A/B policy we can compute the answer by hand: average regret per step is `0.06 − mean(0.04, 0.05, 0.06) = 0.06 − 0.05 = 0.01`, so after 5,000 steps the regret is `5000 × 0.01 = 50`.

```
ab      regret@1000=10.01 regret@5000=50.01  share on best arm=0.33
greedy  regret@1000=18.88 regret@5000=94.48  share on best arm=0.03
eps     regret@1000=10.64 regret@5000=29.95  share on best arm=0.58
ucb     regret@1000=9.32  regret@5000=43.73  share on best arm=0.40
ts      regret@1000=7.09  regret@5000=21.84  share on best arm=0.66
```

Problem 15.1.2 Read the table. Which policy wins, by how much, and why is greedy so bad?

Step 1	Regret at 5,000 steps: Thompson 21.84, epsilon-greedy 29.95, UCB 43.73, fixed A/B 50.01, greedy 94.48. Lower is better.
Step 2	Thompson versus fixed A/B: `21.84 / 50.01 = 0.44`, so Thompson wasted 56 percent less. Measured in clicks, it gave 28 more clicks per 5,000 shows on average.
Step 3	Greedy looks at its first few results. With click rates this low (4 to 6 percent) the first one or two shows say almost nothing, so it often locks onto a bad arm. Its share of traffic on the best arm is 0.03, the A/B check `0.33 = 1/3` shows what "no information" looks like.
Answer	Thompson sampling wins; greedy loses even to a plain A/B test because it stops exploring too early.
Check	The fixed A/B number `50.01` agrees with our hand calculation of 50.
Why it matters	Real rewards are noisy and rates are small. Under such noise, forcing exploration is not optional.

PROFESSOR'S NOTE

Thompson sampling's win here does not mean UCB is bad. UCB with a constant of 2 explores heavily on rewards in [0, 1] when the real rates are only 4 to 6 percent, so it needs more tuning. Epsilon-greedy with a fixed 0.1 keeps spending 10 percent of its traffic on random arms forever (an average regret of 0.01 on those steps, so about 0.001 per step, or 5 over 5,000 steps). Always compare policies on the same simulation of your own problem.

Bandit or A/B test?

	Fixed A/B test	Bandit
Goal	learn the truth with a clean statistical test	earn reward while learning
Traffic	equal split	shifts to the winner
Good when	you need an unbiased effect size, a decision to ship or not	the cost of showing a poor arm is high and the options are many or change

Weakness	wastes traffic on losers	biased estimates for the losers; harder to analyse; non-stationary rates confuse it

Contextual bandits and off-policy evaluation

A **contextual bandit** also sees a context (the user's country, device, time) before choosing, and learns how reward depends on it. LinUCB assumes reward is linear in the context: it keeps a ridge-regression estimate per arm (Chapter 3) and picks the arm with the best predicted reward plus an uncertainty bonus. The code is short but is *not run here*.

Off-policy evaluation asks: "I have logs from the old policy. How well would a new policy have done, without deploying it?" The simplest tool is **inverse propensity scoring (IPS)**: weight each logged reward by `1 / (probability the old policy chose that action)` if the new policy would have picked the same action, else 0.

Problem 15.1.3 Six logged shows (old policy picked A or B with probability 0.5 each): `(B, reward 1), (A, 0), (B, 0), (B, 1), (A, 1), (B, 0)`. The new policy would always pick B. Estimate its click rate with IPS.

Formula	`IPS = (1/n) · Σ [new action = logged action] · reward / p_old`.
Plug in	Only B rows count: rewards 1, 0, 1, 0, each weighted by `1 / 0.5 = 2`.
Compute	Sum `= 2·1 + 2·0 + 2·1 + 2·0 = 4`. Divide by `n = 6`: `4/6 = 0.667`.
Answer	IPS estimates 0.667. A simple average of the four B rows is `2/4 = 0.5`. The **self-normalized** version `Σ w·r / Σ w = 4 / 8 = 0.5` agrees with it.
Check	The difference arises because B happened to be logged 4 times instead of the expected 3 out of 6. With so few rows IPS is noisy; it needs thousands of rows and honest logged probabilities.
Why it matters	Without off-policy evaluation, every new recommendation policy must be tested live. The risk: the logging policy must have given every action a non-zero chance, or IPS cannot estimate it.

Connection to the real job

- Product teams use bandits for headlines, banners, recommendation carousels and price tests.

- Operations: a bandit that chooses among three ways of assigning delivery slots, with late deliveries as negative reward, uses the same maths.
- Portfolio project 7 in the skill map: "bandit simulation vs A/B test showing regret and when each wins". The simulation above is your starting point; extend it by changing the gaps between click rates.

Applications

- Marketing: choosing among email subject lines.
- E-commerce: ranking blocks on a home page.
- Healthcare: adaptive clinical trials (with strong ethics review).
- Operations: picking the best delivery-slot rule online.

COMMON MISTAKE

Treating a bandit's estimates as an A/B test result. Because traffic goes mostly to the winner, the losing arms have little data and wide uncertainty. If you need a trustworthy effect size, run a fixed test (Chapter 10, comparing models).

Check yourself

1. In Thompson sampling, what happens to α and β after a click on an arm? Answer: α goes up by 1 (β is unchanged).
2. Why does greedy fail with low click rates? Answer: it decides from very few noisy observations and never explores again.
3. What does regret measure? Answer: the total reward lost compared with always playing the best arm.

15.2 Markov Decision Processes, Rewards and Bellman Equations

INTUITION

A bandit is one choice, one reward, and then the game resets. Real life is a chain: a chess move changes the board, which changes what your next move can do. RL is about chains. The key trick is to value a situation not by the reward you get *right now* but by the total you can collect *from here on*.

Definitions

An **MDP** (Markov decision process) is the formal setting. It has:

Part	Symbol	Grid-world example
States	`s`	which cell you are in (16 cells)
Actions	`a`	up, down, left, right
Transition	`s' = f(s, a)`	the cell you land in (bumping a wall keeps you in place)
Reward	`r(s, a, s')`	−1 per step, +10 for the goal, −10 for the pit
Discount	`γ` between 0 and 1	0.9: a reward one step later is worth 90 percent

Markov means the future depends only on the current state, not on how you got there. A **policy** `π(s)` says which action to take in each state. The **return** is the discounted sum of rewards: `G = r₁ + γ·r₂ + γ²·r₃ + …`. The discount `γ` does two jobs: it says that sooner is better, and it keeps infinite sums finite.

The **value function** `V^π(s)` is the expected return from `s` if you follow policy `π`. The **action-value** `Q^π(s, a)` is the expected return if you take action `a` first and then follow `π`.

The Bellman equations

The value of a state equals the immediate reward plus the discounted value of where you land. For the best possible policy:

```
V*(s)    = max over a of [ r(s,a) + γ · V*(s') ]          (Bellman
optimality, deterministic moves)
Q*(s,a)  = r(s,a) + γ · max over a' of Q*(s',a')
```

Why is it called an equation and not a formula? Because `V*` appears on both sides. You can start with a guess (all zeros) and apply the right-hand side again and again. The values settle on the correct answer. That repeat-until-stable method is **value iteration**, a kind of **dynamic programming** (DP): solve a big problem by combining solutions of smaller ones. DP requires that you *know* the transitions and rewards (a full model of the world).

Our grid world

```
Row 0:  S  .  .  .
Row 1:  .  X  .  .       S = start (0,0)     G = goal (3,3), reward +10,
episode ends
Row 2:  .  .  .  .       X = pit  (1,1),     reward −10, episode ends
Row 3:  .  .  .  G       every other move costs −1;  γ = 0.9
```

Axes: the first number is the row (0 at the top), the second is the column. Moving off the grid leaves you in place and still costs −1.

Problem 15.2.1 Compute `V*` for the cell (2,3), which sits directly above the goal, and the cell (2,2), which is diagonal to the goal.

Formula	`V*(s) = max_a [ r + γ · V*(s') ]`.
Plug in	From (2,3), moving down enters the goal: `r = +10`, episode ends, so no future value. `V*(2,3) = 10`.
Compute	From (2,2), the best move is right (to (2,3)) or down (to (3,2)). Both cost −1 and land on a cell worth 10: `V*(2,2) = −1 + 0.9 × 10 = 8`.
Answer	`V*(2,3) = 10` and `V*(2,2) = 8`.
Check	The run of value iteration prints 10.0 at (2,3) and 8.0 at (2,2).
Why it matters	The value spreads backwards from the goal like water flowing downhill: each step away loses 1 reward and 10 percent of the future.

Problem 15.2.2 Continue outward to compute `V*(2,1)`, `V*(2,0)` and the start cell `V*(0,0)`.

Step 1	`V*(2,1) = −1 + 0.9 × 8 = 6.2`.
Step 2	`V*(2,0) = −1 + 0.9 × 6.2 = 4.58`.
Step 3	`V*(1,0) = −1 + 0.9 × 4.58 = 3.122`, and `V*(0,0) = −1 + 0.9 × 3.122 = 1.81` (rounded).
Answer	`V*(0,0) = 1.81`: following the best policy from the start, you expect a discounted return of 1.81.
Check	Value iteration converged in 6 sweeps and printed the grid below; every number matches the hand calculation. The pit has value 0 in the table (terminal state, not a real value).
Why it matters	The start value is small even though the goal pays +10, because six moves of −1 and the discount eat most of it. An agent that does not "see" these costs would wander.

```
value iteration converged in 6 sweeps
[[ 1.81  3.12  4.58  6.2 ]
 [ 3.12  0.    6.2   8.  ]
 [ 4.58  6.2   8.   10.  ]
 [ 6.2   8.   10.    0.  ]]
optimal policy (from V):
v > v v
v X v v
v v v v
> > > G
```

Reading the policy: each arrow is the best action in that cell. Several arrows are ties (for example from (0,0), both "down" and "right" give 1.81, and the code takes the first). The optimal path never touches the pit cell X.

Monte Carlo and temporal-difference learning

Value iteration needs the model. When you do not have one, you learn from experience, by playing episodes:

Method	How it estimates the value of a state
Monte	play a whole episode, compute the actual return from each state, average over

Carlo (MC)	many episodes. Unbiased but needs episodes to finish and has high variance
Temporal-difference (TD)	update after every single step using a **bootstrap**: `V(s) ← V(s) + α·[ r + γ·V(s') − V(s) ]`. The bracket is the **TD error**: a guess about the future minus the previous guess

TD is "learn a guess from a better guess". It is the engine of most modern RL.

Connection to the real job

Think of a shop managing stock: the state is the stock level, the actions are order more or wait, the reward is sales minus storage cost minus a penalty for empty shelves. Bellman thinking is how you weigh "pay now for extra stock" against "avoid lost sales later".

Applications

- Operations: inventory and queue control.
- Robotics: navigation and manipulation.
- Games: board games and video games.
- Finance: execution of large orders.

COMMON MISTAKE

Setting `γ = 1` or choosing rewards carelessly and then wondering why the agent loops forever or dawdles. Without a step cost or a discount, "reach the goal in 6 steps" and "reach it in 600 steps" are worth the same.

Check yourself

1. In `V*(2,2) = −1 + 0.9 × 10`, what are the −1 and the 0.9? Answer: the step reward and the discount factor.
2. Why is it called "Markov"? Answer: the future depends only on the current state, not on the path to it.
3. What does DP need that Monte Carlo and TD do not? Answer: a full model of transitions and rewards.

15.3 Q-learning, SARSA and the Deep-RL Zoo

INTUITION

Imagine playing the grid world blindfolded with no map. You try moves, collect rewards, and keep a notebook with one number for every (cell, move) pair: "how good was this move from this cell?". After enough play, the notebook tells you the best move in every cell. That notebook is the **Q-table**.

The update rule

After taking action `a` in state `s`, receiving `r` and landing in `s'`:

```
Q(s,a) ← Q(s,a) + α · [ r + γ · max over a' of Q(s',a') − Q(s,a) ]
(Q-learning)
```

`α` (the learning rate, 0.1 here) says how far to move toward the new estimate. The bracket is the TD error again. The `max` means Q-learning updates toward the *best* next action, even if the agent will not actually take it: it is **off-policy** (it learns the optimal policy while behaving differently, for example with exploration). **SARSA** replaces the max by the action `a'` the agent really takes next: `Q(s,a) ← Q(s,a) + α·[r + γ·Q(s',a') − Q(s,a)]`. It is **on-policy**: it learns the value of the exploring policy itself, so it is more cautious near danger.

To explore, we use **ε-greedy action choice** with ε = 0.2: with 20 percent probability take a random action.

Problem 15.3.1 Start with all Q values at 0, α = 0.1, γ = 0.9. The agent is in (2,3) and moves down into the goal. Then, in a later episode, it moves right from (2,2) to (2,3). Compute both updates.

Formula	`Q ← Q + α·[r + γ·max Q(s') − Q]`.
Plug in (first)	`r = +10`, the goal ends the episode, so the future term is 0: `Q((2,3), down) = 0 + 0.1 × (10 − 0) = 1.0`.
Plug in (second)	`r = −1`, and `max Q` at (2,3) is now 1.0: `Q((2,2), right) = 0 + 0.1 × (−1 + 0.9 × 1.0 − 0) = 0.1 × (−0.1) = −0.01`.
Answer	The two updates are 1.0 and −0.01.
Check	Run `single update from (2,3) down: (3, 3) 10.0 True new Q = 1.0` confirms the first. The second is simple arithmetic: `−1 + 0.9 = −0.1`, times 0.1.
Why it matters	Notice the second update is slightly *negative*: one good update at the goal has not yet taught the neighbour that this move is good. Value information crawls backwards one cell per visit. That is why RL needs thousands of episodes.

The experiment

```
def qlearn(seed, episodes=3000, alpha=0.1, eps=0.2, sarsa=False):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed); Q = np.zeros((N, N, 4)); rets = []
    for ep in range(episodes):
        s = (0, 0); G = 0
        a = rng.integers(4) if rng.random() < eps else
int(np.argmax(Q[s]))
        for t in range(100):
            ns, rw, d = step(s, a); G += rw
            na = rng.integers(4) if rng.random() < eps else
int(np.argmax(Q[ns]))
            tgt = rw if d else rw + gamma * (Q[ns][na] if sarsa else
Q[ns].max())
            Q[s][a] += alpha * (tgt - Q[s][a]); s, a = ns, na
            if d: break
        rets.append(G)
    return Q, rets
```

(`step`, `N`, `gamma` are the grid-world definitions from the earlier code; the full script is `c15b.py`.) Predict: what is the average return in the first 50 episodes, when Q is all zeros and the agent is mostly random? Real output:

```
Q-learning policy after 3000 episodes:
> > v v
v X v v
> > > v
> > > G
mean return episodes 1–50: -6.64  | last 50: 2.58
Q at start (0,0): [ 0.63  1.81  0.63  1.81] optimal: [ 0.63  1.81  0.63
1.81]
SARSA policy:
> > > v
v X v v
v > > v
> > > G
SARSA mean return last 50: 3.34
greedy path [(0, 0), (0, 1), (0, 2), (1, 2), (2, 2), (2, 3), (3, 3)]
return 5.0
final-50 mean return over 10 seeds: mean 2.49 min 0.82 max 3.60
```

Problem 15.3.2 Interpret the numbers.

Step 1	At the start the average return is −6.64: a random walker often falls into the pit (−10) or wanders paying −1 per step.
Step 2	After training, the learned Q at the start cell is `[0.63, 1.81, 0.63, 1.81]` for (up, down, left, right). The optimal values from value iteration are exactly the same. Up and left bump the wall and cost −1 plus a step later: `−1 + 0.9 × 1.81 = 0.63`. Down and right give `1.81`.
Step 3	Following the learned policy greedily from (0,0) takes 6 moves: five at −1 then +10, a return of `−5 + 10 = 5.0`. It stays away from X.
Step 4	The "last 50 episodes" return is only 2.58, not 5, because while learning we still explore with ε = 0.2: about one move in five is random, and random moves cost steps or even a pit fall.
Answer	The agent found the optimal behaviour (return 5.0 when acting greedily). The training return of 2.58 is lower because of exploration.
Check	The Q-learning arrows differ from value iteration's in places, but each arrow still points along a shortest safe path (ties). Greedy return 5.0 equals the best possible `−5 + 10`.
Why it matters	Report the greedy (evaluation) return and the training return separately, as in every RL paper.

Problem 15.3.3 Do all cells converge? The run shows a worst gap of `|Q − Q∗| = 5.23`. Where?

Step 1	The worst entry is at cell (3,0), action "down" (a wall bump): `Q = −0.65` versus `Q∗ = 4.58`, a gap of 5.23. Even the best action there, "right", has `Q = 3.88` versus `Q∗ = 6.2`.
Step 2	Cell (3,0) is the bottom-left corner. The learned policy goes right across the top and rarely visits it, so its Q-values are updated rarely.
Step 3	Over all cells, the mean error of the best value is only `0.176`, and the median error over every (cell, action) is 0.
Answer	Q-learning converges on the cells it keeps visiting. Cells it seldom visits stay inaccurate.
Check	The theory says Q-learning converges if every state-action pair is visited infinitely often and α is reduced suitably; with finite episodes and ε = 0.2, rare cells lag.
Why it matters	Exploration is not a detail. A poorly explored corner may hide a better route, and in real systems it may hide a danger.

Problem 15.3.4 SARSA's policy has an arrow `>` at (0,2) and different arrows from Q-learning in a few places, and its training return is higher (3.34 versus 2.58). Why would the on-policy method score higher during training?

Step 1	SARSA's update uses the next action that will actually be taken, including random exploration moves.
Step 2	So it counts the risk that an exploratory move near the pit may fall in, and chooses cells away from danger.
Answer	SARSA optimizes the policy it is actually running (with exploration), so its training-time return is higher; Q-learning optimizes the greedy policy and pays more during training. With ε going to 0 they agree.
Check	With one seed each, 3.34 versus 2.58 is a single comparison; across 10 seeds Q-learning's final-50 mean ranges from 0.82 to 3.60 (mean 2.49), so the gap is within the seed-to-seed noise. I did not run SARSA over 10 seeds, so treat the SARSA advantage as an illustration, not a proof. (Run it yourself and check.)
Why it matters	The textbook "cliff-walking" example shows this safety difference clearly; for safety-critical systems prefer to know which one you used.

From a table to a network: the deep-RL zoo

A Q-table needs one cell per state. A video game has more states than atoms in the universe. The fix is **function approximation**: a neural network `Q(s, a; θ)`.

Method	Idea	Note (not run here)
DQN (Deep Q-Network)	a neural net replaces the Q-table; trained with Q-learning targets	needs a replay buffer (store and re-sample old experience) and a target network (a slow copy used for the TD target) for stability
Policy gradient (REINFORCE)	learn the policy directly: raise the probability of actions that led to high return	high variance; subtract a baseline
Actor-critic (A2C)	an *actor* picks actions, a *critic* estimates the value; the critic reduces the actor's variance	the standard modern building block
PPO	policy gradient that limits how much the policy may change per update (clipping)	a common default for practical work
Model-based RL	learn a model of the world and plan inside it	awareness; more sample-efficient, harder to get right

For practical work use libraries: `gymnasium` (environments), `stable-baselines3` and `RLlib` (algorithms). Sutton and Barto's free textbook, David Silver's lectures and OpenAI's Spinning Up are the standard learning resources; links change, so search by name.

Practical difficulties (be honest)

- **Sparse rewards:** the agent gets +10 only at the goal. In a huge world a random agent never finds it, so nothing is learned.
- **Sample inefficiency:** our tiny grid needed thousands of episodes. Games and robots need millions.
- **Sim-to-real gap:** an agent trained in a simulator may fail in the real world, where physics differ.

- **Reward hacking:** the agent maximizes the reward you wrote, not what you meant. A cleaning robot rewarded for "no visible dirt" may cover the dirt.
- **RLHF / RLAIF:** the technique used to align large language models: humans (or an AI) rank outputs, a reward model is trained on the rankings, and RL (often PPO) tunes the language model to score high. The same reward-hacking risk applies. It is a use of RL you will meet in GenAI jobs.

Connection to the real job

Most data jobs will not require you to train a deep-RL agent. They require you to *recognize* when a problem is sequential (actions change the future), to know that a bandit is the practical first step, and to understand RLHF at the level of an interview answer. Full RL is optional (Stage 4) unless the role is robotics, games, ad bidding or control.

Applications

- Ad bidding and recommendation (long-term value, not just next click).
- Data-centre cooling and scheduling.
- Robotics and autonomous driving components.
- LLM alignment with human feedback.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reporting the training return of an exploring agent as "the performance". Evaluate the greedy policy separately, over many seeds. RL results vary a lot between seeds (here 0.82 to 3.60 for the same algorithm).

Check yourself

1. What is the difference between Q-learning and SARSA? Answer: Q-learning uses the best next action in its target (off-policy); SARSA uses the action actually taken (on-policy).
2. Why is a replay buffer used in DQN? Answer: to re-use and shuffle old experience so training data is less correlated.
3. What is reward hacking? Answer: the agent exploits the reward as written instead of achieving what you intended.

Chapter recap

- A bandit chooses one action per round and learns from the reward; the goal is to keep regret (reward lost against the best arm) low.
- Exploration is necessary: greedy lost to a plain A/B test in our simulation (regret 94.48 versus 50.01), while Thompson sampling had 21.84.
- Thompson sampling keeps a Beta belief per arm, samples from each, and picks the largest; click adds 1 to `α`, no click adds 1 to `β`.
- Use A/B tests for clean effect sizes, bandits to earn while learning; bandit estimates for losing arms are weak.
- IPS estimates a new policy from logs, using `1 / p_old` weights, and needs non-zero logged probabilities.
- An MDP has states, actions, transitions, rewards and a discount; the Bellman equation `V∗(s) = max[r + γV∗(s')]` gives values that value iteration finds by repeated sweeps.
- Q-learning learns `Q(s,a)` from experience: `Q ← Q + α(r + γ max Q' − Q)`; it solved the 4 by 4 grid, but rare cells converge slowly.
- SARSA is the on-policy cousin; DQN, policy gradients, actor-critic and PPO scale the same ideas using neural networks.
- RL is hard in practice: sparse rewards, huge sample needs, sim-to-real gaps and reward hacking.

Item	Formula or command	Note
Regret	`Σ (p_best − p_chosen)`	lower is better
Beta update	click: `α+1`; no click: `β+1`	mean `α/(α+β)`
Thompson	`argmax(rng.beta(a, b))`	explores in proportion to doubt
UCB	`mean + √(2 ln t / n)`	bonus for rarely tried arms
IPS	`(1/n) Σ 1[match]·r / p_old`	off-policy estimate
Return	`G = r₁ + γr₂ + γ²r₃ + …`	`γ` = discount
Bellman optimality	`V∗(s) = max_a[r + γV∗(s')]`	value iteration repeats it
Q-learning	`Q ← Q + α(r + γ max Q' − Q)`	off-policy TD
SARSA	`Q ← Q + α(r + γ Q(s',a') − Q)`	on-policy TD

Practice set

1. (easy) A page has 7 clicks in 50 shows. Write its Beta belief and mean (start from `Beta(1,1)`). **Answer:** $\alpha = 1 + 7 = 8$, $\beta = 1 + 43 = 44$; mean $8/52 = 0.154$.

2. (easy) With $\gamma = 0.9$, what is the present value of 10 received 3 steps later? **Answer:** $10 \times 0.9^3 = 10 \times 0.729 = 7.29$.

3. (easy) Three arms with true rates 0.10, 0.20, 0.30 are shown equally for 1,000 shows. What is the regret? **Answer:** per step $0.30 - \text{mean}(0.10, 0.20, 0.30) = 0.30 - 0.20 = 0.10$; total $1000 \times 0.10 = 100$ clicks lost.

4. (medium) In the grid world, compute $V*$ of the cell (1,2) (right of the pit, row 1, column 2). Use the values from the table. **Answer:** From (1,2) the best move is right to (1,3) (value 8) or down to (2,2) (value 8): $-1 + 0.9 \times 8 = 6.2$, matching the table.

5. (medium) Q-learning update: $Q(s,a) = 2$, $\alpha = 0.5$, $r = 1$, $\gamma = 0.9$, $\max Q(s') = 4$. New Q? **Answer:** target $1 + 0.9 \times 4 = 4.6$; $Q = 2 + 0.5 \times (4.6 - 2) = 3.3$.

6. (medium) What is the output idea? You change the reward so that every step costs 0 instead of −1 (γ = 1, goal +10). What changes in the learned behaviour? **Answer:** All paths to the goal are now equally good, so the agent has no reason to be quick; it may wander. The step cost (or $\gamma < 1$) is what makes short paths better.

7. (medium) Find the bug: a team compares "random 50/50 test" and "bandit" by the click rate of the *winning* arm only and declares the bandit wins by a huge margin. **Answer:** The bandit sends more traffic to the winner, so it naturally records more clicks overall; and its losing-arm estimates are poor. Compare total reward (or regret) in a simulation, and estimate effect sizes with a fixed test.

8. (hard) Using the simulation, what would happen to the gap between Thompson sampling and a fixed A/B test if the true rates were 0.05, 0.05, 0.05? **Answer:** There is nothing to find: all arms are equal, regret is 0 for every policy. The gap vanishes. (Bandits help only if arms differ.)

9. (hard, interview) Explain exploration versus exploitation to a non-technical manager, and name one way to handle it. **Answer:** "We must keep trying new options to find a better one, but each try costs us the benefit of the known best. Thompson sampling handles it by trying each option in proportion to how likely it is to be the best; as evidence grows, tests of poor options fade away."

10. (hard, interview) What is the difference between on-policy and off-policy learning, and why

is Q-learning off-policy? **Answer:** On-policy learns the value of the policy that generates the data (SARSA); off-policy learns about a different (target) policy from data produced by another one. Q-learning's target uses `max Q(s')`, the greedy action, while the behaviour policy may be ε-greedy, so it learns about the greedy policy while exploring.

11. (hard) Explain RLHF in four sentences. **Answer:** (1) Humans compare pairs of model answers. (2) A reward model is trained to predict which answer humans prefer. (3) The language model is tuned with RL (often PPO) to produce answers with high reward, with a penalty to stay close to its original behaviour. (4) Risk: the model may exploit flaws in the reward model (reward hacking).

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Teach me multi-armed bandits: exploration versus exploitation,
regret, epsilon-greedy, UCB and Thompson sampling with the Beta update.
Use a three-page click-rate example with small numbers, explain every
step, then ask me three questions one at a time and check my answers
before continuing.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Give me 8
graded exercises (easy to hard, no solutions) on the Chapter topic
"Bandits versus A/B tests": computing regret by hand, Beta posteriors,
when a fixed test is better, and how to design a simulation that compares
policies. When I paste my answers, mark each one and explain my mistakes.
My answers: [PASTE HERE]
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Explain Markov
decision processes and the Bellman optimality equation using a 4 by 4 grid
world with a goal (+10), a pit (-10), step cost -1 and discount 0.9. Walk
through value iteration by hand for three cells, then quiz me one question
at a time on states, rewards, policies, value and the discount factor.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Teach me Q-
learning and SARSA: the update rule, the learning rate, epsilon-greedy,
on-policy versus off-policy, and why rare states converge slowly. Give two
numeric update problems, then ask me to write a Q-learning loop in NumPy
from memory and review it. My code: [PASTE HERE]
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Run a mock
interview on reinforcement learning for data and GenAI roles: exploration
versus exploitation, bandits in industry, off-policy evaluation, DQN,
policy gradients, PPO, reward hacking and RLHF. Ask five questions one at
a time, wait for my answer, score it out of 10, and show a model answer in
simple English.
```

CHAPTER 16

EXPLAINABILITY, FAIRNESS, ROBUSTNESS, ML ENGINEERING HYGIENE AND THE INTERVIEW BANK

How to explain a model, check it for unfair treatment, test whether it breaks, keep your work clean and reproducible, and answer the questions interviewers actually ask.

A model that scores well is not yet a model you can use. A bank manager asks "why was this loan refused?". A regulator asks "does the model treat both groups fairly?". A colleague asks "will it still work if the data is a bit noisy, and can you reproduce last month's result?". This chapter gives you the tools to answer: permutation importance, partial dependence, Shapley values, surrogate models and counterfactuals for explanations; group metrics for fairness; noise, adversarial and poisoning tests for robustness; and a short list of daily habits that separate careful practitioners from careless ones. It ends with the from-scratch implementations list (the "rebuild" list that proves you understand each algorithm) and an interview bank with short model answers.

All code uses NumPy and scikit-learn with fixed seeds, and every printed output is real, from `/tmp/ml_scripts/c16a.py` to `c16f.py`. The libraries `shap`, `lime`, `fairlearn`, `aif360`, `interpret` and `mlflow` are not installed here, so any use of them is marked "not run here". We reuse random forests (Chapter 6), AUC (Chapter 9) and leakage (Chapter 8).

16.1 Explainability: Global Methods

INTUITION

A model is like a clerk who stamps "approved" or "rejected" on forms. You want to ask the clerk two kinds of questions. Global: "In general, which parts of the form matter most?" Local: "For this one form, why did you reject it?" This section answers the global kind.

Words you need

Word	Plain meaning
Interpretable	a model whose own structure explains it (a linear model, a short tree, a

model	rule list)
Post-hoc explanation	an explanation computed *after* training, for any black-box model
Global explanation	describes the model's overall behaviour
Local explanation	describes one prediction
Surrogate	a simple model trained to imitate a complex one

Built-in interpretability first

Before you explain a black box, ask whether you need one. Logistic regression coefficients (Chapter 4) are an explanation. A depth-3 tree can be printed as rules. GAMs and the EBM (Explainable Boosting Machine, *not run here*) add one smooth curve per feature and are almost as accurate as boosting on many tabular problems. **Monotonic constraints** (supported in gradient boosting libraries) force the prediction to move only one way as a feature rises, which is often a legal or common-sense requirement ("more income can never raise default risk").

The running example: loan default

We simulate 3,000 loan applicants with five columns: `income`, `debt`, `age`, `credit_len` (years of credit history), and `noise_id` (a random number with no meaning, like a customer ID). Important design: `credit_len = age − 18 + small noise`, so age and credit length are correlated at 0.988. The true risk depends on income, debt and credit length, **not on age directly**. Default rate is 0.449. A random forest (300 trees, `min_samples_leaf=5`) is trained on 2,000 rows and tested on 1,000. Test AUC = 0.831.

Impurity importance versus permutation importance

Impurity importance (also "mean decrease in impurity", Chapter 6) is what `rf.feature_importances_` returns: how much each feature reduced node impurity across all trees. It is computed on the training data, so it rewards features that help the model memorize.

Permutation importance answers a different, more honest question: "if I shuffle this column, destroying its link to the target, how much worse does the score on *held-out* data get?" The recipe:

1. Score the model on the test set: `base`.

2. For one feature, shuffle its values across the rows; score again.
3. Importance `= base score − shuffled score`. Repeat several times, average.
4. Repeat for every feature.

Problem 16.1.1 A tiny model `f(x₁, x₂) = 2·x₁` is evaluated on four rows `(x₁, x₂, y)`: `(1, 5, 2), (2, 3, 4), (3, 9, 6), (4, 1, 8)`. Compute the permutation importance of each feature using mean squared error (MSE).

Formula	importance `= MSE(after shuffle) − MSE(before shuffle)`.
Plug in (baseline)	Predictions `2, 4, 6, 8` equal `y`, so MSE `= 0`.
Compute (shuffle x_1)	Use the shuffled order `x₁ = (3, 4, 1, 2)`. Predictions `6, 8, 2, 4`. Errors `6−2 = 4`, `8−4 = 4`, `2−6 = −4`, `4−8 = −4`. Squares all 16. MSE `= 16`. Importance of x_1 `= 16 − 0 = 16`.
Compute (shuffle x_2)	The model never reads `x₂`, so any shuffle leaves predictions unchanged. MSE stays 0. Importance of x_2 `= 0`.
Answer	x_1 has importance 16 and x_2 has importance 0.
Check	The model is `2·x₁`; a feature the formula does not use must score 0, and the feature it fully depends on must score high.
Why it matters	The number has a meaning: "the error would grow by 16 squared units if this column were scrambled".

Now the real model. We compute it by hand (20 shuffles of AUC) and with `sklearn.inspection.permutation_importance`:

```
base = roc_auc_score(y[te], rf.predict_proba(X[te])[:, 1]); prng =
np.random.default_rng(1)
for j, name in enumerate(names):
    drops = []
    for r in range(20):
        Xp = X[te].copy(); Xp[:, j] = prng.permutation(Xp[:, j])
        drops.append(base - roc_auc_score(y[te], rf.predict_proba(Xp)[:,
1]))
    print(name, round(np.mean(drops), 4), round(np.std(drops), 4))
pi = permutation_importance(rf, X[te], y[te], scoring="roc_auc",
n_repeats=20, random_state=1)
```

Real output (cleaned up):

```
feature      impurity   perm. (by hand)   perm. (sklearn)
income         0.207       0.0628 ± 0.0086      0.0591
debt           0.342       0.1522 ± 0.0104      0.1576
age            0.182       0.0290 ± 0.0061      0.0297
credit_len     0.178       0.0394 ± 0.0050      0.0386
noise_id       0.090       0.0009 ± 0.0018      0.0006
```

Problem 16.1.2 Read the table. What do the two importance methods say about `noise_id`?

Step 1	Impurity importance gives `noise_id` 0.090, about half of income's 0.207. By that measure the junk column looks useful.
Step 2	Permutation importance gives 0.0009 (hand) and 0.0006 (sklearn). The hand value is smaller than its own spread (0.0018), so it is zero within noise.
Step 3	Why the difference? A continuous random column offers the trees many possible split points. Trees use some of those splits to fit noise in the training rows, so impurity importance credits the column. On held-out data those splits do nothing.
Answer	Impurity importance wrongly rates the junk column at 0.090. Permutation importance correctly says about 0.
Check	The two columns of the permutation results (hand and sklearn) agree to about 0.005, which is within the repeat-to-repeat spread (0.005 to 0.010) shown, so our hand implementation is correct. They are not identical because the random shuffles differ.
Why it matters	Never present `feature_importances_` from a forest as "what drives the outcome" without checking with permutation importance on held-out data. This is the bias toward high-cardinality or continuous features listed in Chapter 6.

The correlated-feature trap

Age and credit length carry almost the same information (correlation 0.988). The true risk uses credit length only. Yet permutation importance gives age 0.029 and credit length 0.039: the credit effect is shared out between the two. When we drop `age` and retrain, `credit_len` jumps from 0.039 to **0.126**, and the importances of income (0.063) and debt (0.156) barely change.

Problem 16.1.3 What is the total importance of the age-credit pair, before and after dropping age, and what is the lesson?

Step 1	Before: `0.029 + 0.039 = 0.068`.
Step 2	After dropping age: `0.126` for credit length alone, nearly double.
Step 3	When a feature is shuffled, the model can still read the same information from its correlated twin, so the score falls less. Each twin looks unimportant; together they matter.
Answer	The pair's true importance is about 0.126, but each twin shows only about a quarter to a third of it. Shuffling one twin breaks the data pattern in an impossible way (a 22-year-old with 40 years of credit) and spreads the credit among the two.
Check	Run `c16a.py` to see: `after dropping age: credit_len 0.1258`.
Why it matters	Importance of a feature is conditional on what other features the model has. Group correlated features (shuffle them together) or drop one before ranking.

Partial dependence and ICE

Partial dependence (PDP) shows the *average* prediction as one feature moves over a grid, with all other columns left as they are. The recipe for feature j and grid value v: set column j to v in every row of the data, predict, average. **ICE** (individual conditional expectation) draws the same curve for each single row instead of averaging, so you can see whether people differ.

Problem 16.1.4 A model $f(x_1, x_2) = x_1 \cdot x_2$ is evaluated on three rows with $x_2 = 1, 2, 3$. Compute the PDP of x_1 at $x_1 = 0$ and $x_1 = 2$, and the three ICE slopes.

Step 1	Set $x_1 = 2$ in all rows: predictions $2 \cdot 1, 2 \cdot 2, 2 \cdot 3 = 2, 4, 6$. Average 4.
Step 2	Set $x_1 = 0$: predictions $0, 0, 0$. Average 0.
Step 3	PDP slope $= (4 - 0)/2 = 2$. ICE slopes (prediction change per unit of x_1) are $1, 2, 3$, one per row, because $\partial f/\partial x_1 = x_2$.
Answer	The PDP says "each unit of x_1 adds 2 on average". The ICE lines say that the effect is 1 for one person, 2 for another and 3 for the third.
Check	The PDP slope 2 equals the mean of the ICE slopes $(1 + 2 + 3)/3$.
Why it matters	A PDP can hide **heterogeneity**: an average of +2 might hide a group with +3 and a group with 0.

On the loan model, the hand PDP for `debt` and sklearn's `partial_dependence` agree exactly (maximum difference 0.0):

```
debt grid  [ 7.3,  11.1,  14.9,  18.7,  22.5,  26.3,  30.1,  33.9]
PDP        [0.1936, 0.2002, 0.2860, 0.4236, 0.5016, 0.5832, 0.7417,
0.7654]
```

The curve says: average default probability climbs from 19 percent at debt 7.3 to 77 percent at debt 33.9, then flattens (the forest sees few cases beyond 34). ICE for three applicants (debt grid 5 to 40) shows different shapes: for person 1 the curve stays near 0.12 until debt 15 and then jumps to 0.45 at debt 20; for person 0 the jump comes between debt 10 and 15 (0.31 to 0.66). Same direction, different thresholds. **ALE** (accumulated local effects) is a variant that is safer when features are correlated, because it never evaluates the model on impossible combinations *(not run here)*.

Surrogate models

A global **surrogate** is a small, readable model trained to imitate the black box's predictions (not the true labels). We fit a depth-2 tree to the forest's predicted probabilities:

```
surrogate R² vs RF output on test: 0.511
|--- debt <= 21.58
|   |--- credit_len <= 24.75  -> 0.45
|   |--- credit_len >  24.75  -> 0.17
|--- debt >  21.58
|   |--- credit_len <= 28.73  -> 0.76
|   |--- credit_len >  28.73  -> 0.47
```

R^2 of 0.511 means the four-rule story reproduces only about half of the forest's variation, so it is a rough summary: high debt and short credit history mean high risk. Always report the surrogate's fidelity (R^2) next to its rules. The logistic regression baseline gets test AUC 0.852 on this data (the true model is linear in logit), better than the forest's 0.831, so here the honest advice is "the simple interpretable model is also the more accurate one".

Connection to the real job

Permutation importance and PDP on held-out data are the first diagnostics after fitting any tabular model (also listed in Chapter 7 for boosting). Reviewers will ask for them.

Applications

- Credit scoring: global drivers of risk and monotonic checks.
- Healthcare: which measurements the model relies on.
- Model debugging: a feature with large importance but no business sense often signals leakage (Chapter 8).
- Feature selection: drop features with zero permutation importance.

COMMON MISTAKE

Reading importance as "effect of changing the feature". Importance says how much the *model* uses a feature, not what would happen to a person if you changed it. Models describe correlations, not causes.

Check yourself

1. Which importance is computed on held-out data: impurity or permutation? Answer: permutation (when you pass the test set).
2. Why do two correlated features each look weak? Answer: the model can use either twin, so shuffling one loses little.
3. What does a PDP average hide? Answer: differences between individuals (use ICE).

16.2 Explainability: Local Methods (Shapley values, LIME, Counterfactuals)

INTUITION

A team of three friends wins a prize of 6,000 rupees. How do you split fairly when some contributed more? Shapley's answer: imagine adding friends one by one in every possible order, and give each friend the average of the extra value they brought when they joined. SHAP uses the same idea with features as the friends and the prediction as the prize.

Shapley values from first principles

A **Shapley value** ϕ_i is feature i's fair share of the difference between this prediction and the average prediction. Define $v(S)$ as the model's expected output when only the features in set S are known (others are filled in from background data). Then

```
φᵢ = Σ over S not containing i of  [ |S|! · (M − |S| − 1)! / M! ] · ( v(S ∪ {i}) − v(S) )
```

where `M` is the number of features. Think of it as the average marginal contribution over all orderings. Properties: the contributions **add up** exactly (`Σφᵢ = f(x) − E[f]` , called efficiency); a feature that never matters gets 0; symmetric features get equal shares.

Problem 16.2.1 Compute the exact Shapley values for `f(x) = 2·x₁ + 3·x₂ + x₁·x₂` (feature 3 is unused) at `x = (1, 1, 1)` , with baseline `(0, 0, 0)` meaning "feature absent".

Step 1	Needed values: `v(∅) = f(0,0,0) = 0` ; `v({1}) = 2` ; `v({2}) = 3` ; `v({1,2}) = 2 + 3 + 1 = 6` . Feature 3 changes nothing.
Step 2	For feature 1 with two other features (2 and 3 but 3 is inert), the orderings are equivalent to: feature 1 joins first (gain `v({1}) − v(∅) = 2`) or joins after feature 2 (gain `v({1,2}) − v({2}) = 6 − 3 = 3`), each with weight 1/2. `φ₁ = ½·2 + ½·3 = 2.5` .
Step 3	For feature 2: first `3` , after feature 1 `6 − 2 = 4` . `φ₂ = ½·3 + ½·4 = 3.5` .
Step 4	`φ₃ = 0` .
Answer	`φ = (2.5, 3.5, 0)` .
Check	Sum `= 6 = f(1,1,1) − f(0,0,0)` . The interaction term `x₁·x₂ = 1` was split equally (0.5 each), which is the Shapley rule for a shared term. The code (brute force over all orderings) printed `[2.5, 3.5, 0.0]` , sum 6.0.
Why it matters	This is exactly what SHAP computes. The exact sum has `2^M` terms, so libraries use shortcuts.

Problem 16.2.2 Do it on the real forest. Applicant 0 of the test set: income 66.3, debt 18.6, age 25.9, credit_len 6.8, noise_id 0.3. Predicted default probability 0.763; the average prediction over 200 background rows is 0.443. Compute the five Shapley values by brute force (32 subsets, 200 background rows each).

Step 1	`v(S)` = set the columns in `S` to the applicant's values in all 200 background rows, predict, average.
Step 2	Apply the formula for each of the five features (script `c16c.py`).
Step 3	Output:

```
Shapley {'income': -0.03, 'debt': 0.024, 'age': 0.138, 'credit_len':
0.168, 'noise_id': 0.02}
sum 0.32      f(x) − E[f] = 0.763 − 0.443 = 0.32
```

- **Answer** The applicant is much riskier than average (+32 percentage points). Credit length (+0.168) and age (+0.138) explain most of it: a short credit history at age 26. Income pulls the other way (−0.030).
- **Check** The five values sum to 0.320, exactly `f(x) − E[f]`.
- **Why it matters** This is the sentence you give a bank manager: "this applicant's risk is 32 points above average mainly because of a short credit history".
- **Honest limits** Age and credit_len share the credit, as in 16.1, so we should speak about the *pair*. `noise_id` has a value of +0.02, small but not zero: the forest did use that column a little, and Shapley values explain the model, not the world. With 200 background rows and one model the estimates are also noisy.

TreeSHAP, KernelSHAP, interactions (not run here)

The `shap` library (not installed here) offers **TreeSHAP**, a fast exact algorithm for tree ensembles (seconds instead of `2^M`), and **KernelSHAP**, a sampling method for any model (slower, approximate). It also gives **interaction values** (Shapley shares for pairs of features) and plots: a *summary* (beeswarm) plot for global patterns, and a *waterfall* plot for one prediction. Typical usage, *not run here*:

```
import shap
explainer = shap.TreeExplainer(model)
sv = explainer.shap_values(X_test)      # additive contributions, one per
feature per row
shap.summary_plot(sv, X_test)
```

The assumptions to remember for interviews: SHAP needs a *background* distribution to represent "absent" features; with correlated features it may evaluate impossible combinations;

the values are additive in the model's output space (log-odds for many classifiers, not probabilities).

LIME

LIME explains one prediction by sampling points around it, asking the black box for their predictions, and fitting a weighted linear model; the slopes are the local explanation. We did a quick hand version (500 samples with Gaussian jitter of 0.5 standard deviations, closer points weighted more) around applicant 0:

```
local slopes per 1 sd:  income −0.179, debt +0.233, age −0.105, credit_len
−0.045, noise_id −0.033
```

Compare with the Shapley answer: here debt looks like the main driver (+0.233 per standard deviation), but Shapley says credit length and age. They answer different questions: LIME gives the local *slope* (what if the numbers wiggle a little), Shapley gives the *share of the gap* from the average. LIME also depends on its settings (jitter size, weights) and can change between runs. Treat both as hints, not truths.

Counterfactual explanations

A **counterfactual** answers "what is the smallest change that flips the decision?". It is the most useful message for a customer: not "your debt had importance 0.15" but "if your debt were 6 lower, you would be approved". We take the same applicant (probability 0.763, debt 18.6) and lower debt step by step:

```
high-risk person [66.3, 18.6, 25.9, 6.8, 0.3]  p 0.763
debt must drop by 6.0 to 12.6  p 0.315
```

Probability fell from 0.763 to 0.315 when debt went from 18.6 to 12.6. The forest is step-shaped, so the flip is abrupt (the PDP also showed a steep rise between 11 and 19). Good counterfactuals must use *actionable* features (debt, yes; age, no), small changes, and be realistic (do not suggest a 22-year-old with 40 years of credit). Libraries such as DiCE exist (*not run here*).

Pitfalls and communication

Pitfall	What happens	What to do

Correlated features	importance splits or hides	group them, drop one, say so
Explaining the model, not reality	model may use a proxy or a leak	check against domain knowledge
Importance is not effect	shuffling is not intervening	do not promise outcomes
PDP averages	hides subgroups	add ICE
Unstable local methods	LIME changes with settings	fix seeds, check stability
Too many numbers	stakeholders lose the point	one sentence plus a chart

Model card. For every model you hand over, write a short document with: purpose and intended users; training data (source, dates, known gaps); metrics, overall and by slice; limits and known failure modes; fairness checks; monitoring plan; owner and date. A **datasheet** does the same for a dataset.

Connection to the real job

Interview stories often go: "The model had high AUC. Permutation importance showed one feature carried everything. It was a field filled in only after the outcome (leakage). We removed it." That is the whole value of explainability in one sentence.

Applications

- Credit and insurance: adverse-action reasons ("why was I rejected?"), often required by regulation.
- Healthcare: clinician trust and error checks.
- Fraud: analysts see which factors flagged a transaction.
- Debugging: spot leaks and spurious signals.

COMMON MISTAKE

Giving a Shapley or LIME explanation to a customer as "the cause". It says what the model did with the numbers, not what caused their situation.

Check yourself

1. What do Shapley values add up to? Answer: the prediction minus the average prediction.

2. Which question does a counterfactual answer? Answer: what smallest change would flip the decision.
3. Why can SHAP mislead with correlated features? Answer: it may fill in "absent" features with unrealistic combinations, and credit gets shared between twins.

16.3 Fairness and Ethics

INTUITION

Two students with equal ability sit an entrance exam. One of them attended a school without a lab, so the same ability shows up as slightly lower marks. A model trained on marks learns "this school's students are weaker". Nothing in the code was "prejudiced", yet the outcome is unfair. Bias usually comes from the data and the world, not from a bad programmer.

Sources of bias

Source	Example
Historical	past loan officers refused one group more often; the labels copy that
Sampling	data from one city only; other groups are rare
Measurement	the same ability yields lower marks for a disadvantaged group
Label	"arrested" is used as the label for "committed a crime"
Aggregation	one model for everyone, but groups behave differently
Proxy	postcode or surname stands in for a protected attribute even when it is removed

A **protected attribute** is a characteristic such as gender, caste, religion or race that the law or your ethics say should not drive a decision. Removing the column does not remove the bias, because proxies leak it back.

The three most-used metrics

Let $\hat{Y}$ be the model's decision (1 = approve) and Y the true outcome (1 = would repay), and A, B two groups.

Metric	Definition	Question it asks
Demographic parity	`P(Ŷ=1	A) = P(Ŷ=1
Equal opportunity	`P(Ŷ=1	Y=1, A) = P(Ŷ=1
Equalized odds	equal true-positive *and* false-positive rates	are both kinds of error equal?
Calibration within groups	`P(Y=1	score = s, A) = P(Y=1

Many practitioners also report the **disparate impact ratio** `selection rate of B / selection rate of A`; a common rule of thumb in US hiring law is that a ratio below 0.8 deserves attention (the "four-fifths rule"). Indian and EU law differ; get legal advice for the real case.

A simulated example

We simulate 20,000 applicants; group B is 30 percent. Skill is the same in both groups, and the true outcome follows skill by the same rule. But the observed `score` feature (like exam marks) is lowered by 0.5 for group B (measurement bias), and a `proxy` feature (like postcode) is correlated with group. The model never sees the group label. We train logistic regression on 14,000 rows and test on 6,000 (4,310 in A, 1,690 in B). Test AUC = 0.844.

```
single threshold 0.5          group A    group B
selection rate                 0.374      0.291
true-positive rate (TPR)       0.689      0.545
false-positive rate (FPR)      0.179      0.112
actual repay rate (base rate)  0.384      0.414
```

Problem 16.3.1 Compute the demographic parity gap, the disparate impact ratio and the equal opportunity gap.

Formula	gap `= rate A − rate B`; ratio `= rate B / rate A`.
Plug in	Selection: `0.374 − 0.291`; TPR: `0.689 − 0.545`.
Compute	Parity gap `= 0.083`. Ratio `= 0.291 / 0.374 = 0.777`. Equal opportunity gap `= 0.144`. FPR gap `= 0.179 − 0.112 = 0.067`.
Answer	Group B is approved 8.3 points less often, with a ratio of 0.777 (below the 0.8 rule of thumb). More importantly, among people who would have repaid, 68.9 percent of A but only 54.5 percent of B are approved: a 14.4-point gap.
Check	The base repay rates are 0.384 for A and 0.414 for B, so B is *not* a riskier group. The gap does not come from different real risk; it comes from the measurement bias in `score`.
Why it matters	Equal opportunity shows the harm clearly: qualified people in B are turned away more often.

Mitigation

Stage	Method	Idea
Pre-processing	reweighing, resampling	change the training data so group and label are less tied
In-processing	constrained training, adversarial debiasing	add a fairness term to the loss
Post-processing	group-specific thresholds	adjust the decision cut-off per group

Problem 16.3.2 Apply group-specific thresholds. Find the cut-off for group B that gives B the same true-positive rate as A (0.689).

Step 1	Scan thresholds from 0.05 to 0.95 for group B's actual positives (people with `Y = 1`); pick the one where the share above it is closest to 0.689.
Step 2	The search gives threshold 0.385 for B, with 0.5 kept for A.
Step 3	New results: B's TPR `= 0.687`, FPR `= 0.192`, selection rate `0.396`; A unchanged (TPR 0.689, FPR 0.179, selection 0.374). Precision (share of approvals that repay): A `0.706`, B `0.716`.
Answer	The equal opportunity gap fell from 0.144 to 0.002. The FPR gap is now `−0.013` (B has slightly more false approvals), and B's selection rate is now above A's (0.396 versus 0.374). Precision is almost equal (0.706 versus 0.716), so approvals are about equally reliable in both groups.
Check	TPR A `0.689` − TPR B `0.687` `= 0.002`.
Why it matters	Fixing one metric moves the others; you must choose which one matters for the decision and document it. This is a *trade-off*, not a free lunch. Using group-specific thresholds may also be illegal in some settings; get legal review.

Problem 16.3.3 Reweighing: weights `w = P(group)·P(label) / P(group, label)` for each (group, label) cell. Did it fix the gap?

Step 1	Compute weights and refit with `sample_weight`.
Step 2	Output: selection A 0.375, B 0.289; TPR A 0.690, B 0.544. The gaps are 0.086 and 0.146, essentially unchanged.
Step 3	Why? The repay rates by group are 0.386 and 0.398, nearly equal, so the weights are all close to 1. Reweighing fixes a *label* dependence on group. Our bias is in the *feature* (measurement), so there was nothing for it to fix.
Answer	Reweighing did not help here, because it targets the wrong kind of bias.
Check	If group and label are exactly independent, `P(g,y) = P(g)P(y)` and every weight equals 1, as the near-1 weights suggest.
Why it matters	Pick the mitigation by diagnosing the source of the bias first. A common beginner error is to run a library tool and report "bias reduced" without checking where it came from.

Known trade-offs

When base rates differ between groups, a model **cannot** have equal false-positive rates, equal false-negative rates *and* calibrated scores at the same time (impossibility results, Kleinberg et al. and Chouldechova, 2016-2017). You must choose, and the choice is a business and ethical decision, not a purely mathematical one.

Tools: `fairlearn` and `aif360` compute these metrics by group and offer mitigation (*not run here*). A responsible release includes a datasheet, a model card, and a short impact assessment: who could be harmed, how you would know, and who can override the model.

Connection to the real job

Hiring, lending, insurance and health use cases attract audits. Even in a non-regulated product, slicing metrics by group (Chapter 10) is routine.

Applications

- Lending: approval-rate gaps by gender or region.
- Hiring: screening models.
- Healthcare: risk scores that under-treat a group.
- Advertising: who sees job or housing ads.

COMMON MISTAKE

"We removed the gender column, so the model is fair." Proxies (postcode, name, school) bring it back. Measure outcomes by group, not just the inputs.

Check yourself

1. What does equal opportunity compare? Answer: true-positive rates between groups.
2. Why did reweighing not help in our example? Answer: the bias was in a feature, not in the link between group and label.
3. Can all fairness metrics hold at once? Answer: not when base rates differ (impossibility results).

16.4 Robustness and Security

INTUITION

A bridge is not judged on a calm day. We load it beyond normal and see how it fails. A model deserves the same: add noise, add a nudge from an adversary, corrupt some training labels, and see how gracefully it degrades.

Four kinds of stress

Stress	What it tests	Test
Noisy inputs	sensors or typing errors	add random noise to test features
Distribution shift	the world changed (Chapter 12)	evaluate on later or different data
Adversarial examples	a small, clever change designed to fool the model	gradient-based nudges (FGSM-style)
Data poisoning	corrupted training data	flip labels or inject bad rows

Experiment on a synthetic problem

3,000 rows, 10 features, a linear rule with noise; train on 2,000, test on 1,000. Compare logistic regression and a random forest (200 trees).

```
noise sd added to test inputs:   logreg   forest
0.00                              0.923    0.885
0.25                              0.885    0.849
0.50                              0.825    0.803
1.00                              0.727    0.719
```

Problem 16.4.1 How much accuracy does each model lose when noise of standard deviation 0.5 is added to every test feature, and which degrades faster?

Step 1	Logistic regression: `0.923 − 0.825 = 0.098`. Forest: `0.885 − 0.803 = 0.082`.
Step 2	At noise 1.0 (as large as the features themselves): logreg `0.923 − 0.727 = 0.196`; forest `0.885 − 0.719 = 0.166`.
Answer	Both degrade smoothly. The forest loses a little less, but it started lower and stays lower (0.803 versus 0.825 at noise 0.5). The linear model is better at every noise level, since the data follows a linear rule.
Check	At very large noise both approach 0.5 (guessing); 0.72 is already about halfway between 0.92 and 0.5.
Why it matters	Plot a degradation curve before deployment, and compare it with the amount of noise your real inputs have.

Adversarial nudge. For a linear model an attacker knows that moving each feature against the sign of its weight lowers the score fastest. Our nudge: `x' = x − ε·sign(w)·(2y − 1)` (push each point toward the wrong side). A small change in every feature:

```
epsilon    0.0    0.1    0.3    0.5
accuracy   0.923  0.785  0.451  0.240
```

Problem 16.4.2 Read the table. How large must ε be to push the model below chance?

Step 1	At `ε = 0.1` (a tenth of a standard deviation) accuracy drops from 0.923 to 0.785, a loss of 13.8 points.
Step 2	At `ε = 0.3` it is 0.451, below the 0.5 of random guessing.
Step 3	At `ε = 0.5` it is 0.240: worse than a coin, meaning the attacker pushes most points to the wrong class.
Answer	A change of about 0.3 standard deviations in every feature is enough to push the accuracy under 50 percent.
Check	This is a *worst-case* direction using full knowledge of the weights, so it is far more damaging than the random noise of the previous table (random noise of 0.5 cost only 10 points).
Why it matters	Random noise tests accuracy; adversarial tests probe security. For deep image and text models, such attacks are the reason for adversarial training and input validation. Here, we only introduce the idea.

Poisoning by label flips. Flip a share of the training labels at random and measure test accuracy:

```
flipped    0%     10%    20%    30%
accuracy   0.923  0.920  0.915  0.900
```

Random label noise is tolerated well by a regularised linear model: 30 percent random flips cost only 2.3 points. This is **not** the worst case: a smart attacker would flip labels near the decision boundary or insert a few carefully chosen rows. Other attacks to know by name: **model inversion** (recover training data from a model's outputs), and **membership inference** (tell whether a person was in the training set). Defences: validate and rate-limit inputs, clean and version training data, limit what the API reveals, and use differential privacy where privacy matters. All awareness-level here.

Safe fallbacks. A good system has a plan for when the model should not decide: a rule-based default, a confidence threshold with human review (Chapter 9 conformal intervals help), and a kill switch.

Applications

- Fraud: attackers adapt to your model, so it is adversarial by nature.

- Vision: stickers on road signs.
- Text: prompt injection on LLM apps.
- Healthcare: robustness to scanner differences.

COMMON MISTAKE

Testing robustness only with random noise. Random noise is the easy case; also test targeted changes and shifts that match how your data can really change.

Check yourself

1. What is an adversarial example? Answer: an input changed slightly on purpose so that the model errs.
2. Why can random label flips be tolerable but targeted ones not? Answer: random flips average out; targeted ones push the boundary in one direction.
3. What is a safe fallback? Answer: a default rule or human review when the model is unsure or inputs look wrong.

16.5 ML Engineering Hygiene

INTUITION

A kitchen can produce a great meal once. A restaurant produces it every day, for anyone, even when the head chef is on leave. That needs clean tools, written recipes, labelled shelves, and a habit of tasting before serving. Hygiene is how a model survives contact with other people and with time.

The rule of thumb (from Google's "Rules of Machine Learning"): start with a simple model and a solid pipeline; most gains come from better data and features; get the evaluation right before getting the model fancy.

The daily habits

Habit	What it means
Baseline first	predict the mean, the majority class, or last week's value; every model must beat it

One change at a time	change one thing, record the score, then the next
Log every experiment	parameters, data version, code version, metric, seed (MLflow or a spreadsheet; *not run here*)
Pipelines	preprocessing is fit on training folds only and reused at serving time
Seeds and environments	set `random_state`, pin library versions, save a data snapshot, keep a config file
Tests for data and features	schema check, range check, null rate check, unit tests on feature code
Training-serving skew check	the same feature code in training and serving; log the serving features and compare
Cost awareness	training time, response time, memory and upkeep; choose the simplest model that meets the need

Why pipelines matter: a demonstration

We create **pure noise**: 100 rows, 2,000 random columns, random 0/1 labels. No model can truly beat 50 percent. Two ways to evaluate:

```
from sklearn.feature_selection import SelectKBest, f_classif
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
# WRONG: pick the 20 "best" columns using ALL rows, then cross-validate
Xsel = SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20).fit_transform(Xn, yn)
wrong = cross_val_score(LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000), Xsel, yn,
cv=KFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=0)).mean()
# RIGHT: selection inside the pipeline, so it is re-done on each training
fold
pipe = make_pipeline(SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000))
right = cross_val_score(pipe, Xn, yn, cv=KFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=0)).mean()
```

Predict: what accuracy does each print? Real output:

```
pure noise, 100x2000: select-then-CV acc 0.81  | Pipeline acc 0.52
```

Problem 16.5.1 Explain the 0.81 and the 0.52.

Step 1	With 2,000 random columns and only 100 rows, some columns correlate with the labels by pure luck. Selecting the 20 most correlated columns on *all* rows picks columns that already "know" the labels of the test folds.
Step 2	Cross-validation then reports 0.81: leaked information, not skill.
Step 3	In the pipeline, selection happens separately inside each training fold, using only that fold's labels. The test fold stays unseen, so accuracy is 0.52, the honest value for noise.
Answer	The wrong method looks 31 points better than chance (0.81 versus 0.50) on data that contains no signal. The pipeline gives 0.52.
Check	On random labels the correct answer is about 0.5, and the pipeline is the only one near it.
Why it matters	This is *train-test contamination* (Chapter 8): any step that learns from data (scaling, imputing, selecting, encoding, even PCA) must be inside the pipeline.

When not to use ML

- A simple rule works (if the order is over 5,000 rupees, ask for approval).
- The data is too small or too noisy to learn anything reliable.
- No action follows the prediction (nobody changes what they do).
- Errors are too costly without human oversight.

Technical debt in ML

Debt	Meaning	Example
Entanglement	"changing anything changes everything"	adding a feature shifts all other features' effects
Hidden feedback loops	the model changes the data that trains it later	a recommender only shows what it already likes
Undeclared consumers	other teams use your output without telling you	someone builds a report on your score; you change the model; their report breaks

Pipeline jungles	glue scripts that nobody understands	five notebooks that must be run in a secret order

Model documentation: a model card with assumptions, intended use, limits, and a monitoring plan (see 16.2).

Connection to the real job

Good hygiene is what hiring managers sense in a take-home project: a README, a fixed seed, a baseline, a pipeline, tests, and a clean score table. Many candidates lose points on these basics, not on algorithms.

Applications

- Every production model: pipelines, tests, versioning.
- Regulated settings: audit trail of data, code and parameters.
- Teamwork: others can re-run your work.

COMMON MISTAKE

Doing preprocessing on the full dataset "to save time" and cross-validating afterwards. The test folds have already influenced the model.

Check yourself

1. Why must feature selection be inside the pipeline? Answer: otherwise test rows influence which features are chosen (leakage).
2. What is training-serving skew? Answer: the features computed at serving time differ from those used in training.
3. Name two situations where you should not use ML. Answer: a simple rule works; no action follows the prediction (or data too small, or errors too costly).

16.6 The From-Scratch Implementations List

INTUITION

You do not truly own a recipe until you can cook it without the cookbook. Rebuilding an algorithm with only NumPy, then comparing your output with scikit-learn, is the quickest way to find out what you actually understand.

The rule for each item: implement it in NumPy (no ML library), compare with scikit-learn, and write three lines on what surprised you.

#	Item	Where it is taught in this document	Check against
1	Linear regression: normal equation and gradient descent	Chapter 2	`LinearRegression`
2	Logistic regression with gradient descent and L2	Chapter 4	`LogisticRegression`
3	k-nearest neighbours	Chapter 5	`KNeighborsClassifier`
4	Naive Bayes (Gaussian or multinomial)	Chapter 5	`GaussianNB`
5	Decision tree (Gini): Chapter 6 shows `best_split` and a full tree; the small random forest (bootstrap rows plus random feature subsets, majority vote) is your assignment, built on that tree	Chapter 6	`DecisionTreeClassifier`, `RandomForestClassifier`
6	Gradient boosting for regression with tiny trees	Chapter 7	`GradientBoostingRegressor`
7	k-means (Chapter 13 shows the loop; add k-means++ seeding yourself) and a GMM via EM	Chapter 13	`KMeans`, `GaussianMixture`
8	PCA by eigendecomposition and SVD	Chapter	`PCA`

		13	
9	SVM (subgradient on hinge loss)	Chapter 5	`SVC(kernel="linear")` or `LinearSVC`
10	A 2-layer neural network with backpropagation	below	gradient check
11	CV splitter and metrics (precision, recall, AUC)	below; the ideas are in Chapters 8 and 9	`KFold`, `roc_auc_score`
12	Thompson-sampling bandit	Chapter 15	the hand regret formula (for a fixed A/B split, `50` after 5,000 steps)

The chapters named above state what each teaches; if one of them presents an item in a lighter form, treat the table row as your assignment to build the full version. Items 10 and 11 are compact enough to show here, with real output.

Item 10: a 2-layer neural network with backprop

We learn XOR (the function a straight line cannot learn, Chapter 4) with 2 inputs, 4 tanh hidden units and a sigmoid output. The backward pass applies the chain rule: output error `p − y`, then back through W_2, then through `tanh` (derivative $1 - h^2$).

```
dz2 = (p − y) / len(X); dW2 = h.T @ dz2; db2 = dz2.sum(0)
dh  = dz2 @ W2.T;       dz1 = dh * (1 − h**2); dW1 = X.T @ dz1; db1 =
dz1.sum(0)
```

```
0 loss 0.6712
500 loss 0.0051
5000 loss 0.0005
predictions [0.    0.999 0.999 0.001]
grad check analytic −6.468e−05 numeric −6.468e−05
```

Problem 16.6.1 How do we know the gradients are right?

Step 1	Pick one weight $W_2[0,0]$. Compute the loss at $w + 10^{-6}$ and $w - 10^{-6}$.
Step 2	Numeric gradient $= (L_+ - L_-) / (2 \cdot 10^{-6})$.
Step 3	Compare with the analytic one from backprop.
Answer	Analytic $-6.468e{-}05$ equals numeric $-6.468e{-}05$, and the loss falls from 0.6712 to 0.0005, so XOR is learned (predictions 0, 1, 1, 0).
Check	The initial loss 0.6712 is close to $\ln 2 = 0.693$ (a coin toss), as expected for random weights.
Why it matters	A gradient check is the standard unit test for any hand-written model. It catches sign and shape errors early.

Item 11: CV splitter and metrics from scratch

```
def kfold(n, k, seed=0):
    idx = np.random.default_rng(seed).permutation(n); folds =
np.array_split(idx, k)
    for i in range(k):
        yield np.concatenate([folds[j] for j in range(k) if j != i]),
folds[i]
```

AUC from ranks (the Mann-Whitney view: the chance a random positive outscores a random negative; ties get the average rank), then precision and recall from counts. Output on 200 simulated scores:

```
AUC scratch 0.714445 sklearn 0.714445
prec/rec scratch [0.7097, 0.5946] sklearn 0.7097 0.5946
fold sizes (n=103,k=5) [21, 21, 21, 20, 20]
disjoint and complete: OK
```

Problem 16.6.2 Why are the fold sizes 21, 21, 21, 20, 20?

Step 1	`103 / 5 = 20.6`, so not equal.
Step 2	`np.array_split` gives the first `103 mod 5 = 3` folds one extra row.
Answer	Three folds of 21 and two of 20; `3·21 + 2·20 = 103`.
Check	The assertions in the code confirm that train and test indices never overlap and together cover all 103 rows.
Why it matters	A correct splitter must neither lose nor duplicate rows. The group and time-series versions add one more rule: keep a group together, or never train on the future.

COMMON MISTAKE

Copying a from-scratch solution from the web. The value is in the struggle and in the three lines on what surprised you. If you copy, you learn nothing.

Check yourself

1. What is a gradient check? Answer: comparing the backprop gradient with a finite-difference estimate.
2. How do you validate your own implementation? Answer: compare with scikit-learn on the same data and seed, and check shapes and edge cases.
3. Why is AUC computed from ranks? Answer: AUC is the probability that a random positive scores above a random negative, which depends only on ordering.

16.7 The Interview Bank

Answer these aloud, in simple words, in under a minute each. The model answers below are short on purpose.

#	Question	Model answer
1	Bias versus variance?	Bias is error from a model too simple to capture the pattern; variance is error from a model so flexible that it changes a lot with the sample. Training error low and test error high means variance (Chapter 1).
2	L1 versus L2?	L2 (ridge) shrinks all weights smoothly; L1 (lasso) can set weights to exactly zero, so it selects features. L1 is a Laplace prior, L2 a

		Gaussian prior (Chapter 3).
3	Random forest versus gradient boosting?	A forest averages many deep trees built independently (reduces variance). Boosting builds shallow trees one after another, each fitting the remaining error (reduces bias). Boosting is more sensitive to tuning and noise.
4	Why can boosting overfit, or not?	Each tree is small and learning rate is low, so it improves slowly, but with enough trees it fits noise. Use early stopping and a validation set.
5	How to handle imbalanced data?	Use PR-AUC and recall at a threshold, class weights, threshold moving; resample only inside CV folds; consider an anomaly framing.
6	Precision versus recall?	Precision: of those I flagged, how many are real. Recall: of the real ones, how many I found. Raising the threshold raises precision and lowers recall; choose by the cost of each error.
7	ROC-AUC versus PR-AUC?	ROC-AUC is the chance a positive outranks a negative; it ignores class balance. PR-AUC reacts to the base rate, so it is more informative for rare positives.
8	What is calibration?	Predicted 0.7 should be right about 70 percent of the time. High AUC does not guarantee it. Check a reliability plot, fix with Platt or isotonic scaling.
9	How to choose k in k-means?	Elbow, silhouette, and stability across seeds; and above all, usefulness for the business.
10	PCA assumptions?	Linear structure, variance equals signal, features on comparable scales. It is sensitive to scaling and to outliers.
11	How to detect and prevent leakage?	Suspiciously good scores, one dominant feature; check permutation importance and feature timing; fit all preprocessing inside the pipeline; split by time or group.
12	Cross-	Never train on the future: expanding or rolling windows, with a gap if

	validation for time series?	features look back.
13	Explain SHAP.	Each feature gets its fair (Shapley) share of the gap between this prediction and the average one, averaged over all orders in which features could be added. Shares add up exactly. TreeSHAP computes it fast for trees. Limits: needs a background set, correlated features, describes the model not the cause.
14	Permutation versus impurity importance?	Permutation shuffles a column on held-out data and measures the score drop; impurity counts split gains on training data and favours continuous or high-cardinality features.
15	A model works offline but fails online: debug it.	Check training-serving skew (feature code, units, missing values), leakage in offline data, distribution shift, label delay, a different population, and latency or timeouts that change inputs. Compare logged serving features with training features.
16	How do you know a fairness problem exists?	Slice metrics by group: selection rate, TPR, FPR, calibration. Compare base rates. Look for proxies. Decide which metric matters with the stakeholders.
17	Bandit or A/B test?	A/B test for a clean effect size; bandit when you must earn while learning and arms are many (Chapter 15).
18	When would you not use ML?	A rule works, data is tiny or noisy, no action follows, or errors are too costly without oversight.
19	What is regularization, in one sentence?	A penalty that discourages complex models so they generalise better.
20	Walk me through your	Define the metric and the cost of errors; split correctly (time or group); baseline; simple model; pipeline; one improvement at a time; error

	approach to a new tabular problem.	analysis by slices; calibration and threshold; explain, check fairness and robustness; document and monitor.
21	How do you detect anomalies without labels?	Robust statistics or isolation forest to rank; inject synthetic anomalies to test; measure precision at the number of alerts a team can review (Chapter 14).
22	What does Q-learning do?	It learns a table of values for state-action pairs by moving each value toward reward plus discounted best next value; it is off-policy (Chapter 15).
23	Self-training pitfalls?	A weak first model gives wrong confident labels and then reinforces them. Compare with the supervised baseline and keep a clean validation set.
24	How do you reproduce an experiment?	Fixed seeds, pinned library versions, versioned data snapshot, config file, logged metrics and code commit.
25	What do you do if the model's accuracy suddenly falls in production?	Check data pipeline and schema first, then input drift (PSI, KS), then label shift, then retrain or roll back; add monitoring.

How to practise

Pick three questions per day. Say the answer aloud in under one minute, with one number or example. Record yourself once a week and listen for jargon without a definition.

Chapter recap

- Prefer an interpretable model when it is accurate enough. If you need a black box, explain it with several tools and report their limits.

- Permutation importance on held-out data beats impurity importance: it rated our junk column at about 0.0006 against 0.090 for impurity.
- Correlated features split or hide importance (age and credit length: 0.068 together, but 0.126 once age was dropped).
- Partial dependence shows an average effect; ICE shows individual curves; surrogates imitate a model, so report their R^2.
- Shapley values give each feature a fair share of the gap between one prediction and the average; they add up exactly. LIME gives a local slope; counterfactuals give the smallest change that flips a decision.
- Fairness needs group metrics (selection rate, TPR, FPR, calibration). Pick mitigation by diagnosing the source of bias; metrics conflict when base rates differ.
- Test robustness with noise, targeted nudges and poisoned data. Random noise is the easy case.
- Hygiene: baseline first, pipelines, seeds, logs, data tests, documentation, and knowing when not to use ML.
- Rebuilding algorithms from scratch and checking against scikit-learn proves understanding. The interview bank gives short, plain answers to practise aloud.

Item	Formula or command	Note
Permutation importance	`permutation_importance(m, Xte, yte, n_repeats=20)`	shuffle one column, measure score drop
PDP	`partial_dependence(m, X, [j])`	set column `j` to `v` for all rows, average predictions
ICE	same without the average	one curve per row
Shapley	`$\varphi_i = \Sigma$ [	S
Demographic parity	`P($\hat{Y}$=1	A) = P($\hat{Y}$=1
Equal opportunity	equal TPR across groups	
Adversarial step (linear)	`x' = x − ε·sign(w)·(2y−1)`	worst-case direction

Gradient check	`(L(w+e) − L(w−e)) / 2e`	compare with backprop
Safe pipeline	`make_pipeline(Selector(), Model())`	fit inside each fold

Practice set

1. (easy) A model is $f = 3 \cdot x_1 + 0 \cdot x_2$. Which feature has zero permutation importance? **Answer:** x_2, because shuffling it does not change any prediction.

2. (easy) Group A has 400 applicants and 120 approvals. Group B has 200 applicants and 50 approvals. Compute the selection rates and the disparate impact ratio. **Answer:** A: $120/400 = 0.30$. B: $50/200 = 0.25$. Ratio $0.25/0.30 = 0.833$, just above the 0.8 rule of thumb.

3. (easy) What do Shapley values add up to? **Answer:** Prediction minus the average prediction.

4. (medium) A PDP for x_1 with $f = x_1 \cdot x_2$ and rows with $x_2 = 2, 4$ is evaluated at $x_1 = 3$. What is the value? **Answer:** Predictions 6 and 12; average 9.

5. (medium) Exact Shapley for $f = x_1 + 2 \cdot x_2$ at $x = (1,1)$ with baseline $(0,0)$. **Answer:** No interaction, so each gets its own term: $\phi_1 = 1$, $\phi_2 = 2$; sum $3 = f(1,1) - f(0,0)$.

6. (medium) Find the bug: "I scaled all data with `StandardScaler().fit_transform(X)`, then did 5-fold CV and got AUC 0.91." What is wrong and what is the fix? **Answer:** The scaler used the means and spreads of the test folds too (contamination). Put the scaler in a pipeline with the model so it is fit on training folds only. For scaling the effect is small, but the habit matters, and for target-aware steps like feature selection it is large (0.81 versus 0.52 in 16.5).

7. (medium) Group B has 1,690 applicants, of whom 700 would repay; the model approves 380 of those 700. Find the true-positive rate. **Answer:** $380/700 = 0.543$.

8. (hard) A forest shows `feature_importances_` of 0.4 for a customer ID column. What do you suspect and how do you check? **Answer:** The ID lets trees memorize rows (high cardinality bias) or leaks something like time order. Check permutation importance on held-out data (it should be about 0), and split by time or group to see if the score collapses.

9. (hard, interview) Explain SHAP to a bank manager in three sentences. **Answer:** "For one customer, SHAP starts from the average prediction and shows how much each factor pushed

the risk up or down; the pushes add up to the customer's actual score. It is a fair-split rule from game theory. It tells us what the model used, not what caused the customer's situation."

10. (hard, interview) Your fairness audit shows equal approval rates but unequal true-positive rates. Is the model fair? **Answer:** It meets demographic parity but not equal opportunity: qualified people in one group are approved less often. Whether it is "fair" depends on which criterion matters for the decision. Discuss it with stakeholders, check base rates (different base rates make all criteria impossible together), document the choice.

11. (hard, interview) A model's offline AUC is 0.88 but online it is 0.71. Give four causes in order of what you check first. **Answer:** (1) Training-serving skew in features. (2) Leakage in the offline set (feature available only after the outcome). (3) Distribution shift between the offline period and now. (4) Label delay or different population or definition. Check by logging serving features and comparing distributions with training.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language, so use simple
words. Teach me model explainability: impurity versus permutation
importance, partial dependence and ICE, surrogate models, and why
correlated features mislead. Use a loan-default example with small
numbers. Explain step by step, then ask me three questions one at a time
and check each answer before moving on.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Explain Shapley
values from first principles with a three-feature example, then SHAP
(TreeSHAP and KernelSHAP), LIME and counterfactual explanations. Give me 6
graded exercises with small numbers (no solutions yet). When I send my
answers, mark them and explain each mistake. My answers: [PASTE HERE]
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Teach me
```

fairness in machine learning: sources of bias, demographic parity, equal opportunity, equalized odds, calibration within groups, the impossibility results, and mitigation (reweighing, constraints, group thresholds). Use a lending example with approval counts. Then review my audit plan for a model I might build. My plan: [PASTE HERE]

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Quiz me on ML engineering hygiene and robustness: pipelines and leakage, seeds and experiment tracking, training-serving skew, noise and adversarial tests, data poisoning, technical debt, and when not to use ML. Ask one question at a time, wait for my answer, then correct it and add one extra tip.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles, and English is my second language. Run a mock machine-learning interview with me: ask 10 questions one at a time (bias-variance, regularization, boosting versus forests, imbalance, metrics, calibration, leakage, SHAP, debugging offline versus online failures, fairness). After each answer score it out of 10, show a short model answer in plain English, and say what to improve. Start now.

CHAPTER 17

PROJECT LAB 1, PREDICTION, CLASSIFICATION, FRAUD AND COMPETITION WORKFLOW

Four portfolio projects that turn the theory of Chapters 1 to 16 into evidence an employer can read in five minutes.

A hiring manager opens a candidate's GitHub page. She does not run the code. She reads the README for two minutes and asks three silent questions. Did this person define a real question? Did they test honestly, or did they fool themselves with a leaky score? Can they explain what they built to a non-expert? Most portfolios fail on all three, because they are a notebook that fits a model to a famous dataset and prints "accuracy 0.97". This chapter gives you a method for running a project, and then four complete projects (a price predictor, a churn classifier, a fraud detector and a competition-style workflow). Every code block was run, and every output shown is the real output. By the end you will be able to plan a project, build it in small committed steps, test it, and write it up.

Prerequisites: all earlier chapters, but each project names the exact ones it uses. Software: Python 3, NumPy, pandas, scikit-learn 1.9.1 (the version used for every output here), matplotlib if you want plots. Nothing needs a download, because every dataset is generated by code with a fixed seed.

17.1 How to run a project in this area

INTUITION

A good project is a small shop built properly, not a huge shop built badly. Customers (readers) judge three things: is the shelf stocked with a clear question, are the prices honest (the evaluation), and is there a clear sign on the door (the README). A giant warehouse with no sign is not impressive.

Plan the question and the success criteria first

Write three sentences before you write any code.

1. **The decision.** "Someone will use the prediction to decide X." For example: "The sales team will decide which customers get a retention offer."

2. **The metric and the bar.** Pick the metric that matches the decision (Chapter 9), and a baseline to beat. For example: "Total cost on the test set must be at least 25 percent lower than offering nobody and than offering everybody."
3. **The honest split.** Say how the future will differ from your data (new customers? later months?) and choose the split from that (Chapter 8).

If you cannot write these three sentences, you are not ready to start. A project without a baseline is not a project: "R² of 0.94" means nothing until you know a simple rule gets 0.00.

Repo layout

Use the same layout for all projects. Reviewers learn to find things.

```
project-name/
├── README.md              # the front door (template below)
├── requirements.txt       # pinned versions
├── Makefile               # make data / make train / make test
├── src/
│   ├── data.py            # generate or load data; fixed seeds
│   ├── features.py        # feature code used by train AND predict
│   ├── train.py           # fits, cross-validates, saves model +
metrics.json
│   └── evaluate.py        # final test-set report, plots
├── tests/
│   ├── test_data.py       # shapes, no missing target, no duplicates
│   └── test_leakage.py    # train/test never overlap; features are past-
only
├── notebooks/
│   └── 01_explore.ipynb   # exploration only; no logic that the pipeline
needs
├── reports/
│   ├── metrics.json       # numbers the README quotes
│   └── figures/           # plots the README shows
└── experiments.csv        # one row per experiment (see Project 31)
```

Rule: **a number in the README must come from a file in** `reports/` , never from memory.

Environment and dependencies

```
python3 -m venv .venv && source .venv/bin/activate
pip install numpy pandas scikit-learn matplotlib
pip freeze > requirements.txt
```

Pin versions, because results can shift slightly between scikit-learn releases. Put a seed (`random_state=0`) in every split and every model. Print the library versions at the top of your training log.

Data: sourcing or generating

You have two honest options.

- **Public data.** Pick a licensed dataset, record the URL and licence in the README, and never commit large raw files (store a download script instead). Check for personal data: never publish names, phone numbers or addresses.
- **Generated data.** Write a generator with a known truth. Its big advantage is that you can check whether your model found the truth (for example, we know the true noise level, so we know the best possible error). Say clearly in the README that the data is synthetic and what you built into it. All four projects here use generators.

Commit rhythm and good commit messages

Commit when one small thing works. A good rhythm for these projects: about 10 to 15 commits, each 20 to 60 minutes of work.

```
Good:                                          Bad:
data: add generator with fixed seed            update
baseline: median model, MAE 42.8 on test       fix stuff
eval: choose threshold on out-of-fold preds    final
fix: scaler was fit on all rows (leak)         asdf
```

Pattern: `area: what changed, number if relevant` . A reviewer reads your history to see how you think. A commit named "fix: scaler was fit on all rows (leak)" shows you know the most important trap in this field.

Definition of done

A project is done when all of these are true.

- A baseline and at least two real models are compared on the same split.
- The test set was used exactly once, at the end.
- The README states the question, the metric, the result with a plain-language reading, and the limits.

- `make test` passes, and a fresh clone runs end to end in under 10 minutes.
- At least one failure or surprise is written down honestly (for example, "the tuned boosting model lost to ridge, here is why").

README template

```
# <Project title>: <one-line result>

## Question
Who uses the prediction, and for what decision?

## Data
Where it comes from (or the generator), size, label definition, licence.
If synthetic: what was built into it.

## Method
Split strategy and why. Baseline. Models tried. Tuning budget.

## Results
| Model | Metric (CV) | Metric (test) |
|---|---|---|
Plain-language reading: "this means ..."

## What I would not trust
Limits, assumptions, where it fails.

## Reproduce
make data && make train && make test

## Next steps
Three honest extensions.
```

Demo and deploy options

Rank them by effort: (1) a README with two figures and a results table (always do this); (2) a short screen recording of `make train`; (3) a small Streamlit or Gradio page that takes inputs and shows a prediction (not run here, these tools may not be installed); (4) a model served behind a tiny web API with a Dockerfile. Pick (1) and one of the others. A deploy with no evaluation is worth less than a README with honest evaluation.

Writing the LinkedIn or blog post

Use five short parts: the problem in one sentence; the trap you almost fell into (the most interesting part); the result with one number and its meaning; one chart; the link. Example opening: "My first churn model looked great until I noticed it was overconfident. Here is how calibration fixed the decision." Do not claim "99 percent accuracy". Do claim things you can defend in an interview.

Testing and debugging checklist for ML projects

Check	How	What failure looks like
Baseline first	Dummy model on the same split	Your model barely beats it
Shuffled-label test	Shuffle `y`, retrain, score	Score far above chance means leakage (Chapter 10)
Split hygiene	Assert train and test ids do not overlap	A customer in both sets
Pipeline fit	All scaling, imputing, selection inside a `Pipeline`	CV score higher than the fresh-data score
Fixed seeds	Run twice	Different numbers each run
Learning curve	Score vs training size	Train score high, validation low: overfit
Shape and range tests	Probabilities in [0, 1], no NaN	Silent NaN in features
Error slices	Residuals or errors by group	One zone or month much worse
Tiny-subset test	Fit on 20 rows	A model that cannot memorise 20 rows has a bug

COMMON MISTAKE

Tuning until the test score looks good. The test set then stops being a test. If you peek, say so in the README and collect fresh data, or report the CV score instead.

17.2 Project: Prediction With a Tuned Model and an Explanation (House-Price Style)

Goal and why employers care

Predict the price of a house from its area, rooms, age, distance to the centre and zone, then explain which inputs matter and how wrong the model typically is. Almost every business has a "predict a number" problem (delivery time, demand, price), and employers want to see that you can choose a metric, beat a baseline, tune honestly and explain the result. The twist in this project: the simplest tuned model may win, and saying so honestly is the skill.

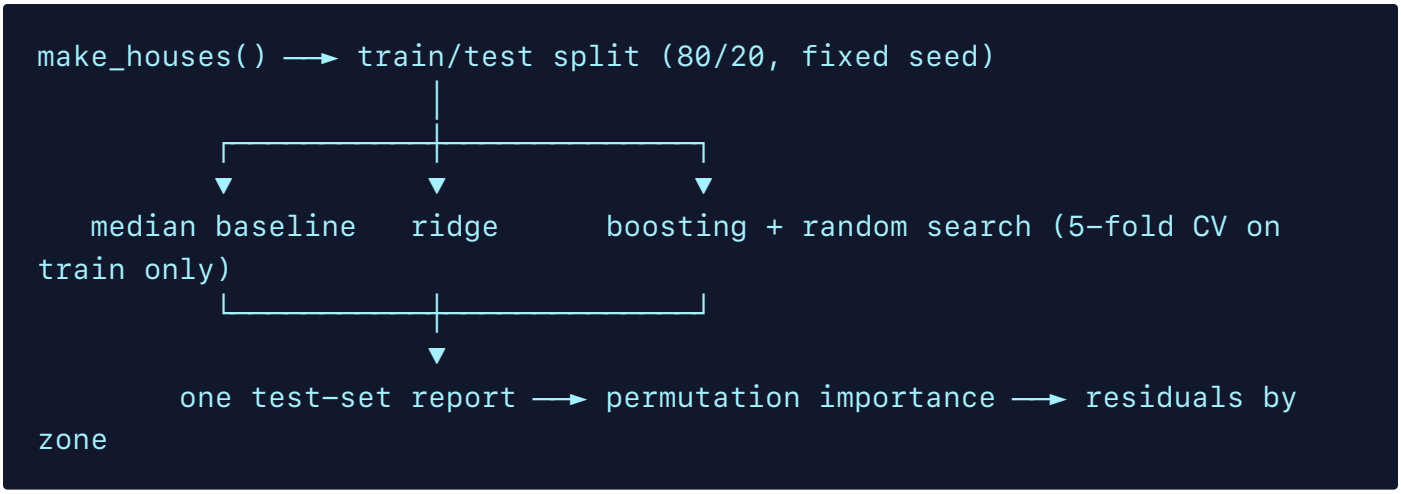
Skills used

Chapter 2 (Linear Regression From Scratch) for the linear baseline and residuals; Chapter 3 (Regularization and Model Complexity) for ridge; Chapter 7 (Gradient Boosting) for the boosted model; Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage) for the split; Chapter 9 (Metrics, Thresholds, Calibration, Uncertainty) for MAE and R^2; Chapter 11 (Hyperparameter Tuning) for random search; Chapter 16 (Explainability) for permutation importance.

Data

Generated. We know the truth: price is a linear function plus a distance interaction plus noise with standard deviation 12. So the best possible MAE (mean absolute error) is about `0.798 × 12 ≈ 9.6`, because for normal noise the mean absolute value is $\sigma \times \sqrt{(2/\pi)} \approx 0.798\sigma$. This is our ruler: no model can honestly go below about 9.6.

Architecture



Step-by-step build

1. **Generate the data and look at it.**

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split, RandomizedSearchCV
from sklearn.dummy import DummyRegressor
from sklearn.linear_model import Ridge
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.ensemble import HistGradientBoostingRegressor
from sklearn.inspection import permutation_importance
from sklearn.metrics import mean_absolute_error, r2_score

def make_houses(n=3000, seed=0):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    area = rng.normal(120, 35, n).clip(35, 300)
    rooms = np.clip((area/35 + rng.normal(0, .6, n)).round(), 1, 8)
    age = rng.uniform(0, 60, n)
    dist = rng.gamma(3, 3, n)
    zone = rng.choice(["north", "centre", "south"], n, p=[.35, .25, .4])
    zone_eff = pd.Series(zone).map({"north": 0, "centre": 30, "south":
-10}).to_numpy()
    price = (20 + 1.1*area + 4*rooms - 0.5*age - 2.0*dist + zone_eff
             + 0.004*area*np.maximum(0, 15-dist)*3 + rng.normal(0, 12,
n)).clip(15, None)
    return pd.DataFrame(dict(area=area, rooms=rooms, age=age, dist=dist,
zone=zone, price=price))

df = make_houses()
df["zone"] = df["zone"].astype("category")
X, y = df.drop(columns="price"), df["price"]
X_tr, X_te, y_tr, y_te = train_test_split(X, y, test_size=0.2,
random_state=42)
print(df.describe().round(1).loc[["mean","std","min","max"]])
print("missing:", int(df.isna().sum().sum()))
```

Output:

```
       area  rooms   age  dist  price
mean  118.9    3.4  30.2   9.1  144.0
std    34.5    1.2  17.3   5.2   52.2
min    35.0    1.0   0.0   0.3   15.0
max   227.3    7.0  60.0  40.1  308.6
missing: 0
```

1. **Baseline.** Predict the median price for everyone. Anything worse than this is a bug.
2. **Ridge** with scaling and one-hot zone (Chapter 3). **Boosting** with defaults, then **random search** with 15 trials and 5-fold CV on the training set only.

```
def report(name, m):
    p = m.predict(X_te)
    print(f"{name:22s} MAE={mean_absolute_error(y_te,p):6.2f}  R2=
{r2_score(y_te,p):.3f}")

base = DummyRegressor(strategy="median").fit(X_tr, y_tr); report("median
baseline", base)
Xd = pd.get_dummies(X_tr, columns=["zone"]).astype(float); Xtd =
pd.get_dummies(X_te, columns=["zone"]).astype(float)
ridge = make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), Ridge(alpha=1.0)).fit(Xd, y_tr)
p = ridge.predict(Xtd)
print(f"{'ridge':22s} MAE={mean_absolute_error(y_te,p):6.2f}  R2=
{r2_score(y_te,p):.3f}")
hgb = HistGradientBoostingRegressor(categorical_features="from_dtype",
random_state=0).fit(X_tr, y_tr); report("hgb default", hgb)
space = dict(learning_rate=[0.03,0.05,0.1,0.2], max_leaf_nodes=[8,15,31],
min_samples_leaf=[10,20,40,80],
             l2_regularization=[0,1,10], max_iter=[150,300,600])
rs =
RandomizedSearchCV(HistGradientBoostingRegressor(categorical_features="fro
m_dtype", random_state=0),
                        space, n_iter=15, cv=5,
scoring="neg_mean_absolute_error", random_state=0, n_jobs=1).fit(X_tr,
y_tr)
print("best params:", rs.best_params_, " cv MAE=%.2f" % -rs.best_score_)
report("hgb tuned (test)", rs.best_estimator_)
```

```
median baseline        MAE= 42.81  R2=-0.002
ridge                  MAE= 10.00  R2=0.945
hgb default            MAE= 10.87  R2=0.934
best params: {'min_samples_leaf': 20, 'max_leaf_nodes': 8, 'max_iter':
300, 'learning_rate': 0.03, 'l2_regularization': 1}  cv MAE=10.17
hgb tuned (test)       MAE= 10.62  R2=0.938
```

Read it: the median baseline is wrong by 42.8 on average (R^2 near 0 means it explains nothing). Ridge gets 10.00, almost the floor of 9.6. Tuning helped boosting (10.87 to 10.62) but did not beat ridge, because the truth is almost linear and a linear model has the right shape.

1. **Explain with permutation importance** (shuffle one column on the test set, see how much

MAE grows):

```
pi = permutation_importance(rs.best_estimator_, X_te, y_te, n_repeats=10,
random_state=0, scoring="neg_mean_absolute_error")
for i in pi.importances_mean.argsort()[::-1]: print(f"  {X.columns[i]:6s}
{pi.importances_mean[i]:6.2f} +- {pi.importances_std[i]:.2f}")
```

```
  area    36.83 +- 0.62
  dist     9.90 +- 0.52
  zone     9.65 +- 0.61
  age      4.10 +- 0.36
  rooms    1.51 +- 0.14
```

Shuffling `area` makes the average error 36.8 worse; shuffling `rooms` only 1.5 worse, because rooms is mostly a copy of area (they are correlated, so importance is shared; Chapter 16 explains why).

1. **Residual check** (actual minus predicted):

```
res = y_te - rs.best_estimator_.predict(X_te)
print("residual mean %.2f, std %.2f" % (res.mean(), res.std()))
print(res.groupby(X_te["zone"],
observed=True).agg(["mean","std"]).round(2))
```

```
residual mean 0.06, std 13.14
        mean    std
zone
centre  3.72  12.35
north  -0.85  12.76
south  -1.42  13.66
```

The mean near 0 is good. The centre zone is under-predicted by 3.7 on average, a small bias worth one line in the README.

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- Baseline MAE reported (42.81) and beaten by at least 4 times.
- Test MAE within 15 percent of the known floor (9.6): ridge 10.00 passes; tuned boosting 10.62 passes (10.6 is 11 percent above).
- Tuning done only inside the training set (CV), test used once.

- Importance and residual-by-group tables in the README.

Common pitfalls

1. **Tuning on the test set.** Detect: the tuning code mentions `X_te`. Fix: `RandomizedSearchCV` on training data only.
2. **Believing the complex model must win.** Detect: compare with ridge on the same split. Here ridge wins.
3. **Reading importance as cause.** Detect: ask whether two columns are copies (area, rooms). Importance is not "if I change this, price changes".
4. **Reporting R² only.** Detect: R² 0.94 hides an error of 10.6 currency units. Always add MAE in real units.
5. **Ignoring group errors.** Detect: residuals by zone.

Three extensions

1. Add quantile regression (Chapter 9) to give a price range, and check that 90 percent of test houses fall inside.
2. Add a drift test: train on cheap houses, test on expensive ones, and write down what breaks.
3. Replace the generator with a real public housing dataset and compare the ranking of models.

Interview talking points

Q1. Why did ridge beat your tuned boosting model? Because the true relationship is almost a straight line, and ridge has exactly that shape with few parameters. Boosting has to build the line from many small steps and picks up noise. A flexible model only wins when there is a shape (curves, interactions) that the simple model cannot express.

Q2. How do you know 10.6 is good? I compared it with a baseline (42.8) and with the noise floor I built into the data (about 9.6). It is close to the floor, so there is little left to gain. With real data you do not know the floor, so you compare with a baseline and with human error.

Q3. What does permutation importance tell you, and what does it not? It tells how much the score drops when a column is scrambled, so how much the model relies on it. It does not prove cause, and correlated columns share the credit.

README outline

Question; Data (synthetic, with the built-in noise floor); Method (split, baseline, ridge, tuned boosting); Results table (42.81, 10.00, 10.87, 10.62); Importance bar chart; Residual table; What I would not trust (synthetic data, only 3 zones); Reproduce; Next steps.

17.3 Project: Classification With Calibration and a Cost-Based Threshold (Churn Style)

Goal and why employers care

Predict which subscription customers will cancel, produce probabilities you can trust, and choose the cut-off from money, not from habit. Teams that act on predictions (send an offer, call a customer) need three things: ranking quality, honest probabilities, and a threshold tied to costs. Most portfolios stop at accuracy. This one does not.

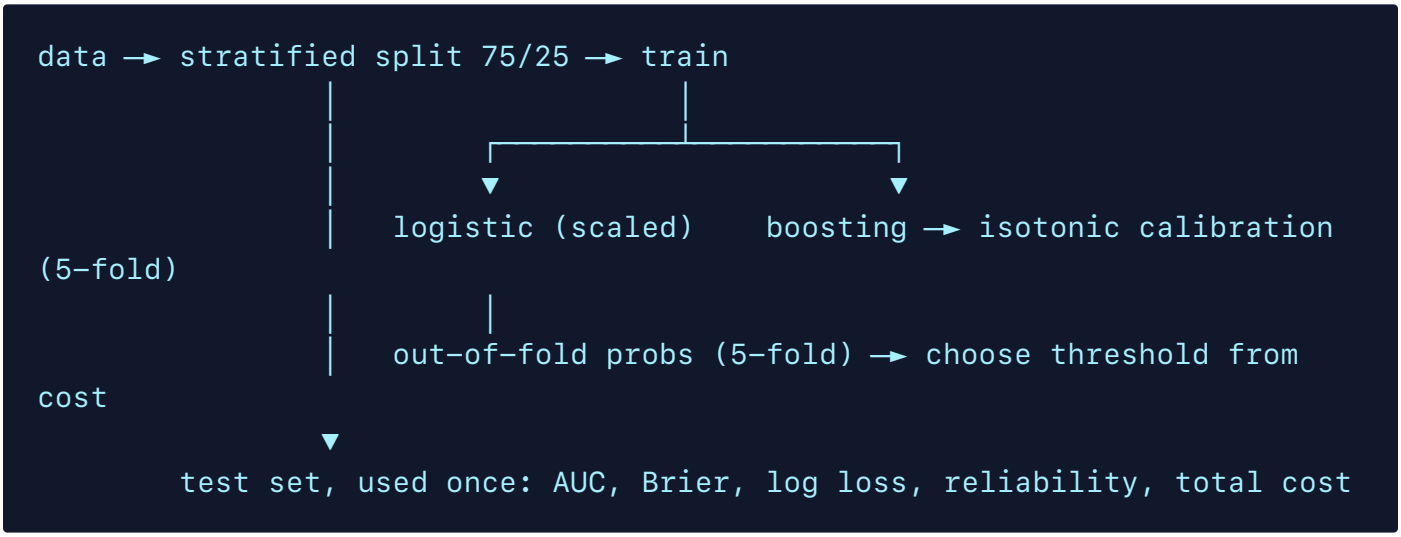
Skills used

Chapter 4 (Logistic Regression and Classification); Chapter 7 (Gradient Boosting); Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage) for out-of-fold predictions; Chapter 9 (Metrics, Thresholds, Calibration, Uncertainty) for AUC, Brier score, reliability tables, isotonic calibration and cost thresholds.

Data

Generated: 8,000 customers with tenure (months), monthly bill, support tickets, late payments and contract type. Churn follows a logistic rule, so a logistic regression has the correct shape. The churn rate comes out at 0.383.

Architecture



Step-by-step build

1. **Generate data and split (stratified, fixed seed).**
2. **Fit three probability models** and compare AUC (ranking), Brier score and log loss (probability quality; lower is better).

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split, cross_val_predict
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.ensemble import HistGradientBoostingClassifier
from sklearn.calibration import CalibratedClassifierCV, calibration_curve
from sklearn.metrics import roc_auc_score, brier_score_loss, log_loss
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler

def make_customers(n=8000, seed=1):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    tenure = rng.integers(1, 61, n); monthly = rng.normal(60, 20,
n).clip(15, 150)
    tickets = rng.poisson(1.2, n); late = rng.binomial(1, .25, n)
    monthly_contract = rng.binomial(1, .6, n)
    z = -0.6 - 0.04*tenure + 0.015*(monthly-60) + 0.45*tickets + 0.7*late
+ 0.9*monthly_contract
    churn = rng.binomial(1, 1/(1+np.exp(-z)))
    return pd.DataFrame(dict(tenure=tenure, monthly=monthly,
tickets=tickets, late=late,
                             monthly_contract=monthly_contract,
churn=churn))
df = make_customers(); X, y = df.drop(columns="churn"), df.churn
print("churn rate", round(y.mean(), 3))
X_tr, X_te, y_tr, y_te = train_test_split(X, y, test_size=.25, stratify=y,
random_state=0)

def report(name, p):
    print(f"{name:22s} AUC={roc_auc_score(y_te,p):.3f} Brier=
{brier_score_loss(y_te,p):.4f} LogLoss={log_loss(y_te,p):.4f}")
make_lr = lambda: make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000))
make_gb = lambda: HistGradientBoostingClassifier(max_iter=300,
learning_rate=0.1, max_leaf_nodes=31, min_samples_leaf=20, random_state=0)
lr = make_lr().fit(X_tr, y_tr);  p_lr = lr.predict_proba(X_te)[:, 1];
report("logistic", p_lr)
gb = make_gb().fit(X_tr, y_tr);  p_gb = gb.predict_proba(X_te)[:, 1];
report("boosting (raw)", p_gb)
iso = CalibratedClassifierCV(make_gb(), method="isotonic", cv=5).fit(X_tr,
y_tr)
p_iso = iso.predict_proba(X_te)[:, 1];
report("boosting + isotonic", p_iso)
```

```
churn rate 0.383
logistic               AUC=0.750 Brier=0.1930 LogLoss=0.5671
boosting (raw)         AUC=0.702 Brier=0.2171 LogLoss=0.6420
boosting + isotonic    AUC=0.702 Brier=0.2076 LogLoss=0.6015
```

Reading: logistic regression wins on all three, as expected when the truth is logistic. The flexible boosting model chases noise (lower AUC, and its probabilities are overconfident). Calibration does not change the ranking (AUC is the same 0.702) but improves the probabilities (Brier 0.2171 to 0.2076, log loss 0.6420 to 0.6015).

1. **Reliability table.** Five groups of customers by predicted probability (quantile bins). Each pair is (average predicted, actual churn rate).

```
for name, p in [("raw boosting", p_gb), ("isotonic", p_iso)]:
    obs, mean_pred = calibration_curve(y_te, p, n_bins=5,
strategy="quantile")
    print(name.ljust(13), " ".join(f"({m:.2f}->{o:.2f})" for m, o in
zip(mean_pred, obs)))
```

```
raw boosting  (0.06->0.17) (0.20->0.29) (0.35->0.33) (0.53->0.49) (0.79-
>0.62)
isotonic      (0.17->0.17) (0.29->0.29) (0.38->0.36) (0.47->0.47) (0.62-
>0.63)
```

For raw boosting, the top group is told "79 percent" but really churns 62 percent. That is overconfidence. After isotonic calibration the pairs lie on the diagonal.

1. **Cost-based threshold.** Suppose missing a churner costs 60 and a wasted offer costs 15. Flag a customer when `p ≥ t*`, where `t* = C_FP / (C_FP + C_FN) = 15 / 75 = 0.2`. Now check it empirically, choosing the threshold on **out-of-fold** training predictions, never on the test set.

```
C_FN, C_FP = 60, 15            # missing a churner costs 60; a wasted
offer costs 15
def cost(y_true, p, t):
    pred = p >= t; fn = ((~pred) & (y_true == 1)).sum(); fp = (pred &
(y_true == 0)).sum()
    return C_FN*fn + C_FP*fp
grid = np.linspace(.02, .98, 97)
oof = cross_val_predict(make_lr(), X_tr, y_tr, cv=5,
method="predict_proba")[:, 1]
t_best = grid[np.argmin([cost(y_tr, oof, t) for t in grid])]
print("theory t* =", round(C_FP/(C_FP+C_FN), 3), "| chosen on OOF t =",
round(t_best, 2))
print("TEST cost: t=0.5 ->", cost(y_te, p_lr, .5), "| t=chosen ->",
cost(y_te, p_lr, t_best),
      "| flag nobody ->", C_FN*int(y_te.sum()), "| flag everybody ->",
C_FP*int((1-y_te).sum()))
```

```
theory t* = 0.2 | chosen on OOF t = 0.21
TEST cost: t=0.5 -> 25395 | t=chosen -> 15930 | flag nobody -> 45900 |
flag everybody -> 18525
```

Reading: the data-driven threshold (0.21) matches the formula (0.20). Using the default 0.5 costs 25,395. Using 0.21 costs 15,930, which is 37 percent lower. It also beats "offer everyone" (18,525) by 14 percent and "offer nobody" (45,900) by 65 percent. Check by hand: the test set has 2,000 rows; 45,900 / 60 = 765 churners and 18,525 / 15 = 1,235 stayers; 765 + 1,235 = 2,000.

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- AUC reported with a baseline (0.5), Brier and log loss reported.
- Reliability table where each bin is within 0.05 of the diagonal after calibration (isotonic: yes, max gap 0.02).
- Cost at the chosen threshold at least 25 percent below the cost at 0.5 and below both trivial policies: 15,930 vs 25,395 (37 percent), 18,525 and 45,900. Pass.
- Threshold chosen without touching test data.

Common pitfalls

1. **Default threshold 0.5.** Detect: the code never mentions a cost.
2. **Calibrating and testing on the same rows.** Detect: `CalibratedClassifierCV` with

`cv="prefit"` on rows the model trained on. Use cross-fitting as above.

3. **Picking the threshold on the test set.** Detect: the grid search uses `y_te`. Use out-of-fold training predictions.
4. **Accuracy as the headline.** At a 38 percent churn rate "nobody churns" scores 62 percent accuracy. Always compare with trivial policies.
5. **Costs invented without saying so.** Detect: README does not state the cost ratio. State it and show a table for 2 or 3 ratios.

Three extensions

1. Sweep the cost ratio (C_FN from 20 to 200) and plot threshold against ratio.
2. Add an uplift view: only offer to customers whose churn is reduced by the offer (needs a randomised offer; use simulated data).
3. Add conformal prediction sets (Chapter 9) and report coverage.

Interview talking points

Q1. Why not just use 0.5? Because the two mistakes cost different amounts. If missing a churner costs 4 times more than a wasted offer, you should flag customers who are only 20 percent likely to churn. 0.5 is a habit, not a rule.

Q2. AUC is the same before and after calibration. So why calibrate? AUC only checks the order. Calibration fixes the size of the probabilities. If you use the number to compute expected cost, or to tell a manager "70 percent", it must be honest.

Q3. How do you pick a threshold without cheating? I get out-of-fold predictions on the training data, search the threshold there, and then apply it once to the test set. The test set never helps choose anything.

README outline

Question and the two costs; Data; Models and why logistic is the baseline to beat; Table of AUC, Brier, log loss; Reliability table figure; Cost table (0.5, chosen, nobody, everybody); What I would not trust (costs are assumptions); Reproduce; Next steps.

17.4 Project: Fraud and Anomaly Detection With Extreme Imbalance and Time-Aware Validation

Goal and why employers care

Find the rare fraudulent card payments (about 0.4 percent) in a stream of 120,000 transactions over 90 days, and validate in a way that mimics deployment: train on the past, test on the future. Banks, shops and delivery apps all face rare-event detection, and the classic mistake (random split, accuracy score) hides total failure. This project shows that failure with numbers, then fixes it.

Skills used

Chapter 12 (Hard Data Situations) for imbalance and distribution shift; Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage) for time-aware splits; Chapter 9 (Metrics, Thresholds, Calibration, Uncertainty) for PR-AUC and recall at a budget; Chapter 14 (Anomaly Detection, Semi-Supervised, Transfer and Online Learning) for the idea of alert budgets and concept drift; Chapter 7 (Gradient Boosting) for the model.

Data

Generated, with a built-in change. During days 0 to 59 fraud is mostly night-time and foreign transactions. From day 60 the pattern shifts: night and foreign matter less and large amounts (over 150) matter more. Real fraudsters do adapt, so this is realistic. Features: hour, log amount, foreign flag, night flag, and `card_prior_tx` (how many earlier transactions the card has; computed only from the past because rows are sorted by day).

Architecture

```
transactions (sorted by day)
  days 0–44 — train → model → days 45–59 validation (time-aware, tune
here)
  days 0–59 — train → model → days 60–89 test (the "future")
  days 0–74 / 30–74 → model → days 75–89 test (retraining policy)
  metrics: PR-AUC, ROC-AUC, recall in the top 1% of alerts
```

Step-by-step build

1. **Generate and inspect.** Always print the base rate per period.

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from sklearn.ensemble import HistGradientBoostingClassifier
from sklearn.metrics import average_precision_score, roc_auc_score
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split

def make_tx(n=120_000, days=90, seed=7):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    day = np.sort(rng.integers(0, days, n))
    hour = rng.integers(0, 24, n)
    amount = rng.lognormal(3.3, 1.0, n)
    card = rng.integers(0, 6000, n)
    foreign = rng.binomial(1, .05, n)
    night = (hour < 5).astype(int)
    z = -7.0 + 1.6*night + 2.0*foreign
    late = day >= 60
    z = z + late*(-1.5*night - 1.5*foreign + 1.4*np.log(amount/27)*(amount
> 150) + 2.0*(amount > 150))
    fraud = rng.binomial(1, 1/(1+np.exp(-z)))
    df = pd.DataFrame(dict(day=day, hour=hour, amount=amount, card=card,
foreign=foreign, night=night, fraud=fraud))
    df["card_prior_tx"] = df.groupby("card").cumcount()     # past-only:
earlier transactions of this card
    df["log_amt"] = np.log1p(df.amount)
    return df
df = make_tx()
feats = ["hour","log_amt","foreign","night","card_prior_tx"]
print("rows", len(df), " fraud rate %.4f" % df.fraud.mean())
print(df.groupby(pd.cut(df.day,
[-1,29,59,89])).fraud.agg(["size","sum","mean"]).round(4))
```

```
rows 120000  fraud rate 0.0040
           size  sum    mean
day
(-1, 29]  39950   92  0.0023
(29, 59]  39835  107  0.0027
(59, 89]  40215  284  0.0071
```

A model that says "never fraud" is 99.6 percent accurate and catches nothing, so we will not use accuracy.

1. **Define one evaluation function.** PR-AUC (average precision) is the area under the precision-recall curve; with a base rate of 0.4 percent, a useless model scores about 0.004. Recall@1% asks: if investigators can look at only 1 percent of transactions, what fraction of all fraud is in that 1 percent?

```
def fit_eval(tr, te, name):
    m = HistGradientBoostingClassifier(max_iter=200, learning_rate=.05,
max_leaf_nodes=15,
                                       min_samples_leaf=40,
random_state=0).fit(tr[feats], tr.fraud)
    s = m.predict_proba(te[feats])[:,1]
    k = int(0.01*len(te)); top = np.argsort(-s)[:k]
    print(f"{name:34s} PR-AUC={average_precision_score(te.fraud,s):.3f}
ROC-AUC={roc_auc_score(te.fraud,s):.3f} "
          f"recall@1%={te.fraud.values[top].sum()/te.fraud.sum():.3f}
(frauds in test={te.fraud.sum()})")
```

1. **Compare a random split with time-aware splits.**

```
train = df[df.day < 60]; test = df[df.day >= 60]
rtr, rte = train_test_split(df, test_size=.3, stratify=df.fraud,
random_state=0)
fit_eval(rtr, rte, "random split (looks great, is not)")
fit_eval(train, test, "time split: train<60, test>=60")
tr2, va2 = train[train.day < 45], train[train.day >= 45]
fit_eval(tr2, va2, "time validation: <45 -> 45..59")
te2 = df[df.day >= 75]
fit_eval(df[df.day < 75], te2, "all <75 -> test 75..89")
fit_eval(df[(df.day >= 30) & (df.day < 75)], te2, "last 45 days (30..74) -
> 75..89")
fit_eval(df[df.day < 60], te2, "stale (<60) -> test 75..89")
```

```
random split (looks great, is not) PR-AUC=0.133 ROC-AUC=0.859
recall@1%=0.359 (frauds in test=145)
time split: train<60, test>=60     PR-AUC=0.011 ROC-AUC=0.624
recall@1%=0.018 (frauds in test=284)
time validation: <45 -> 45..59     PR-AUC=0.012 ROC-AUC=0.701
recall@1%=0.109 (frauds in test=55)
all <75 -> test 75..89             PR-AUC=0.150 ROC-AUC=0.934
recall@1%=0.274 (frauds in test=135)
last 45 days (30..74) -> 75..89    PR-AUC=0.157 ROC-AUC=0.920
recall@1%=0.281 (frauds in test=135)
stale (<60) -> test 75..89         PR-AUC=0.011 ROC-AUC=0.641
recall@1%=0.007 (frauds in test=135)
```

Reading. The random split reports recall@1% of 0.359, because it mixes both fraud patterns into training. The honest time split reports 0.018: the model trained on the old pattern catches almost nothing of the new one (PR-AUC 0.011 against a base rate of 0.0071 in that period is barely

better than guessing). The fix is not a fancier model, it is **retraining on recent data**: models that saw days up to 74 reach recall@1% of 0.27 to 0.28 on days 75 to 89, and the stale model gets 0.007. Notice also that the time-aware validation (0.109) warned us that something was off, so a careful team sees the problem before deployment.

1. **Write the policy.** For the README: "retrain weekly on the last 45 days; monitor PR-AUC and the fraud rate by week; alert when PR-AUC drops by more than a set amount."

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- All metrics computed on a **later** period than training.
- PR-AUC and recall at an alert budget reported, not accuracy.
- A table that shows the gap between the random-split estimate (0.359) and the time-split result (0.018). The gap itself is a result.
- A retraining experiment showing recent data beats stale data (0.281 vs 0.007 recall@1%).
- Tests: no training row has a day later than the earliest test day; `card_prior_tx` for a card's first transaction is 0.

Common pitfalls

1. **Random split on time-ordered data.** Detect: compare with a time split; a big drop means leakage from the future.
2. **Using accuracy or ROC-AUC alone.** ROC-AUC looks good (0.859) even when the alert list is poor. Detect: also compute PR-AUC and recall at a budget.
3. **Features that peek at the future.** For example "card total transactions in the whole dataset". Detect: compute every feature with only earlier rows (we used a cumulative count).
4. **Tiny test counts.** The validation window had 55 frauds, so numbers are noisy. Detect: print the number of positives in every evaluation and report ranges.
5. **Re-balancing before the split.** Oversampling before splitting copies rows into both sides. Detect: resample inside the training fold only.

Three extensions

1. Add `class_weight` or downsampling of the negatives and compare PR-AUC (Chapter 12), always inside the training period.
2. Add an unsupervised score (isolation forest, Chapter 14) as a feature and test whether it helps on the later period.

3. Build a weekly rolling backtest and plot recall@1% by week to see the drift.

Interview talking points

Q1. Why is accuracy useless here? Only 0.4 percent of payments are fraud, so a model that always says "fine" is 99.6 percent accurate and finds no fraud. I use precision-recall measures and recall at the number of alerts the team can really review.

Q2. Why a time split? In real life the model is trained on the past and used on the future. A random split lets the model see the future patterns during training, so the score is too good. In my project, random gave 0.359 recall and the time split gave 0.018.

Q3. What do you do when the score drops over time? I check whether the data changed (drift). Then I retrain on recent data, and I monitor a weekly metric so the drop is seen early. A new algorithm is rarely the answer.

README outline

Question and alert budget; Data and the built-in pattern change; Metrics and why; Table of six experiments; The random-vs-time gap figure; Retraining policy; What I would not trust (synthetic, small positive counts); Reproduce; Next steps.

17.5 Project: A Kaggle-Style Competition Workflow (Experiment Log, Cross-Validation, Ensembling)

Goal and why employers care

Predict whether an online order is delivered late, but run the project the way strong competitors do: one fixed cross-validation scheme, an experiment log, out-of-fold (OOF) predictions for every model, and a blend. The point is the **workflow**, not the leaderboard. A clean log shows you can iterate without fooling yourself, which is what teams need.

Skills used

Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage) for CV and the locked holdout; Chapter 4 (Logistic Regression and Classification) with feature engineering; Chapter 6 (Decision Trees and Random Forests) and Chapter 7 (Gradient Boosting); Chapter 10 (Error Analysis, Debugging Models, and Comparing Models) for judging small differences; Chapter 11 (Hyperparameter Tuning) for the

search budget.

Data

Generated: 6,000 orders with distance, weight, items, hour, rain, courier experience and two pure noise columns. Lateness depends on distance, rain, courier experience, a rush-hour effect that grows with items, and a wavy effect of weight. The late rate is 0.285.

Architecture

```
data ──► locked holdout (20%, never looked at until the end)
          │
   development set (80%) ── fixed StratifiedKFold(5, seed=42) used by
EVERY experiment
          │
   for each experiment: out-of-fold predictions ──► experiments.csv (one
row)
          │
   blend OOF predictions (average, rank average)
          │
   refit chosen models on all development data ──► holdout score, once
```

Step-by-step build

1. **Generate, then lock the holdout.**
2. **Define the CV once and reuse it.** Same folds for every experiment, so scores are comparable.
3. **Run baseline and model experiments, store OOF predictions, and log.**

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from scipy.stats import rankdata
from sklearn.model_selection import StratifiedKFold, train_test_split
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.ensemble import RandomForestClassifier,
HistGradientBoostingClassifier, ExtraTreesClassifier
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.metrics import roc_auc_score

def make_orders(n=6000, seed=3):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    X = pd.DataFrame(dict(distance=rng.gamma(2, 6, n),
```

```
weight=rng.lognormal(1, .6, n), n_items=rng.integers(1, 12, n),
                          hour=rng.integers(8, 22, n),
rain=rng.binomial(1, .2, n), courier_exp=rng.uniform(0, 5, n),
                          noise1=rng.normal(size=n),
noise2=rng.normal(size=n)))
    z = (-2.0 + 0.09*X.distance + 0.5*X.rain - 0.25*X.courier_exp + 0.25*
(X.hour.between(17, 20))*X.n_items/3
         + 0.6*np.sin(X.weight*1.5) + 0.04*X.distance*X.rain*2)
    return X, rng.binomial(1, 1/(1+np.exp(-z)))
X, y = make_orders()
print("late rate %.3f" % y.mean())
Xd, Xh, yd, yh = train_test_split(X, y, test_size=.2, stratify=y,
random_state=0)
Xd, Xh = Xd.reset_index(drop=True), Xh.reset_index(drop=True)

models = {
 "logreg": make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)),
 "rf": RandomForestClassifier(300, min_samples_leaf=10, n_jobs=1,
random_state=0),
 "extra": ExtraTreesClassifier(300, min_samples_leaf=10, n_jobs=1,
random_state=0),
 "hgb": HistGradientBoostingClassifier(learning_rate=.03, max_iter=250,
max_leaf_nodes=8, min_samples_leaf=30, random_state=0),
}
skf = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=42)
oof = {}; log = []
for name, m in models.items():
    o = np.zeros(len(yd)); fold_auc = []
    for tr, va in skf.split(Xd, yd):
        m.fit(Xd.iloc[tr], yd[tr]); o[va] = m.predict_proba(Xd.iloc[va])
[:,1]; fold_auc.append(roc_auc_score(yd[va], o[va]))
    oof[name] = o
    log.append(dict(exp=name, oof_auc=roc_auc_score(yd, o),
fold_std=np.std(fold_auc)))
```

1. **A feature-engineering experiment**, then blends:

```
def fe(df):
    d = df.copy(); d["dist_rain"] = d.distance*d.rain; d["rush"] =
d.hour.between(17,20).astype(int)
    d["rush_items"] = d.rush*d["n_items"]; d["sinw"] =
np.sin(1.5*d.weight); return d
o = np.zeros(len(yd)); fa = []
for tr, va in skf.split(Xd, yd):
    m = make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)).fit(fe(Xd).iloc[tr], yd[tr])
    o[va] = m.predict_proba(fe(Xd).iloc[va])[:,1];
fa.append(roc_auc_score(yd[va], o[va]))
oof["logreg_fe"] = o; log.append(dict(exp="logreg_fe",
oof_auc=roc_auc_score(yd, o), fold_std=np.std(fa)))
names = ["logreg_fe","rf","hgb"]
avg = np.mean([oof[k] for k in names], axis=0)
log.append(dict(exp="blend_avg(logreg_fe,rf,hgb)",
oof_auc=roc_auc_score(yd, avg), fold_std=np.nan))
rk = np.mean([rankdata(oof[k]) for k in names], axis=0)
log.append(dict(exp="blend_rank", oof_auc=roc_auc_score(yd, rk),
fold_std=np.nan))
print(pd.DataFrame(log).round(4).to_string(index=False))
```

```
late rate 0.285
                        exp  oof_auc  fold_std
                     logreg   0.7444    0.0189
                         rf   0.7532    0.0100
                      extra   0.7445    0.0183
                        hgb   0.7622    0.0128
                  logreg_fe   0.7737    0.0142
blend_avg(logreg_fe,rf,hgb)   0.7687       NaN
                 blend_rank   0.7682       NaN
```

Write the same table to `experiments.csv` with the date, a one-line note and the git commit.

1. **Refit and score the holdout once.**

```
fm = {"logreg_fe": make_pipeline(StandardScaler(),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)), "rf": models["rf"], "hgb":
models["hgb"]}
ph = {}
for k, m in fm.items():
    A, B = (fe(Xd), fe(Xh)) if k=="logreg_fe" else (Xd, Xh)
    m.fit(A, yd); ph[k] = m.predict_proba(B)[:,1]; print(f"holdout {k:10s}
AUC={roc_auc_score(yh, ph[k]):.4f}")
print("holdout blend_avg AUC=%.4f" % roc_auc_score(yh,
np.mean(list(ph.values()),axis=0)))
```

```
holdout logreg_fe  AUC=0.7776
holdout rf         AUC=0.7771
holdout hgb        AUC=0.7776
holdout blend_avg AUC=0.7821
```

Reading, honestly. The feature engineering gave the biggest jump (logreg 0.7444 to 0.7737), larger than any change of algorithm. The blend did **not** win on the OOF scores (0.7687 against 0.7737 for the single engineered model), but did slightly on the holdout (0.7821). The fold standard deviation is about 0.014, so differences below about 0.01 are not reliable. A good write-up says exactly that, and does not claim the blend "improved" the model.

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- One fixed CV scheme, identical folds in every row of `experiments.csv`.
- Every experiment logged with score, fold spread and a one-line idea.
- Holdout scored once, after the final choice, and its numbers reported next to the OOF numbers (0.7737 OOF vs 0.7776 holdout is consistent).
- A short statement of which differences are within noise (under about 0.01 here).
- Blends use OOF predictions only, never predictions on training rows.

Common pitfalls

1. **Changing the folds between experiments.** Detect: the seed or `n_splits` differs across code cells. Define `skf` once.
2. **Fitting a blender on training predictions.** Detect: blend weights fitted on predictions of rows the models trained on. Use OOF.
3. **Chasing the third decimal.** Detect: compare the gain with `fold_std`. A gain of 0.003 with std 0.014 is noise.

4. **Peeking at the holdout.** Detect: the holdout variable appears before the final cell. Keep it in a separate file loaded only by `evaluate.py`.
5. **Feature engineering inside the full data.** Target encoding or scaling that uses all rows leaks. Detect: put it in a Pipeline.

Three extensions

1. Add repeated CV (3 repeats of 5 folds) and report the mean and the spread across repeats.
2. Add stacking: a logistic regression trained on the OOF predictions, evaluated with a second, nested CV.
3. Add a time or group structure to the data and change the CV accordingly (Chapter 8).

Interview talking points

Q1. Why keep a log of experiments? Without it you forget what you tried, and you start trusting the best of many tries, which is optimistic. A log with fixed folds lets me compare fairly and lets a colleague repeat my work.

Q2. Why did your ensemble not beat the best single model? The three models were already similar in what they learn, so averaging added little, and the best single model had better features. Ensembles help most when models make different mistakes. I report this honestly instead of hiding it.

Q3. What is out-of-fold prediction? For each row, the prediction comes from a model that did not train on that row. Collecting them gives an honest prediction for every row of the development data, which I can use to score and to blend.

README outline

Question; Data; The validation scheme and the locked holdout; Experiment table (all seven rows); What gave the gain (features); Noise statement; Holdout result; Reproduce; Next steps.

Chapter recap

- A project is judged on its question, its honest evaluation and its README, not on how fancy the model is.
- Write the decision, the metric with a baseline, and the split before writing code.
- Keep one repo layout, pin versions, fix seeds, and commit small steps with clear messages.

- A simple tuned model can beat a complex one when the truth is simple. Prove it with a baseline and a known noise floor (house prices: ridge 10.00 vs boosting 10.62, floor about 9.6).
- Good probabilities and a good cut-off are separate from a good ranking. Choose the threshold from costs, on out-of-fold data (churn: t* = C_FP/(C_FP+C_FN) = 0.2).
- With rare events, use PR-AUC and recall at an alert budget, and validate forward in time (fraud: random 0.359 vs time-aware 0.018).
- A competition workflow is fixed folds, a log, out-of-fold predictions, a blend, and a holdout used once.
- Say what you would not trust. It makes the project more believable.

Pattern	Code or rule
Cost threshold	`t* = C_FP / (C_FP + C_FN)`
Noise floor of MAE (normal noise)	`0.798 × σ`
Out-of-fold probabilities	`cross_val_predict(model, X, y, cv=5, method="predict_proba")`
Calibrate	`CalibratedClassifierCV(model, method="isotonic", cv=5)`
Recall at a budget	take the top `k` scores, count frauds found divided by all frauds
Fixed folds	`skf = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=42)` once

Practice set

1. (easy) Missing a churner costs 100 and a wasted offer costs 10. What is the best threshold in theory? **Answer:** `t* = 10 / (10 + 100) = 0.0909` . Flag customers with at least about 9 percent churn probability.

2. (easy) Fraud is 0.4 percent of 120,000 payments. What accuracy does "never fraud" get, and how many frauds does it catch? **Answer:** 99.6 percent accuracy and 0 frauds. About 480 frauds are missed (we measured 483).

3. (easy) House-price noise has standard deviation 12. What is the best possible MAE? **Answer:** About `0.798 × 12 = 9.6` . A test MAE of 10.0 is within about 4 percent of that.

4. (medium) Find the bug: `t = grid[np.argmin([cost(y_te, p_te, t) for t in grid])]` , then the team reports `cost(y_te, p_te, t)` . **Answer:** The threshold is chosen and scored on the same test data, so the result is optimistic. Choose `t` on out-of-fold training predictions and score the test set once.

5. (medium) In the competition project the gain from a blend is 0.003 and the fold standard deviation is 0.014. What do you write? **Answer:** The gain is within noise, so I do not claim an improvement. I would repeat CV several times or collect more data before deciding.

6. (medium) Why did random search plus boosting not beat ridge in Project 6? **Answer:** The relationship is almost linear, so ridge has the right shape and little variance. Boosting adds flexibility the problem does not need, and it fits some noise. Acceptance: your answer mentions shape of the truth and variance.

7. (interview) "Your fraud model has 99.7 percent accuracy. Is it good?" Answer in four sentences. **Answer:** Not by itself. With 0.4 percent fraud, always saying "legit" gets 99.6 percent. I would look at PR-AUC and the recall inside the number of alerts the team can review. I would also check that the test period is later than the training period.

8. (interview) "How would you show a reviewer that your churn probabilities are trustworthy?" **Answer:** A reliability table or plot: group customers by predicted probability and compare with the real churn rate in each group, plus Brier score and log loss. If the groups lie on the diagonal, the probabilities are honest. If not, calibrate (isotonic or Platt) using cross-fitting.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and I am building a portfolio project in machine
learning. Help me plan it. My idea is: [PASTE IDEA HERE]. Ask me, one at a
time, for: the decision the prediction supports, the metric and a
baseline, the honest split (random, grouped, or forward in time), and the
data source or generator. Then write a one-page plan with a repo layout, a
list of 10 commits, a definition of done, and three risks. Explain every
term the first time you use it, in simple English.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. I finished a machine learning project and want a
strict review of its evaluation. Here are my README and key code: [PASTE
HERE]. Check, in this order: the split strategy, leakage (preprocessing,
features, thresholds chosen on test data), the baseline, the metric choice
for the decision, the number of experiments tried versus the noise in the
scores, and calibration. For each issue, say how I can detect it with a
small test and how to fix it. End with a list of claims in my README that
I should soften.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. My model has a strange result: [DESCRIBE, for
example validation score 0.95 but fresh-data score 0.65]. Walk me through
debugging step by step. Start with the cheapest checks (shuffled-label
test, tiny-subset test, duplicate rows, a feature that is known only after
the event, scaling fitted on all rows), and tell me exactly what code to
run and what result would confirm each cause. Do not guess the answer;
make me do each check and report back before you move on.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles, and I am building a classification project where
the two kinds of mistakes cost different amounts. Teach me how to choose
the threshold from cost, using my numbers: cost of a missed positive [X],
cost of a false alarm [Y], positive rate [Z]. Show the formula, work one
example with real numbers, then give me a short Python plan to choose the
threshold on out-of-fold predictions and to compare with the policies
"flag nobody" and "flag everybody". Then quiz me with three questions, one
at a time.
```

✨ **AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI**

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. Help me turn my finished machine learning project
into a LinkedIn or blog post and an interview story. Here is my README:
[PASTE HERE]. Write a 200-word post with this shape: the problem, the trap
I almost fell into, one honest number with its meaning, one limit. Then
run a mock interview: ask me five questions about this project, one at a
time, wait for my answer, and give feedback on clarity, honesty and
```

correctness before the next question.

CHAPTER 18

PROJECT LAB 2, A LIBRARY FROM SCRATCH, A VALIDATION STUDY AND CUSTOMER SEGMENTS

Three projects that prove you understand the machinery: build the algorithms yourself, measure how evaluation lies, and find groups you can trust.

Most candidates can call `model.fit()`. Far fewer can say what happens inside it, or how much to trust the score it prints. These three projects give you that evidence. In the first you write five classic algorithms in plain NumPy and check them against scikit-learn with automated tests. In the second you run a controlled study that shows, with numbers, how a wrong split or a leaky pipeline inflates a score. In the third you cluster shop customers and prove the groups are stable instead of accidental. Every code block was run (NumPy 2.5.3, scikit-learn 1.9.1, fixed seeds), and the outputs below are the real outputs. Use the method in Chapter 17, section 17.1 (repo layout, commit rhythm, README template, definition of done) for all three.

Prerequisites: Chapter 2 (Linear Regression From Scratch), Chapter 4 (Logistic Regression and Classification), Chapter 5 (Support Vector Machines, k-Nearest Neighbours and Naive Bayes), Chapter 6 (Decision Trees and Random Forests), Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage), Chapter 11 (Hyperparameter Tuning), Chapter 13 (Unsupervised Learning).

18.1 Project: A From-Scratch ML Library in NumPy, Tested Against scikit-learn

Goal and why employers care

Build `mlscratch.py` with linear regression, logistic regression, k-nearest neighbours, a decision tree and k-means, about 80 lines in total, plus a test file that proves each one gives the same answers as scikit-learn. Interviewers love this because it shows two rare skills at once: you understand the algorithm, and you know how to **test** numerical code. "Matches scikit-learn to 4 decimals" is a strong sentence.

Skills used

Chapter 2 (Linear Regression From Scratch) for least squares; Chapter 4 (Logistic Regression and Classification) for the log-loss gradient and Newton's method; Chapter 5 (Support Vector

Machines, k-Nearest Neighbours and Naive Bayes) for k-NN; Chapter 6 (Decision Trees and Random Forests) for Gini splits; Chapter 13 (Unsupervised Learning) for k-means.

Data

Generated inside the tests with `make_regression`, `make_classification` and `make_blobs`. Fixed seeds, so the tests are repeatable.

Architecture

```
mlscratch-project/
├── mlscratch.py          # five classes, NumPy only
├── test_mlscratch.py     # one test per class, compares with scikit-learn
├── README.md
└── requirements.txt      # numpy, scikit-learn (for tests only)

Design rule: the library imports ONLY numpy. scikit-learn is the "answer
key"
and appears only in the tests.
```

Step-by-step build

1. **Write the library one class at a time, test each class before the next.** The complete library follows. Read the comments, because each class uses a *choice* that must match scikit-learn to pass.

```
"""Tiny ML library in NumPy. Educational, not fast."""
import numpy as np

class LinearRegression:
    def fit(self, X, y):
        A = np.c_[np.ones(len(X)), X]
        self.coef_ = np.linalg.lstsq(A, y, rcond=None)[0]
        return self
    def predict(self, X):
        return np.c_[np.ones(len(X)), X] @ self.coef_

class LogisticRegression:
    """Newton's method (IRLS) with a small L2 penalty on the weights (not
the intercept)."""
    def __init__(self, C=1e6, n_iter=50):
        self.lam, self.n_iter = 1.0 / C, n_iter
```

```
    def fit(self, X, y):
        A = np.c_[np.ones(len(X)), X]; w = np.zeros(A.shape[1])
        R = self.lam * np.eye(A.shape[1]); R[0, 0] = 0
        for _ in range(self.n_iter):
            p = 1 / (1 + np.exp(-A @ w))
            grad = A.T @ (p - y) + R @ w
            H = A.T @ (A * (p * (1 - p))[:, None]) + R
            step = np.linalg.solve(H, grad); w -= step
            if np.abs(step).max() < 1e-10: break
        self.w_ = w; return self
    def predict_proba(self, X):
        p = 1 / (1 + np.exp(-(np.c_[np.ones(len(X)), X] @ self.w_)))
        return np.c_[1 - p, p]
    def predict(self, X):
        return (self.predict_proba(X)[:, 1] >= .5).astype(int)

class KNN:
    def __init__(self, k=5): self.k = k
    def fit(self, X, y): self.X_, self.y_ = np.asarray(X, float),
np.asarray(y); return self
    def predict(self, X):
        d = ((np.asarray(X, float)[:, None, :] - self.X_[None, :, :]) **
2).sum(-1)
        idx = np.argsort(d, axis=1, kind="stable")[:, :self.k]
        votes = self.y_[idx]
        return np.array([np.bincount(v).argmax() for v in votes])

class DecisionTree:
    def __init__(self, max_depth=3, min_leaf=1): self.max_depth,
self.min_leaf = max_depth, min_leaf
    @staticmethod
    def _gini(y):
        p = np.bincount(y) / len(y); return 1 - (p ** 2).sum()
    def _best(self, X, y):
        best = (None, None, self._gini(y)); n = len(y)
        for j in range(X.shape[1]):
            vals = np.unique(X[:, j])
            for t in (vals[:-1] + vals[1:]) / 2:
                L = X[:, j] <= t
                if L.sum() < self.min_leaf or (~L).sum() < self.min_leaf:
continue
                g = (L.sum() * self._gini(y[L]) + (~L).sum() *
self._gini(y[~L])) / n
                if g < best[2] - 1e-12: best = (j, t, g)
        return best
    def _grow(self, X, y, depth):
        if depth == self.max_depth or len(np.unique(y)) == 1: return
```

```
int(np.bincount(y).argmax())
        j, t, _ = self._best(X, y)
        if j is None: return int(np.bincount(y).argmax())
        L = X[:, j] <= t
        return (j, t, self._grow(X[L], y[L], depth + 1), self._grow(X[~L],
y[~L], depth + 1))
    def fit(self, X, y): self.tree_ = self._grow(np.asarray(X, float),
np.asarray(y), 0); return self
    def _one(self, x, node):
        while isinstance(node, tuple): node = node[2] if x[node[0]] <=
node[1] else node[3]
        return node
    def predict(self, X): return np.array([self._one(x, self.tree_) for x
in np.asarray(X, float)])

class KMeans:
    def __init__(self, k=3, init=None, n_iter=100, seed=0): self.k,
self.init, self.n_iter, self.seed = k, init, n_iter, seed
    def fit(self, X):
        X = np.asarray(X, float)
        if self.init is None:
            rng = np.random.default_rng(self.seed); C =
X[rng.choice(len(X), self.k, replace=False)]
        else: C = np.array(self.init, float)
        for _ in range(self.n_iter):
            lab = ((X[:, None, :] - C[None]) ** 2).sum(-1).argmin(1)
            newC = np.array([X[lab == c].mean(0) if (lab == c).any() else
C[c] for c in range(self.k)])
            if np.allclose(newC, C): break
            C = newC
        self.centers_, self.labels_ = C, lab
        self.inertia_ = ((X - C[lab]) ** 2).sum()
        return self
    def predict(self, X): return ((np.asarray(X, float)[:, None, :] -
self.centers_[None]) ** 2).sum(-1).argmin(1)
```

Why these choices: linear regression uses `lstsq` (stable least squares, better than inverting a matrix). Logistic regression uses Newton's method, which needs only a handful of iterations, and a penalty `1/C` on the weights but **not** on the intercept, which is how scikit-learn defines its penalty. k-NN uses a stable sort so ties break the same way each time. The tree tries every midpoint between sorted unique values and keeps the split with the lowest weighted Gini impurity. k-means uses Lloyd's loop: assign each point to the nearest centre, move each centre to the mean of its points, repeat until nothing moves.

1. **Write the tests.** The comparison must use the same settings on both sides (same penalty,

same starting centres).

```
import numpy as np
from sklearn.datasets import make_regression, make_classification,
make_blobs
from sklearn import linear_model, neighbors, tree, cluster
import mlscratch as ms

def test_linear():
    X, y = make_regression(200, 4, noise=5, random_state=0)
    a = ms.LinearRegression().fit(X, y); b =
linear_model.LinearRegression().fit(X, y)
    assert np.allclose(a.coef_[1:], b.coef_) and np.isclose(a.coef_[0],
b.intercept_)
    assert np.allclose(a.predict(X), b.predict(X))

def test_logistic():
    X, y = make_classification(300, 5, random_state=1)
    a = ms.LogisticRegression(C=1.0).fit(X, y); b =
linear_model.LogisticRegression(C=1.0, tol=1e-10, max_iter=1000).fit(X, y)
    assert np.allclose(a.w_[1:], b.coef_[0], atol=1e-4) and
np.isclose(a.w_[0], b.intercept_[0], atol=1e-4)
    assert np.allclose(a.predict_proba(X)[:, 1], b.predict_proba(X)[:, 1],
atol=1e-4)

def test_knn():
    X, y = make_classification(200, 4, random_state=2); Xt = X[:50] + .01
    a = ms.KNN(5).fit(X, y).predict(Xt); b =
neighbors.KNeighborsClassifier(5).fit(X, y).predict(Xt)
    assert (a == b).all()

def test_tree():
    X, y = make_classification(200, 4, random_state=3)
    a = ms.DecisionTree(max_depth=3).fit(X, y); b =
tree.DecisionTreeClassifier(max_depth=3, random_state=0).fit(X, y)
    agree = (a.predict(X) == b.predict(X)).mean(); print("tree agreement",
agree)
    assert agree >= 0.99

def test_kmeans():
    X, _ = make_blobs(300, centers=3, random_state=4)
    init = X[[0, 1, 2]]
    a = ms.KMeans(3, init=init).fit(X); b = cluster.KMeans(3, init=init,
n_init=1, algorithm="lloyd").fit(X)
    assert np.allclose(a.centers_, b.cluster_centers_, atol=1e-6) and
np.isclose(a.inertia_, b.inertia_)
```

```
def test_logistic_shape_and_range():
    X, y = make_classification(50, 3, n_informative=2, n_redundant=0,
random_state=5); p = ms.LogisticRegression().fit(X, y).predict_proba(X)
    assert p.shape == (50, 2) and np.allclose(p.sum(1), 1) and (p >=
0).all()

if __name__ == "__main__":      # tiny runner, so the file also works
without pytest
    for name, fn in list(globals().items()):
        if name.startswith("test_"):
            fn(); print("PASS", name)
```

1. **Run them.**

```
python3 test_mlscratch.py
```

```
PASS test_linear
PASS test_logistic
PASS test_knn
tree agreement 1.0
PASS test_tree
PASS test_kmeans
PASS test_logistic_shape_and_range
```

(If `pytest` is installed you can run `pytest -q` instead. It was not installed where this chapter was tested, so the file has a tiny runner at the bottom.)

1. **Break it on purpose, to see that your tests can fail.** If we change `R[0, 0] = 0` to `pass` (so the intercept is also penalised), the weights still match to 1e-4, and only the **intercept check** catches the bug: the intercept becomes 0.0528 instead of scikit-learn's 0.0546. Running the test file then stops with an `AssertionError` at the line that compares intercepts. A test that cannot fail is not a test. Always include one deliberate-break check in your write-up.

1. **Add a timing note.** k-NN here builds an `n_test × n_train × features` array, which is simple but memory-hungry. Say so in the README. Honesty about limits is part of the project.

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- All five classes pass tests against scikit-learn: linear coefficients and predictions equal

(`np.allclose`), logistic probabilities within 1e-4, k-NN predictions identical, tree agreement at least 0.99 on training data (we got 1.0), k-means centres within 1e-6 and equal inertia.

- The library file imports only NumPy.
- At least one deliberately broken version fails a test.
- README states what is not implemented (no regularisation path, no pruning, no speed tuning).

Common pitfalls

1. **Different settings on the two sides.** scikit-learn's logistic regression is penalised by default (`C=1.0`). Detect: results differ by a small, steady amount; print both settings. Fix: set `C` explicitly on both.
2. **Penalising the intercept.** Detect: coefficients agree but the intercept is slightly off. Test the intercept separately.
3. **Random starts for k-means.** Two runs reach different local optima. Detect: compare with a fixed `init` . Fix: pass the same starting centres to both.
4. **Test data that breaks the generator.** `make_classification` raised `ValueError: Number of informative, redundant and repeated features must sum to less than the number of total features` when we first asked for 3 features with default settings. Fix: set `n_informative=2, n_redundant=0` . Read errors fully.
5. **Tolerance too loose.** `atol=1e-1` passes almost anything. Detect: break the code on purpose and see if the test fails.

Three extensions

1. Add ridge regression and Lasso (coordinate descent), and test against scikit-learn.
2. Add a random forest from your tree (bootstrap rows, random feature subsets) and compare accuracy with scikit-learn's forest.
3. Add gradient descent versions of the linear and logistic models and plot loss against iteration (Chapter 11).

Interview talking points

Q1. How do you know your implementation is right? I wrote tests that compare it with a trusted library under identical settings, and I broke my own code on purpose to confirm that the tests fail. Matching in one case is not proof, so I used several datasets and checked weights,

probabilities and predictions.

Q2. Why Newton's method for logistic regression? The loss is smooth and convex, and Newton uses the curvature (the Hessian) to take big, well-aimed steps. It reaches the answer in a few iterations. The cost is solving a small linear system each step, which is fine for few features and slow for thousands.

Q3. What does k-means actually minimise, and what can go wrong? It minimises the sum of squared distances from each point to its centre (inertia). Each step lowers or keeps it, but it can stop at a local minimum, so the starting centres matter. That is why we run several starts.

README outline

Why this exists; the five algorithms with one line each; how to run the tests; table of "what is compared and to what tolerance"; the deliberate-break experiment; limits; next steps.

18.2 Project: A Validation and Hyperparameter-Tuning Study That Shows Leakage

Goal and why employers care

Run three controlled experiments in which you **know the true answer**, so you can see exactly how much a careless evaluation lies. Employers care because the most expensive ML failures are not bad algorithms, they are inflated scores. A study like this is rare in portfolios and very convincing.

Skills used

Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage) for splits, groups, time and pipelines; Chapter 11 (Hyperparameter Tuning) for random search and over-tuning; Chapter 6 (Decision Trees and Random Forests) for the models; Chapter 10 (Error Analysis, Debugging Models, and Comparing Models) for the shuffled-label idea.

Data

All generated, because we need to know the truth.

- **Study A, Q1 (new customers).** 400 customers, 12 visits each. Each customer has a fixed habit that makes their rows look alike, and a hidden personal tendency that drives their

outcome. Random folds put the same customer in train and validation, so the model can memorise the customer.

- **Study A, Q2 (next months).** The link between feature `x1` and the outcome fades and flips sign over 12 months.
- **Study B.** 100 rows, 1,000 random features, labels that are pure coin flips. The true AUC is 0.5.
- **Study C.** A weak signal in 10 features, a small validation set of 60 rows, 100 random configurations of a decision tree, repeated 30 times.

Architecture

```
Study A: one dataset, several split strategies  →  compare each estimate
with the TRUTH
Study B: noise labels                           →  leaky vs pipeline
selection
Study C: many configurations, small validation  →  winner's validation
score vs fresh score
        all studies: fixed seeds, one script, one results table
```

Step-by-step build

1. **Put all three studies in one script (** `study.py` **).** Read it once, then run it.

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from sklearn.model_selection import KFold, GroupKFold, TimeSeriesSplit,
cross_val_score, StratifiedKFold, ParameterSampler
from sklearn.ensemble import RandomForestClassifier
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression
from sklearn.feature_selection import SelectKBest, f_classif
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
from sklearn.tree import DecisionTreeClassifier
from sklearn.metrics import roc_auc_score

# ---------- Study A: split strategy ----------
def make_visits(n_cust=400, per=12, seed=0):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed); rows = []
    for c in range(n_cust):
        quirk = rng.normal(0, 1.5, 3); base = rng.normal(0, 2)      #
customer-specific habit (identifies the customer)
        for t in range(per):
            x = quirk + rng.normal(0, .15, 3)
```

```
            w1 = 1.0 - 0.25*t                                   #
relationship changes with time
            z = base + w1*x[1]
            rows.append((c, t, *x, rng.binomial(1, 1/(1+np.exp(-z)))))
    return pd.DataFrame(rows, columns=["cust","month","x0","x1","x2","y"])
d = make_visits(); F = ["x0","x1","x2"]
model = lambda: RandomForestClassifier(150, random_state=0, n_jobs=1)
def cv(splitter, data, groups=None):
    return cross_val_score(model(), data[F], data.y, groups=groups,
cv=splitter, scoring="roc_auc").mean()
# Question 1: "will it work for NEW customers?"  Truth = train on
customers 0-299, score customers 300-399.
old, new = d[d.cust < 300], d[d.cust >= 300]
truth1 = roc_auc_score(new.y, model().fit(old[F],
old.y).predict_proba(new[F])[:,1])
print("rows", len(d), "customers", d.cust.nunique())
print("Q1 new customers:")
print(f"  random KFold(5)        : {cv(KFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=0), old):.3f}")
print(f"  GroupKFold(5) by cust  : {cv(GroupKFold(5), old,
old.cust):.3f}")
print(f"  TRUTH (unseen customers): {truth1:.3f}")

# Question 2: "will it work next month?"  A drifting world with no
repeated customers.
def make_drift(n=6000, seed=5):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed); t = np.sort(rng.integers(0, 12,
n)); X = rng.normal(size=(n, 3))
    z = (1.0 - 0.25*t) * X[:,1] + 0.5*X[:,2]              # the weight on
x1 fades and flips sign
    return pd.DataFrame(dict(month=t, x0=X[:,0], x1=X[:,1], x2=X[:,2],
y=rng.binomial(1, 1/(1+np.exp(-z)))))
dd = make_drift(); past, future = dd[dd.month < 9], dd[dd.month >= 9]
truth2 = roc_auc_score(future.y, model().fit(past[F],
past.y).predict_proba(future[F])[:,1])
print("Q2 next months (train months 0-8, score months 9-11):")
print(f"  random KFold(5)        : {cv(KFold(5, shuffle=True,
random_state=0), past):.3f}")
print(f"  TimeSeriesSplit(4)     : {cv(TimeSeriesSplit(4), past):.3f}")
print(f"  TRUTH (future months)  : {truth2:.3f}")

# ---------- Study B: leakage in feature selection (labels are pure noise)
----------
cvs = StratifiedKFold(5, shuffle=True, random_state=0); W, R = [], []
for seed in range(20):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed); Xn = rng.normal(size=(100, 1000));
yn = rng.integers(0, 2, 100)
```

```
    Xsel = SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20).fit_transform(Xn, yn)          #
WRONG: selection saw every row
    W.append(cross_val_score(LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000), Xsel, yn,
cv=cvs, scoring="roc_auc").mean())
    R.append(cross_val_score(make_pipeline(SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20),
LogisticRegression(max_iter=1000)), Xn, yn, cv=cvs,
scoring="roc_auc").mean())
print(f"noise labels, mean of 20 datasets: select-then-CV (leak) AUC=
{np.mean(W):.3f}; selection inside pipeline AUC={np.mean(R):.3f}; truth
0.5")

# ---------- Study C: over-tuning on a small validation set (30 repeats) -
---------
space = dict(max_depth=list(range(1,15)),
min_samples_leaf=list(range(1,40)), max_features=[1,2,3,5,10], criterion=
["gini","entropy"])
def gen(rng, n):
    X = rng.normal(size=(n, 10)); return X, (X[:,0] + 0.5*X[:,1] +
rng.normal(0, 2.0, n) > 0).astype(int)
best_val, fresh_of_best, default_fresh = [], [], []
for rep in range(30):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(100+rep); Xt, yt = gen(rng, 150); Xv, yv =
gen(rng, 60); Xf, yf = gen(rng, 5000)
    sc = []
    for p in ParameterSampler(space, 100, random_state=rep):
        m = DecisionTreeClassifier(random_state=0, **p).fit(Xt, yt)
        sc.append((roc_auc_score(yv, m.predict_proba(Xv)[:,1]),
roc_auc_score(yf, m.predict_proba(Xf)[:,1])))
    sc = np.array(sc); b = sc[:,0].argmax(); best_val.append(sc[b,0]);
fresh_of_best.append(sc[b,1])
print(f"mean best validation AUC={np.mean(best_val):.3f}; mean AUC of that
same winner on 5000 fresh rows={np.mean(fresh_of_best):.3f}")
```

1. **Run it and read the output.**

```
rows 4800 customers 400
Q1 new customers:
  random KFold(5)        : 0.724
  GroupKFold(5) by cust  : 0.560
  TRUTH (unseen customers): 0.508
Q2 next months (train months 0–8, score months 9–11):
  random KFold(5)        : 0.593
  TimeSeriesSplit(4)     : 0.571
  TRUTH (future months)  : 0.533
noise labels, mean of 20 datasets: select-then-CV (leak) AUC=0.906;
selection inside pipeline AUC=0.509; truth 0.5
mean best validation AUC=0.717; mean AUC of that same winner on 5000 fresh
rows=0.611
```

1. **Read each study.**

Study A, new customers. Random KFold says AUC 0.724. Grouped CV (never splitting a customer across folds) says 0.560. The truth, scoring customers the model never saw, is 0.508, which is basically chance. Random folds are too optimistic by 0.22 because the model recognised customers. Grouped CV is much closer.

Study A, next months. Random KFold says 0.593, `TimeSeriesSplit` says 0.571, and the real future is 0.533. Both are optimistic, because the signal changed. The forward-in-time split is closer, and its gap (0.04) is the honest measure of how much the world shifted. A split cannot remove drift, it can only reveal it.

Study B. Selecting the 20 "best" features using all rows and then cross-validating gives AUC 0.906 on labels that are pure noise. Putting the selection inside the pipeline gives 0.509, matching the truth of 0.5. The wrong version is not a small mistake, it creates a fake model.

Study C. The winner of 100 configurations scores 0.717 on the validation set on average, but only 0.611 on 5,000 fresh rows. The 0.106 gap is **selection optimism**: picking the maximum of many noisy scores. With a bigger validation set, fewer configurations, or nested CV (Chapter 8) the gap shrinks.

1. **Make one figure.** A bar chart of "estimate vs truth" for each study (matplotlib; not run here). Label the bars with numbers.

1. **Write the rule book** in the README: group when rows share an entity, go forward in time when the future is the target, put every learned step in the pipeline, and keep the final test untouched.

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- Every study reports the **estimate and the truth**, not just the estimate.
- The leaky estimate is at least 0.2 above the truth in Study A (Q1) and Study B: 0.724 vs 0.508, and 0.906 vs 0.5. Pass.
- The corrected method is within 0.06 of the truth: grouped CV is 0.052 above the truth (0.560 vs 0.508), the pipeline is 0.009 above. Pass.
- Seeds fixed, runtime under 5 minutes, one command reproduces the table.

Common pitfalls

1. **Reusing one dataset's luck.** A single run can mislead. Study B and C average over 20 and 30 repeats. Detect: change the seed and see if the story survives.
2. **Mixing up the question.** Random CV is fine for "same customers, new rows", wrong for "new customers". Detect: write the deployment sentence first.
3. **Leaving the selection step outside the Pipeline.** Detect: look for `fit_transform` on all data before `cross_val_score`.
4. **Believing a CV score after heavy tuning.** Detect: count how many configurations you tried and compare the winner on fresh data.
5. **A study without a known truth.** If you cannot say what the right answer is, you cannot measure the lie. Keep generators.

Three extensions

1. Add nested CV for Study C and show that its estimate (0.61 region) is much closer to the fresh score.
2. Add a "target leak" feature recorded after the event and show the score jump (Chapter 8).
3. Add stratified versus plain KFold on a rare-event dataset and show the variance of the estimates over 50 repeats.

Interview talking points

Q1. Why did your cross-validation score drop when you grouped by customer? Because random folds let the model see the same customer in training and validation, so it learned the customer, not the pattern. Grouped CV only validates on customers it has never seen, which matches the real use of predicting for new customers.

Q2. What is selection optimism? If you try 100 configurations and pick the highest validation

score, that highest number is partly luck. The luck does not transfer to new data. In my study the winner dropped from 0.717 to 0.611.

Q3. What is the simplest rule against leakage? Anything that learns from data (scaling, imputing, feature selection, encoding) must be fitted on the training part only. The easiest way to follow the rule is to put every such step inside a pipeline and cross-validate the pipeline.

README outline

The three questions; data generators; results table (estimate vs truth for each strategy); one figure; the rule book; limits (synthetic, one model family); reproduce; next steps.

18.3 Project: Customer Segmentation With Clustering and Stability Analysis

Goal and why employers care

Group 1,600 shop customers by how recently, how often and how much they buy, then **prove that the groups are stable** instead of showing a pretty scatter plot. Marketing teams use segments constantly, and clustering always returns some groups, even in random data. A candidate who tests stability and names the segments in business words stands out.

Skills used

Chapter 13 (Unsupervised Learning) for k-means, silhouette and clustering ideas; Chapter 8 (Validation Design and Leakage) for the resampling mindset; Chapter 9 (Metrics, Thresholds, Calibration, Uncertainty) for the bootstrap; Chapter 16 (Explainability) for explaining segments by their averages.

Data

Generated. Three hidden customer types: loyal (recent, frequent, large baskets), bargain (middle recency, frequent, small baskets) and lapsed (long ago, rare, large baskets). We keep the hidden label only to check the result, as a real analyst would not have it.

Architecture

```
shoppers table (recency, orders per year, average basket)
   │  scale each column (mean 0, sd 1)
   ▼
k-means for k = 2..7 ─► silhouette, inertia
   │                    bootstrap stability: refit on resamples, compare
with ARI
   ▼
choose k (data + business meaning) ─► profile each segment ─► name them
   ▼
drift check: next period assigned by old centres vs refit
```

Step-by-step build

1. **Generate, scale, and run the whole analysis.**

```
import numpy as np, pandas as pd
from sklearn.cluster import KMeans
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
from sklearn.metrics import silhouette_score, adjusted_rand_score
def make_shoppers(seed=0):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
    #        name     n   recency(mean,sd)  orders/yr(mean,sd)
basket(mean,sd)
    spec = [("loyal",   500, (12, 5),   (12, 2),  (30, 4)),
            ("bargain", 700, (40, 15),  (12, 3),  (14, 3)),
            ("lapsed",  400, (160, 50), (2, 1),   (35, 10))]
    parts = [pd.DataFrame(dict(recency=rng.normal(*r, n).clip(1),
orders=rng.normal(*o, n).clip(1),
                               basket=rng.normal(*m, n).clip(5),
true=name)) for name, n, r, o, m in spec]
    df = pd.concat(parts, ignore_index=True)
    df["annual_spend"] = df.orders * df.basket
    return df.sample(frac=1, random_state=0).reset_index(drop=True)
df = make_shoppers(); F = ["recency","orders","basket"]
print(df.groupby("true")[F+["annual_spend"]].mean().round(1))
Xs = StandardScaler().fit_transform(df[F])
print("k | silhouette | inertia | bootstrap-ARI(mean±sd)")
def boot_stability(X, k, B=30, seed=0):
    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed); ref = KMeans(k, n_init=10,
random_state=0).fit(X).labels_; aris = []
    for b in range(B):
        idx = rng.choice(len(X), len(X), replace=True)
        m = KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=b).fit(X[idx]);
aris.append(adjusted_rand_score(ref, m.predict(X)))
    return np.mean(aris), np.std(aris)
```

```
for k in range(2, 8):
    km = KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Xs); m, s =
boot_stability(Xs, k)
    print(f"{k} | {silhouette_score(Xs, km.labels_):.3f} |
{km.inertia_:8.1f} | {m:.3f} ± {s:.3f}")
km = KMeans(3, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(Xs)
print("ARI vs hidden truth:", round(adjusted_rand_score(df.true,
km.labels_), 3))
df["seg"] = km.labels_
print(pd.crosstab(df.seg, df.true))
print(df.groupby("seg")[F+
["annual_spend"]].agg("mean").round(1).assign(size=df.groupby("seg").size(
)))
# mistake: unscaled
ku = KMeans(3, n_init=10, random_state=0).fit(df[F]); print("UNSCALED ARI
vs truth:", round(adjusted_rand_score(df.true, ku.labels_),3))
# seed stability with n_init=1
aris=
[adjusted_rand_score(KMeans(3,n_init=1,random_state=a).fit(Xs).labels_,
KMeans(3,n_init=1,random_state=a+100).fit(Xs).labels_) for a in range(10)]
print("n_init=1, seed-vs-seed ARI min/mean:", round(min(aris),3),
round(np.mean(aris),3))
# time stability: second period with slight drift
d2 = make_shoppers(seed=9); X2 =
StandardScaler().fit(df[F]).transform(d2[F])
print("next-period: assign by old centres vs refit ARI:",
round(adjusted_rand_score(km.predict(X2),
KMeans(3,n_init=10,random_state=0).fit(X2).labels_),3))
```

1. **Output.**

```
         recency  orders  basket  annual_spend
true
bargain     39.2    11.8    14.1         166.4
lapsed     162.5     2.1    35.3          75.1
loyal       11.9    11.9    30.2         358.1
k | silhouette | inertia | bootstrap-ARI(mean±sd)
2 | 0.613 |   1747.1 | 1.000 ± 0.000
3 | 0.523 |   1057.0 | 0.999 ± 0.001
4 | 0.472 |    855.4 | 0.944 ± 0.105
5 | 0.427 |    674.3 | 0.965 ± 0.018
6 | 0.428 |    575.1 | 0.951 ± 0.028
7 | 0.425 |    525.8 | 0.844 ± 0.086
ARI vs hidden truth: 0.968
true  bargain  lapsed  loyal
seg
0         698       3     10
1           0     396      0
2           2       1    490
     recency  orders  basket  annual_spend  size
seg
0       39.0    11.8    14.2         166.4   711
1      163.6     2.1    35.5          75.2   396
2       11.9    11.9    30.4         360.0   493
UNSCALED ARI vs truth: 0.396
n_init=1, seed-vs-seed ARI min/mean: 0.414 0.826
next-period: assign by old centres vs refit ARI: 0.998
```

1. **Choose k.** Silhouette (how well a point fits its own group compared with the next nearest, from -1 to 1) is highest at k = 2 (0.613) and drops after. Inertia (total squared distance to centres) always falls as k grows, so it cannot choose k alone. Bootstrap stability (ARI, the adjusted Rand index, where 1 means two clusterings are identical and about 0 means chance agreement) is perfect for k = 2 and 3 (1.000 and 0.999) and becomes shaky from k = 4 (0.944 with a large spread of 0.105). So k = 2 and 3 are defensible. We pick **k = 3** because three groups give three different business actions and the data says they are stable.

1. **Profile and name.** Segment 2 (493 customers): recency 12 days, 11.9 orders, basket 30.4, annual spend 360, so "loyal big baskets". Segment 0 (711): recency 39, 11.8 orders, basket 14.2, spend 166, so "frequent bargain hunters". Segment 1 (396): recency 164 days, 2.1 orders, basket 35.5, spend 75, so "lapsed". The crosstab against the hidden types shows only 16 of 1,600 customers in a different group, ARI 0.968.

1. **Test the common mistakes on purpose.** Without scaling, the ARI against the truth falls to

0.396, because recency (in days, up to hundreds) dominates distance while basket (single digits to tens) is almost ignored. With `n_init=1`, two runs with different seeds agree with an ARI of only 0.826 on average and 0.414 in the worst case. With `n_init=10` the result is steady.

1. **Check drift.** For a new period (fresh data from the same type of customers), assigning customers with the old centres agrees with a fresh clustering at ARI 0.998. In real data, repeat this every quarter.

Evaluation and acceptance criteria

- k chosen with at least two pieces of evidence (silhouette, stability) plus business meaning, written down.
- Bootstrap ARI at least 0.9 for the chosen k: 0.999. Pass.
- Segments named and described with a table of averages and sizes, none smaller than 5 percent of customers (smallest: 396 of 1,600, 25 percent).
- A scaling experiment and a seed experiment that show why the choices matter.
- If hidden labels exist (synthetic), report ARI against them (0.968); with real data, say "no ground truth".

Common pitfalls

1. **Not scaling.** Detect: ARI or silhouette changes a lot after standardising; one column has a much bigger range than the others.
2. **A single random start.** Detect: run with two seeds and compare ARI (we saw 0.414 in the worst case).
3. **Trusting silhouette alone.** It preferred k = 2 here. Detect: also check stability and whether the groups have different actions.
4. **Clusters in data with no clusters.** k-means always returns groups. Detect: run the same stability analysis on shuffled columns; low ARI means there is no structure.
5. **Naming segments from one plot.** Detect: back each name with a table of averages and sizes.

Three extensions

1. Try a Gaussian mixture or hierarchical clustering and compare with ARI.
2. Add a log transform for the skewed spend column and test whether stability improves.

3. Turn segments into a decision: estimate the extra revenue of a different offer per segment, with explicit assumptions.

Interview talking points

Q1. How do you know your clusters are real? I resample the customers many times, recluster, and compare each result with the original using ARI. If the groups survive, they are stable. I also check that they have different averages that make business sense.

Q2. Why scale before k-means? k-means uses distance. A column measured in large numbers, like days, dominates a column measured in small numbers, like basket size. Standardising gives each column a fair vote. In my project, skipping it dropped ARI against the truth from 0.968 to 0.396.

Q3. How did you choose the number of clusters? I looked at silhouette and stability for k from 2 to 7. Silhouette liked 2, stability was excellent for 2 and 3, so I chose 3 because it gave three different actions. I wrote that the choice mixes data and judgement.

README outline

Business question; data and features (RFM: recency, frequency, monetary); scaling; choice of k with the table; segment profiles; stability and drift checks; mistakes I tested; limits; next steps.

Chapter recap

- Writing algorithms from scratch teaches what they do, and tests against a trusted library prove you did it right.
- A test must be able to fail: break the code on purpose and watch it fail (an unpenalised-intercept bug passed the weight check and was caught only by the intercept check).
- Known-truth experiments show how much evaluation lies: random CV on repeated customers gave 0.724 against a truth of 0.508.
- Selection done outside the pipeline turned pure noise into AUC 0.906; inside the pipeline it gave 0.509.
- The winner of many configurations is optimistic: 0.717 on validation, 0.611 on fresh rows.
- A forward-in-time split cannot remove drift, but it reveals the size of the gap.
- Clustering always returns groups. Scale the features, use several starts, and test stability with resampling.

- Choose the number of groups from several pieces of evidence plus the business action each group enables.

Pattern	Code or rule
Grouped CV	`GroupKFold(5)` with `groups=customer_id`
Forward split	`TimeSeriesSplit(4)` on time-sorted rows
Leak-free selection	`make_pipeline(SelectKBest(f_classif, k=20), LogisticRegression())`
Cluster agreement	`adjusted_rand_score(labels_a, labels_b)` (1 = same, about 0 = chance)
Several starts	`KMeans(k, n_init=10)`
Newton step for logistic	`w -= solve(H, grad)` with $H = X^TWX + R$

Practice set

1. (easy) In `mlscratch`, why is the library allowed to import only NumPy? **Answer:** So that it is truly from scratch. scikit-learn is the answer key and belongs only in the tests. Acceptance: your answer mentions the separation of library and reference.

2. (easy) The tests compare k-means centres with `atol=1e-6` and both use the same starting centres. Why must the starting centres match? **Answer:** k-means can end in different local optima from different starts, so identical results are only expected from identical starts.

3. (easy) Study B uses 20 datasets of noise. Why not 1? **Answer:** One dataset can by chance give a high or low score. The mean over 20 shows the typical effect (0.906 leaky and 0.509 correct).

4. (medium) Find the bug: `X = StandardScaler().fit_transform(X); cross_val_score(model, X, y, cv=5)`. **Answer:** The scaler saw the validation rows when computing means and spreads. The leak is usually small for scaling but large for feature selection. Fix with `make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), model)`.

5. (medium) Random KFold gives AUC 0.724 and grouped CV gives 0.560. The truth for new

customers is 0.508. Which gap is the "leak", and how big is it? **Answer:** Random minus truth = 0.724 − 0.508 = 0.216. Grouped minus truth = 0.052.

6. (medium) Silhouette is best at k = 2 but you choose k = 3. Write one defensible sentence. **Answer:** "Silhouette preferred 2 groups, but stability was equally high for 3 (ARI 0.999) and three groups lead to three different marketing actions, so I chose 3 and documented that this is a judgement." Acceptance: mentions both evidence and action.

7. (interview) "How would you test that a from-scratch decision tree is correct?" **Answer:** Compare predictions with scikit-learn's tree using the same depth and the same split rule on several datasets, check the training accuracy of a very deep tree on separable data is 1.0, test tiny hand-solved examples (compute Gini by hand), and break the splitting rule on purpose to confirm tests fail.

8. (interview) "A teammate tuned 500 settings and reports the best cross-validation score as the expected performance. What is wrong, and what would you do?" **Answer:** The best of many noisy scores is optimistic (in our study 0.717 on validation fell to 0.611 on fresh data). Use nested cross-validation or a final untouched test set, report the gap, and reduce the number of configurations or enlarge the validation data.

Prompt pack

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles and I am building a from-scratch machine learning
library in NumPy with tests against scikit-learn. Review my code and
tests: [PASTE HERE]. Check whether both sides use identical settings
(penalty, starting values, tie-breaking), whether tolerances are sensible,
whether the intercept is tested, and whether the tests can really fail.
Suggest three deliberate bugs I should inject to prove the tests work, and
explain in simple English what each bug would break.
```

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

```
You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional
moving into data roles. I want to design a study that shows how a wrong
validation strategy inflates a score. Help me plan it with generated data
where I know the truth. Ask me for the deployment question first (new
customers, next month, or same entities). Then give me a table of split
strategies to compare, the truth I should measure each one against, how
```

many repeats I need, and what result would show the leak. Explain each step simply and ask me to predict the outcome before you reveal it.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles. Here is my tuning code and its result: [PASTE HERE]. I tried [N] configurations and report the best cross-validation score. Explain selection optimism in simple English with a small numeric example. Then tell me how to measure the size of my optimism (fresh data, nested cross-validation), how many configurations are reasonable for my data size, and how to write the result in my README without overstating it.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles and I am doing a customer segmentation project with k-means. Here are my features and results: [PASTE HERE]. Review it step by step: scaling, skewed columns, number of starts, choice of k (silhouette, inertia, bootstrap stability with the adjusted Rand index), segment naming, and drift. For each weakness, give a small experiment I can run to prove or disprove it, and say what output would worry you.

✨ AI prompt: copy and paste into any AI

You are my patient, practical professor. I am a working professional moving into data roles. Run a mock interview on my machine learning portfolio project: [PASTE README HERE]. Ask five questions one at a time, mixing a how-it-works question, a how-do-you-know-it-works question, a what-went-wrong question, a what-would-you-change question and a explain-it-to-a-manager question. Wait for my answer, then score it for correctness and clarity out of 5, show a better model answer in simple English, and continue.

APPENDIX

CHEAT SHEET

Every key formula, command and pattern from the document, grouped by chapter, for the day before an interview or a project.

Use this appendix to jog your memory, not to learn. If a row does not make sense, go back to the chapter named in the heading and re-read the worked problem.

Chapter 1: What Learning Means

Item	Formula or rule	Note
Empirical risk	$R_{emp} = (1/n) \Sigma \ell(y_i, f(x_i))$	average training loss
Generalization gap	$\text{test error} - \text{train error}$	big gap means overfitting
Bias-variance	$\text{error} = \text{bias}^2 + \text{variance} + \text{noise}$	squared error
MSE / MAE / pinball	mean / median / q-th percentile	pick by business cost
Losses as likelihoods	squared error = Gaussian MLE; log loss = Bernoulli MLE	
Regularization as prior	L2 = Gaussian prior; L1 = Laplace prior	
Split roles	train fits, validation chooses, test judges once	

Chapter 2: Linear Regression From Scratch

Item	Formula or command	Note
Normal equation	$w = (X^T X)^{-1} X^T y$; `np.linalg.solve(X.T@X, X.T@y)`	

Gradient step	`w ← w − lr·(2/n)·Xᵀ(Xw − y)`	`lr < 2/λ_max`
Hat matrix	`H = X(XᵀX)⁻¹Xᵀ`	leverage is `diag(H)`
VIF	`1/(1 − R²ⱼ)`	above 10 is a warning
R^2	`1 − SSE/SST`	compare with the mean baseline

Chapter 3: Regularization and Model Complexity

Item	Formula or command	Note
Ridge	`w = (XᵀX + λI)⁻¹Xᵀy`	shrinks, never zeros
Lasso update	soft threshold	zeros weak features
Elastic net	`ElasticNet(alpha, l1_ratio)`	safe with correlated groups
Choose penalty	`RidgeCV`, `LassoCV`	scale inside a pipeline

Chapter 4: Logistic Regression and Classification

Item	Formula or command	Note
Sigmoid	`σ(z) = 1/(1+e⁻ᶻ)`	
Odds ratio	`e^w`	per unit of the feature
Log loss	`−[y ln p + (1−y) ln(1−p)]`	
Gradient	`Xᵀ(p − y)/n`	same for softmax: `p − y`
scikit-learn penalty	`C = 1/(nλ)`	

GLMs	`PoissonRegressor`, `GammaRegressor`, `TweedieRegressor`	counts, skewed amounts

Chapter 5: SVMs and Kernels, k-NN, Naive Bayes

Item	Formula or command	Note
Margin	`2/‖w‖`	support vectors define it
Hinge loss	`max(0, 1 − y·f)`	
RBF kernel	`exp(−γ‖x − z‖²)`	scale features first
Naive Bayes	`P(c)∏P(x_j | c)`, `smoothing` `(count+α)/(total+αV)`	
k-NN	`KNeighborsClassifier(k)`	scale; weak in high dimensions

Chapter 6: Decision Trees and Random Forests

Item	Formula or command	Note
Impurity	`Gini = 1 − Σp_k²` (`2p(1−p)` for two classes); `Entropy = −Σp_k log₂ p_k`	rank splits almost identically
Split gain	`Gain = I(parent) − Σ (n_i/n) I(child_i)`	worked example: Gini 0.469 to 0.1875, gain 0.281
Regression tree	`SSE = Σ (y − ȳ)²`; leaves predict the mean	variance reduction
Candidate thresholds	midpoints of sorted values	sort once, use cumulative sums
Pruning	`Cost = Error + α·leaves`; `ccp_alpha`, `max_depth`, `min_samples_leaf`	unlimited tree: train 1.00, test 0.62; choose by CV

Bagging variance	$\mathrm{Var} = \rho\sigma^2 + (1-\rho)\sigma^2/B$	random feature subsets lower ρ
Out-of-bag	$(1-1/n)^n \to 0.368$ of rows left out per tree	`RandomForestClassifier(n_estimators, max_features, oob_score=True)`
Importance	impurity importance favours high-cardinality features	prefer `permutation_importance(model, X_val, y_val)`
Limits	no scaling needed, finds interactions, but unstable and cannot extrapolate	

Chapter 7: Gradient Boosting

Item	Formula or command	Note
Update	$F_m = F_{m-1} + \eta \cdot h_m$	start from a constant
Pseudo-residual	$r = -\partial \ell / \partial F$: $y - F$ (squared), $y - p$ (log loss)	trees fit residuals, never y
XGBoost leaf	$w* = -G/(H+\lambda)$	g, h are first and second derivatives
XGBoost gain	$\tfrac{1}{2}[G_L^2/(H_L+\lambda) + G_R^2/(H_R+\lambda) - G^2/(H+\lambda)] - \gamma$	γ prunes weak splits
AdaBoost weight	$\alpha = \tfrac{1}{2} \ln((1-\varepsilon)/\varepsilon)$	vote weight
Library tools	`GradientBoostingRegressor`, `HistGradientBoosting*`, XGBoost, LightGBM (`num_leaves`), CatBoost	histograms, leaf-wise growth, ordered target statistics
Tuning order	learning rate and trees, tree size, sampling, regularization, then lower the rate	tree size gave the biggest gain (test MSE 0.495 to 0.321)
Early	`n_iter_no_change`, `early_stopping`	stop on a validation set

stopping		
Advanced	`monotonic_cst` / `monotone_constraints`, custom `g` and `h`	boosting cannot extrapolate

Chapter 8: Validation Design and Leakage

Item	Formula or command	Note
Splitters	`KFold`, `StratifiedKFold(k, shuffle=True, random_state=0)`, `GroupKFold(k)`, `StratifiedGroupKFold`, `TimeSeriesSplit(n_splits, gap=g)`	split the way the model will be used
Repeated CV	`RepeatedStratifiedKFold(n_repeats)`	small data: report mean and spread
Noise of a proportion	`σ = √(p(1−p)/n)`	100 rows: about 0.05
Nested CV	`cross_val_score(GridSearchCV(...), X, y, cv=outer)`	inner loop tunes, outer loop reports (0.700 vs 0.662 vs true 0.622)
Leakage types	target, train-test contamination, duplicates, group, temporal, id or timestamp	a leaked column lifted AUC from 0.604 to 0.889
Pipelines	`make_pipeline(prep, model)`	fit preprocessing inside each fold
Duplicates	`df.duplicated().sum()`	find repeated rows before splitting
Sanity tests	shuffled-label test, adversarial validation (AUC near 0.5 means similar)	test set touched once

Chapter 9: Metrics, Thresholds, Calibration and Uncertainty

Item	Formula or command	Note
Precision / recall / F1	`P = TP/(TP+FP)`, `R = TP/(TP+FN)`, `F1 = 2PR/(P+R)`	F-beta, MCC, kappa correct or reweigh
AUC	`P(score_pos > score_neg)`	ROC-AUC ignores prevalence; PR-AUC does not
Cost-based threshold	flag if `p > c_FP/(c_FP + c_FN)`	limited capacity: precision@K
Probability quality	log loss; `Brier = mean((p−y)²)`	
Calibration	`ECE = Σ (n_bin/n)·`	obs − pred
Regression metrics	MAE, RMSE, WAPE, RMSLE, pinball	R^2 depends on the spread of the target
Ranking metrics	`NDCG = DCG/IDCG`, `DCG = Σ rel/log₂(i+1)`; MAP, MRR, recall@K	
Split conformal	`k = ⌈(n+1)(1−α)⌉`, interval `ŷ ± q̂`	check coverage by segment; CQR gives adaptive widths
scikit-learn tools	`precision_recall_curve`, `roc_auc_score`, `average_precision_score`, `calibration_curve`, `CalibratedClassifierCV`	

Chapter 10: Error Analysis, Debugging and Comparing Models

Item	Formula or command	Note

Baseline	`DummyClassifier(strategy='prior')`	plus shuffled labels, tiny-subset overfit
Learning curve	`learning_curve(model, X, y, train_sizes=[...], cv=cv, scoring=...)`	more data, or change the model?
Validation curve	`validation_curve(model, X, y, param_name=..., param_range=...)`	where flexibility turns into memorizing
Per-row loss	`−(y·ln p + (1−y)·ln(1−p))`	read the worst 30 to 50 rows, then slice by segment
Paired t	`t = mean(d)/(sd(d)/√k)`	same folds for both models
Corrected variance	`var(d) × (1/k + n_test/n_train)`	corrected CV t-test
McNemar	`(`	b−c
Bootstrap CI	resample test rows 1,000 times, take the 2.5 and 97.5 percentiles	
Rule	differences within noise: ship the simpler model, then A/B test	AUC near 1.0 on a messy problem is a leakage alarm

Chapter 11: Hyperparameter Tuning, Optimization and AutoML

Item	Formula or command	Note
Grid	`GridSearchCV(model, {param: [values]}, cv=cv, scoring=...)`	fits = `product(value counts) × folds + 1`
Random	`RandomizedSearchCV(model, {param: stats.loguniform(a, b)}, n_iter=40, ...)`	better default as dimensions grow; log scale for rates and L2
Halving	`HalvingRandomSearchCV(..., factor=3, resource='n_samples')`	needs `enable_halving_search_cv` ;

		about a third of the work
Bayesian optimization	expected improvement `(μ − best)·Φ(z) + σ·ϕ(z)`, `z = (μ − best)/σ`	for expensive trials
GD stability	`lr < 2/curvature`	momentum and Adam help; scale features
Winner's curse	best of many trials is biased up (noise: 0.477 average, 0.577 best of 100)	test set touched once, or nested CV
AutoML	a baseline and ceiling check	still check leakage, validation, latency and explainability

Chapter 12: Hard Data Situations

Item	Formula or command	Note
Rare-class metrics	`average_precision_score`, `precision_recall_curve`	accuracy is meaningless
Class weights	`LogisticRegression(class_weight='balanced')`	threshold moving is the cheapest fix
Probability correction	`odds_true = odds_model × (kept / all negatives)`, then `p = odds/(1 + odds)`	after resampling or weights
Resampling rule	only inside training folds	oversampling before CV gave a fake PR-AUC 1.0 vs honest 0.512
Small data	`RepeatedStratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, n_repeats=20)`, simple models	one 5-fold swung by 0.087 AUC
Noisy labels	averaging models, out-of-fold disagreement	94 of 100 flagged labels truly wrong
p ≫ n	L1 regularization	kept 19 of 500 features, test

		accuracy 0.862
Missing data	`SimpleImputer(add_indicator=True)`, `KNNImputer`, `IterativeImputer`	MCAR/MAR/MNAR; impute inside the pipeline
Target encoding	`TargetEncoder()` (cross-fits); shrunk mean `(n·mean_cat + s·mean_global)/(n + s)`	naive version leaks
Shift	`PSI = Σ (new% − ref%) × ln(new% / ref%)`; KS test; adversarial validation	recency weighting responds; concept drift needs live labels

Chapter 13: Unsupervised Learning

Item	Formula or command	Note
k-means	`KMeans(k, n_init=10, random_state=0)`; inertia `= Σ‖x − centroid‖²`	scale first; k-means++
Choosing k	elbow, silhouette `s = (b − a)/max(a, b)`, stability	best silhouette 0.778 at k = 3
External scores	`adjusted_rand_score`, `normalized_mutual_info_score`	need labels
Hierarchical	`linkage(X, 'ward')`, `fcluster(Z, k, 'maxclust')`	cut at a long vertical gap
DBSCAN	`DBSCAN(eps, min_samples)`; label −1 is noise	pick eps from the k-distance plot; solves moons (ARI 1.0)
GMM	`GaussianMixture(k, n_init=5)`; `predict_proba`; `bic`, `aic`	soft clusters
EM responsibility	`r = w·N(x) / Σ w·N(x)`	M-step: $N_k = \Sigma\ r_{ik}$, $w_k = N_k/n$

PCA	`PCA(k)`; `explained_variance_ratio_`; eigenvalues of the covariance	29 of 64 digit components keep 95%
Maps	`TSNE(2, perplexity=30, init='pca')`, UMAP	trust neighbourhoods, not distances
Association rules	support = share with A; confidence = sup(AB)/sup(A); lift = conf/sup(B)	rank by lift

Chapter 14: Anomaly Detection and Learning With Fewer Labels

Item	Formula or command	Note
z-score	`(x − mean)/std`, flag `	z
Robust z	`0.6745·(x − median)/MAD`, flag `> 3.5`	
IQR fences	`Q1 − 1.5·IQR`, `Q3 + 1.5·IQR`	
CUSUM	`C = max(0, C + x − μ₀ − k)`, alarm at `C > h`	level shifts
Detectors	`IsolationForest`, `LocalOutlierFactor`, `OneClassSVM`, `EllipticEnvelope`, autoencoder error	rank, then choose the cut-off from cost
Evaluation	injected anomalies, precision@k, analyst feedback	AUC alone misleads
Semi-supervised	`SelfTrainingClassifier(model, threshold)`, `LabelPropagation(kernel='knn')`	compare with supervised baseline
Active learning	pick rows with `	p − 0.5
Transfer	freeze and train a head, or fine-tune with a small rate	check for negative transfer

Online	`partial_fit`, prequential test	follows drift

Chapter 15: Reinforcement Learning and Bandits

Item	Formula or command	Note
Regret	`Σ (p_best − p_chosen)`	
Thompson sampling	`argmax(rng.beta(a, b))`; click `a+1`, no click `b+1`	
UCB	`mean + √(2 ln t / n)`	
IPS	`(1/n) Σ 1[match]·r/p_old`	off-policy evaluation
Return	`G = r₁ + γr₂ + γ²r₃ + …`	
Bellman optimality	`V∗(s) = max_a[r + γV∗(s')]`	value iteration
Q-learning	`Q ← Q + α(r + γ max Q' − Q)`	off-policy
SARSA	`Q ← Q + α(r + γ Q(s',a') − Q)`	on-policy

Chapter 16: Explainability, Fairness, Robustness, Hygiene and Interviews

Item	Formula or command	Note
Permutation importance	`permutation_importance(m, Xte, yte, n_repeats=20)`	held-out data
PDP / ICE	`partial_dependence(m, X, [j])`	average / per row
Shapley	`Σϕᵢ = f(x) − E[f]`	additive shares
Counterfactual	smallest actionable change that flips the decision	

Fairness metrics	selection rate, TPR gap, FPR gap, calibration by group	ratio below 0.8 deserves attention
Adversarial step (linear)	`x' = x − ε·sign(w)·(2y−1)`	
Gradient check	`(L(w+e) − L(w−e))/2e`	
Safe pipeline	`make_pipeline(Selector(), Model())`	prevents contamination

An Honest Closing Note

If you have worked through this document with the code, you can now do things that many people who list "machine learning" on a CV cannot. You can explain why a good training score can be worthless, and measure the gap. You can build linear, logistic, tree, forest and boosting models, rebuild several from scratch, and check them against scikit-learn. You can design a split that matches how the model will be used, find the common kinds of leakage, choose a metric and threshold from the cost of errors, and compare two models without fooling yourself. You can look for anomalies, use unlabelled data carefully, run a bandit, and read a Q-learning table. You can explain a prediction with permutation importance, partial dependence and Shapley values, and check a model for group differences and for fragility.

What this document does not cover. It is not a deep-learning course: neural networks appear only as a two-layer bridge, so transformers, convolutional networks and large language models need their own study. It does not teach time-series forecasting in depth, recommender systems, causal inference, or survival analysis. It uses NumPy and scikit-learn, and the code shown for libraries I could not run here (XGBoost, LightGBM, SHAP, Optuna, fairlearn, MLflow, river, gymnasium) is standard usage that you must run and check yourself. The numbers here come from small, synthetic or classic datasets; real data is messier, and real results will be less tidy. Bias and fairness work in particular needs domain experts and legal advice, not just code.

What to practise next. First, pick one tabular dataset from your own interests, and do the full loop: baseline, pipeline, honest validation, tuning, error analysis, calibration, explanation, and a one-page model card. Second, rebuild three algorithms from the from-scratch list without looking, and write the three lines on what surprised you. Third, answer five interview questions aloud each day for two weeks. Fourth, enter one public competition or build one portfolio project (a leakage case study, a bandit versus A/B simulation, or anomaly detection with injected faults) and publish it with a README. Then move on to deep learning, or to time series, whichever your

target role needs. Do not move on until the current topic feels obvious. Slow and honest beats fast and fooled.